



FOREIGN POLICY AND POLITICAL REGIME



José Flávio Sombra Saraiva (ed.)



INSTITUTO BRASILEIRO DE
RELAÇÕES INTERNACIONAIS



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SUMÁRIO

INTRODUCTION

<i>José Flávio Sombra Saraiva</i>	7
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PART ONE

FOREIGN POLICY AND POLITICAL REGIME: THEORY AND HISTORY

1. IS IT POSSIBLE TO ESTABLISH A CAUSAL NEXUS BETWEEN FOREIGN POLICY AND POLITICAL REGIME? <i>José Flávio Sombra Saraiva</i>	13
2. POLITICAL REGIMES AND FOREIGN POLICIES: AN INTRODUCTION <i>Andrew Hurrell</i>	29
3. POLITICAL REGIMES AND FOREIGN POLICIES: ATTITUDES TOWARDS WAR AND PEACE <i>Robert Frank</i>	65

PART TWO

FOREIGN POLICY AND POLITICAL REGIME: COMPARATIVE VIEWS AND DIVERSITY OF THE EXPERIENCES

4. FASCISM, FASCIST REGIMES AND FOREIGN POLICIES <i>Didier Musiedlak</i>	87
5. IN SEARCH OF A CAUSAL NEXUS BETWEEN POLITICAL REGIMES AND FOREIGN POLICY STRATEGIES IN THE POST-SOVIET ENVIRONMENT <i>Vladimir Kulagin</i>	105
6. POLITICAL REGIMES AND INTERNATIONAL RELATIONS IN THE TWENTIETH-CENTURY: IS THERE A EUROPEAN SPECIFICITY? <i>Denis Rolland</i>	127

7. THE CONTINUITY OF AMERICAN FOREIGN POLICY <i>Christopher Coker</i>	149
8. MODELOS ECONÓMICOS, REGÍMENES POLÍTICOS Y POLÍTICA EXTERIOR ARGENTINA <i>Mario Rapoport y Claudio Spiguel</i>	169
9. POLÍTICA EXTERIOR DE ARGENTINA, CHILE Y BRASIL: PERSPECTIVA COMPARADA <i>Raúl Bernal-Meza</i>	237
10. FOREIGN POLICY AND POLITICAL REGIME: THE CASE OF SOUTH AFRICA <i>Wolfgang Döpcke</i>	277
11. BRAZILIAN FOREIGN POLICY UNDER VARGAS, 1930-1945: A CASE OF REGIME TYPE IRRELEVANCE <i>Thomas E. Skidmore</i>	321
12. POLITICAL REGIMES AND BRAZIL'S FOREIGN POLICY <i>Amado Luiz Cervo</i>	341
CONTRIBUTORS	363

INTRODUCTION

José Flávio Sombra Saraiva

The containment of international relations within a hard shell, representing self-confident, complete and finished models, has been a striking characteristic in the development of this academic discipline. Turned, most of them, towards forecasting events, these models have functioned only in the study of new themes and specific problems proposed by international life. The rationalism of realists and liberals limited their observation of international phenomena to the view of the historical process. The radical outcry of post-modernity made some observers stress sensations and impressions, while others attempted to strike, within the realm of constructivism, a difficult balance between rationalism and post-modernity.

However, the end of the Cold War made it clear that most of these classifications were fallible. And not all the problems of the discipline could be solved through the negotiation between rationalists and post-modernists. In different parts of the world new methods and approaches attempt an original treatment of the subject matter of international relations. In this respect, the rediscovery of History's value and the redemption of the comparative experience of societies along time gains strength, affirming international relations as a promising discipline in the new century.

It is an honour to be the editor of a book derived from the preoccupation to enable a plural and cosmopolitan debate over contemporary international relations. It is void of any theoretical hindrances that might impede the treatment of its theme in an open and comparative way, by authors in search of either the most universal abstractions or the world of *Clio*.

The main objective of the volume is to review an area immersed in relative silence within the theoretical trends of international relations: the foreign policy of States, through its interfaces with the international society, from the perspective of differences in political regimes. Refused

by several students who established our field of inquiry, the analysis of foreign policy developed as a marginal study, far from the heart of theoretical debate. This work is an attempt to correct this bias, bringing foreign policies to the core of the theoretical reflection on international relations, closer to the long tradition of the examination conducted by historians interested in international relations.

The distance kept by the systemic theories of international relations not only from foreign policies as a theme but also from their relations with other variables left the field open to new incursions. In our view the relative consensus of classic realists and neo-realists, but also of the liberal theories, suggesting a limited pertinence of the nexus between concepts of foreign policy and the political regime is a clamoring oversight.

Now, we deliberately associate the field of foreign policies to political regimes. The classic studies of foreign policy seem to ignore a possible relationship between these two themes. In the same way, the writings on political regimes reveal very little on the possibility of a connection between the forms of the internal arrangement of the states and their international behavior. Although there is an intellectual tradition that finds a natural tie between democratic regimes and a cooperative posture in foreign policy, this is not an automatic consequence, and can not be detected in all cases.

Such is the utility of the first part of the book, built around three chapters written by Andrew Hurrell (Oxford University, England), Robert Frank (Institut Pierre Renouvin, France) and myself. Its purpose is to open the debate, listening to historians and theoreticians, to consider the problems involved in the theme through the new approach adopted in the way to treat the relationship between the two concepts, putting them under the light of theory and historiography of international relations.

The common ground of these three initial incursions is the mistrust of any automatic correspondence between democracy and a cooperative attitude in foreign policy. On the other hand, authoritarian regimes can not be characterized by a natural inclination to make war. Methodological alternatives are also proposed to solve the problem of

isolating factors in the study of foreign policy related to political regimes. The analytical significance of these relations suffers from the lack of an effort of approximation to the multiple variables and open causes. Contrary to the suggestions of many supporters of the “Democratic Peace Theory”, the focus of the three initial chapters is the cosmopolitan manner to deal with problems, particularly in what concerns the attitude of democracies with respect to resorting to war, as well as the relationship between foreign policy, political regime and the international society.

The way in which these problems are considered shows the originality of the book. In the second part, a comparative view is attempted, with the inclusion of empirical studies aimed at the analysis of the foreign policy of states from the point of view of their respective regimes, in different parts of the world, moving from Europe to the United States, from Latin America to Africa. In Chapters 4 to 12, this part witnesses the effort to increase the diversity of the experiences previously referred to.

There is a full range of contributions, each of them addressing different countries and distinct historical moments, although one notices a preference for recent times. Some chapters point to specific moments, such as Didier Musiedlak's (University of Paris I) study of the foreign policy of Fascism; Vladimir Kulagin's (Institute of International Relations, MGIMO, Russia) paper on the relationship between the present political regime of ex-Soviet States and their foreign policy in the post-Cold War context; or Thomas Skidmore's (Brown University, USA) evaluation of Brazilian foreign policy during the Getúlio Vargas regime.

A second group of chapters focused longer historical periods, expressing the intention to build long-term categories, as the work of Amado Cervo (University of Brasilia, Brazil) on the paradigmatic evolution of foreign policy in Brazil and their low causal correspondence with the history of political regimes of the country. A similar method is used in the chapters written by Mario Rapoport and Claudio Spiguel (University of Buenos Aires, Argentina) and Raúl Bernal-Meza (University of Centro, Argentina), dedicated to identify

connexions and patterns in the foreign policy of the South American Cone Sur countries in their relationship with the alternating authoritarian and democratic political regimes of the region in the Twentieth and the beginning of the Twenty-First centuries.

An African situation is examined. Wolfgang Döpcke (University of Brasilia, Brazil) evaluates the two political regimes in South Africa – apartheid and post-apartheid – looking for patterns of external behavior in two moments so distinct and crucial in the history of that country. He discovers continuities and changes in the relationship between the two basic concepts studied in this book. In particular, he suggests some continuities that seem to negate generalizations on the relations between “hard” regimes and external policies aiming at violence and the disturbance of patterns of mutual respect considered as acceptable by the international society. The chapter written by Denis Rolland (University of Strasbourg, France) is somewhat different from the others, as the author prefers to explore documents, in several European sources, to assist his research on the theme discussed in the book.

One must register, finally, the support given to the international research project that made it possible to prepare this book. For two years we had a fruitful dialog between scholars, with preparatory meetings and endless electronic exchanges until the final adjustment of the texts was reached in a working seminar held in the University of Brasilia, in May 2003. Without the support of this University, and the institutional efforts of the Universities of Oxford and Strasbourg, we would not have completed the present opus. Three Brazilian agencies that support research – CAPES, CNPq and the Alexandre de Gusmão Foundation, helped decisively. A final word of thanks to the International Commission of International Relations History, headed by Brunello Vigizzi (University of Milan, Italy), for including this project in its agenda.

Brasília, Brazil, October 2003

PART ONE

FOREIGN POLICY AND POLITICAL REGIME:

THEORY AND HISTORY

IS IT POSSIBLE TO ESTABLISH A CAUSAL NEXUS BETWEEN FOREIGN POLICY AND POLITICAL REGIME?

José Flávio Sombra Saraiva

The central concern of this paper is the possible relationship of two key concepts in understanding both the political history of states and the construction of contemporary international relations. Appealing to these two concepts is a strong and long academic tradition. But there remains a lack of understanding of the relations between them. Political regimes and foreign policies, as connected concepts, have not yet received an open and pluralist treatment with a comparative approach.

The aim of this paper is to contribute to the discussion through theoretical reflection and historical cases studies. The main argument is that there is no universal causal nexus between foreign policies and regime type. But this does not mean that there are no connections between the two concepts. The existence of a democratic regime does not necessarily imply a cooperative and ethical foreign policy, while a authoritarian regime is not naturally directed towards a external war. Additional complexities, such as the need for the inclusion of other factors, variables and precise historical conditions, must be taken into account if a more accurate balance is required.

This paper is divided into two sections. The first discusses how these two concepts have had a distinct intellectual history. But it also includes some remarks on the convergence of the concepts. The second part will examine some of the temptations of reductionism, especially among those who have emphasized a direct link between democratic regimes and cooperative foreign policies. The conclusion evokes some cautious theoretical and methodological remarks that emerge from confronting the two concepts.

TWO CONCEPTS, MANY INTERPRETATIONS AND MODEST CONNECTIONS

It could be argued that there exists, within the field of Political Science a large amount of academic work which aims at understanding the main features of political regimes. The classical definition of a political regime as a set of institutions which regulate both the struggle for power and its conservation, as well as the practice of values which provide life to these institutions, has been constantly scrutinized.¹ The study of fascism and of fascist regimes occupied a central place in the discussion of political regimes both in Political Science and History. The question of how democracy could carry within itself the seeds of totalitarian regimes has also been examined in some detail.² Evaluations on Latin American experiences have provided a intellectual tradition of how to deal with the transitional processes of authoritarian regimes towards a more democratic life.³ An established literature on democratization of political regimes can be found on many shelves of university libraries all over the world.

At the same time, discussions on the nature and structure of political regimes, particularly on the way of organizing and selecting ruling classes, as well as on the formation of political will, have marked the evolution of the concept of political regimes. These academic works are characterized by a range of different views and ideological perceptions. The intimate relationship between a political regime and particular values has also been a privileged area of study. The causal nexus between regime structure and system of values has been one of the favorite topics within the liberal traditions of Political Science.

¹ Bobbio, Norberto, Matteucci, Nicola, Pasquino, Gianfranco, *Dicionário de política*, Brasília: Editora da UnB, 1991, v. 2, p. 1081.

² An updated bibliography is provided by the paper of Didier Musiedlak for the 2003 Brasilia Seminar. See Musiedlak, Didier. "Fascism, Fascist Regimes and Foreign Policies".

³ Skidmore, Thomas, *Politics in Brazil, 1930-1964: An Experiment in Democracy*, New York: Oxford University Press, 1967; Skidmore, Thomas, *Politics of Military Rule in Brazil, 1964-1985*, New York-Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1988; Stepan, Alfred, *The Military in Politics, Changing Patterns in Brazil*, Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1971; Stepan, Alfred (ed.), *Authoritarian Brazil. Origins, Policies and Future*, New Haven, London: Yale University Press, 1973; Stepan, Alfred, *Democratizando o Brasil*, Rio de Janeiro: Paz e Terra, 1988.

The Marxist tradition has shown an incompatibility with state rationalist theories. By emphasizing the causal nexus between a given evolution of a mode of production and the corresponding political structure, most Marxists have denied the relative autonomy of political power.⁴ On the other hand, state rationalists have demonstrated how the behavior of political regimes also depends on a certain system of states. And Duverger has suggested that political regimes also depend on the particular character of the party system.⁵

Taxonomy of regime types has been a focus of the classical debate at least since the emergence of the Aristotelian tension between 'good' and 'bad' political regimes: monarchy, aristocracy and democracy *versus* tyranny, oligarchy and demagoguery. Montesquieu's taxonomy (republic, monarchy and despotism) subverted Aristotelian classification in favor of a more enlightened reasoning, focusing on the combination of 'nature and principle of rule'.

Classical approaches to regime types, concentrating on criteria such as the number of rulers (Aristotelian classification) and the power struggle resulting from the structure of the regime (new-Aristotelian views), have been challenged by modern and post-modern theoretical contributions. Other modern taxonomies, focusing on the process and conditions in which political life exists, have also provided significant contributions to the debate. These are concerned more with the ways in which power is conquered and maintained than with the criteria of formal aspects of political institutions. Regime conservation and change depend also on the social and political conditions in which power struggle occurs.⁶

⁴ Despite this general view on marxist political thought, works of Gramsci and Miliband have proposed a certain level of autonomy to the political sphere.

⁵ Duverger, Maurice. *Partidos Políticos*. Brasília: Editora da UnB, s.d.

⁶ See, for example, this type of analysis in Vladimir Kulagin's paper for the Brasilia Seminar. See also his adoption of an interesting liberal classification of regime type based in data and indicators of the Freedom House annual surveys. For what he calls "practical purposes of analysis", political life resulting from the independence process after the disintegration of the Soviet Union in 1991 form three clusters of political regimes: "free", "partly free" and "not free". See Kulagin, "In Search of a Causal Nexus between Political Regimes and Foreign Policy Strategies in the Post-Soviet Environment".

Despite relevant development within Political Science, there remains a lack of concern about the causal nexus between political regimes and regime changes on the one hand and foreign policies on the other. In spite of a certain consensus that international conditions play a relevant role in defining a regime type, there hardly exists an academic tradition in Political Science dedicated to this issue.

There is a similar problem also in theoretical and historical traditions concerned with the study of international relations. Foreign policies of modern and contemporary states have been considered irrelevant by a large number of authors dedicated to theory. From the English School to the new constellation in international relations thinking structured around the polar distinction between “rationalists” and “reflectivists”, foreign policy has been underestimated as a matter of interest in the construction of the theory of international relations.

The English School of International Relations, particularly epitomized by the contributions of Martin Wight, Hedley Bull, Herbert Butterfield and Adam Watson in the context of the British Committee on the Theory of International Politics, clarified the concepts of “states-system” and “international society” by rejecting analyses which concentrated on foreign policies.⁷ Hedley Bull, in particular, insisted on the need to keep a conceptual distance from the “short-term approach to foreign policy-making”.⁸

The same could be said about the traditional realist or neo-realist approaches of Hans Morgenthau, Henry Kissinger and Kenneth

⁷ As Martin Wight clearly put it in his essay on “Why is there no International Theory?”, published later in his *Diplomatic Investigations*, the thesis was to “clarify the idea of a states system and to formulate some of the questions or propositions which a comparative study of states systems would examine”. See Butterfield, Herbert and Wight, Martin (eds), *Diplomatic Investigations: Essays on the Theory of International Politics*, London: Allen and Unwin, 1966; Wight, Martin, *Systems of States*, Leicester: Leicester University Press, 1977; Bull, Hedley, *The Anarchical Society: a study of order in world politics*, London: Macmillan, 1977; Bull, Hedley and Watson, Adam (eds), *The Expansion of International Society*, Oxford, Clarendon, 1984; Watson, Adam, *Evolution of International Society*, London: Routledge, 1992.

⁸ Bull, Hedley, Kissinger, *The Primacy of Geopolitics*, 56, 1980, p. 487.

Waltz.⁹ The most preeminent liberal tradition has also emphasized its distance *vis-à-vis* the problem of foreign policies.¹⁰ Marxist-orientated theories, focusing on the so-called “world-system” – from Samir Amin and Immanuel Wallerstein to some variants of Latin American dependency theory – have enshrined a center-periphery conception which rejects a relative degree of foreign policy autonomy.¹¹ Despite some difficulties mentioned by social constructivists like Alexander Wendt in relation to foreign policies, some modest advances have been made in this issue.¹²

Despite this frustrating account on the treatment of foreign policy in the field of International Relations, the picture is not quite as bad as it appears. Some studies of the relation between foreign policies and political regimes have received considerable attention, both within traditional approaches to foreign policies¹³ and also in recent analytical theoretical literature on international relations.¹⁴

Let us concentrate on reconciling the two concepts in the two historical and theoretical traditions. Although the connection between foreign policies and political regimes has not been the core of their arguments, both traditions have provided some interesting insights into the issue. The first one proceeds from historical research undertaken

⁹ Kissinger, Henry, *Diplomacy*; Waltz, Kenneth, *Theory of International Relations*, New York: Random House, 1979.

¹⁰ Keohane, Robert and Nye, Joseph (eds), *Transnational Relations and World Politics*, Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1971; Keohane, Robert, *After Hegemony: Cooperation and Discord in the World Political Economy*, Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1987.

¹¹ Amin, Samir; Wallerstein, Immanuel, *The Modern World System*, New York: Academic Press, 1977.

¹² Wendt, Alexander, *Social Theory of International Politics*, Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1999.

¹³ See, for example, Wallece, W., *Foreign Policy and the Political Process*, London, Macmillan, 1977, Stremlau, JJ (ed), *The Foreign Policy Priorities of Third World States*, Boulder, Westview Press, 1982; Clarke, Michael. *British External Policy-making in the 1990s*, London: Macmillan/Royal Institute of International Affairs, 1992, particularly the chapter entitled “The politics of Thatcherism”, p. 230-242.

¹⁴ See the comment by Andrew Hurrell upon Andrew Moravcsik liberal views on the relations between liberal theory and domestic politics. Hurrell, Andrew, “Political Regimes and Foreign Policies: An Introduction”, chapter 2 of this book.

by various European schools of the History of International Relations. The second emerges from the vision of various Latin American scholars dedicated to empirical research and to the construction of foreign policy paradigms.

A classical contribution on how to examine the conjunction of the two concepts was provided by the French and Italian historiography of international relations. Pierre Renouvin's pioneering works provide some interesting insights into the reconciliation of the two variables of "international society" and "domestic factors". Renouvin was particularly keen on the idea that social scientists should not isolate factors in their search for a causal nexus in international relations.¹⁵ This argument was clearly stated already in 1953:

Rôle des conditions géographiques, des intérêts économiques ou financiers et de la technique des armements, des structures sociales, des mouvements démographiques; impulsion donnée par les grands courants de pensée et par les forces religieuses; influences exercées par le comportement d'un peuple, son tempérament, sa cohésion morale: ce sont des points de vue que nous avons toujours eus présents à l'esprit. Nous n'avons pourtant pas négligé le rôle des hommes de gouvernement qui ont subi, plus ou moins consciemment, l'influence de ces forces, on essayé de les maîtriser dans la mesure où elle a modifié le cours des relations internationales.¹⁶

The humanist and pluralist methods of the French and Italian historians of international relations could be viewed as being so flexible that they did not allow the precise conceptualization of specific themes. This failure, one might argue, could diminish the contribution of the Renouvian tradition to the understanding of the relation between foreign policy and political regime. On the other hand, multifactor

¹⁵ Renouvin, Pierre. *Histoire des relations internationales*, Paris: Hachette, 1994, v. I, "Introduction générale", p. 12. Renouvin says that the social scientist "ne doit pas 'isoler' un aspect de la réalité, et qu'il a le devoir de chercher partout – sans opposer les sujets 'majeurs' aux sujets 'mineurs' – les éléments d'une explication."

¹⁶ Renouvin, Pierre, *op. cit.*, p. 12.

causal analysis and the umbilical relations between “international society” and “domestic factors”, as proposed by Renouvin and Duroselle, opened the door for concrete and sophisticated case studies that tested and analysed the connections between foreign policies and political regimes. Brunello Vigezzi’s book on the relations between Italian foreign policy and public opinion suggests an innovative approach to analyzing totalitarian regimes and their foreign policy:

L’influenza del fascismo sugli studi di politica estera è notevole. Il contrasto tra fascisti e antifascisti conserva tutto il suo peso. Ma questo non toglie che i vari autori avvertano il nesso fra politica e storiografia in modo più approfondito e insieme più flessibile. (...) La politica estera così è vista come parte integrante di un Stato e di una società: riprendendo su scala larghissima gli insegnamenti della storiografia europea, cercando di trovare il punto d’incontro fra storia sociale (e delle classi dirigenti), delle mentalità, delle dottrine politiche, della cultura, badando a servirsi delle fonti più diverse, adoperandosi per conciliare breve e lungo periodo, analisi delle strutture e delle decisioni.¹⁷

This combination of long and short-term analysis, as well as of structure and decision-making has also been shared by some Latin American scholars discussing the relation between regime type and foreign policy. They have benefited from the traditional debate within the region in 20th century Latin America on the features of authoritarian and democratic regimes. Forming a heterogeneous group of scholars, who have been less dependent on American theories of International Relations and who have also tried to revise dependency theory, these Latin-Americans have been dedicated mainly to explaining patterns of continuity and change in Latin America’s international insertion.¹⁸

¹⁷ Vigezzi, Brunello, *Politica estera e opinione pubblica in Italia dall’Unità ai giorni nostri: orientamenti degli studi e prospettive della ricerca*, Milan: Jaca Book, 1991, p. 14.

¹⁸ See some of these authors: Cervo, Amado, *Relações Internacionais da América Latina: velhos e novos paradigmas*, Brasília: IBRI, 2001; Cervo, Amado & Bueno, Clodoaldo, *História da política exterior do Brasil*, Brasília: Editora da UnB/IBRI, 2002; Saraiva, José Flávio S., *O lugar da África: a dimensão atlântica da política exterior do Brasil*,

A search for a middle course of analysis between the acceptance of changing patterns of “international society” on one hand and the use of a flexible and “multiple domestic factors” on the other is the hallmark of this non-orthodox way of dealing with the relations between foreign policies and regime type.

The pluralism of this second approach has produced a range of different views of the present topic. On one hand, Cervo's multi-causal analysis of Brazil's international relations and the paradigmatic analysis of its foreign policy suggest the prevalence of foreign policy continuity across the change of regimes. He also highlights change in foreign policy in a situation of regime continuity.¹⁹ This relative irrelevance of regime type, as an isolated concept, to the evolution of Brazil's foreign policy is also shared by the American historian Thomas Skidmore in his examination of the Vargas Era (1930-1945), who concludes:

... type regime was not a significant factor in the development or conduct of foreign policy in Brazil during this period. The reason (...) is that most Brazilians – as may not be surprising in

Brasília: Editora da UnB, 1996; Rapoport, Mario, *Crisis y liberalismo en Argentina*, Buenos Aires: Editores de América Latina, 1998; Rapoport, Mario, *El laberinto argentino: política internacional en un mundo conflictivo*, Buenos Aires: Eudeba, 1987; Paradiso, José, *Debates y trayectoria de la política exterior argentina*, Buenos Aires: Grupo Editor Latinoamericano, 1993; Moura, Gerson, *Sucessos e ilusões; relações internacionais do Brasil durante e após a Segunda Guerra Mundial*, Rio de Janeiro: FGV, 1991; Bandeira, Moniz, *Estado nacional e política internacional na América Latina: o continente nas relações Argentina-Brasil (1930-1922)*, Brasília: Editora da UnB, 1993; Hirst, Mônica, *O pragmatismo impossível: a política externa do segundo governo Vargas (1951-1954)*, Rio de Janeiro: FGV, 1990; Albuquerque, José Augusto G. (org.), *Sessenta anos de política externa brasileira: crescimento, modernização e política externa; diplomacia para o desenvolvimento*, São Paulo: USP, 1996; Bernal-Meza, Raúl, *América Latina en la economía política mundial*, Buenos Aires: Grupo Editor Latinoamericano, 1994; Cervo, Amado & Döpcke, Wolfgang (orgs.), *Relações internacionais dos países americanos; vertentes da história*, Brasília: Linha Gráfica, 1994; Doratioto, Francisco, *Espaços nacionais na América Latina; da utopia bolivariana à fragmentação*, São Paulo: Brasiliense, 1994; Tomassini, Luciano, *Transnacionalización y desarrollo nacional em América Latina*, Buenos Aires: Grupo Editor Latinoamericano, 1984.

¹⁹ Cervo, Amado, “Political regimes and Brazil's foreign policy”, chapter 12 of this book.

an enormous, sparsely populated country where most citizens lived far from its borders – did not consider foreign policy important to their daily lives or well being. They preferred to think of Brazil as a world unto itself. They were content, by and large, to delegate responsibility whether consciously or otherwise, for foreign policy making to their head of state and a few men gathered around him, bolstered by representation from key ministers and the higher military.²⁰

Wolfgang Döpcke's analysis of the South African case also stresses continuity in foreign policy behaviour, transcending the two regimes studied (apartheid and post-apartheid). These continuities derive from South Africa's economic insertion into the region, its potential economic hegemony, and the articulation of economic interests in South Africa's foreign policy behaviour. Furthermore, he argues that "South Africa's economic hegemonic potential was not always and exclusively instrumentalized for political aims, i.e. as a weapon to drive African states into submission, but was also driven by genuine economic interests like the search for markets."²¹

On the other hand, conclusions of this type do not seem to fit the Argentinean case, according to Rapoport's and Spiguel's historical narrative of the relation between foreign policy and regime type in different stages of Argentina's evolution. Although they do not follow those who see an automatic causal nexus between the so-called 'erratic' course of Argentina's foreign policy and regime change,²² they would not deny the fact that the changing patterns of the State and its international insertion have had some influence on regime type in different moments of Argentinean history.

²⁰ Skidmore, Thomas, "Brazilian Foreign Policy Under Vargas, 1930-1945", chapter 11 of this book.

²¹ Döpcke, Wolfgang. "Foreign Policy and Political Regime: the case of South Africa", chapter 10 of this book.

²² Like Juan Lanús and Carlos Escudé. See Lanús, Juan, *Aquel apogeo. Política internacional argentina, 1910-1939*, Buenos Aires: 2001; Cisneros, A. & Escudé, Carlos, *Historia general de las relaciones exteriores de la República Argentina*. Buenos Aires: 2000.

Rapoport's and Spiguel's argument in favor of a more detailed history of the connection between political regime and foreign policy represents the core of the study of the social-historical nature of the state. As they clearly put it:

... investigar la relación entre políticas exteriores y regímenes políticos en la Argentina supone, además de enfocar las lazos entre política exterior y política interna, analizar las transformaciones y vaivenes de los regímenes políticos en su íntima y a veces contradictoria vinculación con la naturaleza socio-histórica del Estado, el proceso de su formación y la estructura económica de la sociedad. Esta estructura incluye las formas de su inserción mundial a lo largo de los distintos períodos de la historia argentina contemporánea.²³

To conclude this part of the paper, it is important to observe that, despite the divergent intellectual history of the two concepts, some areas of convergence can be identified. Ideas and papers prepared by the scholars who attended the 2003 Brasilia Seminar have shown that this topic could be a good way of developing new areas of research in International Relations.

Three reductionist temptations: to keep invisibility, to define democratic regime as synonymous with cooperative foreign policy, and to concentrate exclusively on the single question of war and peace.

There are three temptations when scrutinizing the links between political regimes and foreign policies. The first is to consider these connections as irrelevant factors in the understanding of international politics. They remain invisible when this topic is referred to in the predominant theoretical agendas. Despite the epistemological silence, we consider necessary to stimulate new approaches.

Although we cannot deny the quasi-hegemony of the realist and neo-realist traditions in International Relations, particularly as reflected in the historically self-confident rationalism of the *realpolitik*

²³ Rapoport, Mario & Spiguel, Claudio, "Modelos económicos, regímenes políticos y política exterior Argentina", chapter 8 of this book.

school, we should advance new possibilities to the general discussion of the discipline. A crucial question is: why should we include this dimension. Hurrell has answered it in a very precise manner: “What sort of theory of international relations is it that can tell us nothing about the evolving international behaviour of even very dominant states over very long periods of time.”²⁴

The next problem is posed by the difficulty to include the links between foreign policies and political regimes within the general scope and definition of the discipline. This is exactly where the second type of reductionism shows up. Some institutional liberal approaches do recognize this relationship in principle, but do not pay much attention to it in practice. The emphasis on institutional frameworks and institutions that influence relations between the different actors implies a degree of indifference towards regime type.

Nevertheless, recent studies, which reflect a certain liberal flavour, have noted the growing significance of regime values for foreign policy. Vladimir Kulagin has referred to the interesting article of his colleague Dmitry Furman on the antiterrorist coalition between Russia and the Western countries:

Our integration with the West is not a problem of foreign policy choice. It is a problem of our domestic development, which under the current regime keeps us farther and farther away from the West. Sometimes in future the regime will change and our differences with the West will convert from differences of diverse political ‘species’ into national peculiarities within a framework of the same species. And only then it would be possible to make not a situational alliance against a common enemy, but just an alliance, leading to integration of Russia into the system of relations that function in the Western world.²⁵

²⁴ Hurrell, Andrew, *op. cit.*

²⁵ Furman, Dmitry, ‘Friendship Against’, *Obshaya Gazeta*, 6 December, 2001; apud Kulagin, Vladimir, “In Search of a Causal Nexus between Political Regimes and Foreign Policy Strategies in the Post-Soviet Environment”, chapter 5 of this book.

This quotation demonstrates perfectly that, despite the on-going predominance of a *realpolitik* tradition among Russian specialists on theories of international politics, some Russian internationalists have also been attracted by the Democratic Peace Theory. This same way of reasoning could also be observed in Latin America today, even among liberally inspired Brazilian specialists on theories of international politics.

For them, as for Kenneth Benoit²⁶ and Kurt Taylor Gaubatz,²⁷ liberal democracies are really more pacific. This defense of the natural commitment of democratic liberal states to cooperative and peaceful attitudes and behaviour is the core of the general proposition. Despite some cautious remarks and domestic quarrels between several authors, this tradition cannot disguise its dependence on a Western model which implies an unified view of democratic government. As Hedley Bull once said about this sort of analysis: it grows from “analysis to advocacy”.

The core of the Democratic Peace Theory is the argument that, despite the failure of past empirical studies to establish that democracies are less prone to conflict, democracies have structural and ideological reasons to act with less hostility toward other nations. In republican regimes, it is argued, decision-making is diffused, and those bearing the burden of costly wars are in a position to prevent unpopular involvement in foreign conflicts.²⁸

Inspired in some modern interpretations of Kantianism in International Relations theory, the defenders of this tradition have stressed such aspects as civilian control of the military as well as the generalized tendency of democracy to foster powerful norms against the use of violence as a means of conflict resolution. Moreover, a basic tenet of Democratic Peace Theory is that disputes can be resolved through institutionalized channels without resorting to force. Lethal

²⁶ Benoit, Kenneth, “Democracies really are more pacific (in general): Reexamining Regime Type and War Involvement, *The Journal of Conflict Resolution*, 40 (4), 1995/6, p. 636-657.

²⁷ Gaubatz, Kurt Taylor, “Democratic States and Commitment in International Relations”, *International Organization*, 50 (1).

²⁸ Benoit, Kenneth, *op. cit.*, p. 637.

violence is considered illegitimate and even unnecessary, a norm that is believed to hold between, as well as within, democratic societies.²⁹

This reductionism should be avoided. The recent Anglo-American invasion of Iraq could be taken as an important alert about the presence, in the heart of the US democracy, of a neo-conservative strand of thinking and policy which is providing much of the intellectual framework for America's foreign policy, but which is also an interesting example of how hard it is to establish a direct causal nexus between democracy and foreign policy.

Furthermore, as is noted by Christopher Coker, following William James' philosophy of action, it is hard to reconcile a "pure" democratic theory of international institutions with the final element of James' proposition on American values projected into foreign policy:

The final element in James' philosophy of action is 'will' itself. For effort would be of little avail if it were no more than a blind will to power. Our efforts must be governed by our purposes and our purposes, in turn, must be framed in the light of our beliefs. A belief, which has nothing to do with conduct, is not a proper belief. Our conduct, however, must be informed by ideas. In the end, we hold our beliefs through our will to believe. Few American policymakers of importance ever doubted the veracity of their convictions even in the darkest moments of their history.³⁰

The third reductionist temptation, to which this debate has been continually exposed, is the link between the two concepts, on one hand, and the issue of war, on the other. On these predominant views, foreign policy is often reduced to the dicotomy between peace and war. Other considerations are pushed into the backgroud or ignored. Connections between political regime and foreign policy do not operate in a vacuum. And this connection should not be seen in a linear way as cause and consequence. On the contrary, it is difficult to advance this point if other elements are not involved at the core of the discussion.

²⁹ *Idem*, p. 638.

³⁰ Coker, Christopher, "The continuity of American Foreign Policy", chapter 7 of this book.

State structures, political identities, images, struggle for power, party systems, changing patterns of the international society, the quest for development, long-standing political perceptions of the global environment by local and international elites and organized and non-organized social groups: all of these interconnected factors need to be considered, although without a deterministic or functionalist automatic of reasoning.

Political regime is not only a “category of analysis” with which to understand political power. And foreign policy is not only related to the general theory of policy-making. As Wolfgang Döpcke has noted in the South African case (as well Cervo, Bernal-Meza³¹ and Rapoport and Spiguel), there is a linkage that covers many forms of interaction between domestic and external conditions. One serious limitation of the Democratic Peace Theory is its avoidance of these other social and economic dimensions of foreign policy.

CONCLUDING REMARKS

Three concluding remarks can be made, presenting some open, final questions to the debate. Firstly, it is hard to find a straight and mechanical nexus between foreign policies and political regimes as a general abstraction. Appreciations of several historical experiences have shown that other domestic and international factors should be considered for an accurate balance of factors, variables and determinants.

The range of different historical experiences which will be covered by these initial studies demands the continuation of this research project. In this sense, more theoretical insights and further case studies are required if a new path of knowledge is to be achieved. It will be necessary to consider the type of work realized by Denis Rolland, highlighting interesting conclusions on foreign policy and “the internet or the absence of European specificity”.³²

³¹ Bernal-Meza, Raúl. “Política Exterior de Argentina, Chile y Brasil: perspectiva comparada”, chapter 9 of this book.

³² Rolland, Denis, “Political Regimes and International Relations in the Twentieth-Century: Is there a European Specificity?”, chapter 6 of this book.

The second concluding remark deals with a point suggested in the introductory phrase of Frank's paper. The new path of knowledge, which must be developed, will imply a new methodological attitude. Historians are looking towards theories of International Relations, while theorists are rediscovering the "vast laboratory of history".³³ But we are not satisfied. A common agenda will be needed for the future. To quote the President of the International Committee of History of International Relations, Brunello Viguzzi, history and theory need to walk side-by-side if a new path in international relations is to be achieved. The most recent dialogue between social constructivism and the renewed history of international relations is certainly a good middle way and permit that many of us to walk together.

The third and final concluding remark deals with Hurrell's view that political regimes are not solely a function of the domestic sphere, but are themselves a function of the international arena and the transnational whole within which all states and societies are embedded. Similar proposition was also suggested by Cervo's evaluation of Brazil's foreign policy and Döpcke's study on South Africa, though in a more intuitive way of reasoning, with less theoretical elaboration.

This seems to be a fruitful hypothesis, which could be developed through future empirical studies. But as Hurrell has clearly recognized:

It is not difficult, then, to show just how important the external is for understanding the character of domestic politics, including the character of states that see their own identity very much in particularistic or exceptionalist terms. (...) The challenge, then, is to reincorporate the interpenetration of external and internal but without repeating the overly deterministic or overly functionalist accounts of the past.³⁴

³³ Frank, Robert, "Political Regimes and Foreign Policies: Attitudes Towards War and Peace", chapter 3 of this book.

³⁴ Hurrell, Andrew, *op. cit.*

POLITICAL REGIMES AND FOREIGN POLICIES: AN INTRODUCTION

Andrew Hurrell

This introductory chapter is divided into four sections. The first analyses the place of political regimes within the context of theories of international relations. The second considers the question of how 'political regimes' and 'foreign policy' have been, or might be, defined. The third surveys some of the main ways in which particular regime types have been linked to foreign policy, giving primary emphasis to the literature on democratic and democratizing regimes. The fourth and final section analyses the extent to which political regimes are not solely a function of the domestic sphere but are themselves a function of the international and transnational whole within which all states and societies are embedded.

I. INTRODUCTION: THE PLACE OF POLITICAL REGIMES IN THE STUDY OF FOREIGN POLICY

Debates about the relationship between regime type and foreign policy are, of course, hardly new. But the form that they have taken depends on the type of approach that is being adopted and the purpose of the enquiry. Many theoretical approaches to International Relations close off the analysis of political regimes entirely. They do this deliberately, not necessarily because they believe that political regimes are unimportant; but rather because they are not directly interested in explaining foreign policy at all – and certainly not the foreign policies of particular states at particular times. This is true of Waltzian neorealism, Wendtian constructivism, and Keohane's liberal institutionalism.¹ All

¹ Alexander Wendt, *Social Theory of International Politics* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1999. He states that: '[L]ike Waltz, I am interested in international politics, not

of these theories make certain assumptions about states and the interests and preferences of states in order to generate theories of how groups of states interact cooperatively or conflictually or about the nature and dynamics of the international system as a whole. All stress that they are interested primarily in the outcome of state interactions, not in explaining the behaviour and motivations of individual states. This distinction between a theory of international politics and a theory of foreign policy has become quite well established,² and it remains important. It would be inappropriate to take, say, Wendt's version of constructivism and, in the form that Wendt deploys it, expect it to yield great insight into many specific problems of foreign policy analysis.

But it is also a problematic and limited distinction. On the one hand, it is doubtful that any theory of international politics can avoid foreign policy in quite this clear-cut way.³ After all, what sort of theory of international relations is it that can tell us nothing about the evolving international behaviour of even very dominant states over even very long periods of time? The point is not that a theory of international relations should be able to make point predictions (what state A will do at point Y?), but rather that it could reasonably be expected to explain (or at least be consistent with) broad trends in the foreign policy of what one might call 'system-defining states'. On the other hand, foreign policy analysis is unavoidably about interactions and relationships. A theory of foreign policy might explain why a state

foreign policy', p.11; and he recognizes that '[T]heir foreign policies are often determined primarily by domestic politics', p. 2. Kenneth Waltz, 'International Politics is not Foreign Policy', *Security Studies* 6 (1996); Robert O. Keohane, *After Hegemony: Cooperation and Discord in the World Political Economy*. Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1984.

² See Gideon Rose, 'Neoclassical realism and theories of foreign policy', *World Politics* 51 (October 1998): 144-172; and Fareed Zakaria, 'Realism and Domestic Politics', *International Security* 17, 1 (Summer 1992).

³ As with so much of his work Waltz maintains this rigid distinction between a theory of international politics and a theory of foreign policy in large part because of his view as to the nature of theory. On this account, because foreign policy is potentially the subject of such a wide range of internal and external factors, all we can aim for are 'analyses' or 'accounts' not proper theory. See Waltz, 'International Politics is not Foreign Policy', p. 54-55, and discussion in Rose, 'Neoclassical realism', p. 144-146.

attempted to do x or y at a given point in time; but the evolution of its policy (and any evaluation of its success) depends on the nature of its external environment and the responses of others. Foreign policy outcomes, then, cannot be understood in terms of the attributes and preferences of a single country, but only by examining the interaction of states within an evolving international context.

In contrast, there are other self-styled theories of international politics that do see the domestic arena as central to the generation of a theory of international politics. This is true, for example, of Moravcsik's liberal theory which rests on three core assumptions:

The first assumption is that that the fundamental actors in international politics are rational individuals and private groups who organize and exchange to promote their interests. Liberal theory rests on a 'bottom-up' view of politics, in which the demands of individuals and societal groups are treated as exogenous causes of the interests underlying state behaviour. ...The second assumption of liberal theory is that states (or other political institutions) represent some subset of domestic society, whose weighted preferences constitute the underlying goals ('state preferences') that rational state officials pursue via foreign policy. Representative institutions thereby constitute a critical 'transmission belt' by which the preferences and social power of individuals and groups in civil society enter the political realm and are eventually translated into state policy. The third core assumption of liberal theory is that the configuration of state preferences shapes state behaviour in the international system.... Each state seeks to realize its distinct preferences under constraints imposed by the preferences of other states.⁴

I have quoted this at some length because, in common with a long tradition of liberal thinking, domestic politics clearly matter a good deal. But, in contrast with many others writing within the liberal

⁴ Andrew Moravcsik, 'Liberal International Relations Theory: A Scientific Assessment' In: Colin Elman and Miriam Fendius Elman eds., *Progress in International Relations Theory*, Cambridge MA: MIT Press, 2002).

tradition, regime type per se is not critical. Moravcsik defines his liberal theory as one that can co-opt or include any actual process of domestic preference formation or aggregation, whether or not this has a specifically 'liberal' character. He begins with a traditional-looking liberal emphasis on state-society relations and on the state as an arena for pluralist politics rather than as an actor. He does this precisely so that he can try to 'take preferences seriously'. But, in order to make his approach work across many kinds of societies, including many illiberal regimes, he has to include all sorts of 'transmission belts' many of which have nothing to do with the traditional liberal emphasis on pluralism. Hence the state is viewed as a representative institution even if it represents only people who have captured the state and have few or no links with the broader society.

But whilst it is true that the distinction between international politics and foreign policy matters, it is also true that many broad theoretical ideas in International Relations have been used as a basis for analysing the foreign policies of individual states or of groups of states. Thus those influenced by realism will always tend to downplay the importance of regime type and will emphasize the extent to which states are pushed and shoved by the constraints and opportunities of the international political system to behave in particular ways. For all strands of realism, the imperatives of seeking security in a self-help world forces all states, good or bad, democratic or authoritarian, to seek to preserve their security and follow the logic of balance of power politics. Even if they seek to escape, the system will socialize them by creating incentives that reward certain kinds of power political behaviour, and by punishing deviance. From this it also follows that the practice of foreign policy is about locating and implementing a more or less objective national interest that is derived primarily from the constraints and opportunities presented by the international system, not from the vagaries and vacillations of domestic politics.⁵ There is nothing unique to International Relations

⁵ Within Latin American writing, this idea can be linked to the concept of '*política de estado*', defined by Rosendo Fraga as those policies 'shared by all the relevant political parties in one country; and consequently whose execution does not depend on the changes that elections might have on governments'.

about this view of states and foreign policy. It draws directly on a long tradition of historical work emphasizing 'den Primat der Aussenpolitik'.

Most of those concerned with the foreign policies of particular states have quickly concluded that systemic forces alone are not enough to provide an adequate explanatory picture and include various unit-level factors. Of course, those who wish to see themselves as working within a realist tradition will always tend to start with the view that it is the distribution of power in the international political system that sets the basic parameters of foreign policy. 'A good theory of foreign policy should ask first what effect the international system has on national behaviour, because the most powerful *generalizable* characteristic of a state in international relations is its relative position in the international system.'⁶ But it is noticeable, first, just how quickly realist analyses of foreign policy move to bring in various unit-level or domestic variables; and, second, just how deep are the divergences between different strands of realism (offensive realism, defensive realism, neoclassical realism) over which domestic factors are to be included (state strength; perceptions, domestic economic interest groups); and over how far incorporating them means that moving out of the realist camp. Thus, for example, Zakaria's 'state-centred realism' considers the relative capability of the government vis-à-vis society in his attempt to explain the US rise to world power, but still considers this (rather unconvincingly) to be a realist approach.⁷

It is, therefore, precisely the weaknesses of systemic accounts that press towards the analysis of domestic factors in general and towards thinking about the character of different regime types in particular. This is the case not least because many of the apparently straightforward categories of conventional realist international relations analysis turn out to be anything other than straightforward. It may be true that all states and all political actors seek power and promote their self-interest.

⁶ Zakaria, *Realism and Domestic Politics*, p. 197.

⁷ Fareed Zakaria, *From Wealth to Power: The Unusual Origins of America's World Role*. Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1998. On the problem of smuggling in so many unit-level factors that realism's distinctiveness is vitiated, see Jeffrey Legro and Andrew Moravcsik, 'Is anybody still a realist?', *International Security*, 24, 2 (Fall 1999): 5-55.

But the crucial question is always: what sorts of power and in pursuit of what kinds of self-interest?⁸

The utter unobviousness of 'security' in the context of US-Latin American relations during the Cold War provides a good example. Security was most often about indirect security challenges resulting from political, social or economic instability in Latin America. US policymakers had long feared that such instability would bring to power radical nationalist anti-American governments or would create conflicts and crises that could be exploited by Washington's enemies. Fear of political or revolutionary instability predated the Cold War, but the ideological and power political struggle with Moscow heightened the salience of such threats. As the Cold War became an increasingly global conflict after the Korean War and as competition and conflict shifted increasingly from Europe to the developing world, so the perceived importance of such conflicts for the global balance of power grew and the logic of 'falling dominoes' and alliance credibility became increasingly prevalent: If the U.S did not respond to challenges even in areas that were intrinsically or objectively 'unimportant', then this would reflect badly on more central alliance relations and would lead the other side to step up the pressure. Thus the logic of rivalry magnified many intrinsically minor conflicts, increased the threat from political instability, and made the Third World 'matter' in new ways that were hard both to define and to limit.

It is certainly the case that, as Lars Schoultz puts it, '[I]f one wants to understand the core of United States policy toward Latin America, one studies security'.⁹ But the meaning of even such apparently powerful

⁸ The myth of an objective national interest derived from the competitive logic of the international political system has been the subject of sustained critique for many years. But these are also the questions that have driven much recent constructivist research on norms, culture and identity. See, in particular, Peter J. Katzenstein, Introduction. In: Peter J. Katzenstein ed., *The Culture of National Security*. New York: Columbia, 1996. Note, however, that there is a great deal of ambiguity within constructivism over whether the identities that underpin state preferences are the result of social interaction (as on the Wendtian account), or solely the product of largely autonomous national histories and processes of state formation.

⁹ Lars Schoultz, *National Security and United States Policy towards Latin America*, Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1987, p. xi.

imperative as national security was deeply contested and by no means straightforward. Hence there were very great divisions amongst policymakers and public opinion on whether this instability might come to constitute a security threat. 'Specifically, there is no agreement on what might cause threatening instability in Latin America, nor is there agreement on what the actual consequences of instability might be'. Conservatives at one end argued that, even if not actually caused by communism, instability was stirred by local communists aided and abetted by the Soviet Union and its allies. The appropriate response was therefore military intervention to crush 'subversion' and to discourage Soviet interventionism. Liberals argued that only by tackling the underlying social causes of instability could US long-term security be guaranteed. The answer was therefore in economic development, promoting democracy, and engaging in nation building. Partly, then, because of sheer complexity of understanding the nature and significance of instability, partly because of the vagueness of Cold War arguments about credibility, and partly because of the broader loss of consensus that followed the Vietnam War, the evolution of US security interests in Latin America has to be explained by reference to processes internal to the US. And this remains as true today in relation to the study of the so-called 'war on terrorism' as it was in the days of the 'struggle against communism'. More generally, as Robert Frank's chapter argues strongly, democracies (and most importantly the United States, including across republican and democratic administrations) have tended to view their national interest as being very closely bound up with democracy and democratic values.

So, if we are pushed towards domestic factors by the weaknesses or limits of one category of systemic theory, the same is true of other systemic approaches, neo-marxism and dependency theory most obviously. As with neorealism, dependency theory is systemic. It seeks to account for the behaviour of the units on the basis of the attributes of the system as a whole. But the nature and dynamic of the structure is completely different. Instead of a logic based on power competition in an anarchical state system, the focus of dependency theory is on the dynamics of the world capitalist system and on the economic needs and pressures of the major capitalist state. Moreover, in addition to states, great weight is given

to the role of economic non-state actors such as transnational companies, international banks and international economic institutions and also to the complex relationship between states and classes.

Dependency theory arose principally as an attempt by Latin American scholars to understand the nature of the region's political and economic underdevelopment. It became of increasing interest to International Relations because of the critical influence that the international system as believed to have on development, and because the approach implied a permanent pattern of dominance and dependence between core industrialized states and the underdeveloped periphery. Yet one of the difficulties of evaluating dependency approaches (and indeed one of the major criticisms) is that a theory of underdevelopment is certainly not the same as a theory of foreign policy or international relations.

As theory of underdevelopment, dependency theory was subjected to a barrage of criticisms: that it had underestimated the growth potential of peripheral capitalism (as evidenced by the emergence of East Asian economies); that it overestimated the importance of the external factors and ignored the fact that many of the most powerful obstacles to development lay in the domestic system and in the history of individual states and societies; that it placed too much emphasis on the role of foreign direct investment, downplaying the importance of the international trading and financial system; and that there is no necessary link (or even 'elective affinity') between dependence in the international economy and non-democratic or authoritarian political systems. As a theory of international relations, two classical criticisms stood out: first that its economistic bias blinded dependency theorists to the powerful logic of inter-state competition. Thus, for example, the constraints facing weak states in Central America resulted far more directly and powerfully from the Cold War driven imperatives for the U.S. to police its sphere of influence than from the dynamics of global capitalism. Interventionism, both before, during and after the Cold War, was about geopolitics and security, not about capitalism and exploitation. Second, that the strong structuralism of dependency theory was simply unable to account for the foreign policy differences across different 'dependent' states or, just as often, across the foreign policy of the same state at different times. Such differences can

often only be explained by incorporating unit-level factors. It was never possible to simply 'read off' either the foreign policy preferences of Latin American elites or the actual course of foreign policy from some supposed logic of peripheral capitalism.

There are at least two legacies of dependency theory that have had a continuing influence on the analysis of Latin American foreign policies since the end of the Cold War. The first is the tendency to see foreign policy choices, and especially the move towards a 'neo-liberal' foreign policy in such countries as Mexico or Argentina, as simply imposed by the hegemonic or neo-imperial power. Of course hegemonic imposition might be one way of understanding foreign policy change; of course, US hegemony does represent a major external constraint on foreign policy choices; and, of course, the external environment has been highly constraining across many different dimensions. But the model of hegemonic imposition is, certainly in the cases of major Latin American states, simply empirically wrong. The dramatic changes that took place in the foreign policies of Mexico and Argentina in the 1990s, as well as the less dramatic changes in the foreign policy of Brazil, reflected national choices and the evaluation of different national strategies of international insertion – albeit within a constraining international system.

The second, and more important, legacy is to overemphasize the relationship between economic model and foreign policy. Of course, the choice of economic model is a critical, indeed fundamental, factor. No one could explain the foreign policy of, say, Brazil from 1930 onwards without linking that explanation to the growth of ISI and of national developmentalism. But foreign policy cannot be reduced simply to the outward expression of a given development model. In the first place, again as well illustrated by the case of Brazil, the ideology of foreign policy might contain values and goals (the drive for autonomy and greater international influence or the protection of national sovereignty) that were certainly closely related to a particular model, but which have come to have a life of their own and which have survived the move away from that model. Second, 'neo-liberalism' is not one thing but many (just as was ISI), and the differences in the trajectory of national economic policy remain considerable through the 1990s. And third, even if there was a

general move towards neo-liberalism in the 1990s, this did not, again as a matter of historical record, translate into a single pattern of foreign policy – either in terms of preferences or outcomes. Thus both Mexico and Argentina did move towards a closer relationship with the United States, but with highly significant differences. Thus, in the Mexican case, there was a conscious policy of segmentation – i.e. institutionalizing deep economic integration, but seeking to maintain distance of non-economic issues; whereas in Argentina the Menem strategy was built around the idea of close linkage between the political and economic – in the hope that very close political alignment with Washington would bring economic benefits. Equally, even if Brazil did move economically in a neo-liberal direction, this did not bring either the desire for close alignment with the US or the actual development of improved relations. Relations remained distant and marked by both divergent views of the international system and a persistent sense of frustration.

So we clear the ground for looking at the importance of domestic factors by looking at the weaknesses and limits of systemic or ‘outside-in’ explanations of foreign policy behaviour. Yet ‘political regime’ is only one of many potentially important ways of thinking about the role domestic factors. On the one hand, we may wish to examine the impact of differences amongst similar ‘regime types’. Thus Risse-Kappen has sought to show how differences in political institutions, policy networks, and societal structures account for variance in the foreign policy of democratic states during the Cold War.¹⁰ On the other hand, the domestic factors that really matter may have nothing to do with regime type at all. Thus we might consider, amongst many other factors, domestic political and economic ideologies, political institutions and party politics, socio-economic interests and interest-group politics, the strength of the state, and the character of state-society relations. Foreign policy analysis has sometimes degenerated into the production of ever more complex typologies that lay out every conceivable category of domestic variable – as in the work of

¹⁰ Thomas Risse-Kappen, ‘Public Opinion, Domestic Structure, and Foreign Policy in Liberal Democracies’, *World Politics*, 43, July 1991: 479-512.

Rosenau or Brecher during the 1960s and early 1970s. These can serve as useful check-lists, but not much more.

More useful has been the clustering of factors as between systemic explanations, society-centred explanations, and state-centred approaches.¹¹ Why more useful? The first reason is that this clustering helps us to fill the analytical space between Waltz's narrow view of explanatory theory on the one hand and mere 'accounts' on the other. Much of the work that has driven debate and provoked further analysis, whether within History or Political Science, has sought to claim that one or other of these clusters has, actually, been dominant in the foreign policy of a particular country. Think, for example, of the challenge to orthodox, externalist, power-political accounts of the origins of the First World War posed by social imperialist and other *innenpolitische* factors and forces. Second, because each of these clusters relate to broader sets of theories that give rise to expected patterns of behaviour. If foreign policy is really driven by x, what observable outcomes would we expect to see? What would be hard or otherwise instructive cases that would enable us to decide whether this pattern of explanation holds? And third, because each of these clusters has generated, or can be related to, particular methodologies (for example, organizational process, bureaucratic politics, cognitive or psychological approaches, discursive approaches).¹²

In a sense, this is all very obvious. But it is important to recognize the existence of a wide range of such domestic factors. We might, for example, see great continuity in the foreign policy of a country across changes of regime and therefore conclude that domestic factors are relatively unimportant. Brazil since 1930 might be just such a case.

¹¹ For one of the clearest see G. John Ikenberry, David A Lake, and Michael Mastanduno, 'Introduction: approaches to explaining American foreign economic policy', *International Organization* 42, 1, Winter 1998: 1-14. In broad terms, and certainly in relation to the United States, it is societal and interest group pressures that have attracted most analytical attention, especially in explaining foreign economic policy. See, for example, Helen Milner, *Interests, Institutions, and Information: Domestic Politics and International Relations*. Princeton: Princeton U.P., 1997.

¹² See Christopher Hill, *The Changing Politics of Foreign Policy*. London: Macmillan, 2003, chapter 6 'The Domestic Sources of Foreign Policy'.

The broad continuity of foreign policy across military and civilian regimes and across different types of civilian regimes is indeed striking. But it would, at least on my own view, be mistaken to argue that external imperatives and structural constraints, whether from the international political system or from global capitalism, can do all, or indeed most, of the explanatory work. An alternative would be to explain continuity in terms of the persistence of a certain set of understandings of how actors interpret the world and how their understandings of 'where they belong' are formed and institutionally embedded.

All foreign relations are understood through the prism of history and through the mutual images that have been created and reinforced over time, and then institutionalized within dominant foreign policy ideologies. Without trying to make everything fit within a single mould, it is possible to identify an orthodox framework for understanding the history of Brazil's place in the world that unites many foreign policymakers and many historians and analysts. It is focused around the ideology of national autonomy and development. It takes the project of national developmentalism as its central organizing idea. It lays great emphasis on the period from 1930 and, more particularly, from 1945 by which time the economic foundations of the project appear more clearly and are more firmly embedded in economic policy. It places great emphasis on external structures – both the capitalist world economy which contains far more snares and constraints than opportunities, and the international political system in which the hegemony of the U.S. is viewed as a natural obstacle to the achievement of Brazilian development and to its upward mobility in the international power hierarchy. Perhaps above all, this way of thinking takes utterly for granted the intrinsic value of national autonomy, of defending economic and political sovereignty, and of developing a more prominent international role for the country. Clearly this set of ideas is closely related to the development model of the ISI period and to the autonomy and development focused foreign policy that was most visible and influential in the 1970s. But, as noted above, it cannot be reduced to a particular version of national-developmentalism. It has continued to influence many of the unspoken assumptions that characterize Brazilian

debates on both globalization and U.S. hegemony. Theoretically it draws both on traditional power-political realism (the world as a mean and anarchical place) and on dependency theory and Marxism. Machiavelli and Marx are to be found in constant, if not always very consistent, conversation. And, partially in consequence, it draws together both right and left. This was true in the past (remember just how briefly Brazilian foreign policy was dominated by anti-communism even under military governments, and how much substantive overlap there was between military nationalists and dependistas).

I have taken the Brazilian case. But we could multiply the examples of where it is well-established and well-institutionalized patterns of ideas and the way in which they interpret the constraints, imperatives and opportunities of the international system that explain the continuity of foreign policy across regimes—rather than the allegedly objective imperatives themselves. The chapter on the United States in this volume seeks to explain the continuity of foreign policy in terms of ideas, ideology and the construction of a particular set of national myths: ‘ideologies are the collective myths around which a nation understands itself and differentiates itself from others’. But we could also consider Nehruvian conceptions of India’s place in the world; British understandings of its relationship to Europe; Gaullism in France; middle-powermanship and Canadian foreign policy.

A final point needs to be made in this opening section and that concerns the crucial distinction between analysing and explaining foreign policy behaviour on the one hand, and evaluating its success on the other. Much writing on, for example, Latin American foreign policies since the end of the Cold War slips unsteadily from one task to the other. This is especially true in cases such as Argentina where the deep ideological and historic conflicts over the country’s foreign policy are reflected in the academic analysis of foreign policy, which has itself become ideologized and is often highly normative.¹³ There is also an

¹³ Compare, for example, the chapter by Rapoport and Spiguel in this volume with Carlos Escudé’s *Realismo Periférico: Fundamentos para la Nueva Política Exterior Argentina*. Buenos Aires: Planeta, 1992.

extensive literature on how regime type impacts on the success or coherence of foreign policy.¹⁴ A good illustration of this kind of work can be seen in the tradition of writers (especially amongst conservatives and realists during the Cold War) who claimed that democratic western states were at a disadvantage when facing authoritarian regimes and were bound to be less successful over the long-run. I am not considering this work here, not least because it has failed to produce any great insights. One of the classic examples of this kind of work is Waltz's second book, *Foreign Policy and Democratic Politics*.¹⁵ Waltz's comparison between the US and Britain illustrates the difficulty of trying to link regime type to success. Perhaps more convincingly, he does counter the claim (common amongst conservatives and realists during the Cold War) that democratic western states were at a disadvantage when facing authoritarian regimes. As he explains, 'Four major considerations, then, bring into question the assertion that in foreign policy authoritarian governments have a natural advantage. First, authoritarian rulers tend to blind themselves and stultify their successors' development. Second, authoritarian governments are no more immune to the politics of interests and their pressures upon policy than are democracies. Third, rulers and would-be rulers in both types of state must worry about the relation of the policies they espouse to their own political fortunes. Finally, both authoritarian rulers and democratic politicians must confront the dilemmas of control and security and must decide whether to strive for more of the one at the expected expense of the other. ...In a world where military technology places a premium upon speed and opponents at times appear to be implacable, the flexibility, dispatch, coherence, and ruthlessness of authoritarian states have been thought to be decisive advantages.'

¹⁴ Prominent supporters of the idea that democracy is problematic for running a good foreign policy include Adam Ulam, George Kennan and, of course, Henry Kissinger. There is a separate set of debates, which I also do not consider here, concerning the claim that democracies are more successful in fighting and winning the wars that they enter. See Michael C. Desch, 'Democracy and Victory: Why Regime Type Hardly Matters', *International Security* 27, 2. Fall 2002, p. 5-47.

¹⁵ Kenneth Waltz, *Foreign Policy and Democratic Politics*, London: Longmans, 1968.

...Coherent policy, executed with a nice combination of caution and verve, is difficult to achieve in any political system, but no more so for democratic states than for others'.¹⁶

II. DEFINITIONS

Neither term in the title of this volume is straightforward and part of the analysis necessarily has to involve definitions. Let us start with the concept of regime.

There is a good deal of commonality amongst the most cited definitions of political regime, above all in terms of their emphasis on the formal and informal rules that govern the interaction of major actors in the political system. Obviously the character of these rules that help us classify a regime as democratic, fascist, authoritarian etc. But, within almost all types of regime, the specific character of rules will also shape the conduct of foreign policy: who can make foreign policy, with which instruments, and in which ways. This narrow view can be seen in the following:

1. [By regime or political regime] 'we mean the ensemble of patterns, explicit or not, that determines the forms and channels of access to principal government positions, the characteristics of the actors who are admitted and excluded from such access, and the resources or strategies that they can use to gain access. This necessarily involves institutionalisation, i.e., to be relevant the patterns defining a given regime must be habitually known, practiced, and accepted, at least by those which these same patterns define as participants in the process. Where a regime effectively exists, real or potential dissents are unlikely to threaten these patterns, owing to their weak organization, lack of organization, manipulated depoliticization, or outright repression.'¹⁷

¹⁶ Waltz, *Foreign Policy and Democratic Politics*, p. 311.

¹⁷Guillermo O'Donnell and Philippe Schmitter, *Transition from Authoritarian Rule: Tentative Conclusions about Uncertain Democracies*, Baltimore: The Johns Hopkins University Press, 1986, p. 73.

2. [A regime consists of the] ‘the formal and informal structure of state and governmental roles and processes. The regime includes the method of selection of the government and the representative assemblies (election, coup, decision within the military, etc.), formal and informal mechanisms of representation, and patterns of repression. The regime is typically distinguished from the particular incumbents who occupy state and governmental roles, the political coalition that supports these incumbents, and the public policies they adopt (except of course policies that define or transform the regime itself).’¹⁸

3. ‘It is essential to distinguish between the concept of political regime and the concept of the state. By “regime” I mean the formal rules that link the main political institutions (legislature to the executive, executive to the judiciary, and party system to them all), as well as the issue of the political nature of the ties between citizens and rulers (democratic, oligarchic, totalitarian, or whatever). The conceptualisation of the state is a complex matter, but there does exist a certain degree of agreement that at the highest level of abstraction the notion of state refers to the basic alliance, the basic “pact of domination”, that exists among social classes or fractions of dominant classes and the norms which guarantee their dominance over the subordinate strata.’¹⁹

However, whilst these definitions insist that we stay narrowly focused on political rules and institutions, others press a in broader direction, especially in wanting to include the relationship between a particular regime and the broader social order and the form of political or class coalition on which the state rests. Consider the following:

4. ‘On the one hand, the state expresses the domination of a given combination of classes and fractions of classes on the rest of

¹⁸ Ruth Berins Collier and Paul Collier, *Shaping the Political Arena: Critical Junctures, the Labor Movement, and Regime Dynamics in Latin America*, Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1991, p. 789.

¹⁹ Fernando H. Cardoso, On the Characterization of Authoritarian Regimes in Latin America. In: David Collier (ed.), *The New Authoritarianism in Latin America*, Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1979, p. 38.

society... On the other hand, the state is a set of institutions and personnels through which class domination... is expressed... The state in its institutional sense is often referred to as the “regime”, thereby emphasizing the formal structures of political authority – parliament, executive, judiciary – but including also the mechanisms of mediation between those structures and the citizens, notably the party system... Forms of regime include all the variants of democratic arrangements (constitutional monarchy, republic, presidentialism, parliamentary system, two-party, multi-party, etc.) as well as politically exclusionary regimes: authoritarian, corporatist, fascist, etc.’²⁰

5. ‘Regimes represent a particular social order [and involve] a sustained fusion between the institutions of the state and particular segments of the socio-economic order... In short, a regime’s character will be determined by the societal coalition on which a state rests, the formal powers of that state, and by the institutionalisation and bias of the public policies that result.’²¹

6. [A political regime consists of the] ‘institutional mediators between the State and society that resolve the problem of how society is governed, of the relationship between the people [*la gente*] and the State, of the forms of representation and participation, and of the channelling of conflicts and demands.’²²

How much concern with the character of state-society relations or with the links between regime and state remain therefore contested issues.²³ But they do matter and in important ways. For example, the

²⁰ Christian Anglade and Carlos Fortin, *The State and Capital Accumulation in Latin America: A Conceptual and Historical Introduction*. In: Anglade and Fortin (ed.), *The State and Capital Accumulation in Latin America*, Pittsburg: University of Pittsburg Press, 1985, p. 16 and 19.

²¹ T.J. Pempel, *Restructuring Social Coalitions: State, Society, and Regime*. In: Rolf Torstendahl (ed.), *State Theory and State History*, Newbury Park: Sage Publications, 1992, p.120.

²² Manuel Antonio Garreton, *Hacia una nueva era politica: Estudio sobre democratizaciones*, Mexico: Fondo de Cultura Economica, 1995), p.185-186.

²³ For example the chapter by Rapoport and Spiguel in this volume argues that explaining the erratic character of Argentinian foreign policy must look beyond the shifts between democratic and authoritarian regimes and instead focus on the deep socio-political conflicts that have existed both between state and society and within the state.

foreign policy impact of an economic model is likely to be far more closely connected to the character of the state, rather than the regime, and to the supporting set of state-society relations. As already discussed, ISI was very important in shaping the foreign policies of Latin American states. But it was not closely or in any way necessarily connected to a particular regime type. In fact it flourished across many different types of regime. Indeed it is clear that several of the chapters in this volume place a great deal of explanatory weight on the impact on foreign policy of the dominant model of economic development.

What of 'foreign policy'? In much of the literature on the links between regime type and foreign policy, there has been a concentration on one particular type of foreign policy behaviour, namely war or resort to force. Within Political Science it is this linkage that has been most extensively debated and analysed, as we shall see below. At the other extreme we find definitions of foreign policy that cover all forms of interaction between one society and all aspects of its international environment. The common use within Latin America of the term 'international insertion' captures this very broad idea. Between these, one finds various attempts to define foreign policy, for example: '[F]oreign policies consist of those actions which, expressed in the form of explicitly stated goals, commitments and/or directives, and pursued by governmental representatives acting on behalf of their sovereign communities, are directed toward objectives, conditions and actors – both governmental and non-governmental – which they want to affect and which lie beyond their territorial legitimacy'.²⁴

I am not sure that there is much that can be settled by definitional fiat or by refining definitions; but it must surely matter which particular aspect of foreign policy one is trying to explain in considering the possible relationship with regime type. What might hold in terms of the relationship between regime type and propensity to go to war, might be irrelevant in considering the relationship between regime type and, say, policy towards international institutions.

²⁴ Walter Carlsnaes, Foreign Policy, In: Walter Carlsnaes, Thomas Risse and Beth A Simmons eds., *Handbook of International Relations*, London: Sage, 2002: 335.

III. REGIME TYPE AND FOREIGN POLICY

MILITARY AND AUTHORITARIAN REGIMES

There are obviously many studies of the foreign policies of military and authoritarian regimes. It is also obviously the case that the move to or from authoritarian rule is an important variable in explaining the foreign policy of many individual countries, including some (but definitely not all) in South America. But I am not sure that we can identify clear patterns of foreign policy behaviour that hold across such regimes in any generalizable sense. There is, of course, a persistent, usually ideologically driven, tendency to view authoritarian and still more totalitarian regimes as being naturally expansionist or aggressive – a danger both to their own people and to their neighbours. This was true of many western views of the Soviet Union and continues to be reflected in views of deviant or rogue states that resist the obvious logic of the democratic, peaceful west. Even though such views are mistaken, they still matter politically. In particular, they encourage both liberal and conservative crusading (promoting regime change, making the world safe for democracy etc), especially in the United States. Indeed such beliefs form an important element of the foreign policy ideology of the United States.²⁵

It is also the case that certain foreign policy tendencies are often associated with such regimes, for example the use of an adventurist or assertive foreign policy as part of a strategy of domestic legitimation or to bolster flagging domestic support. The 'Flucht nach vorne' of a Nazi regime that had embedded foreign policy expansionism as central to its legitimizing ideology and whose domestic weakness intensified that expansionism provides one example. The adventurism of Argentina's military regime in invading the Malvinas/Falklands in 1982 is another often cited example.

²⁵ Michael N. Hunt, *Ideology and U.S. Foreign Policy*, New York: Yale University Press, 1987, and, written within the ideological envelope, Tony Smith, *America's Mission. The United States and the Worldwide Struggle for Democracy in the Twentieth Century*, Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1994.

And yet many authoritarian regimes have been very inward-looking and unadventurous. Franco's Spain is a good example. Chinese foreign policy has been characterized over time as much by caution as by adventurism. Equally many military governments have been very uninterested in spending money on their militaries and still less interested in using what military power they possessed for the purpose of foreign policy activism. Such was often the case in Latin America in the 1960s and 1970s. Indeed the gap between the rhetoric of the Brazilian post-1964 military government and its actions provides a particularly interesting example. Even under a military government influenced by extravagant and often absurd quite geopolitical notions, Brazil did not play the power-political game in the way that either the rhetoric of its leaders or realist theory would lead us to expect. There were many occasions when power resources have not been developed or exploited and a persistent tendency to downplay hard, especially militarized, power-projection. There was often a significant gap between recurring intimations of influence and the low-key, risk-averse and sometimes diffident policies followed in practice, as well as by the generally low-priority accorded to foreign policy. Brazil has been neither an unconditional status quo power, nor a deeply revisionist state. It has no really serious grievances, but nor is it completely satisfied. Many of its goals are defensive and continue to reflect its economic interests and its continued economic vulnerability. Others involve a more direct effort to increase its international influence. Thus, although power has mattered for Brazilian policymakers and continues to do so, a simple power-maximization model does not fit the Brazilian case. But this pattern did not change in any particularly significant way during the years of authoritarian and military government.

Finally, even in cases of authoritarian collapse or decay, there is no clear imperative towards conflict or external assertion. The collapse of the USSR provides a clear example, whether this was due to the constraints imposed by the military and nuclear balance with the US or to the particular character of the reformist project that Gorbachev sought to implement. This is not to suggest that domestic failure may not be crucial in explaining foreign policy change. It remains the case that it was the perception (and reality) of failure and falling-behind that pressed Gorbachev towards

reformism and, by extension, towards a dramatic re-evaluation of the country's foreign policy. In the case of Mexico, the crucial break in foreign policy came in the mid-1980s rather than at the point of regime change with Fox's victory in 2001. But the impact of economic crisis within the context of the PRI's steady loss of legitimacy was crucial in pressing the historic shift towards integration and alignment with the United States.

REVOLUTIONARY REGIMES

Revolutionary regimes have often been seen as a crucial test of the issues involved in this debate. Revolutionary regimes are, after all, usually distinctive in their ambitions for both domestic change and for the transformation of their external environment, or even of the international system as a whole. Indeed it is the proclaimed universality of many revolutionary claims that is most important and most disruptive. In clear Burkean mould, classical realists such as Kissinger or Wight viewed revolutionary regimes as inherently threatening to established patterns of international legitimacy: 'But when one or more states claim universal applicability for their particular [domestic] structure, schisms grow deep indeed. In that event, the domestic structure becomes not only an obstacle to understanding but one of the principal issues in international affairs.'²⁶ Alongside mass democratic politics, it is the rise of social revolution that undermines the conservative utopia of classic balance of power diplomacy. And, of course, it is the perceived danger of social revolution that has come to play a particular role in the foreign policy ideology of the United States.²⁷

But, on the other side, realists and neorealists often emphasize the degree to which revolutionary regimes have been 'tamed' or

²⁶ Henry Kissinger, *Domestic Structure and Foreign Policy*. In: *American Foreign Policy* 3rd ed. New York: W.W. Norton, 1977, p. 12. This essay gives Kissinger's views of the foreign policy tendencies of democratic states (bad for foreign policy), marxist-leninist (accentuating international tension), and 'new states' (prone to unstable and reckless foreign policies). More broadly on the challenge of revolution see Jennifer Welsh, *Edmund Burke and International Relations*, Basingstoke: Macmillan, 1995.

²⁷ See Hunt, *Ideology and US Foreign Policy*, chapter 4.

‘socialized’ by the system. Whatever the rhetoric of revolution, revolutionary states have found themselves condemned to follow the power-driven logics of the international political system, and to exploit the interest-driven logics of international society. On many accounts, this provides the most powerful evidence of the importance of the structural or systemic forces in which realists place so much faith. Clearly these claims have generated an enormous range of studies of the foreign policies of particular revolutionary regimes and of the balance between interest and ideology in those foreign policies.²⁸ More general studies have also emphasized that the picture is not so simple. Thus David Armstrong demonstrates, firstly, that the process by which revolutionary states are ‘socialized’ by the system is far more multi-facetted and complex; and, secondly, that, although it may be true, as realists tell us, that the international system tames and socializes revolutionary regimes, it is also true that each of the great social revolutions of the modern era has left an indelible mark on the dominant norms of international society.²⁹ Fred Halliday has argued that revolutions are themselves necessarily international events, in cause, ideology and consequence and stresses the transnational context within which they occur, both of ideological change and of the development of capitalist modernity.³⁰ His work is a good example of the difficulties of seeing ‘regime type’ and ‘foreign policy’ as belonging to near, easily separable boxes (see section IV below).

DEMOCRACY, DEMOCRATIZATION AND FOREIGN POLICY

This is the area where the strongest claims are made about the links between regime type and at least one kind of foreign policy behaviour, namely the resort to war. Democratic peace theory rests on

²⁸ For a particularly useful analysis that is of broader relevance, see Steven I. Levine, *Perception and Ideology in Chinese Foreign Policy*. In: Thomas W. Robinson and David Shambaugh eds., *Chinese Foreign Policy. Theory and Practice*, Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1994.

²⁹ This interaction is explored in David Armstrong, *Revolutions and World Order*, Oxford: Oxford U.P., 1993.

³⁰ Fred Halliday, *Revolution and World Politics. The Rise and Fall of the Sixth Great Power*, London: Macmillan, 1999.

two simple claims: (a) that democracies almost never fight each other and very rarely consider the use of force in their mutual relations; and (b) that other types of relations are much more conflictual including democracies' interactions with non-democracies. Note that the claim is almost always made in more or less probabilistic terms (ie it will not necessarily predict all foreign policy behaviour; it is not about 'point predictions'). Few would claim that it is a deterministic law. Note too the idea of a separate peace between democracies. It is not a general theory since it is agnostic or at least much less certain about relationship between democracies and non-democracies. Some argue that democracies are as war-prone as non-democracies in interactions involving the latter. Others argue that, even here, democracies are more pacific. But for the proponents the main claim is clear: although democracies are not inherently more peaceful than authoritarian regime, there does seem secure evidence of a separate democratic peace. There have been military threats, militarized crises, but almost no inter-state war. In addition, militarized disputes seem to occur less frequently than would be expected in a random distribution and almost never escalate into war.³¹

The literature on democratic peace theory is by now very extensive and I do not propose to review it in any broad or general way, or to highlight its problems and limits. Instead let me make three points relevant to the concerns of this volume.

First, the debate on the underlying causal logics behind democratic peace has tended to move away from an emphasis on democratic regimes and institutions and towards an emphasis on democratic or liberal societies. There is quite general agreement that the structural constraints of democratic institutions and of democratic politics can only be used with great difficulty to explain the existence of a separate peace only between democracies. Hence much discussion has revolved around

³¹ Democratic peace theory has become central, not just to debates in International Relations theory but also to regional security analysis. Take, for example, Gerald Segal's claim: 'By far the most important factor for international security seems to be the emergence of pluralist (democratic) political systems', 'How Insecure is Pacific Asia', *International Affairs* 73, 2.1997, p. 235. For a good overview of the debate see Brown, Michael, Lynn-Jones, Sean and Miller, Steven (eds.), *Debating the Democratic Peace*, Cambridge: MA, 1996.

so-called normative explanations: not based on the role of democratic institutions pushing actors towards pacific behaviour by affecting their instrumental calculus of interest; but rather the process by which democratic norms work to shape the motivations, perceptions and practices of actors and the way in which ‘... democracies externalize their domestic political norms of tolerance and compromise in their foreign relations, thus making war with others like them unlikely.’³² Democratic politics, so claim the proponents, foster a very different climate than authoritarian rule. Rule-governed change is a basic principle. The use of coercive force outside the structure of rules is proscribed. Trust, reciprocity, and rule of law are at the heart of democratic politics.

Moving in this direction presses us away from the notion of a democratic political regime narrowly defined in terms of political institutions, formal structures of authority, or a defined set of institutions and rules of the game; and pushes us towards the broader notion of liberal or democratic society. So it is not the democratic regime that matters, but rather some broader, more diffuse notion of a liberal society that is crucial. Thus, even in the case of democracy and democratic peace, it seems that ‘political regime’ is not necessarily the most important factor. This conclusion is also interesting because it underscores why democratic peace theory is so difficult to apply convincingly to Latin America. It is precisely this externalization of domestic democratic norms thesis that is so difficult to apply convincingly to patterns of conflict in Latin America: (i) because the fortunes of domestic democracy have fluctuated so widely whilst regional order has been relatively stable; and (ii) because of the striking contrast between frequently high levels of domestic disorder and social violence (even under democratic regimes) and the relative degree of inter-state peace.

Second, and more positively, the debates surrounding democratic peace theory have shifted towards an emphasis not on a static regime type but rather on regime change, in this case on processes of democratization. Unfortunately the US academic market in this area

³² Steve Chan, ‘In search of Democratic Peace: Problems and Promise’, *Mershon International Studies Review*, 41, 1997, p. 77.

has been dominated by one version of the democratization thesis: the claim that, whilst well-consolidated democracies interact peacefully, democratizing regimes are as, if not more, aggressive and war-prone than other kinds of states.³³ Another of the reasons why Latin America is interesting is precisely that it highlights the different ways in which democratization may be associated with cooperative or conflictual foreign policies. In the case of the Southern Cone since the early 1980s, democratization was related not to conflict but rather to increased levels of inter-state cooperation. The development of rapprochement between Brazil and Argentina therefore provides an important counter-example to the claim that democratizing states are necessarily war-prone.³⁴ Here it was democratization, rather than democracy *per se*, that was central to the rapprochement between Brazil and Argentina in the mid 1980s rather than the idea of a 'democratic peace' between two well consolidated democracies. In this period, the shared interests and perhaps shared identities came rather from a common sense of vulnerability: the shared conviction that democracy in both countries was extremely fragile and that non-democratic forces were by no means out of the game (witness the military rebellions in Argentina in April 1987, January 1989 and December 1990). Especially in Argentina, this led to the overt use of foreign policy as a means of protecting fragile and newly established democracies. In part this reflected the close and very concrete link between conflict resolution abroad and democratic consolidation at home – the need to promote regional pacification in order to deprive the nationalists of causes around which to mobilize opinion, to demand a greater political role, or to press for

³³ Edward D. Mansfield and Jack Snyder, *Democratization and the Danger of War*. *International Security* 20, 1. Summer 1995, p. 5-38. There have also been claims that promoting liberalization and peace-keeping can have destabilizing effects, see, for example, Roland Paris, 'Peacebuilding and the Limits of Liberal Internationalism', *International Security* 22, 2, 1997: 54-89.

³⁴ For a strong Kantian account of southern cone international politics see Philippe C. Schmitter, *Change in Regime Type and Progress in International Relations*. In: Emanuel Adler and Beverly Crawford eds., *Progress in Post War International Relations*, New York: Columbia U.P., 1991. I have analyzed this democratizing logic in more detail in 'An emerging security community in South America?', In: Emanuel Adler and Michael Barnett eds., *Security Communities*, Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1998).

militarization and rearmament. Regional peace therefore becomes central to the maintenance of successful civil-military relations at home. But it also reflected the perceived importance of building up the idea and the rhetoric of external support: the idea of a club of states to which only certain governments are allowed to belong and in which cooperation becomes the international expression and symbol both of new democracies and of the end of old rivalries. Elsewhere, however, the cases of Colombia and Venezuela and Peru and Ecuador seem to support the thesis that domestically insecure liberalizing states in unstable neighbourhoods are potential problems for regional security.

Third, the whole of the democratic peace debate has been based on the links between a particular regime type and a particular kind of foreign policy, ie the resort to war.³⁵ Perhaps the most striking gap in the recent theoretical and comparative literature (certainly in English) has been the absence of systematic work on the links between economic and political liberalization on the one hand and foreign policy broadly conceived on the other. This category of theorizing gives rise to a number of potential liberalizing 'logics' that can impact on foreign policy. One set has to do with the domestic aspect of foreign policy. Thus we might expect that democratization will change the character of foreign policymaking: increasing the pluralism of the foreign policymaking process and opening up a greater role for societal actors (firms, parties, social movements). The character of the resultant foreign policy will depend on which societal groups are empowered in this way. But the analytical question is crucial: to what extent has democratization altered the nature of the foreign policy-making process? We might also wish to enquire into the extent to which democratization affected the capacity and coherence of the state. This might be important in understanding how far democratizing states, especially those experiencing turbulent transitions, have the capacity for any kind of stable or coherent foreign policy. It might also push certain states towards such a loss of control and capacity that they become the target of foreign policy concern or intervention on the part of other states.

³⁵ As noted in the chapter by Vladimir Kulagin in this volume.

A second cluster of expectations has to do with the plausible links that might exist between liberalizing states and their policy towards international institutions. Thus political and economic liberalization may push states towards deeper integration in institutions. In order to enhance the credibility of programmes of liberal economic reform, governments will be impelled to engage actively with international economic institutions.³⁶ External credibility therefore becomes a necessary condition for successful domestic reform. Or, in the political arena, relatively unconsolidated democratic governments may seek external and binding human rights regimes precisely in order to provide external support in the face of their domestic challenges (something that fits the European human rights system rather better than the Inter-American one).

IV. REGIME TYPE AS A PRODUCT OF INTERNATIONAL RELATIONS

The problem with the above discussion is that it rests on a conventional and somewhat barren separation between the 'domestic' and the 'international'. What states are, what purposes they seek to promote, and their capacity to promote them, has long been shaped by external factors and by the dominant pattern of international relations within the system as a whole. The internal world of domestic politics and the external world of international relations have been closely intertwined throughout the history of European international society. The links between state-making and war-making were explored in the 1970s by Anderson and Tilly, but reflect a tradition of thought that goes back at least to Machiavelli.³⁷ Moreover, if the links between state-making and war-making were close, the links between geopolitical competition and nationalism were closer still. Images of the collective self and foreign other flourished on the battlefield as nowhere else. It is war and conflict within the confines of a political system based on exclusivist conceptions of sovereignty that, together with industrialization and modernization,

³⁶See Miles Kahler ed., *Liberalization and Foreign Policy*, New York: Columbia U.P., 1997.

³⁷ For a recent treatment see Bruce D. Porter, *War and the Rise of the State: The Military Foundations of Modern Politics*, New York: Free Press, 1994.

explains the emergence and power of political nationalism. In addition, as both Weber and Marx recognized, the unparalleled dynamism of capitalist industrialization was fuelled by the tensions that existed between increasing market integration on the one hand and continued political fragmentation and inter-state rivalry and conflict on the other. Finally, as much recent work has argued, European political thought and our stock of ideas about the state and about political order within the state were very closely connected to both external imperial expansion and to patterns of war and peace within Europe (as with the recent work of Tuck, Pagden, Hont, and Rothschild).

This pattern continued, indeed deepened, in the course of the 20th century. Many of the most important changes in the character of European states and in the type of political regime were driven by changes in the international and global context. The vast expansion of state power and state functions; the rise of the welfare state; the development of expanded understandings of citizenship were closely bound up with the geopolitical conflicts of the period from 1870 to 1950 and with the transnational ideological confrontation between liberalism on the one hand and fascism and communism on the other. Although not the only factor, war and transnational ideological conflict drove the expansion of the European state, in terms of increased range of agencies and ministries, vastly increased budgets and levels of taxation, numbers of state personnel, and scope and range of legislation. These developments also involved a shift in the boundaries between politics and the market and between public and private spheres, and help explain new understandings of the responsibilities of the state to its citizens and of an expanded conception of social rights reflected in the rise of the welfare state. As Michael Howard puts it: 'war and welfare went hand in hand'.

These changes were not simply apparent in the increased capacity and 'strength' of the West European state but also involved the revisioning of relations between state and society. To quote Geoff Eley:

...the major increments of general European democracy earlier in the twentieth century depended on the prior condition of societal breakdown or transformation produced by war – and produced, it

should be said, by war of a particular kind, namely total war, or warfare requiring general societal mobilization over several years, bringing big expansions of the state's presence in and demands upon society, its resources and territorial population.

Consensus on the increased degree of state involvement in the economy and society was reinforced by the impact of external economic forces, especially of the Great Depression, and the emergence of new understandings of the possibilities of economic management by the state – diffused by what we would today term transnational policy networks.

If we focus in on the period after 1945 it is hard not to exaggerate the extent to which the evolving character of governments and regimes in West Europe was indissolubly connected with the emergence of a secure and increasingly well-institutionalized regional security community. This dramatic shift within Europe from war and competition to regional cooperation and then to the promotion of regional integration in turn depended on a very particular set of geopolitical circumstances. It depended, first, on the existence of a common external threat together with superpower protection against that threat, embodied in an alliance which, from the mid-1950s, became increasingly militarized and institutionalized. For all the recurrent crises within the Alliance, NATO cemented the historic shift in US (and also British) commitment to Western Europe, created a community of fate constructed around extended nuclear deterrence, and served as a magnet for new members (Greece and Turkey in 1952, West Germany in 1955, Spain in 1986). This acceptance of almost total security dependence on the United States was one of the essential compromises on which the success of European cooperation and integration was built. Indeed it is possible to argue that success was only possible because the immensely difficult tasks of politico-military cooperation and security could be left to one side. In addition, the naturalness of Keynesian economic management within Europe was accompanied by a highly favourable external economic environment with geopolitics pushing the United States towards a relatively benign economic hegemony (at least up to 1971): Marshall Aid, tolerance of the protectionism and discrimination inherent in the EC, and an acceptance of the compromise of embedded liberalism

– that liberalization abroad should be balanced by state activism and welfarism at home.

The move from war to cooperation depended, second, on a solution to the German Problem. European integration was a response both to the Cold War and to the German problem that had bedevilled Europe since 1870 and had brought Europe to its knees. If European integration was pressed from outside by the threat of the Soviet Union on the one side and by the hegemonic leadership of the US on the other, it was also explicitly promoted as a means of managing German power. Although the division of Germany mitigated the fears of other Europeans, it certainly did not remove them. Europe needed German economic power to fuel post-war recovery and German military power to counter the Soviet threat. Indeed the specific project of regional integration arose precisely as the preferred means of dealing with this problem: permitting rearmament and economic rehabilitation by tying a semi-sovereign Germany into an integrated network of institutions in both the economic field (EC) and the military (NATO/WEU). From Germany's perspective, regionalism provided the essential multilateral cover under which it could first of all reestablish its diplomatic position and recover its sovereignty and, more recently, reestablish its influence. This strategy worked, above all, because of the particular circumstances in which Germany found itself. For Adenauer, the conditions of German history made *Westbindung*, institutional enmeshment and the acceptance of some supranational authority the only viable road to the recovery of, first, German sovereignty and, then, its capacity for international action. (Note the close association between European institutions and the recovery, not loss sovereignty and autonomy). A little later, as Brandt recognized so clearly, *Ostpolitik* was only viable because the security of the western anchor removed the memory of Rapallo and fears of a return to *Schaukelpolitik* of the past.

Third, the shift towards regional cooperation depended on the the process of decolonization which ended the unparalleled dominance that European powers had previously exercised over the world. Decolonization reduced even the strongest of the imperial powers to second-rank power status, had profound impact on their domestic societies and politics, and reoriented their foreign policies and foreign economic relations firmly

towards their European neighbours (with British hankering after the special relationship being the most important exception). This enforced adaptation was far from smooth and unproblematic, and varied from country to country; but it remains one of the most important ways in which a changing international context affected the character of the European state. Finally, the Cold War set the boundaries to Europe. 'European' integration was in reality only sub-regional integration between a small group of countries with compatible values and similar economic and security policies. This both facilitated the process of regional rapprochement and integration and meant that the difficult decisions about what to do about Eastern Europe could be left aside. Whilst the rhetoric of a reunified Germany and of a reintegrated East was maintained, the division suited most West Europeans and was a central element of what many took to be the stability of the post-1945 European order. It gave Western Europe '... the peculiar advantage of never having to worry, from 1951 to 1989, about the implications of trying to incorporate into "Europe" the even poorer lands to the East'. The Cold War also dictated the nature of relations with important parts of the periphery, ensuring a close military relationship with Turkey and the continued involvement of Spain, Portugal and Greece with the 'West', despite their authoritarian politics.

The point of this brief sketch of Europe is to illustrate just how far the international system has to be seen as a cause as well as a consequence of domestic politics and the character of domestic political regimes. Even apparently secure and well-established states have been shaped by their interaction with the international system, just as the international system has been shaped by the interaction amongst states. Reflecting both greater domestic weakness and far higher levels of external vulnerability, this picture is even more true of post-colonial states. Consider Christopher Clapham's analysis of the creation and the subsequent unravelling of the post-colonial state in Africa:

The power of rulers derives not only from the material resources and ideological support of their own people, but equally from their ability to draw on the ideological and material resources provided by other states – and also non-states, such as

transnational religious organizations or business corporations. The weaker the state in terms of its size and capabilities, its level of physical control over its people and territory, and its ability or inability to embody an idea of the state shared by its people, the greater the extent to which it will need to call on external recognition and support.³⁸

States cannot, then, be seen as closed-off entities that interact with the external world through something called 'foreign policy'. Take two examples from Brazilian history. First, Topik's discussion of the strength of the 19th century Brazilian state:

...the imperial state's legitimacy and authority derived as much from its role as intermediary between Brazil and foreign powers as from state domestic control. Prosperous international trade and European loans sustained the Treasury. In addition, the national state's sovereignty was recognized by overseas powers before most of its own subjects recognized it. Foreign states and merchants were more responsible for supporting Brazil's post-colonial state through the revenue they provided than for undermining it. This foreign support allowed Portuguese America to in fact consolidate its territory while Spanish America fragmented. ... However, the external prop to Brazil's monarch was a mixed blessing. It meant that the state did not much penetrate the interior.... While this diversified dependence meant that imperial statesmen could play off foreign and domestic interests, the state's space for manoeuvre was sharply limited.³⁹

The point is not to claim that Topik is able to resolve the long-standing arguments about the strength and character of the 19th century Brazilian state (involving Faoro, Murilo de Carvalho, Uricoechea amongst others). It is only to highlight the interpenetration of the external and internal and the degree to which studying any political

³⁸ Christopher Clapham, *Africa and the International System. The Politics of State Survival*, Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1996, p. 11.

³⁹ Steven Topik, *Precocious Globalization: The Effect of the World Market on State Building in Brazil in the 19th Century*.

regime presses us to consider what Skocpol called the 'dual anchorage' of the state: anchored on one side within domestic society and, on the other, within three external arenas: the international political system, the capitalist global economy and transnational civil society. Or take Brazil during the Cold War. The Cold War was not just a type of international system that pushed and shoved Brazil to adopt particular foreign policies. It affected Brazilian foreign policy far more powerfully through the degree to which anti-communism shaped the character of the regime domestically and the degree to which ideological confrontation deeply affected the character of Brazilian domestic politics.

If we are considering the ways in which the external world affects the type and character of domestic regime, we need, finally, to note the degree to which democracy and democratic values have themselves become more firmly established within the normative structure of international society. This is a trend that developed in the second half of the 20th century but which gathered pace after the end of the Cold War. It has involved: the broadening of the human rights regime to accord a more central role to self-determination and political democracy; the increasing tendency for international security to be defined in terms of both humanitarian crises and the existence of non-democratic rulers in the states undergoing such crises; the increased role of democracy in many aspects of the work of the United Nations (both in democracy supporting activities such as election-monitoring, and in democracy as a central element of post-conflict reconstruction); and in the growth of democratic conditionality both in terms of bilateral and multilateral aid and in terms of the membership of regional groupings (above all in both Europe and the Americas). For some, the core constitutive norm of sovereignty has come to be reinterpreted in such a way that the full exercise of sovereign rights is made increasingly conditional on the continuation of certain kinds of domestic political regime.

It is true of course that these changes remain limited, certainly in terms of formal changes in the international legal order. It is also true that the coercive enforcement of these norms remains highly contested. The liberal logic of seeking to institutionalize democracy at

the international level is contested both because of the inherent difficulty of translating coercive pro-democratic interventionism into agreed and sustainable general rules; and because of the power-political dominance of western, democratic states in general and, of course, the United States in particular. But it is also true that the character of domestic regimes has become ever more central to the concerns of international law and institutions; that democracy has become more central to the foreign policy practices of a number of major states, most especially the United States; and that the preponderance of democratic states creates a 'global magnetic field' that inevitably influences the behaviour of all actors in world politics, as Vladimir Kulagin puts it in his chapter in this volume.⁴⁰

V. CONCLUSIONS

It is not difficult to show just how important the external is for understanding the character of domestic politics, including the character of states that see their own identity very much in particularist or exceptionalist terms.⁴¹ This is yet another of the ways in which a theory of foreign policy is necessarily linked to a theory of international relations and of the dynamics of the international system. The importance of focussing on these kinds of 'outside-in' dynamics has a very long history. For all its flaws, dependency theory and the traditions from which it developed, was substantially correct in arguing that both the interests and the identities of states need to be understood within the context of the 'transnational whole' within which they are embedded. Within Political Science this way of thinking has been emphasized by Peter Gourevitch in his writing on the 'second-image reversed'.⁴²

It has been applied in several contexts – for example Peter

⁴⁰ See also the argument in Robert Frank's paper that 'an international democratic logic has been established, transcending the interests of each democratic country', p. 11-14.

⁴¹ See Ira Katznelson and Martin Shefter eds., *Shaped by War and Trade. International Influences on American Political Development*, Princeton: Princeton University Press, 2002.

⁴² Peter Gourevitch, *The Second Image Reversed: International Sources of Domestic Politics*, *International Organization* 32, 4, 1978, p. 881-911.

Katzenstein's work on the foreign economic policies of small states. But it has not affected the analysis of foreign policy as much as one might imagine, or one might have hoped. Many societal approaches to the formation of state preferences still treat the domestic arena as separate and closed-off. Moravcsik's liberal theory is a good example. We need, then, to take much more seriously the way in which understandings of interests as well as the character of the state and of the regime are constantly being shaped and influenced by interaction with the external world.

However, and this is the second conclusion, care is needed in linking any particular configuration of external forces to a specific regime or regime type. In the 1970s it was common to see the emergence of bureaucratic-authoritarian regimes in South America as being related to the functioning of peripheral capitalism and also to see the foreign policy of those regimes also as driven by the functional logic of capitalism. Thus foreign policy was somehow a function of the 'associated-dependent' character of its economic model. This kind of direct linkage (or even the more modest suggestion of an 'elective affinity') manifestly fails: the idea of a development model or foreign policy being a 'function' of some systemic logic represents a hopelessly inadequate kind of explanation, not least because it is devoid of agency. But, empirically, trying to tie everything up in this neat structuralist bundle proved inadequate for understanding either the diversity of foreign policies chosen by similarly-situated states or, as suggested earlier, the links between economic models and political regimes. The challenge, then, is to reincorporate the interpenetration of external and internal but without repeating the overly deterministic or overly functionalist accounts of the past.

POLITICAL REGIMES AND FOREIGN POLICIES: ATTITUDES TOWARDS WAR AND PEACE

Robert Frank

Increasingly, and understandably, historians are looking towards political analysts and their different theories, and how these theories work as experiments within the vast laboratory of History. Among the many current schools of thought, two theories – realist and liberal – can help our understanding of the link between “political regimes” and “foreign policies”. For realists, or most of them, the type of regime is of little importance. A state has its “national interest” to defend, which is completely independent from the nature of its institutions. The geopolitical position of the country, its security interests, economic development, and ability to wield power or influence, have greater influence on the way foreign policy is defined than the type of political regime. In the liberal camp, the opposite is true: ideology influences diplomacy. States, with their different visions of the world according to their different political regimes, thus conduct different foreign policies. Liberals especially emphasise the specific nature of the foreign policies of democratic countries.

Both interpretations have their strengths and their truths. There is certainly some element of continuity in French foreign policy, through its successive political regimes, from periods of absolute monarchy to the Fifth Republic. In particular, from the moment Germany began to come together, the German question has been a French obsession, from Napoléon III to the middle of the twentieth century. Geopolitical security issues were more or less the same during the Second Empire, the Third Republic and the beginning of the Fourth Republic. In these cases, the “realist” interpretation seems to work well. However, the opposite can be said of the Federal Republic of Germany,

being a democracy, with a foreign policy radically different from the Second and Third Reich. We may even say that this represents a desired and conscious break from the *Machtpolitik* of the previous regimes. This example tends towards the liberal interpretation. There is a third example, rather difficult to define, which has been widely debated: did the USSR follow a fundamentally *Russian* foreign policy, in its continuation of Russian interests in Europe and throughout the world, independent of ideology or communist regimes, as maintained by the realists? Or, as the liberals maintain, did Soviet totalitarianism make the USSR a different kind of state, with different objectives and specific diplomatic methods?

There is surely a way of verifying the validity of these theories. To try to understand whether the link between the type of political regime and the definition of its foreign policy is a secondary, fundamental, episodic or structural element, we must weigh up, historically, the relationship these regimes have with the question of war and peace which is so precise, concrete, and central to international relations as a whole.

At this stage, we discover the complexity of the picture. The link between democracy and peace is not an obvious one, no more than the link between dictators, totalitarianism and war is obvious. This is why, in the end, democratic countries are obliged to treat different authoritarian regimes differently, and this does not necessarily provide what is needed to establish an international democracy. For this there is a different series of contradictions that historians must try to elucidate.

PEACEFUL AND AGGRESSIVE DEMOCRACY

BEFORE 1914: THE TENTATIVE BEGINNINGS OF DEMOCRATIC DIFFERENTIATION BETWEEN WAR AND PEACE

No, peace is not the prerogative of democracy, and not all authoritarian regimes or dictatorships want war. The First French Republic learnt at its own expense that it was not so easy to export

democracy by force. Certainly, she was invaded, at first, and the war, initially a defensive war, was, for her, a means of freeing her endangered homeland. But she quickly took a liking to war, to help create “Sister Republics” and a European order favourable to France. And so the Republic lost its soul, and to the benefit of a General, Napoléon Bonaparte. During the 19th century, Republicans remembered this lesson. In 1870, with the exception of those who rallied to the regime, they were hostile to the war that Napoléon III and his supporters had undertaken against the German states. Immediately following the defeat of Sedan, the Second Empire collapsed, and the Republic was declared. The Republic had to carry on with the war, but did so as only a defensive war, until defeat came in 1871. At the end of the 19th and beginning of the 20th century, the Republican Right was tempted by “power nationalism”, which spread widely through French society, and through some European societies. within the framework of different political regimes. But as far as France was concerned, the Republic, by undertaking colonial wars, diverted nationalism towards horizons outside of Europe. In the spirit of the time, these conflicts were not considered as real wars; they were simply expeditions of “pacification” and of the “civilisation” of “savage” peoples. The idea of real war, which would take place in Europe over the revenge and recuperation of Alsace-Lorraine – lost after the 1871 defeat –, dwindled in Republican France. Ideas of peace based on the notion of law developed in several circles; Léon Bourgeois was already thinking of a League of Nations. In fact, in 1914, whatever Republican France’s share in the responsibility for the outbreak of war, her attitude was relatively moderate and moderating. On the contrary, the authoritarian Russian regime and the authoritarian or semi-authoritarian Austro-Hungarian and German regimes took the most serious decisions, those that accelerated the spiral. Britain, a liberal, parliamentary monarchy in the process of democratisation, entered into the war rather reluctantly, and the American democracy only committed itself in 1917.

We must therefore make a first distinction. On the one hand, democratic countries did not hesitate to organise military expeditions within the context of their colonialist expansion or of their imperialism,

and given that Germany's William II was embarking on the same path, they were not the only ones doing so. Here, the realist interpretation is valid: there seem to be few differences between the foreign policies of the great nations of the *Belle Epoque*, whatever their political regime. But on the other hand, democratic countries were reluctant to commit themselves to a war between powers. Once wars were declared, they were entered into unenthusiastically, yet with a tranquil determination, as they were certain of the justness of their actions. Recent research shows how important the democratic discourse was for war propaganda between 1914 and 1918, in both France and England. But the liberal interpretation is also valid to a certain extent. Of course, if we adopt the point of view according to which the imperialism of countries now at the "supreme state of capitalism" were the main cause of the Great War, then democratic countries are just as much to blame, if not more, for this general catastrophe. But although imperialist rivalry poisoned international relations until around 1911-1912, it seems to have been relatively subdued after this date, and other causes and other factors led in fact to the outbreak of war. Firstly, rivalry in the Balkans between Russia and Austria-Hungary, two great powers in crisis but to whom imperialism was of secondary importance, and whose capitalism was less developed. And secondly, the system of alliances that each European country, frightened of losing guarantees of security, wanted to respect. This last and fundamental reason brings us back to the realist interpretation of international relations.

*1914-1945: THE SPECIFICITY OF DEMOCRATIC POLITICS,
FROM FAILURE TO VICTORY*

Through the analysis of the causes of the Second World War, liberal theory could begin to take the lead in the debate. No one would deny that differences between political regimes played a fundamental role in the international crises of the 1930s. Japan, dominated by the military, threw itself into an aggressive policy towards China. Fascist Italy invaded Ethiopia. And Nazi Germany carried the supreme responsibility for the outbreak of war in 1939. The democratic

countries, on the contrary, did everything possible to avoid war. From 1919 onwards, they developed the will or the vague desire to establish an international democratic order, guarantor of peace collective security, through the creation of the League of Nations proposed by Wilson, President of the United States. The system failed rather quickly, due to structural weakness and the desertion of America, its principal democracy, despite having been the architect of its creation. In 1928, the French and American democracies, through the Briand-Kellog Pact, took the initiative of declaring war on war, and this pact was signed by around sixty countries of extremely diverse political regimes. With the crisis of the 1930s, democratic countries returned to foreign policies of national egoism. Unable to rely on collective security, which had shown itself to be powerless in the face of Japanese and Italian aggression, they went as far as to wanting to “appease” Hitler. Pacifism thus seems profoundly rooted in democratic society. At the Munich conference of September 1938, France and Britain accepted the dismembering of Czechoslovakia. The British Prime Minister, Neville Chamberlain, thus hoped to satisfy the Führer last request, but failed to realise that politically, this policy of appeasement served to reinforce it, increasingly persuading it of the weakness of democratic regimes, and confirming its desire for military expansion.

According to Churchill, democratic countries had agreed to dishonour themselves to avoid war, resulting in dishonour *and* war, the following year, with Hitler’s decision to invade Poland. Beyond the weaknesses of democratic countries, which were therefore also responsible for the outbreak of generalised war as they failed to stop Hitler earlier, when there was still time. Here, more than prior to 1914, a differentiation of foreign policies between political regimes exists. This differentiation seems to have been confirmed during the Second World War: the solidarity between France and Britain in 1939-1940 was based even more explicitly on democratic values. After the fall of France, Anglo-American solidarity was strengthened by the Charter of the United Nations, defining the aims of democratic war. And the objective of the “United Nations”, the war coalition envisaged

by Franklin Roosevelt, was to create an “Organisation” of peace, basing peace on law and democracy, with the help nevertheless of four or five “policemen” who would have a permanent seat on the Security Council. Idealism no longer precluded a certain dose of realism.

But realist interpretations of international relations have no reason to give up the debate. Whatever the differences between political regimes may be, countries have in fact adjusted their foreign policies according to their national interests. In 1919-1920 the United States did not join the League of Nations, and carried out a policy of force in Central America which was hardly democratic. The French and Belgian democracies did not hesitate to attack the new German democracy, by intervening in the Ruhr in 1923 to obtain effective payment of the war reparations foreseen by the Versailles Treaty. The weakness of the League of Nations, faced with the invasions of Manchuria and Ethiopia, were mainly the responsibility of France and Britain, and their policy of appeasement towards Hitler was presented as a *Realpolitik*. Finally, democratic countries carried out their war against Nazi totalitarianism by forming an alliance with Soviet totalitarianism. Nevertheless, in many ways, these last events constituted a crossroads in the twentieth century. The Second World War marks a fundamental turning point.

AFTER 1945: DEMOCRACIES AND THE MUNICH SYNDROME

In the end, the *Realpolitik* of appeasement of 1938 proved unrealistic, and this was the main lesson learnt by democratic countries after 1945. Precisely, the “reality” of the Nazi regime and of its ideology had been under-estimated by Neville Chamberlain. After 1945, democratic countries, marked by this “Munich syndrome” now refused to believe that the *type* of regime was of no consequence in times of war or peace. In particular, all paralysing pacifism preventing action against aggressive dictatorships must now be rejected to preserve peace. Against the threat of totalitarianism from the USSR, a firm stance was adopted almost immediately. The doctrine of “containment” against the former Soviet ally was quickly elaborated by Truman’s America. American Cold War policy aimed to extend democratic

resistance to Nazi totalitarianism. The main idea was to show the strength of democratic countries, and never again let an image of weakness come across in any way, as had been the case in the 1930s and which had favoured Hitler's intentions. Hence the constant vigilance regarding the USSR. However, this did not mean a vision of democratic idealism, as right-wing dictatorships were maintained and furthered (Franco, Salazar) or even brought to power (Syngman Rhee, Pinochet) with American backing, under the pretext that they were the best defence against communism. The democratic ideal was no longer defended with idealism. A short war, embarked upon in good time, was seen as a better guarantee of peace than a pacifism which threatened to strengthen the *enemies* of peace and democracy, and to finish by setting off a longer, more costly and bloodier war. This Munich syndrome did not always work well, due to poor analysis of the situation, for example against Nasser during the Suez crisis. Israeli then proceeded to carry out preventive war in 1967 with the Six Day War. The advantage was that greater border security was achieved, but the disadvantage was certainly the deterioration of the international image of Israel, from the moment it was no longer a country under threat, but an "occupying" power.

It was impossible to declare open war on the USSR during the first Cold War, from the end of the 1940s to the beginning of the 1960s, nor during the second Cold War, from the 1970s to the 1980s. The risk for the entire planet would have been too great. The method of indirect confrontation, of Cold War was much more effective in the end, even if did not plan for communist regimes to collapse in the way they did. In any case, these regimes collapsed. After the fall of the Berlin Wall and the implosion of the USSR, the Munich syndrome worked with some efficiency against the aggression of Saddam Hussein in Kuwait in 1991 (even before the Soviet regime completely disintegrated), and against Milosevic in 1999. After the terrorist attack on New York's Twin Towers on the 11th of September 2001, preventive democratic war was used against Afghanistan in 2002 and Iraq in 2003. Almost all democratic countries supported these conflicts, with the exception of the last one. We will come back to this point.

We can draw several conclusions from this evolution. There really is a specificity of the foreign policy of democratic countries which became apparent quite early on, even though it was overshadowed by other phenomena. Whether or not they were colonial imperialists, as was the case with other political regimes, the fact is that these democratic countries were states which also put their own national interests first. But during the twentieth century, especially at and following the turning point of the Second World War, democratic values became increasingly internalised, and formed an integral part of the national interests of democratic countries. Hence democratic solidarity, transcending democratic countries themselves, the most obvious examples of which are both Atlanticism and European construction. In practice, it is increasingly difficult to distinguish between realist and liberal visions, as the defence of national interests, of the international balance, and of democracy, increasingly converge. The differences can now be found in the balance of the different concepts. It is significant that the policies of George W. Bush both go back to Wilsonism (spreading democracy throughout the world to build world peace) and completely diverge from it (force taking precedence over law). Other lessons can also be learnt from this. War, which democratic countries did *not* desire during the first half of the twentieth century, has, in a peculiar way, strengthened them. There were more democratic countries in Europe after 1918. After 1945, the spirit of the Resistance against Nazism across the European continent and the spirit of the “people’s war” in Britain pushed democracy to reform, to construct or strengthen the Welfare State and, at best, integrate the masses into its system. The Cold War also stimulated and reinforced democratic countries, pushing them towards constant reform and social and economic modernisation.

Of course, a distinction must be made between democratic countries. Some did not need military conflict or the stimulus of the Cold War to strengthen themselves as democratic regimes, such as Sweden, Switzerland or Austria after 1955, not forgetting post-1945 Finland, a special case. Their foreign policy had been neutrality, and

therefore very different to the foreign policy of the United States, France or Britain. Other democratic countries, although not neutral countries, did *not* develop a policy of democratic strength. The distinction between great, medium and small powers is therefore still valid within democratic countries, as well as between those who attach importance to their political influence in the world, and those that are happy concentrating on their internal well-being. Nevertheless, they all benefit from the victories of democratic countries, however much or little they were involved in the fight. In fact, two points must be emphasised here. Democratic countries have, without exception, won all their wars (including the Cold War) against authoritarian, semi-authoritarian and totalitarian regimes, against all aggressors (on the condition that war was fought against them) and warmongers of genocide. Democracy, whose objective is peace, seems better armed for war. These countries have richness (it is precisely developed countries which have the easiest access to democracy); but this is not the only reason. They are better able to mobilise public opinion, and even their economic resources. It is rather a paradox to see that the liberal state of the United Kingdom was able to organise its war economy quicker and better than the totalitarian state of Nazi Germany.

In this field also, incitement and stimulation are more effective than autocracy. On the other hand, democratic countries have lost wars – yes, they have lost some – that have proved “illegitimate”, precisely on the basis of democratic principles: for example, Indo-China, Algeria, and Vietnam. As far as these conflicts are concerned, there came a time when public opinion did *not* support government action in war. Most certainly, public opinion, seldom interested in foreign policy, except where war is concerned, because in fact the principle strength of democratic countries, through freedom of speech. This propels governments to victory in wars seen as legitimate; and pushes them to get out as best they can – often after a turnaround themselves – when a war is *not* seen to have this legitimacy. The dynamics of democratic countries are defined through their clashes with non-democratic political regimes. Between them, the latter present

several difficulties regarding foreign policy and attitudes towards war and peace.

AGGRESSIVE AND DEFENSIVE DICTATORSHIPS

There are huge differences between authoritarian and dictatorial regimes, and amongst these we must distinguish between those dictatorships which fall within totalitarianism and those which do not. Dictatorships existed before and after those totalitarian regimes which have been features of history, anchored in the twentieth century: the fascist and Nazi forms of totalitarianism, and the Soviet form of totalitarianism. The common features between them are well-known and numerous: the search for integration of the masses, both by repression and by adherence to terror, and by seduction; one single party with one single ideology in power, or ideocracy; a leadership cult; a system of concentration camps and mass murder; huge parades and youth indoctrination; and the certitude that ideology – fascist or communist – will end up dominating the world. But the differences between Nazi and fascist totalitarianism on the one hand, and Soviet totalitarianism on the other, are fundamental, and have not been without influence on international relations.

TOTALITARISM OF THE TWILIGHT OF THE GODS OF WAR AND TOTALITARISM OF THE DAWNS THAT PROMISE PEACE

First of all, these two ideologies are not the same. They come together only in the way they reject liberal democracy and legitimise violence. As far as the other issues are concerned, they are in total opposition. In actual fact, one of the anchors of fascism was indeed, from its very beginnings, communism. Of course, there was the Germano-Soviet Pact of August 1939. But Hitler declared his relief to Mussolini on the 21st of June 1941 on the eve of the invasion of the USSR: he could end this unnatural collaboration between Berlin and Moscow, and achieve one of the objectives of fascism, the end of communism. As far as anti-fascism was concerned, from 1935 to 1939

then from 1941 to the 1960s, it was used as one of the preferred tools of the USSR to rally the largest number of democrats to its cause. Both forms of totalitarianism kill liberty, but equality is denied by fascism and, on the contrary, claimed by communism. In the one case, ideology gives explicit priority to the law of the strongest, the hierarchy of nations, the hierarchy of races in the case of Nazism, the hierarchy around leaders at every level of society, and class collaboration. In the other, emphasis is laid on the search for equality, social justice, the end of exploitation of man by man, the class struggle, and the institution of socialism; then, when a society of abundance is reached, the advent of the “communism” which will witness the disappearance of the class struggle and the wasting away of the State. Fascism openly denounces democracy, whereas Stalinism takes the word at face value and hypocritically proclaims the liberties and rights of man inherent in the 1936 Constitution, which, of course, is never applied. This leads to the two forms of totalitarianism which contradict one another regarding “war and peace”. War lies at the heart of fascist ideology, whereas peace, on the contrary, is necessary for Stalinism, whose violence is expressed differently. It is a violence which lies within the Soviet regime, and thus within communist-imposed regimes, and not a violence imposed on international relations. In fact, quite the opposite. Precisely, Stalin wanted precisely to build “socialism in a single country” in the 1920s and 1930s, was conscious of the balance of power on an international scale, and aware that the kind of global revolution Trotsky hoped for, risked setting off a war which would be fatal for the revolutionaries.

The specificity of Stalinism is prudence in foreign policy, which counterbalances the voluntarism and cruelty used in the programming of internal transformation. Hence Stalin’s cynical game of cat and mouse with the democratic countries and Nazi Germany to escape military conflict in the 1930s. “No” to war, unless it is imposed, as was the case in the end between 1941 and 1945. “Yes” to revolution, on the condition that it does not set off a war which may be lost. This idea of peace is even orchestrated and transformed into ideology during the Cold War through the formation of the peace movement, inspired and dominated by militant communists, whose objective was to give

a negative, warlike image of the American adversary, and which spread in the Europe which had been so devastated by world war. For the fascist totalitarian regimes, war is the judgement of God, which must prove the superiority of the Italian nation or of the German race. But Soviet totalitarianism did not need to prove itself through war. Although it aimed for world domination, the goal still lay far ahead, without the risk of relentless pursuit of the twilight of the gods. The proposed future was supposed to be radiant, more accessible to everyone, peacefully more contagious, more exportable than the fascist future, as it was made of “happiness”, “peace” and “justice” like a beautiful dawn, idyllic and deadly. Communism, even Stalinist communism, is supposed to feed on humanism and faith in progress, notions that fascism rejects. This is why the great alliance between the Anglo-Americans and the Soviets, certainly furthered by the German invasion itself, became feasible. This is also why, after the break-up of this alliance in 1947, the struggle of democratic countries against the USSR was *not* open war. The balance of nuclear terror cannot explain everything. Neither they nor the Soviets wanted a war they could not integrate into their respective ideals, unlike fascist totalitarianism. The two camps wanted victory by means other than war. One of the two camps lost its wager.

*OTHER DICTATORSHIPS OR AUTHORITARIAN REGIMES:
PRUDENCE AND DEFENCE OF FOREIGN POLICIES*

The more traditional dictatorships are different from totalitarian regimes, even if here or there they copy certain methods (certain rituals relating to mass indoctrination). They do not necessarily want to create a “new mankind” and, by this, do not assign themselves to a regional or global mission. Their ambition is not to export their model, but to solve their internal problems. They therefore need external peace, or not to become involved in a world war. This was the case with Salazar in Portugal, who did not refute the traditional links between his country and Britain. Franco, tempted for a while after the fall of France to ask Hitler for compensation from Morocco, understood very quickly that

he would obtain nothing at all, and fell back on a careful policy which became even benevolent towards the Anglo-Americans from 1942 onwards. The Vichy regime collaborated with the German occupiers, but on the condition that it would not be drawn into the war, which in fact Hitler did not wish for either. The Latin American governments committed themselves at different moments to the war against the Axis powers and the Empire of the Rising Sun. Argentina, whether led by Castillo, Ramirez or the Farrell-Peron team, refused to break diplomatic and economic relations with Germany and Japan. But at the last minute, on the 27th of March 1945, it declared war on both countries in order to be part of the future United Nations Organisation. Dictatorships or authoritarian regimes lacking foreign ambition should remain in the concert of nations and thus not perturb the international order. The exceptions confirm the rule: when these regimes take this risk, they lose out. Galtieri's takeover in the Falkland Islands (Malvinas) in 1982, that he considered legal, was considered as an attack on international law by the majority of the international community. His defeat by Margaret Thatcher's Britain played a large part in the fall of the Argentine dictator. The invasion of Kuwait by Saddam Hussein's Iraq in 1990 was annulled by the Gulf War of 1991. It was only the second war against Iraq in 2003 which put an end to the dictatorship of the person threatening to undermine the international order. On the other hand, the blows struck to the European order by Milosevic led to the war in Kosovo, which he lost in 1999, and his defeat quickly led to his demise.

NATIONAL DEMOCRACIES HAVE DIFFICULTY ESTABLISHING AN INTERNATIONAL DEMOCRACY

DEMOCRATIC COUNTRIES TREAT DICTATORSHIPS DIFFERENTLY

For a long time, democratic countries did not fight against dictatorships themselves. They even used them, when their national interests seemed to demand it. During the twentieth century, they attacked only those who disturbed regional or global order, and thus

international peace. This was obviously in accordance with their visions of the world and of their own interests as victors after the two world wars and the Cold War. But we must not restrict ourselves to this narrow “realist” interpretation of events. There is more to think about. Since the Munich syndrome, what is considered as a perturbation of international peace, is not only a change in relation to a situation of *status quo*, but also an attack which, if it remains unpunished, risks provoking an undemocratic regional or global order from which we could only escape at the cost of a longer and more expensive war. We can therefore say that in the twentieth century, an international democratic logic *has* been established, transcending the interests of each democratic country.

Nor are the reactions to aggression from dictatorships the same. They are proportionate to the dictatorial initiatives. The reaction to the Nazi aggression towards Poland in 1939 or to the Japanese attack on Pearl Harbour in December 1941, was in both cases open war, which in fact took some time to take effect, and be efficient and victorious. The reaction to non-war threats by the USSR between 1946 and 1948, was not open war but Cold War: the containment of Soviet expansion through an ideological war, with the addition of an economic weapon – America had the financial means of a Marshall Plan which the Soviets did not – to preserve Western Europe, through growth, from despair, starvation and chaos, all of which would favour communist success. In Asia, the Cold War experienced open wars, notably the Korean War, involving direct American military intervention, endorsed by the UNO – which condemned the North Korean attack on South Korea – but this case did not degenerate into total war, because there was no direct intervention on the part of the Soviets. The USSR also reacted with proportionate means. It knew when to turn back in the face of the firmness of Western democracies, whether in Berlin in 1949 or Cuba in 1962. The *détente* of the 1960s came to an end with the renewal of a certain aggression on the part of the Soviets at the end of the 1970s, this time involving direct military intervention by the USSR in Afghanistan and the installing of

Euromissiles in Europe. Once again, the West did not react with open war, but with the strategy of Cold War, which again featured the firmness of democracies and the use of economic and ideological weapons. This time with greater efficiency, as the United States had wiped some of its slate clean after its departure from Vietnam, whilst the image of direct aggression on the part of the USSR in Afghanistan was added to the accumulation of negative images of Soviet tanks in Budapest in 1956 and in Prague in 1968. In addition, the arms race was renewed, to such an extent that the USSR's economy was soon exhausted. In short, the strategy of the Cold War really was the continuation of a policy of reaction by means other than open war, to the benefit of democratic countries. It is really an illusion to try to decide if we ought to consider the USSR as a state like any other in international relations, or if we ought to take into account its communist specificity. Both perceptions are certainly necessary: it is a state like any other, whose rationality was based on national interest and geopolitical considerations of security and power, to the extent that it placed its ideological ambitions of communist victory in a long term future (unlike Nazi totalitarianism). But because these ambitions existed, and because communist ideology could distort its perceptions, it is impossible to ignore the link between communism and Soviet foreign policy.

At the time of the final crisis of the USSR, the Iraqi attack against Kuwait was a provocation against the international democratic order. It provoked open military intervention, supervised by democratic countries. In fact, it was easier to take action against Saddam Hussein's Iraq which did not have the strength of the former Soviet Union, or of the present Russia, which acted almost freely in its repressive war in Chechnya. Here, it was a case of direct and external aggression against an internationally recognised state (Kuwait), and the UNO readily supported the anti-Iraqi coalition. Again, we can identify the rules of the game: it is the capacity for *external* pollution of dictatorships that democracies seek to eliminate, and not their capacity for internal pollution.

TURNING POINT: THE WARS IN YUGOSLAVIA

With the Yugoslav wars, especially the Bosnian war of 1992-1995 and the war in Kosovo in 1999, an important turning point was initiated. These wars were not only a counter-attack on the part of democratic countries to external aggression, they also called on democratic intervention. This is a new phenomenon. The mediatisation of the massacres helped render public opinion in those democracies more sensitive towards questions of human and humanitarian rights. The international order was no longer felt as merely a necessity of mechanical balance, but as an organic balance which internalises democratic values. Furthermore, the necessity of intervention appears, though we no longer know if it reacts to external or internal aggression, as precisely, this necessity situates itself in a Yugoslavia which was in the process of total disintegration. In 1994-1995, NATO, the armed wing of democracies, helped the Muslims of Bosnia and their Croatian allies against the Serbs of this same Bosnia. In 1999, the bombardments by NATO and its allies against the Serbs of Serbia took place to put a stop to the schemes of Milosevic in Kosovo, which was officially part of this same Serbia. These interventions had the advantage of putting an end to the ethnic massacres and threats of nationalist and belligerous contagion in this part of Europe. And as far as the attack against America of the 11th of September 2001 is concerned, it was difficult to identify the territorial origin immediately. When it became obvious that the Afghanistan of the Talibans held some responsibility for protecting Al Quaida, Bin Laden, and the originators of the attack, war was declared by the United States in 2002, with the support of democratic countries and the UNO. In all these recent conflicts, either the UNO legitimised the action as it was taking place (as in the war against Iraq in 1991, or against the Talibans of Afghanistan in 2002), or, divided and powerless, it only legitimised it afterwards (Bosnia and Kosovo), taking much of the responsibility in the reconstruction and the stabilisation of the post-war situation. This *a posteriori* legitimisation was facilitated by the fact that the democratic countries stuck together and were unanimous.

The war in Iraq in 2003, essentially the result of American unilateralism with which the British collaborated, is a different case. Democratic countries were no longer unanimous in accepting this war, and the legitimisation by the UNO was not achieved. It is still too early today to say whether the unanimity of democratic countries will be repeated within the context of post-Saddam Hussein Iraq, or whether the UNO will have a role to play in Iraq's reconstruction. But it is already easy to conclude that the democratic countries are finding it difficult to install an international democracy, whereas they believed it would come easily after the disintegration of the Soviet Union, and thus the end of the anti-democratic superpower.

*THE CONTRADICTION BETWEEN NATIONAL DEMOCRACIES
AND INTERNATIONAL DEMOCRACY*

There are in fact several difficult contradictions to deal with. Democratic countries have evolved since 1991, but communist China still has its right of veto, as does Russia which, although having left communism, does not necessarily agree with the Western democracies. These same democracies also have their own contradictions. Democracy expresses itself best within national space, and is precisely possible because nations involved stick together and are coherent enough for the minority to accept being governed by the majority, knowing in fact that democratic alternation may one day give them the majority. On the other hand, it expresses itself with greater difficulty within international space, not only because all the member states of the international community are not democracies, but because the democratic countries themselves defend national democratic sovereignties that they do not necessarily want to abandon to the benefit of international democracy. The UNO reflects all these contradictions. The result is a dilemma for democratic countries: either they look for international democratic legitimacy through the UNO, but their action risks being blocked within this divided and powerless authority; or they bypass the UNO, and their intervention risks losing its international legitimacy. From this point of view, something quasi

miraculous happens to the UNO: despite its structural weaknesses, it appears as a necessary authority of legitimisation. This proves that a very strong need for international democracy *does* exist, which in the long term even the top global power will have difficulty doing without. The end of the contradiction between national democracies and international democracy probably requires a reform of the UNO, and of the right of veto.

Three brief conclusions can be made. First of all, the international reality is too complex to fall into a single grid of interpretation. As we have seen, those who carry out foreign policy have visions which are both realist theories and theories which emphasise the influence of ideology, including liberal theories. Historians may add that it is necessary to integrate other explanation schemes: in particular the “constructivist” interpretation, according to which all reality is constructed or reconstructed by its actors, and that international relations are also the product of perceptions, right or wrong, of the reality, by decision-makers. The result is that the foreign policy of states concerns both national interest, or considerations which have no relation to their institutions, as well as factors which are completely inherent to their political regime. Secondly, it is obvious that an international democratic logic has been taking shape and been reinforced during the twentieth century. Democracies have gone to war against authoritarian regimes, totalitarian regimes, and dictatorships, or, for national and imperialist motives, against developing and undemocratic countries. This statement seems to support the realist theory of international relations, where a balance of power is necessary, rather than relations based on law. Yet democratic countries have never gone to war against each other (the military intervention in the Ruhr in 1923 was an exception, in that France did not then choose to see in the Weimar Republic a democracy, preferring to see the face of an eternal Germany). This statement supports the liberal theory. Already, Kant, in his project for *Perpetual Peace* in 1795, predicted the end of war with the generalisation of republican regimes, which would be the victory of law against the arbitrary, and that law could overcome force, even in the international sphere. More recently, Fukuyama

developed the same idea, attempting to predict the end of history through the victory of democracies.

The third conclusion is precisely that the victory of democracies does *not* automatically lead to international democracy or to the end of history. To make the transition to this international democracy easier, it is not enough to reflect on the relationships between national political regimes and foreign policies; we must begin to conceive of a competent political regime which would devote itself to the international community, and to the organisations which represent it.

PART TWO

FOREIGN POLICY AND POLITICAL REGIME:

COMPARATIVE VIEWS AND DIVERSITY
OF THE EXPERIENCES

FASCISM, FASCIST REGIMES AND FOREIGN POLICIES

Didier Musiedlak

The first question before us is the definition of a fascist identity that would make it possible to specify its foreign policy. This approach implies the existence of fascism as a phenomenon with characteristics perceptible in space and time. It also implies a certain type of concrete experience of an objective political regime. One should not examine here the theoretical aspects of generic fascism, which would mean voiding it of all national substance. From this point of view one should not also accept the idea that fascism is a phenomenon composed merely of its ideological contents, from which it would be possible to extract a presumably pure essence.¹

In consequence, it is convenient to limit ourselves to the most important characteristics, that contemporary historians have traced in order to better individualize this phenomenon. It is already accepted that fascism was a product of the crisis resulting from the First World War, although factors preceding the conflict have contributed to its birth. In fact it was a new form of “revolutionary nationalism” (E. Gentile) developed in Europe between the two world wars. This revolutionary character is related to the importance of social mobilization that affects particularly the open conflict of middle classes with the existing establishment. The phenomenon starts with a movement that creates a mass party under the guidance of a charismatic leader. The new party has a special culture, rituals, a liturgy dedicated

¹ S.G. Payne, *A History of Fascism 1914-1945*, Madison, Wisconsin, 1995; Juan J. Linz, *Totalitarian and Authoritarian Regimes*, Boulder, Lynne Rienner Publishers, 2000; R. De Felice, *Il Fascismo: Le Interpretazioni dei Contemporanei e degli Storici*, preface of G. Sabbatucci, Bari, Laterza, 1998; E. Gentile, *Fascismo: Storia e Interpretazione*, Bari, Laterza, 2002.

to the national honor. The second stage is the conquest of power, with the transformation of the movement in a partisan State governed by a dictatorship resorting to mass repression. Mobilization of the people and politization of civil society are the chief characteristic of the new regime, having as a corollary the clearly stated will to create a new man. Under this totalitarian dimension, the phenomenon could be taken as the way of authoritative regimes making use of mass mobilization.

Therefore the present study concentrates on revolutionary fascism, and in order to better illustrate its peculiar innovations it focuses the Italian and the German experiences. As a matter of fact these two nations have lived a domestic project aiming at the creation of a new ruling class devoted to the regeneration of the country. From this perspective, it is interesting to show the external emanations of these policies and measure the degree of synchronization between domestic and external objectives.

THE MAKING OF FOREIGN POLICY

The central question of political decision in the field of foreign policy shows important aspects of the strategy of institutional subversion used by fascism.²

Upon their conquest of power, both Mussolini and Hitler had to adjust themselves to the existing institutions. The two dictators felt that they had conducted a *Legal Revolution*. This concept, which was not clearly perceived by their contemporaries, or later by historians, meant simply that the revolution should be made within the institutional framework that already existed, without any apparent rupture, although in both cases these frameworks were liable to be changed.

² On this question see E. Gentile, *La Via Italiana al Totalitarismo: Il Partito e lo Stato nel Regime Fascista*, Roma, Nis, 1995; D. Musiedlak, *Lo Stato Fascista e la sua Classe Politica 1922-1943*, Bologna, Il Mulino, 2003; M. Broszat, *Der Staat Hitlers: Grundlegung und Entwicklung seiner Inneren Verfassung*, München, 1989; K. D. Bracher, M. Funke, H.H. Jacobsen, *Deutschland 1933-1945: Neue Studien zur Nationalsozialistischen Herrschaft*, Bonn, Droste, 1992.

Italy's constitution was the original one from Piemonte; dated of 1848, as the 1861 "Unity Constitution" it was extended to the whole country. Italy was a liberal monarchy with two Chambers of representatives: the High Chamber, or Senate, with members nominated for life, and a second Chamber which only after 1912 was composed by universal suffrage. In theory King Vittorio Emanuele III had very extended powers, but since the beginning of the century he had renounced many of his prerogatives in favor of the Minister who occupied the Presidency of the Council.

In the case of Germany, the Weimar Republic founded in 1918 was based on a negotiated agreement. The Constituents had chosen a strong Executive to avoid the risks of revolution and separatism. The President of the Republic was elected by universal suffrage and, according to Article 48 of the Constitution, had full powers to act in case of serious troubles. Legislative Power was assumed jointly by the *Reichsrat* (the assembly of German States) and the *Reichstag* (elected under universal suffrage, which after the war was extended to both sexes). The two constitutions were susceptible to possible authoritarian derivations. According to the *Statuto*, the Italian Constitution could be changed by a simple law. Considered as just an ordinary law, it was subject to revision without any special procedure. This malleability had made possible the unification of the country without any difficulty, but it presented serious dangers in the hypothesis of too strong an Executive Power.

The strength of Mussolini was precisely his understanding that being the master of the Executive made it possible for him to change institutions, provided that the image of a certain continuity could be maintained. The way to proceed was clear: the upkeep of the monarchy as well as the conditions of access to power dictated the spirit of his program of conquests that had to be gradual, so as to respect the feelings of the old liberal elite.

In Germany, the Weimar constitution was marked by the Prussian syndrome of authority (*Obrigkeits*). In fact, however, all depended on the President's attitude vis à vis the respect of existing institutions. The 1925 election of Hindenburg, after the death of

Friedrich Ebert, was the first authoritarian inflexion. The political crisis opened with the great depression increased the pace of this evolution. Nominated President of the Council by King Vittorio Emanuele, in November-December 1922, Mussolini received full powers from both Chambers. Hitler was made Chancellor on January 30th. 1933, in a perfectly legal manner. In this context, the only way opened was a regime of cooperation between the new and the old elites. In Germany, the system was regulated by the duality: Party bureaucracy (*Parteibürokratie*) and State bureaucracy (*Staatsbürokratie*).³ The complexity of the system was in part solved by the personalization of the two hierarchies: Hitler was the Führer and the Chancellor of the Reich; Herman Göring, the Minister President of Prussia and Delegate in charge of the four-year plan. However, in practical terms the regime could not work without the old elite.⁴ In Italy, this mechanism of double administration was also outlined. According to a 1925 law Mussolini was the Duce del Fascismo and Capo del Governo; since the 1930's the PNF Secretary had the status of Minister.

The next step was undoubtedly the most difficult. After neutralizing the old elite, during this period of active cooperation, the system should lead to a more radical second phase characterized by the emergence of a new partisan elite and the eradication of the traditional elite.⁵ However, notwithstanding the efforts to that effect, the second phase remained incomplete.

Within this structure the State was subjected to a "continued revolution". Since the *Machtergreifung*, the Weimar Constitution was mutilated (with the suppression of the Reichsrat), but not entirely suppressed. The Italian constitution remained untouched. This apparent lack of mobility in the two countries hid in fact a practice of subversion

³ W. Zapf, "Die Verwalter der Macht : Materialien zum Sozialprofil der Höheren Beamtenschaft", in ders (Hrsg), *Beiträge zur Analyse der Deutschen Oberschicht*, Piper Verlag, München, 1965, p.78.

⁴ H. Mommsen, *Beamtentum im Dritten Reich*, Deutsche Verlags-Anstalt GMBH, Stuttgart, 1966, p. 14.

⁵ M. Kater, *The Nazi Party : A Social Profile of Members and Leaders, 1919-1945*, Blackwell, Oxford, 1983, p. 238.

more dangerous because it was not so visible. In his 1941 book *The Dual State* E. Fraenkel had defined it in large lines. The task implied the gradual transformation of the political class in the context of “the normative State”, operating within the *double State* under a dictatorship.⁶ Behind the façade of the traditional State a new partisan State was formed, to act as a phagocytizer of the old structure. Diplomacy was not outside this process. The tactics used by the two regimes was the enfeeblement of both of Palazzo Chigi and Wilhelmstrasse, to guarantee in due time their full conformity.⁷

For a long time the Italian diplomatic institution had depended on the Savoie monarchy. During the Giolitti period (1901-1914) the Presidency of the Council had begun to obtain some degree of autonomy, but the strength of the Minister of Foreign Affairs remained intact. Diplomacy, as well as the army, remained generally an attribute of the old aristocratic elite.

In this respect Germany presented a similar profile, with the maintenance at Wilhelmstrasse of the structures inherited from the Empire. Versailles was debited to the politicians, and not to the diplomats. Before Hitler assumed power, the diplomats at Wilhelmstrasse, including von Neurath, the Minister of Foreign Affairs, had felt how the burden of political responsibility related to the Versailles Treaty was an irretrievable damage. The Weimar Republic had failed also in its attempt to integrate the military, despite the efforts of Groener in the beginning of the years 1920 to promote a pacifist revisionism with the Western powers. Hitler benefited therefore from a favourable conjuncture in the old elite, due to the repulsion it felt for the Weimar Republic. The Führer accepted without difficulty the

⁶ According to E. Fraenkel, the Totalitarian State is characterized by its duplicity. He distinguishes the “Prerogative State”, defined by resorting to violence and arbitrariness from the “Normative State” that obeys administrative rules and insures the execution and the legal cover of operations. Cf. E. Fraenkel, *The Dual State: A Contribution to the Theory of Dictatorship*, Octagon Books, New York (copyright 1941), reprinted 1939, p. 13. On the pertinence of Fraenkel analyses of Italian fascism see P. Pombeni, *Demagogia e Tirannide: Uno Studio sulla Forma-partito del Fascismo*, Bologna, Il Mulino, 1984, p. 447-9.

⁷ A. A. Kallis, *Fascist Ideology: Territory and Expansionism in Italy and Germany, 1922-1945*, London, Routledge, 2000, p. 61.

maintenance of von Neurath, imposed by Hindenburg. Until his death, in 1934, the old Marshall had full powers in the field of foreign affairs as well as in military matters.

In both cases this phase of cooperation with the old elite coincided with a gradual policy aiming at the consolidation of the personal power of the two dictators. For Mussolini this happened with the law of December 25, 1925 regulating the functions of the head of government, *Capo del governo*, key of the strong state. Before that Mussolini was Minister of Foreign Affairs *ad interim*, situation that continued until June 17th. 1924, when he took charge officially of the Ministry, until 1929. The law regulating the functions of *Capo del Governo* allowed him to surmount the resistance opposed by the *Carrière*. In January 1926 Il Duce succeeded in increasing his competence accumulating the functions of Prime Minister, Minister of Foreign Affairs, Minister of War, Minister of the Navy and of the Air Force. Reinforced in his position, he could dispense the services of Salvatore Contarini, who until that date was Secretary General and Director General of the Ministry of Foreign Relations (December 31 1919 – April 6 1926).⁸ After some time the post of Secretary General was officially discontinued (August 25 1932). But Mussolini's offensive did not stop there. The diplomatic and consular career was reformed (June 2 1927), and its personnel renewed. Furthermore, to counterbalance the King's authority over the army, in June 6 1925 Mussolini created the post of Head of the Army General Staff. The access to the function of High Command was completed on the 6th of February 1927. The last important institutional offensive in this field happened later, when Mussolini received the title of Marshall of the Empire (March 30, 1938), a measure that could not escape anybody's attention. It represented another abatement of the monarchical authority, and allowed Mussolini to fulfil his deficit of legitimacy, comparatively to Adolf Hitler, who on the 4th. February 1938 was

⁸ Salvatore Contarini had entered the PNF on March 3rd. 1926. According to Raffaele Guariglia, during this period all the members of Italian diplomacy were subjected to the Party. See R. Guariglia, *Ricordi 1922-1946*, Napoli, Edizioni Scientifiche Italiane, 1949, p. 53.

made Commander of all the Armed Forces of the Reich.⁹ The process of “domestication” of the old ruling class had started in the beginning of the 1930’s, and the Duce could now act as the lord of the state, counting with the support of the army, in the context of his respect for a certain autonomy of the military.¹⁰

In Germany, the entente with the old bureaucracy was maintained at least until 1938, as a façade. The mistrust expressed by Hitler was close to contempt, and in private he would say that the *Auswärtiges Amt* was nothing but “an accumulation of debris of intelligence”.¹¹ The progressive acceptance of a radical revisionism by the representatives of the old German elite, as von Neurath (in diplomacy) and von Blomberg, was the cement of this acceptance. However, despite this agreement in principle, Hitler tried to consolidate his personal position in the centre of the Constitution of the *Führerstaat* developed after the death of Hindenburg in August 1934. In this way he was able to assimilate all the prerogatives of the presidential function.

The reinforcement of Hitler’s personal position assumed the form of an authentic constellation of “parallel organs”. Since the beginning Hitler stimulated the creation of new structures within the nazi party, like the *Aussenpolitisches Amt*, led by Alfred Rosenberg who became in a way the nazi expert in matters of foreign policy. To strengthen ties between the party and German expatriates, the creation of the *Auslandsorganisation* (AO) had the effect of doubling institutional diplomacy. This organization was the equivalent of the Italian *fasci all’ Estero*, whose secretary (Giuseppe Bastianini) until 1926 was a member of the Fascist Grand Council. In the beginning of the 1930’s the *Fasci all’Estero* were inserted into the Ministry of Foreign

⁹ On Mussolini’s power deficit in his interventions in military matters, due to the Germans, see H. von Kotze, *Heeresadjutant bei Hitler 1938-1943: Aufzeichnungen des Majors Engel*, DVA, Stuttgart, 1974, p. 98.

¹⁰ McGregor Knox, *Mussolini Unleashed, 1939-1941 : Politics and Strategy in Fascist Italy’s Last War*, Cambridge University Press, 1982, p. 15.

¹¹ K. Hildebrand, *Das Vergangene Reich: Deutsche Aussenpolitik von Bismarck bis Hitler*, DVA, Stuttgart, 1995, p. 583.

Affairs, the *Affari Esteri* (*Direzione Generale Italiani all'Estero e Scuole*).¹² Like Mussolini, Hitler chose to use a personal diplomacy, with his own emissaries: von Papen in Austria, Göring for relations with Italy, Spain and the nazi party of Dantzig, later Ribbentrop for relations with London and the Sudeten party.

The proliferation of competing agencies made it possible for Hitler to dilute the traditional diplomatic institutions, increasing at the same time his own authority, as he assumed the position of arbiter in institutional conflicts. The von Neurath opposition to the nomination of Ribbentrop as Secretary of State at the Ministry of Foreign Affairs, in 1937, the hostility of Goebbels towards Ribbentrop with respect of the information arriving from other countries are illustrations of these tensions that disturbed the conduction of German diplomacy. The understanding between the army and the nazi authorities was maintained until 1937, based on the common attitude of revisionism. Hitler had accepted the purge of the SA, and the real competition occurred later on, with the SS.

The last phase was characterized by the imposition of conformity to diplomacy and the army during the 1938 crisis, when revisionism led to war. On the 5th. February 1938 Ribbentrop took the place of Neurath, Blomberg was substituted by Werner von Brauchitsch as the new Commander in Chief of the armed forces, and Wilhelm Keitel foi made the chief of a new organization within Wehrmacht (OKW).¹³

Thus, gradually Mussolini and Hitler succeeded in appropriating the decision making process in foreign policy, increasing their personal participation in such decicions at the cost of the traditional State structures.

The second factor related to the identity of the fascist regime is associated with the ideological manipulation of the power policy desired by the two regimes.

¹² E. Franzina, M. Sanfilippo, *Il Fascismo e gli Emigrati: La Parabola dei Fasci Italiani all'Estero (1920-1943)*, Bari, Laterza, 2003, p. 3.

¹³ On the consequences of the crisis Blomberg-Fritsch, in January-February 1938, and its effects on the external and internal consolidation of Hitler's position, see K. Hildebrand, *Das Vergangene Reich*, *op. cit.*, p. 644-5.

IDEOLOGY AND VALUES

Fascist and nazi thinking did not exhibit a spirit of system that could be compared with those of Marx or Hegel. More than an ideology *stricto sensu*, it proposed a certain relationship with the world. Facing the rational universe of bourgeoisie, fascist thinking preached the brutal force of being, glorified of the power of élan vital, the triumph of the body and energy. Mussolini thought that the whole culture was included in the same life cycle that gave it a meaning. According to Georges Mehlis, a German who had lived in Italy in the 1920's, this was the essence of fascism. Mussolini and his doctrine were related to the greatest cultural phenomenon of modern times (*Kulturerscheinung der Gegenwart*).¹⁴ Beyond the differences between the two concepts there was the same principle: life, the source of everything, existed in the interior of a culture defined as a living organism. To resort to the formulation used by Spengler in his *Decline of the West*, cultured man receives his energy from his own interior, whereas civilized man does it from the exterior.¹⁵ Therefore imperialism was associated to aggressiveness, understood as a natural aspect of Western man. As Mussolini himself expressed it to the Italian Senate on the 28th. May 1926, "every living being must have an imperialist nature" and in this context the imperialism of the Italian people was a normal phenomenon, appropriate to a power such as Italy. An analogous proposition was advanced by Adolf Hitler in a speech made in Erlangen on November 13th. 1930: "All beings tend to expand, and every people tends to rule the world".¹⁶ Related to the cycle of life, the world of culture was also exposed to decay. For Nietzsche this was a phenomenon entirely natural, and consequently unavoidable. The famous formula extracted from the fragment dated of Spring 1888 stated: "Man makes no progress".

¹⁴ G. Mehlis, *Die Idee Mussolinis und der Sinn des Faschismus*, Leipzig, Verlag E. Haberland, 1928, p. 16. This book had been translated into Italian in 1930.

¹⁵ D. Pelken, *Oswald Spengler: Konservativer Denker zwischen Kaiserreich und Diktatur*, München, Verlag Beck, 1988, p. 51.

¹⁶ K. Hildebrand, *Das Vergangene Reich*, op. cit., p. 574.

In this way the imperialist nature of Man led naturally to the imperialism of peoples. The notion of territorial conquest was therefore one key element to understand the nature of fascist politics, and at the same time an instrument to work on the regeneration of man.

Fascist and nazi imperialisms had a different stand on many points, although a central element of both conceptions was the reconstitution of empire. In the case of Italy, this imperialism would manifest itself in the Mediterranean area. To Hitler, since the beginning the will to expand was implied in his concept of race and space.¹⁷ The themes of Hitler policies had been developed since 1925/6 in *Mein Kampf*, and later in the unpublished *Second Book (Zweites Buch)*, written in 1928. The main idea is quite simple: Germany could only exist as a major power. The notion of a vast autarchic space had been proposed by Ludendorff in 1918 but the new fact was its basis on a racial dogma, what signified a clear rupture with the Kaiser imperialism. The policy of conquest of “vital room” was compared to the struggle of the Aryans to survive over their enemies, particularly the jews, considered the main antagonists (*Hauptfeind*). As agents of modernity and bearers of universal modernity, jews were presented as destroyers of the *Kultur*, understood in the ethnological sense. Only the formation of a racial empire, beginning with the organization of this “vital space”, could guarantee the future of the Aryan race. Such a policy led initially to the purification of the national community, cleaning it of their domestic enemies (jews, communists, democrats), but the complete reconstruction of Aryan power implied also the total destruction of the enemy, once the vital space was liberated. According to one of Hitler’s sayings, heard in his hearquarters, his intention was to strike Europe in order to produce “a considerable torrent of blood” (K. Hildebrand). Soon after his ascent to power, on February 3rd. 1933, Hitler mentioned clearly to the representatives of the army that his chief option was the “*Lebensraum-Politik*”.

¹⁷ On the racial dogma and its implications see K. Hildebrand, *Deutsche Aussenpolitik 1933-1945: Kalkül oder Dogma?*, Stuttgart, Kohlhammer, 1990, p. 138.; H. Gramml, *Rassismus und Lebensraum: Völkermord im Zweiten Weltkrieg*, In: K. D. Bracher, M. Funke, H. A. Jacobsen, *Deutschland 1933-1945*, *op. cit.*, p. 440-51.

In the spirit of Mussolini the formation of the empire was equally a means to conjure decadence, but such restauration was not understood in a racial sense. Since the end of the 1920's Mussolini had been seduced by the ideas of Spengler on the demographic weakness of the West. Spengler's conception of race, giving precedence to culture, supported his own views.¹⁸ According to the very words used by Spengler in *Jahre der Entscheidung* (August 1933), race was, to begin with, an ethos without any relation to the conceptions prevailing at the time. Like Spengler, and differently from the nazis, Mussolini thought that it was impossible to go back and find an unity of race in the biological sense, due to the mixing of populations. However, more affirmatively than Spengler, he believed that it was possible to change the individual according to the fascist conception. Since 1928 G. Mehlis had perceived that this reflexion on people and race was one of the more important factors of the fascist ethics and its system of values, stressing at the same time the inovative character of this dictatorship.¹⁹ To preserve the cultural identity of Western man such operation could only be accepted at the scale of the "white race". Mussolini avoided thus the ethnic and racial conceptions of the nazis, rejected by Spengler.²⁰ Race was perceived in a voluntarist perspective, that valued the spiritual dimension in an European context. Along these lines, Italy, with her model of a "new Man", was showing the way to the other Western peoples. The experience of fascist regeneration presented to the Western peoples the possibility not only of guaranteeing their survival but to transcend themselves. Mussolini was particularly interested in the passages about the White Revolution that made up the second theme of *Years of the Decision* (*Jahre der Entscheidung*) and the effective field of the struggle. The subject was the "vertical" combat on behalf of the "white layers", the most qualified of each nation,

¹⁸ R. de Felice, *Mussolini il Duce: Gli Anni del Consenso, 1929-1936*, Torino, Einaudi, 1974, p. 38.

¹⁹ G. Mehlis, *Die Idee Mussolinis*, op. cit., p. 83-4.

²⁰ On this point see the conclusions of G. Mosse. In: *L'Uomo e le Masse nelle Ideologie Nazionaliste*, Bari, Laterza, 1988, p. 245. However, this author refused De Felice's point of view that Fascism was a prolongation of Illuminist philosophy.

against the inferior elements. In an article published by the newspaper *Il Popolo d'Italia* (15th December 1933), Mussolini proclaimed a genuine mobilization in favor of the white race, whose existence was seen as endangered. As Mussolini confided to Ciano, revolution should “influence the customs of the Italians” so that in the long term they could become “masters”.²¹ The work of Spengler supported also the personal options of Mussolini in racial policy. Today, Mussolini’s racism can not be ignored, although at least until September 1938 the jews had an low standing in the hierarchy of his enemies.

With such values, in the theoretical level war remained at the center of this structure, both from an internal and external perspective, with precedence given to the figure of the enemy. War was one of the elements of the campaign for the regeneration of the New Man. Since the mid-1930’s it was seen as the decisive concept. In 1935 Eric Ludendorff publishes *The Total War (Der Totale Krieg)*, München, 1935). Two years later, Karl Schmitt synthetizes the idea of total war in his essay “*Total Enemy, Total War, Total State*” (1937).

In Italy as in Germany, these ideological conceptions were applied gradually in order to promote the respective empires.

THE ESTABLISHMENT OF A FASCIST POLICY

The foreign policy of the two countries responded to several inflexions in function of the degree of ideological cohesion presented by the two regimes. From this angle one might say that this succession of changes has been more pronounced in fascist Italy than in nazi Germany. Notwithstanding these differences, it is possible to distinguish different phases in the evolution of the foreign policy of the two countries.

The first phase corresponds to the internal consolidation of the two dictatorships and the deformation of the instruments governing external policy. For Italy, this phase of consolidation is often described

²¹ G. Ciano, *Journal Politique, 1937-1938*, Paris: Les Editions de Paris, 1949, p. 219, July 10th. 1938.

as one of “good behaviour”.²² The country moves essentially within a general context sufficiently close to traditional diplomacy: the League of Nations and the alliance between France and England. On the 27th November 1922 Mussolini disclosed his general philosophy. These policies did not exclude imperialism, but gave it a reasoned substance that did not forbid the use of force. Such preservation of the national interest was based on a dialog with the Western powers. Within this spirit, Mussolini contributed to the détente signing the Locarno Pact (December 1925) and the Briand Kellogg Pact (August 1928) on the renunciation of the use of force. This phase is marked equally by a rapprochement with England, to a large extent facilitated by the personal relations of Austen Chamberlain (British Minister of Foreign Affairs 1924-9), Winston Churchill and the Duce. The consequence was the image of responsible statesman that Mussolini succeeded in projecting in Europe during this period.

However, this position did not correspond fully to the Italian political situation. The occupation of Corfu, in 1923, after the killing of the Italian delegates of SDN, did not count with a previous consultation between Mussolini and Salvatore Contarini. But international public opinion saw it as a simple incident, and not as the sign of a new policy, although there were several facts pointing to this. In March 1925, Mussolini decided to take over Albania. Since 1924 the Duce had prepared an attack on Turkey,²³ but the consequences of the Matteotti affair and the mobilization called for by K. Atatürk made him interrupt the military preparations in Naples bay. The fact is that in the 1920's Italy had not renounced her imperialist intentions, but the infiltration policy remained peaceful, respecting the agreements with Roumania, Greece and Hungary, and particularly the position of the diplomatic “old guard” that refused to cooperate with such

²² On the foreign policy of Italy see E. Di Nolfo, *Mussolini e la Politica Estera Italiana 1919-1933*, Padova, Cedam, 196; E. Aga-Rossi, *La Politica Estera e l'Impero*, In: *Storia d'Italia* (G. Sabbatucci and V. Vidotto) *Guerre e Fascismo*, 4, Bari, Laterza, 1997, p. 245-303 ; R.J.B. Bosworth, S. Romano, *La Politica Estera Italiana 1860-1985*, Bologna, Il Mulino, 1991.

²³ A. Kallis, *Territory and Expansionism*, op. cit., p. 69.

adventures. The treaty of friendship with Yugoslavia and the agreement on Fiume (1924) were a result of this policy. Since the consolidation of his personal power, in 1925, and the departure of Salvatore Contarini, in 1926, fascist policies began to change without a rupture of relations with the Western powers. Military expenditures rose from 2,6% a year, in 1923-25, to 3, 4 % in 1927, and then to 5,4 % in 1931. According to MacGregor Knox, between 1926 and 1940 Italy spent proportionately more in this area than England. The nomination of Dino Grandi as Under-Secretary of State for Foreign Affairs, in 1925, and then as Minister, in 1929, accentuated this impression of change. The new minister tried to limit the initiatives of the several departments of the Ministry, concentrating the decision making process. As a matter of fact, during this period Grandi, who was not very active in Party activities, attempted to transform Italy in the arbiter of the international system, following his so-called policy of “decisive weight”, that flattered the Duce, freed now from the domestic limits after the Latran agreements with the Holy See. The opposition of Grandi to Germany, the most important project of Mussolini in foreign policy, as well as his policy in favor of disarmament, were the source of his disgrace (July 1932).

In the case of Hitler, the phase of personal consolidation created less conflict on the objectives of foreign policy, as the new and the old elites agreed with the policy of national uplift and revision of the Versailles Treaty.

Between 1934 and 1936, military questions occupied the scene. The rearmament program had been started in 1933 under the authority of General Ludwig Beck, head of the Army General Staff. He had evoked the need to reinstate recruitment due to the risk of a preventive war against Germany. According to Blomberg, the remilitarisation of the Rheinland was also seen as a defense against a possible French attack. The incorporation of Austria and of the Sudeten was part of the formation of a large power at the center of the continent: a strong desire of the old elite. In this sense there was a certain *agreement* between the army and the nazi leaders. For this reason the conference of Hossbach

of November 1937 on the regime expansionist plans carried no surprises for the participants (Neurath, Werner von Blomberg, Werner von Fritsch, Erich Raeder e Herman Göring). But this was a subtle game. Behind the apparent consensus there was a genuine struggle between rival groups to control the information supplied to the Führer.²⁴ The old elites favored policies more flexible than those practiced by the nazis. It was a problem more of method than of essential opposition. Participants of the affair of the recruitment, in 1935, were not so much Blomberg (Defense Minister) or Neurath (Minister of Foreign Affairs) but Ribbentrop. And it was Ribbentrop who promoted the entente between Italy and Japan in 1936, while Neurath was afraid of the anti-British implications of such an agreement.

The adoption of a fascist policy expressing the ideology prevailing in both countries happened in the decade of 1930. That dimension was for a long time denied to Italy, due to the importance of the tradition of Gaetano Salvemini that limited fascist policies to a simple posture of opportunism.²⁵ According to the interpretation of Giorgio Rochat, this posture was not based on a grand design, but essentially a series of “improvised and contradictory decisions” born from propaganda and rhetoric. The position defended par Renzo De Felice consisted in saying that fascist policies, at least until the Spanish War, could be related to the preservation of national interests without any ideological originality. In paralel with this minimalist current, in function of the internal revaluation made during these last years in the working of the regime, other specialists have emphasized the density and coherence of the fascist project with the aim of creating a veritable empire on the Mediterranean. According to them the pressure exerted by Italy in this region was strong enough to generate a process of destabilization, to the point of being one of the most important factors of the Second World War.

²⁴ Z. Shore, *What Hitler Knew: The Battle for Information in Nazi Foreign Policy*, Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2003, p. 122.

²⁵ M. Knox, *Il Fascismo e la Politica Estera Italiana*, In: R. J. B. Bosworth, S. Romano, *La Politica Estera Italiana*, op. cit., p. 290.

To Italy this moment corresponded to the war of Ethiopia (1935), because that conflict changed the play of alliances due to the sanctions imposed by the democratic governments but also because of the type of war involved. The mobilization had as a corollary a vast process of destruction of the colonial populations. The use of deportation and the concentration camps (fifteen of them were built hastily in 1930 in the desertic region of Sirtica, in Cyrenaica), gas employed in large scale as a means of conquest in Libya but particularly in Ethiopia, the “exploits” of squadristas roaming freely the streets of Addis Abbeba after the attack against Graziani (February 19-21 1937), the codification of a form of apartheid on the 30th. December 1937 witnessed that there was now a new kind of war with a racial significance.²⁶

The International conjuncture of 1936 and the Axis Rome-Berlin prolonged by the Pact of Steel in 1939 contributed to forge a common identity, admitted in 1940/1. The Spanish Civil War promoted this ideological front under Galeazzo Ciano, que new Minister of Foreign Affairs, who was the advocate of a rapprochement with nazi Germany. His action was decisive in the process of reinforcement of the structure of his power in the diplomatic institution.²⁷ It contributed also to accelerate the process of concentration and personalisation of the Duce intervention the field of diplomatic decision. General Roatta, at the head of SIM *Servizio Informazioni Militare* (secret service) was put in charge of rationalizing Italian action in Spain.

In Germany, the organization *Ausland* (AO) of the nazi party had an important role; the opposition of Neurath to the war contributed to disqualify him, and this represented a gain for Ribbentrop and Göring.

The last period occurred after 1939-40, with the beginning of the Second World War, bringing the triumph of Utopy with the myth

²⁶ A. Del Boca, *Le Guerre del Fascismo*, Bari, Laterza, 1995; A. Sbacchi, *Legacy of Bitterness: Ethiopia and Fascist Italy, 1935-1941*, Lawrenceville, 1997.

²⁷ F. Gilbert, Ciano and his Ambassadors, In: G. A. Craig, F. Gilbert, *The Diplomats 1919-1939*, Princeton: p. 512-36.

of imperial restauration. In 1940 Mussolini chose again an expansionist policy, not for the preservation of internal order or for economic reasons, but to keep up his position in Hitler's Europe.²⁸ The country lived a *remake* of what G. Procacci defined as the "symbol of Crimea", alluding to the tactic options of Cavour in 1855.²⁹ This effect was felt a second time when Antonio Salandra forced the country into the war, in May 1915. In 1940, the logic was the same. Italy should be present at the war to win a territorial prize at the moment of negotiation. Thus, the "parallel war" of Mussolini was a prolongation of the "sacred egoism" of 1915. The fulgurant success of the German army in Norway, The Netherlands and France dismissed the fear of Mussolini who, on the 10th. of June 1940, accepted the engagement with the German ally to make a war he expected to be short and very lucrative for his country. In war the Duce saw the possibility of transforming in reality his dream of unifying under his authority the whole Mediterranean basin.³⁰ Such a project had also the objective of founding a new political order reflecting the fascist ideal. The loss of Tunis and the invasion of Sicily sounded the knell of this grand design. On the 25th. July 1943 the Fascist Grand Council deposed the Duce, learning the lesson of his political adventure.

To Germany the rupture came during the year 1938, after the occupation of the Sudeten, when the "irredentist" program was completed. A new phase started with the utilization of the *Einsatzgruppen* to exterminate "Czechoslovak elements" considered irretrievable.³¹ Germany adopted the logic of European conquest. After the attack against Prague (*Der Griff nach Prag*, March 15th 1939), came the aggression of Poland (September 3rd.), decisive for the conquest of

²⁸ MacGregor Knox, *Mussolini Unleashed: Politics and Strategy in Fascist Italy's Last War*, Cambridge University Press, 1982, p. 289.

²⁹ G. Procacci, *L'Italia nella Grande Guerra*, In: *Storia d'Italia* (G. Sabbatucci and V. Vidotto), 4, *Guerre e Fascismo*, Laterza, Bari, 1997, p. 15.

³⁰ R. M. Salerno, *Vital Crossroads: Mediterranean Origins of the Second World War, 1935-1940*, Ithaca and London, 2002, p. 216.

³¹ W. Benz, H. Gramml, H. Heiss, *Enzyklopädie des Nationalsozialismus*, München, DTV, 1997, p. 440.

Lebensraum. From that point onwards war has shown the double aspect that it would maintain until the end: on the Western front a classic war against France, a demonstration of German power (*Grossmachtpolitik*); on the East a new type of war, conceived as the destruction of local populations (O. Bartov, U. Herbert). But it was too early for the realization of the vast continental empire that Hitler since 1933 had projected. In 1940, he found himself in the situation which he expected for 1943.³² At mid-September 1940, the Führer seemed to accept provisionally the temporary solution proposed by Ribbentrop: a continental bloc joining Germany, Italy, Japan and the Soviet Union, with the possible inclusion of Spain and the Vichy regime.³³ Only after the failure of Molotov visit to Berlin, in November 1940, the decision to invade the Soviet Union was formally taken. In June Operation Barbarossa, planned for March 1941, was postponed due to the enlargement of the Balkans campaign. Hitler was now engaged in fighting his war, a genuine crusade against bolshevism, a war conceived also as a racial conflict to destroy the enemy "jew-bolshevik". At the beginning of Operation Barbarossa Hitler counted with the support of the whole national structure, army plus ministry of foreign affairs, that accepted not only his program of conquest but also the policy of mass destruction of entire populations.

No doubt there is a certain proximity in terms of identity between Italian fascism and German nazism, based on their expansionist logic in foreign policy, that tended to reflect the ideological options of the two regimes, and became in time and according to their respective modalities one of the mechanisms of the totalitarian State tuned on a certain type of war and domination. Due to this growing homology of domestic and external policies, it may seem legitimate to question the pertinency of separating these two spheres, internal and external, as both were at the service of the same project.

³² A. Hillgruber, *Hitlers Strategie: Politik und Kriegführung, 1940-41*, München, 1982.

³³ W. Michalka, *Ribbentrop und die Deutsch Weltpolitik 1933-1940: Aussenpolitische Konzeption und im Dritten Reich Entscheidungsprozesse*, München, 1980.

IN SEARCH OF A CAUSAL NEXUS BETWEEN POLITICAL REGIMES AND FOREIGN POLICY STRATEGIES IN THE POST-SOVIET ENVIRONMENT

Vladimir Kulagin

A brief overview of the post-Soviet political terrain in recent years produces a rather puzzling picture. One can register almost universal and at least demonstrative pro-Western trajectories in the foreign policies of the majority of the new independent states (Belarus and formally neutral Turkmenistan being the only exceptions). As regards the Baltic states (Estonia, Latvia and Lithuania) the process of the foreign policy alignment with the West goes hand in hand with the progressive consolidation of their democratic regimes. But in the rest of the post-Soviet states this pro-Western orientation of their foreign policies contrasts dramatically with the evolution of their domestic regimes in a general direction that can be assessed as anything but a democratic consolidation. The picture looks even more confusing if one takes into account the fact that during the last decade Russia at least twice changed its foreign policy philosophy rather substantially (in 1996 when new foreign minister Primakov undertook to build a 'multipolar world' to counter the American 'unipolarity', and in 2001 when President Putin again and even more drastically than Yeltsin in early 90s realigned the Russian foreign policy with the West and particularly with the United States). These three distinct foreign policies represented the domestic political regime which was not changing substantially during the last decade.

Does it mean that the causal relationship between the essence of particular regimes and foreign policies they project into an international environment does not work on the Euro-Asian post-Soviet space, and that we should leave the Kant/Fukuyama formula of democratic peace

for the West and return into the fold of Hobbs/Kissinger pragmatic *realpolitik* to understand the behavior of the countries at the periphery of democracy? Before coming to such a conclusion it would be prudent to examine the above mentioned general trends in more detail, to put them into a bigger picture of the current global politics and to consider them in a longer term perspective.

To start such an analysis it is necessary to find out with what kind of political regimes we are dealing in the post-Soviet space. To assess and to measure the substance of a particular regime it is necessary first of all to agree on a common yardstick. It is well known that the political science is still in search of a universally accepted descriptive definition of a democracy and of quantitative indicators that would allow us to register the place of a particular polity on a continuous scale. So, for practical purposes we use in this analysis the data and indicators of the Freedom House annual surveys, leaving aside for further theoretical discussion the reservations regarding the 'personal and intuitive' character of Raymond Gastil's rating system.

The results of these surveys indicate that the 15 states that became independent after the disintegration of the Soviet Union in 1991 now form three clusters of political regimes.¹ The first one consists of three Baltic states which are rated "free":²

Country	PR	CL	Freedom Rating
Lithuania	1	2	Free
Estonia	1	2	Free
Latvia	1	2	Free
The second group is formed by "partly free" regimes:			
Moldova	3	4	Partly Free
Armenia	4	4	Partly Free
Georgia	4	4	Partly Free
Ukraine	4	4	Partly Free
Russia	5	5	Partly Free
Azerbaijan	6	5	Partly Free

¹ The following table is based on *Freedom in the World 2002. Liberty's Expansion in a Turbulent World*.

² It is necessary to remind that PR and CL stand for Political Rights and Civil Liberties, respectively; 1 represents the most free and 7 the least free rating.

The third group unites “not free” regimes:

Kazakhstan	6	5	Not Free
Kyrgyzstan	6	5	Not Free
Tajikistan	6	5	Not Free
Belarus	6	6	Not Free
Uzbekistan	7	6	Not Free
Turkmenistan	7	7	Not Free

If the ratings at 2002 are compared with the results of 1999 survey they indicate some persistent dynamic trends. The first group, notwithstanding remaining problems with the political rights of the Russian-speaking non-citizens in Estonia and Latvia, is demonstrating a steady progress along the path of democratic consolidation. On the contrary, the regimes in the second group have seen some further erosion of political rights and/or civil liberties with Kyrgyzstan falling from “partly free” to the “not free” category, while Moldova, Georgia, Ukraine and Russia lost by 1 point each on political rights and Azerbaijan sliding 1 point on civil liberties to the lowest level of “partly free” states. In the third group only Tajikistan improved its score on civil liberties by 1 point, with the rest of the regimes being in the process of consolidating their authoritarian characteristics.

Russian political scientist B. Makarenko projects somewhat different picture of the post-Soviet space.³ Describing the “infant diseases” of the post-Soviet regimes in hospital terms he ranges the “patients” in the following categories:

Lithuania, Estonia, Latvia – “Convalescent”.

Moldova, Ukraine, Russia, Armenia – “With Hopes for Recovery”.

Georgia, Belarus, Azerbaijan – “Chronically Sick”.

³ Makarenko, B. Consolidatsiya demokratii: “detskaya bolezn” postsovetских gosudarstv (Democracy Consolidation: “Infant Diseases” of the Post-Soviet States) <<http://www.politcom.ru/print.php?fname>>.

Kyrgyzstan, Kazakhstan, Tajikistan – “Acute Stage – Danger for the Life of Democracy”.

Uzbekistan, Turkmenistan – “The Doctor’s Diagnosis – Take the Body to a Mortuary”.

But both pictures, differing on details, demonstrate some common general trends.

The first group of the Baltic states breaks away from the “post-Soviet” entity having moved up to higher levels of democratic consolidation and now has more in common with the regimes in the Central Europe than with its 12 former Communist colleagues. It became even more obvious in 2002 after the Baltic Republics were invited into the NATO and the EU. Because of a widening gap between these three countries and the rest of the post-Soviet regimes it is progressively less and less fruitful to compare the first group with the second and the third clusters. In further discussion while referring to ‘post-Soviet’ states we will exclude the Baltic republics, which in our opinion have already graduated from the ‘post-Soviet’ class into the junior democratic European league.

At the “democratic bottom” of the remaining new independent states there is a group of regimes of Central Asia and Belarus that have defied all the hopes about their democratization and at the moment actually are in processes of consolidating authoritarian rule. Contrary to the widespread tendency to consider this group in the paradigm of failed democratization, it can be attributed only to Belarus and Kyrgyzstan, which initially took the path of democratization, but failed in this endeavor and moved into the opposite direction. But as for the remaining members of this group (especially Turkmenistan and Uzbekistan) it seems that from the very moment of the disintegration of the Soviet Union they consciously took the path of retaining autocratic regimes in different disguises. As models they have chosen pre-democratic ‘Asian tigers’ regimes. It is indicative that in early 90s Kazakhstan for some time entertained the idea of inviting the former prime-minister of Singapore to advise on the nation-building process. That is why when the term “transit” is applied to some former Soviet

“republics” of the Central Asia it actually describes the transition from “communist” to “national” regimes of autocracy and has nothing to do with shortcomings or failures of the democratization process.⁴

The middle group of “partly free” regimes has at least one common feature. They are stuck on the tracks of democratization but retain a possibility – of course, in varying degree – to resume the movement in that direction or to slide further back. Taking into account that this group includes Russia, Ukraine, Georgia and Azerbaidjan (the latter on the very fridge of it) with most formidable potentials to determine future of the core of the Euro-Asia space, the fate of the democratization transit of that group receives additional attention.

Despite the obvious differences between groups 2 and 3, as well as between countries within each of them, there is ground to consider both groups as a common domain with some features that unite the member-countries and distinguish them from other entities, for example, from the European community. The gap between mean figures of the ratings on political rights and civil liberties for each member of the group is smaller than between similar figures of the “partly free” group and of consolidated democracies. The common heritage and the reality of today’s life force them to interact with each other often more regularly and intensively than with the outside world. Though the framework of the Commonwealth of Independent States is far from effective, in a degree it still institutionalizes this interaction. At the same time all of these regimes are still at the age of adolescence and even those that have the worst freedom ratings are susceptible to

⁴ It is interesting to note that after the end of the cold war many political scientists, including many scholars in the post-Soviet states strongly believed that all post-Soviet states were destined to move in some linear way along the way of the democratic transition. When it turned out that the majority of these states took different trajectories of regime development and some of them from the beginning have chosen the autocratic alternative to democracy, these authors came to the conclusion about “the retreat of the third wave” of the global democratization. But the recent surveys indicate that such a pessimism does not reflect the global tendency and is only partially founded as regards some post-Soviet and North African regimes. It seems that such a pessimism could be explained by the initial overoptimistic expectations regarding inevitable and linear trajectories of the process of democratization for every country. Mellvile, A. *On the Trajectories of Political Development of the Post-Soviet Countries*.

abrupt changes due to crisis, intra-elite power struggles or some other externally or internally generated shocks.⁵ For example, it is believed that after Lukashenko leaves the political stage in Belarus there is a possibility that the country can resume its climb to democracy. It is evident that the notorious sultanist regime of Niyazov in Turkmenistan is very shaky and its domestic and outside support is diminishing. On the contrary, the eventual succession struggles in Azerbaijan and Georgia can lead the countries to destabilization with open-ended results.

But a certain degree of commonality coexists with a wide range of differences. To paraphrase the well-known formula opening “Anna Karenina” by Lev Tolstoy about happy and unhappy families, all consolidated democracies are free alike, but each undemocratic society is not free in its own way. There are many explanations of the different trajectories of regime-building taken by each of the post-Soviet state. The Baltic states, Western Ukraine and a part of Moldova lived under the communist dictatorship for ‘only’ 50 years and preserved some memory of the pre-Soviet civic if not democratic societies and the influence of Catholicism. The nation-building processes in some other republics (for example, in Armenia, Azerbaijan, Georgia, Moldova, Tajikistan) were crippled by separatist and civic strife. The four ‘Stans’ of the Central Asia experienced the revival of the Oriental tradition, as well as the influence of some extreme forms of political Islam.

After the break up of the Soviet Union practically every former Soviet republic took efforts to distance itself from Russia, suspecting – and not without grounds – its neo-imperial aspirations. Entry to the Commonwealth of Independent States was considered mainly as an insurance to guarantee a peaceful divorce from Moscow. More than ten years later, it is evident that in general they succeeded. It is indicative that during the lowest point in relations between Moscow and Washington over Yugoslavia, in April 1999, every post-Soviet leader (but Yeltsin and Lukashenko) demonstratively took part at the celebration of the 50th anniversary of NATO in the U.S. capital.

⁵ Motyl, Alexander J. Ten Years after the Soviet Collapse: Persistence of the Past and Prospects for the Future. *Nations in Transit* 2001.

At the same time in many respects the majority of post-Soviet states are still dependent on Moscow. For example: Ukraine, Belarus, Georgia, Moldova are dependent on supplies of Russian oil and gas. The export routes of Kazah oil and Turkmen gas pass through Russian territory. Tajikistan and Armenia are dependent on Russian armament supplies and military presence. The Russian market is still important for their economies. Every country has a segment of population who feels nostalgic about their former life within the same frontiers. Less visible but not less important is the influence of the dynamics of the Russian domestic reforms on the other post-Soviet states.

Since 1991 Russia was fighting against the inheritance of many centuries of an autocratic (tsarist and then communist) rule, results of very painful and controversial shock reforms, as well as of 'phantom pains' of the lost great power status in search for a new identity. Many observers note that during the Yeltsin's presidency some very important steps towards dismantling the Soviet heritage and establishing electoral democracy have already been taken. But at the same time they underline the persistent inability of the Russian political class to escape from the heritage of the past. Lilia Shevtsova characterized the Russian political system created under Yeltsin as a bureaucratic-authoritarian regime of 'impotent omnipotence', that provides for an undivided government, elected democratically but which happens to operate in an authoritarian fashion.⁶

Vladimir Putin has definitely put his own imprint on the political regime in Russia. Many authors differ in their assessments of these changes. For Sam Vaknin Putin's reign is reminiscent of Louis-Napoleon's Second Empire with the odd mixture of Bonapartism, militarism, clericalism, conservatism and liberalism and with not very bright prospects for liberalization.⁷ In Russia itself many liberals and democrats hope that in his second term Putin would produce domestically the breakthrough towards democracy similar to the

⁶ Shevtsova, Lilia. *Boris Yeltsin and His Regime*: Moscow: Moscow Center of Carnegie Endowment for International Peace, 1999.

⁷ Vaknin, Sam. *Russia's Second Empire*. davidjohnson@erols.com January 11, 2003.

pro-Western *volte-face* he mastered in foreign policy after 9/11. But Lilia Sevtsova's analysis of Putin legacy and his probable course in the future is not very optimistic. She puts forward the following arguments.⁸ After his ascendancy to power Vladimir Putin has consolidated and refined the bureaucratic-authoritarian regime inherited from Yeltsin under which power is concentrated in the hands of a leader, while government itself is administered by relying on bureaucratic and coercive forces. The reformist potential of such a regime was sustained through the inclusion and integration of liberal technocrats. The aim of this regime was to combine stabilization with modernization. The current Presidential course consolidated the regime by appealing simultaneously to all segments of Russian society. But it remains based on incompatible principles: centralized almost authoritarian power and its simultaneous democratic legitimation. In addition, there is an inherent conflict of interests between the bureaucracy and economic oligarchy. The most immediate serious challenges for the Kremlin are Chechnya and an eventual fall of oil prices which can force the President to take some key decision on Russia's political future. Putin holds his cards close to his chest and refrain from explaining his vision of the country's future. The commentators must interpret his often contradictory remarks.

The pessimists underline his dedication to strengthen the 'verticality of power', the influx of military and security officers into politics and business, his taming or subjugation of mass media. The optimists are inspired by the land and judiciary reforms, by his recent remarks in a meeting with students: "I would like to single out the development of a feeling of independence and freedom in young people as an urgent task for us today. Moses needed 40 years to get rid of the past and to form a new people, but 40 years is a very long period. It is too long for us". Both sides come to the conclusion that Putin must make a strategic choice during the presidential election campaign of 2004 or immediately afterwards.

⁸ Shevtsova, Lilia. *Russia Prior to Elections: A Chance for Comprehension*. Briefing Papers, vol. 4, November 2002, Moscow Center of Carnegie Endowment for Peace.

It seems possible to conclude that the post-Soviet regimes are in the range of 'not free' – 'partly free' countries, often moving into opposite directions or stuck on various transition trajectories; their destination is not yet final.

But we have to concentrate on another problem: how inner-selves of such post-Soviet regimes with their differences and common characteristics influence their interaction with the outside world.

It is well known that the *realpolitik* school which dominated international relations studies for a long time tends to ignore or to minimize a causal relationship between a regime – be it a totalitarian dictatorship or a consolidated democracy – and its foreign policy. The institutional 'liberal' school of world politics recognizes this relationship in principle but does not pay much attention to it, concentrating instead on institutional frameworks and instruments that influence relations between *any* actors. Only recently scholars of world politics, inspired by Kant's idea that democracy is an important force for peace, approached the problem of a causal regime/foreign policy relationship.

Paying due tribute to Dean Bubst, R.J. Rummel, Francis Fukuyama, James Lee Ray, Michael W. Doyle, Bruce Russett, Joshua Muravchik and many other scholars who brought the idea to the center of theoretical discussion,⁹ it should be noted that they are focusing their attention mainly on the relations between democracies and in particular on the proposition of a peace between democracies. This school has not yet mustered a huge space of inter-democracies relations at times of peace, and the principles of international behavior of autocratic regimes and of regimes in the processes of transition.

⁹ It seems that some practitioners of the world politics intuitively felt this causal relationship between a regime and its foreign policy long before the scholars discovered it. In the long run Woodrow Wilson, Aristide Briand, Gustav Stresemann and Philip John Noel-Baker turned out to be more realistic in their vision of an alliance of 'non-despotic' nations than their *realpolitik* critics. Harry Truman, Winston Churchill, Jimmy Carter and Ronald Reagan fought and won the 'Cold War' in a belief that promotion of democracy is not less important for the world security than power politics. Bill Clinton's 'Enlargement and Engagement' strategy turned out to be rather effective for the *perestroika* of the world politics after the Cold War.

Ironically, the Marxists and especially the Leninists were the first (after Immanuel Kant) to discover a causal relationship between domestic functioning of a regime and its foreign policy although in a mirror inverted form of the primacy of class struggle. They believed that foreign policy was in general a continuation of a domestic policy. That is why Vladimir Lenin was so enchanted by the Clausewitzian definition of war as the pursuit of political goals by other means, interpreting it as an additional proof of a linkage between domestic and foreign policy. Although practical Marxism, as implemented by Stalin and his successors, degenerated rapidly into a propagandist cover of a traditional empire-building policy with Byzantine flavor, this dictum about an indivisible link between the substance of domestic regime and its foreign policies was a commonplace of the international studies during the Soviet period. Miraculously, in the midst of Gorbachev's *perestroika* the formula abruptly disappeared from theoretical studies and mass media reports on foreign policy and international relations.

In late 80s the end of the Cold War was explained in the paradigm of a peaceful coexistence between socialism and capitalism in the globalizing environment, when in Gorbachev's words 'interests of the humankind could supersede class interests'. After the dissolution of the Soviet Union there were two rival philosophies guiding the search for Russia's new place in the world. The official version of the 'early Yeltsin's' foreign policy strategy just stated the need for Russia to be integrated into the Western civilization to create the best possible conditions for domestic reforms.¹⁰ The other was suggesting the search of a 'uniquely Russian Eurasian third way' of development.¹¹

In the middle of 90s these two schools of thought blended into a hybrid strategy of restoring the role of the state (*derzhava*) in domestic politics combined with a growing readiness to act against the United States and the West in general when their actions, particularly plans

¹⁰ *Diplomaticheskyy Vestnik*, Special Issue (January 1993).

¹¹ See, for example, Dugin, A. *Osnovy Geopolitiki. Geopoliticheskoe Budushee Rossiya* (Basics of Geopolitics. Geopolitical Future of Russia), Arktogetya, Moscow, 1997.

for the NATO enlargement and the humanitarian intervention over Kosovo, were regarded as an infringement of Russia's national interests and its great power status. But it should be noted that Moscow never planned a return to a new cold war, understanding its limited resources and all possible economic, political and strategic repercussions of such an eventuality. Instead Russia activated a strategy of 'cold peace' as a middle way between the two extremes which was called 'a return to more pragmatic policy' or 'a turn to diversification'.¹² In reality it was an attempt to play the old balance of power game of the *realpolitik*. President Yeltsin coined this new 'multipolar' strategy in his emotional instruction to the Russian diplomatic corps: "Do not lie down under America, but do not involve us in a major confrontation!".¹³

It should be noted that the link between democratization and pro-Western foreign policy was present in official documents and some publications only in the early 90s. For example, a conceptual document on the foreign policy by the Ministry of Foreign Affairs, published in 1993, stated:

...the nature of Russian foreign policy is determined by long-term goals (which seek) to ensure Russia's re-emergence as a democratic, free state; favorable conditions for shaping a modern dynamic economy which would guarantee proper living standards for the Russian citizens; financial and economic independence for the Russian Federation as well as its fully-fledged and natural inclusion into the world economy.¹⁴

In later years official documents and scholarly discussions were dominated by the logic of *realpolitik* 'multipolarity' or 'multivectoriness'.

Only rarely some liberal commentators noted the significance of regime values for foreign policy. Analyzing the future of the antiterrorist coalition between Russia and the Western countries Dmitry Furman wrote: "Our integration with the West is not a foreign policy

¹² Primakov, Ye. 'Russia: Reforms and Foreign Policy', *Mezhdunarodnaya Zhizn*, 1997, n° 7.

¹³ Press reports on President Yeltsin's visit to the Foreign Ministry in 1997.

¹⁴ *Diplomatichesky Vestnik*, Special Issue (January 1993) 3.

choice. It is a problem of our domestic development, which under the current regime keeps us farther and farther away from the West. Sometime in future the regime will change and our differences with the West will convert from differences of diverse political 'species' into national peculiarities within a framework of the same specie. And only then it would be possible to make not a situational alliance against a common enemy, but just an alliance, leading to integration of Russia into the system of relations that function in the Western world".¹⁵

The efforts of this author to attract attention of the Russian functions in the students of world politics to the Democratic Peace Proposition and to the regime/foreign policy causal relationship¹⁶ have actually failed. And not only due to lack of the author's persuasive power, but mainly as a result of the natural tendency of the majority of Russian scholars to look at international relations through lenses of the *realpolitik* 'national interests', which in their opinion is the main driving force of foreign policies, disregarding the quality of regimes involved. The only published reaction to that effort was a brief but rather sarcastic rebuttal by a leading Russian specialist on theories of international relations who compared the Democratic Peace Proposition with the Soviet doctrine of 'peace between socialist countries' and stated his preference for the conclusion that 'it is impossible to define states as inherently bellicose or peaceful'.¹⁷ Similar thinking is prominent in the majority of publications on international relations and foreign policy in other post-Soviet states.

Looking at the practical diplomacies of the post-Soviet states we can distinguish several common features. First of all, they are opportunistic, or – to use a politically correct term – pragmatic. They fluctuate rather easily within certain limits. There are many examples of such a behavior – the above mentioned Russian zigzag foreign policy

¹⁵ Furman, Dmitry. 'Friendship Against', *Obshaya Gazeta*, December 6-12, 2001.

¹⁶ Kulagin, Vladimir. *Mir v XXI veke: mnogopolyusniy balans syl ili globalniy Pax democratica* (The World in XXI Century: A Multipolar Balance of Power or a Global Pax Democratica). *Polis*, n° 1, 2000.

¹⁷ Tzygankov, P.A. *Teoriya mezhdunarodnykh otnosheniy* (Theory of International Relations), Moscow: Gardariki, 2002, 345.

course during the last decade, the constant turns of the foreign policy of Ukraine from the Western to the Russian orientation and in the opposite direction, the initial hesitations of the leaders of the Central Asia on the American presence before the operation in Afghanistan, followed by an enthusiastic support.

It is very difficult to generalize on the casual relationship between a regime and its foreign policy because foreign policy has certain degree of autonomy. For, example, even different US Administrations establish different order of priorities to achieve the common long-term goals. Foreign policies have to take into account 'national interests' that have their national peculiarities and traditions even among democratic regimes. It is enough to compare foreign policies of the US, France, Japan or Canada. The dominant external mega-trends like globalization limit the freedom of foreign policies of any regime. The new independent states were born and are developing in different environments, have different foreign policy potentials. All this said, it seems that in the process of interaction of the world community it is still possible to pinpoint some common features that distinguish behavior of different regimes.

For the following analysis we would apply the same methodology is used to explain the phenomena of democratic peace.¹⁸ There are two ways in which democracy might account for the existence of such a peace. The first, the cultural / normative model, argues that in democracies decision-makers follow norms of peaceful conflict resolution that reflect domestic experiences and values. Because democracies are biased against resolving domestic disputes violently, they try to resolve international disputes in a similarly peaceful manner, especially when they deal with other democracies. The second explanation is the structural/institutional model. It argues that domestic institutional constraints, including checks and balances, separation of powers, and the need for a public debate, will slow or constrain decisions to go to war.

¹⁸ See, for example, Russett, Bruce. *Grasping the Democratic Peace: Principles for a Post-Cold War World*, Princeton: N.J.: Princeton University Press, 1993.

The application of these two models to autocratic regimes makes it evident that neither cultural / normative nor structural / institutional factors predetermine some definite choice of foreign policy options. Instead, these options reflect preferences of a ruling elite or dictator, ideologies or opportunities. One can argue that the inclination of autocracies to turn to violence domestically to safeguard their position inevitably projects into the outside environment. Similarly, an absence of internal checks and balances as well as of the need for public debate does not constrain a foreign policy choice. Autocracies can be hostile both to democratic and autocratic countries. It does not mean that every autocracy is inevitably aggressive. But every undemocratic state is free to change its foreign policy due to the absence of cultural/normative and structural/institutional domestic anchors. The case of the regimes in a process of democratic transition, especially those who lost their transitional dynamics and are stuck in between autocracy and democracy, the regimes in the 'gray area' between despotism and democracy, is more complicated.

Though a linear connection between the degree of democratization and the stability of a foreign policy course looks simplistic, there is some truth in such an assumption. It seems that a process of formation of cultural/normative values, a tradition of civil liberties and responsibilities that reflects a degree of maturity of a civic society takes a longer time especially when the movement starts from very low mark or when the former democratic experience is very distant or non-existent.

Anyway, when the authoritarian grip is loosened in a degree even at the lowest levels of democratic transition, there appears some room for expression of natural preferences of the wider circles of the population. It is true that the ruling class still has means to mobilize the population for a bellicose behavior. But sooner or later, especially in the absence of outright aggression, this mobilization effect soon subsides because in general the population is not inclined to support conflicts for which it has to pay a cruel price. Recent history indicates that the ruling classes in some post-Soviet states did manage to mobilize their population for domestic armed conflicts or against foreign states,

but these mobilizations were short-lived. In late 80s-early 90s Tbilisi, Baku, Yerevan and Kishinev managed to mobilize the majority of their population to support armed conflicts over Abkhazia, South Ossetia, Nagorno-Karabakh and Trans-Dniestria respectively, but soon this attitude it dwindled away. The same happened with the initial support by the Russian population of the first war as well as the current war in Chechnya. The majority of the Russian population was very critical of the NATO bombardment of Serbia, but did not support any appeals by extremists for Russia to get involved into that conflict. It goes without saying that in all post-Soviet states the population is not inclined to support high military budgets, especially in times of economic hardships. And the majority of governments, especially the governments of partly free regimes, has to take these aspirations into account.

It is interesting that even in the category of 'partly free countries' the post-Soviet states uniformly ignore human rights violations by nother states. Their official documents do not mention the promotion of human rights abroad. Moscow ignored 'the so called ethnic cleaning' by Miloshevich's regime in Kosovo and considered it as 'an insincere pretext' taken by NATO to promote its strategic goals. Concern over numerous human rights violations in the post-Soviet states were never on the agenda of CIS summits or any bilateral official contacts. Moscow and Ashkhabad officially agreed to consider the recent alleged attack on Niyazov's cortege, which was followed by the cruel crush of the remaining political opposition, as a 'terrorist act'. But at the same time the semi-independent media, liberal opposition and the growing number of public non-governmental organizations criticize more and more harshly their governments for the disregard of human rights by their foreign partners.

It would be wrong to exaggerate, but cultural/normative factors do restrict domestically the foreign policy voluntarism of the ruling class already in the earliest stages of democratization or of the loosening of autocratic grip over the population.

The structural/institutional factors such as constitutional constrains, separation of executive, legislative and judicial powers, and

the need for public support at the ballot box are more operational. Though liberal parties and independent public organizations are political minorities in 'partly free' post-Soviet states, their opposition to the voluntarism of executive powers as well as a debate on domestic and international relations issues in mass media, however restricted, additionally restrain the amplitude of foreign policy fluctuations.

Again, these structural / institutional restraints of the transitional regimes should not be exaggerated. Immediately after the terrorist attack on the Twin Towers and the Pentagon President Putin held a meeting with legislative leaders to seek their advice on the position Russia should take on an eventual US military operation in Afghanistan. It was reported that of 21 statesmen present 19 advised that Russia should maintain neutrality, 2 advocated support of such an American operation, and one legislator was in favor of Russia supporting the Taliban. It is well known how Putin used that advice. On the other hand the opposition in Ukraine is quite influential in pushing Kuchma's administration toward more consistent orientation towards the Euro-Atlantic community.

It is also important to take into account the influence of the various interest groups on foreign policies of the post-Soviet regimes –business, army and security apparatus. As a rule their influence depends on the degree of concentration of the central power. Autocratic regimes, more dependent on the support by these groups, at the same time tend to control them more tightly. But when they loosen their control and the reform and democratization processes gain momentum these interest groups acquire more freedom to express their preferences for certain course of domestic and foreign policies. Very often there is a clash of interests of these groups or of their individual members. For example, the majority of Russian *oligarchs* prefer stable relations with outside world as a precondition for their entering the world markets. But representatives of the military-industrial complexes tend to underline the state of alertness against any potential outside enemy. On the initial stages of democratization the control of civilian powers over military as a rule becomes more problematic. The role of the interest groups on foreign policy of partly free regimes has not been

studied in detail, but it seems safe to suggest that it differs from the role such interest groups play in consolidated democracies.

Many authors offer a somewhat different yardstick for measuring the relationship between transitional domestic regimes and their foreign policies. For example, Sherman Garnett believes that weak states “are the most dangerous element of instability and the most likely source of new trouble sports in the decades to come”.¹⁹ It is partially true. On the other hand, every change is by definition a denial of stability. Loosening of a centralized state control over society, an entrance of new non-governmental actors and lobbies into the political process as well as the temptation of various groups inside the government to pursue their own interests domestically and internationally in general diminish stability and predictability of behavior of such states. For example, some analysts argue that under Yeltsin there were several autonomous and often contradictory foreign policies – those of the Ministry of Defense, the Ministry of Atomic Power, the military-industrial complex as well as of some regional governors. More than that, Yeltsin was forced to ‘correct’ his foreign policy course to neutralize the formidable Communist opposition, especially on the eve of elections or in times of domestic crises, as it happened after the 1998 financial melt-down.

But ‘strong’ regimes could pose much greater dangers to the world security. Very strong regimes in Iraq and North Korea are creating much more problems than all ‘weak’ states. The rather ‘weak’ partly free regime of Kuchma in Ukraine is less dangerous for the European community than the ‘strong’ not free Lukashenko’s regime in Belarus. The rivalry between strong Uzbekistan and Kazakhstan for the leadership in Central Asia is one of the challenges for security in the region. It is true that Putin’s Russia with its strong ‘verticality of power’ is more predictable today than it was in more anarchic times under weak Yeltsin. But one should not forget that this new stability and predictability of the current Russian regime rests in greater degree than

¹⁹ Garnett, Sherman W., *Troubles to come: The Emerging Security Challenges in the Balkans and the Former Soviet Union*. Nations in Transit 2001, 31.

in earlier days on private choices of one person. At the same time it is true that the 'weakness' of such partly free regimes as Georgian and Moldavian could be a source of new or rather renewed problems, especially in connection with still unresolved conflicts with separatist Abkhazia and Transdniestria. So, the approach to the post-Soviet regimes from the point of view of their 'weakness' or 'strength' could be productive but only if it is combined with other approaches.

The opportunistic 'mobility' of foreign policies of 'not free' and 'partly free' regimes rooted in their domestic 'mongrel' substance is an important factor but its *modus operandi* is limited and influenced by outside modalities.

The leaders and the ruling classes of the post-Soviet states can not avoid to take into account the new world environment in which they operate. This environment formulates new rules of world politics from which the post-Soviet regimes can try to escape, or bend to a degree, but can not ignore or change. Democratization of the world environment is one the most important mega-trends of the world politics. For the first time in the history of the humankind we witness the preponderance of democratic regimes, with 89 countries being 'free' 56 – 'partly free' and only 47 – 'not free'. Today 44 percent of the world's population live in 'free', 21 percent in 'partly free' and 35 percent in 'not free' (the population of Communist China accounts for the majority of this people) countries. This trend is reinforced by the growing technological and economic dominance of democratic societies. In 2002 the GDP of 'free' countries stood at \$26.8 trillion (89 percent), the GDP of 'partly free' nations at \$1.5 trillion (5 percent), while the GDP of 'not free' regimes at \$1.7 trillion (6 percent). The new democratic preponderance creates the prevailing 'global magnetic field' that inevitably influence behavior of all actors of the world politics, facilitating the life of those who take it into account and creating problems for those who try to disregard it.²⁰

²⁰ It is not the task of this paper to compare the benefits and the shortcomings of democracy. It is sufficient to say that the author shares the formula by Winston Churchill to the effect that democracy is far from the perfect way of government, but all the other known regimes are less effective and human.

It is evident that any attempt to challenge the world democratic paradigm openly by the remaining authoritarian or by 'partly free' regimes is doomed and dangerous for them. So the post-Soviet states are cautious not to cross the line where they can fall into the category of 'rogue states'. More than that, some of the post-Soviet states (Georgia, Ukraine, Moldova) proclaimed and sincerely look forward the target of integrating in the long run into the Euro-Atlantic community, but their democratic handicaps work as a brake in the movement towards this goal. The additional factor is the integration of the majority of the post-Soviet states into the global and European institutions or their cooperation with them – UN, WTO, IMF, OSCE, NATO, EU, and others.

At the same time the leaders of those states see that in the practice of diplomacy by Western countries military and economic considerations often take precedence over the promotion of democracy. For example: Pakistan, Tajikistan, Uzbekistan, Kyrgyzstan and Russia turned out to be more valuable assets for the US anti-terrorist campaign in Afghanistan than the majority of democratic societies. The American and European criticism of human rights violations in the Central Asia states as well as in Chechnya has significantly subsided after the 9/11 terrorist attacks.

It could not be true on the global scale but for certain countries the threat of international terrorism and its perception by the major powers had a mixed effect. On one hand, the formation of the global antiterrorist coalition and the determined resolution to fight this threat produced solid guarantees for the majority of the post-Soviet states against their following the example of Taliban in Afghanistan. It is true that the international support of the extremist movements in Fergana and Pankisi valleys as well as in some other areas of the North Caucasus was restricted as the result of the antiterrorist coalition efforts. But it is also true that the Western countries, especially the United States, moved the goals of democracy promotion in the post-Soviet states to the back burner. The ruling classes of the post-Soviet states got some space to parasite on the Western security concerns.

The main apprehensions of every post-Soviet regime lie in the field of economy. There is a common knowledge that it would be almost impossible to jump-start their economies without the closest possible cooperation with the world (mainly Western) business community. But this indisputable truth has two sides. The pattern of the global financial flows indicates that the international business community prefers to invest in the economies of democratic states. But when it approaches the emerging markets their main demand is not for democratization but for stability and profit. The examples of China, Saudi Arabia, Chile under Pinochet and many other countries with stable autocratic regimes testify to this conclusion. It can be argued that in per capita foreign investments the majority of the post-Soviet countries with the lowest credits for democratization (Kazakhstan, Turkmenistan, Azerbaijan) are ahead of the majority of 'partly free' states, Russia included. The foreign investments into Turkmen gas, Kazakh oil, Baku-Jeiha pipeline support this proposition.

The post-Soviet states understand that their strategic value for the West gives them some leeway to play both ways. Russia, for example, while understanding that it is almost impossible to reform and modernize its economy without Western capital and technologies, feels free to use every opportunity to cooperate economically with countries that can not be regarded as free or friendly to the West. The sale of Russian armaments to China, nuclear cooperation with Iran, the plans to restart arm sales to Syria or oil business with Saddam Husein, warming up relations with North Korea, playing unification game with Lukashenko's regime indicate that Moscow wishes to improve its very difficult economic situation. But at the same time they testify to certain political unscrupulousness unacceptable among the majority of democratic regimes but considered very smart and pragmatic in relations between different regimes. It is noteworthy that the discussion on possible consequences of the American military operation against Iraq was concentrating almost exclusively on its possible effects on the price of Russian oil as well as on the interests of Russian oil companies in Iraq. The majority of participants came to the 'cynical but pragmatic' conclusion that a protracted US-Iraq conflict

was in 'best interests' for Russia. Kuchma's regime in Ukraine, heavily dependent on the American aid, could not resist the temptation to make some very dubious arms deals including the suspected sale of anti-air systems to Iraq.

As for the 'efficiency' of the foreign policies of autocratic and transitional regimes this brief analysis indicates that in the short and medium terms the foreign policies of 'not free' or 'partly free' countries can be very efficient and profitable as the result of the opportunistic and unprincipled nature of their foreign policies. Even more efficient than foreign policies of democratic states, whose freedom of manoeuvre is limited by domestic values and principles. Operating in the predominantly democratic environment of the world politics they have a chance to parasitize on the tolerant nature of democracies, their capitalist deficiencies and security concerns. But in the long run such an opportunistic efficiency works against the basic interests of such societies because it cripples transition to democracy, economic efficiency and restrains fully-fledged cooperation with the world democratic community which, as history testifies, is much more healthy and productive than the selfish games played by regimes of different nature.

The short history of the post-Soviet states allows us to reach several preliminary conclusions. It demonstrates that the foreign policies of not free and partly free states are determined by a great number of external and internal factors. Some of them are common for every post-Soviet state. Others reflected a score of peculiarities of their domestic and international positions. But at the same time we can assert that there is a distinct causal relationship between the position of a particular regime on the 'autocracy – democracy' range and the general characteristics of its foreign policy. The differences between democratic regimes on one hand and not free or partly free ones on the other inevitably manifest in the foreign policies of countries belonging to the respective groups. The foreign policies of non-democratic states are prone to opportunism. Their relations with other states – democratic or autocratic – are not principled but situational. Though they are more difficult to detect there are certain differences in behavior between not free and partly free states. A degree of voluntarism in

foreign policy subsidizes more or less proportionally to the democratization processes gaining momentum domestically. The foreign policies of the non-democratic states can be rather efficient due to their opportunistic nature, but they depend on the degree the outside world is ready to tolerate such behavior.

POLITICAL REGIMES AND INTERNATIONAL RELATIONS IN THE TWENTIETH-CENTURY: IS THERE A EUROPEAN SPECIFICITY?

Denis Rolland

When I proposed several years ago that José Flavio Sombra Saraiva and Amado Luis Cervo work together with Thomas Skidmore, Andrew Hurrell and Robert Frank on the theme “Political Regimes and International Relations” from the perspective of the Brazilian historiography of international relations, it did not occur to me that this would mean to open new perspectives on Europe as well. The object of the proposed study was first and foremost Brazil itself and took its cue from the assumption that the Brazilian historiography of international relations accorded little importance to regime change (Empire/Republic, Republic/*Estado Novo*, military *Estado Novo*/post-1945 democratization, democracy/military governments, military governments/redemocratization). It began, in other words, with an *a priori* impression and a desire to examine the weak impact that politics have had on the conduct of foreign policy as well as the gradual political “smoothing over” of the history of Brazilian foreign relations. At the very most, this meant opening the way to a series of continental comparisons (Argentina, Colombia, Mexico...).

During the 2000 seminar on this theme in Paris, it appeared that “developing countries” should not be considered in isolation from the states of “old” Europe and the United States. Such an approach ran too great a risk of encouraging a differential treatment of the historiography of international relations in the two domains. In particular, this approach risked willfully understanding the “South” in an *a priori* fashion as politically less stable than the “North” (or “West”). Even though their historiography is older and more advanced, the

problems posed by developed countries – the countries of Western Europe, for instance – are just as complex as those posed by developing ones. Third Republic France, the Vichy regime, and the provisional government of the French Republic and the Fourth Republic, in this sense, give just as good an idea of the gap between regime change and a more or less smooth and uniform historiographical construction of the *policies of those institutions* charged with the direction of foreign policy.

To entrust me with the beginning of a reflection on “regime change and international relations” in Europe is an unwise bet. And yet, when a long-standing friend, José Flávio Sombra Saraiva, proposed that I take up the subject again, I could only accept the challenge. However, it must be treated provisionally, on the one hand taking a comparative point of view in virtue of my “American” specialization, and, on the other, supplying for Europe nothing more than a few illuminating glances in recognition that anything more thorough would risk betraying my necessarily limited knowledge of the historiography of (Western) European international relations.

1. GENERAL PROBLEMS

Writing on political regime change and its impact on foreign policy in the twentieth-century poses three preliminary problems: problems of chronology, of the relevance of the notion of regime change, and of the respective boundaries of foreign policy and international relations. One must thus take note of the determinant place of historiographical constructions in any analysis bearing on foreign policy, international relations, and political regimes.

PROBLEMS OF CHRONOLOGY BEFORE EVERYTHING ELSE

Historians who emphasize comparative history or, more particularly, history on a continental or universal scale, often have the twentieth-century begin with a major event in international relations: the First World War, whether from 1914, 1917, or 1918. If one adopts

the less synthetic perspective of national history, however – the history of some particular country in Europe or America during this period – one finds oneself in a situation in which the “twentieth-century” no longer observes the same chronology. Seen from this perspective, the twentieth-century manifests a high degree of elasticity for how one treats national history and often – but not necessarily – depends on changes of political regime.

In the case of Brazil, does the twentieth-century begin with an essential social measure, the 1888 abolition of slavery, or rather the following year with the regime change that resulted in the proclamation of the Republic? And does it end with another change of regime, the process of redemocratization begun in 1964 following the end of the dictatorship, or rather with the change brought about by Lula’s election as President of the Republic? In any event, international relations – in this case, the First World War – are not adequately significant for the country to represent a determinant break.

One may similarly ask whether the French twentieth-century began with the proclamation of the Third Republic in 1870 or later with the Dreyfus Affair or later still with an ill-defined *Belle Epoque* or even later yet in 1914 or 1918. And what date is one to choose for its close? Did the German twentieth-century begin in 1871 in the *Galerie des glaces* where the process of national unification was finally made concrete or rather with the 1918 defeat and the proclamation of the Republic? And did it end in 1991 with the fall of the Wall, the end of the East German regime, and unification? Did the proclamation of the Republic open the century in Portugal (neutral in the First World War until 1916) or Spain (neutral throughout the War) or are other dates – 1898, for example, in Spain – more significant? And has its entry into the EEC already opened a new century for the Iberian peninsula? In the case of Italy, did the rise to power of the fascists in 1922 mark the beginning of the century? Did the Russian twentieth-century begin with the change of regime in 1917 and close with the fall of communism?

For England, the problem is altogether different: the English twentieth-century witnessed no change of regime upon which one

might base a functional chronological break. In this case, international relations would seem to predominate, freely supplying the breaks in historical narratives...

If one takes as one's unit of interest a period of time shorter than a century, historiographic breaks are similarly discontinuous from one European country to the next, diverging with the political and pedagogical circumstances of each nation.

Of course, if one considers states in isolation without seeking to compare them between themselves, one can often superimpose chronologies of regime change, foreign policy, international relations, and even the articulations of inter-state conflict. All the same, each chronology has its own proper rhythm and certain regime changes are without necessary repercussions (at least immediately noticeable ones) for foreign policy and *a fortiori* international relations. National historians and, even more, those "official" exposés presented by (or under the auspices of) Ministries of Foreign Affairs have, for differing and more or less avowed and conscious reasons, sometimes helped erase the impact of regime change – in order to reinforce certain traits common to national foreign policy (the working hypothesis for Brazil), for example, or to privilege the continuity represented by career diplomatic personnel and the moderating effect they exercise on the unknown quantities of politics. Or again, such a strategy may seek to play down the role of "traditional" diplomats in the conduct of foreign policy (Germany in the national-socialist period) by exposing the multiplication of competent organizations in the conduct of international relations or even to more explicitly efface such and such a regime from the national memory (the official French strategy, as we shall see).

THE PROBLEM OF EVALUATING THE IMPACT OF REGIME CHANGE

The second foreseeable problem, the notion of regime change, is as we have seen of little relevance to certain countries – the United Kingdom, for instance, or Belgium (or even the United States, of course). And even when there is a genuine change of regime, its relevance

is not *a fortiori* certain in the context of international relations. Here we face a problem that shall be essential to our colloquium. We began with the examination of the link between political regime and international relations in the Brazilian case. With five changes of regime, is it not *a priori* reasonable to assume that it will demonstrate few continuities in regards to foreign policy? In Europe, the arrival to power in 1922 of the fascist leader Mussolini contributed to change, however erratically, the course of Italian foreign policy. The ascension of the German national socialist party in 1933 and the Franco's victory in Spain in 1938-1939 similarly upset or overturned the foreign policy of these states. By contrast, it is less certain that Salazar's 1928 assumption of power in the Portuguese state rapidly or radically modified the direction of Portuguese foreign policy.

FOREIGN POLICY OR INTERNATIONAL RELATIONS

The third and last examination/reflection: for this consideration of the links between political regimes and international relations to have meaning, we must not limit ourselves to foreign policy but must endorse as a milestone and marker in our reflections the essential and more general notion of international relations.

European political situations are eminently varied. Experiences differ widely between countries that have not experienced regime change, like Great Britain and Switzerland, and those countries which participated in the fascist-authoritarian wave (Italy, Portugal, Germany, Spain, and also France, even if it was born in defeat...) or were won over by the expansion of communism – Russia, first of all, but also the countries born of the peace treaties signed after the First World War which, in most cases, experienced an authoritarian philo-fascist phase followed, after the Second World War, by an authoritarian communist phase, finally becoming democracies with the fall of the wall and the end of the USSR. And this is not even to take into account those states created at century's end from the dismantling of Russia, Yugoslavia, and Czechoslovakia. Of course, there existed trends. Fascist governments have often, if not always, found affinities between

themselves, common interests and compatible strategies in point of foreign policy. In a more direct and functionally joined way, the communist countries of eastern and central Europe have drawn upon political solidarity and regime identity to pursue an aligned and thus very much shared foreign policy. However, in no case has this frequently observed trait lent to the formation of a general rule.

A good example – as contemporary as one can get – of this absence of a general rule in the practice and historiography of international relations can be found in what those national institutions charged with foreign relations have placed on the internet.

2. OFFICIAL STRATEGIES, HISTORY, AND INTERNATIONAL RELATIONS: THE INTERNET OR THE ABSENCE OF A EUROPEAN SPECIFICITY

Across the planet, numerous ministries of foreign affairs have opened internet sites. If, in Europe, it seems normal that each ministry should direct its own internet site, the situation is quite otherwise amongst developing countries. Not all states have ministerial sites. The ministries of foreign affairs of many under-developed states lack them for reasons of poverty, scarce technical resources, and sometimes also by choice. The better part of African countries, together with Paraguay and Cuba, fall into this category.

The sites are at once conceived as practical instruments and windows. The better part of European countries, those of North America, and certain of the larger developing countries have embarked upon this globalization of information. Experience proves that they are now regularly used as sources of information and documentation by students and amateur historians of international relations. These long term state structures, by definition highly visible abroad and conscious of the role that they play in the diffusion of a national image, are strongly linked to the history of the country *via* the history of its diplomatic relations (too long confused with the history of international relations).

Nevertheless, to “surf” the existing sites of ministries charged with international relations is to notice that, in the developed world as

amongst those countries presently experiencing industrialization, the relation with history, when there is one, is not linked to the ministerial structure. Rather, it appears much more closely dependent on the will of national leaders to give a voice to some or all of the national past. The construction of an internet site is generally the result of a number of precise requests. In this respect, whether or not such a site refers to national history is a matter of significance. It directly touches upon the kind of image national governments wish to give of themselves, a certain conception or scale of national power.¹ In this official framework, the idea that there might be a difference of how the history of international relations is presented between European countries and other geographic zones is hardly relevant.

The reported relation to history of these different institutions varies between two poles: on the one hand, those ministries that have constructed sites without history and, on the other, those for which history appears essential.

There are some government sites – in Europe as on the American continent – that have no history: thus, the sites of the Spanish and Argentinian Ministries of Foreign Affairs. There are also sites which – again, in Europe as in the Americas – reserve a very important role to history: the French and Brazilian ministries, for instance. Without a doubt, there are peoples less interested in history (and their history) than others. But is there an ideal to be attained here that should be shared between the various ministries of a globalized world? In the French and Brazilian cases, recourse has been made to history for very different reasons. Are these to be considered paradigms or extremes?²

In the area between these two alternatives, there are gradations. Amongst those European ministries of foreign affairs that do not concern themselves so much with history in their self-presentation,

¹ Due to a lack of information on the preliminary motives behind internet site construction, all attempts at explanation made in this paper are necessarily conjectural.

² This work was prepared between June 2001 and February 2002. It reflects a consultation of sites, much of which took place in the winter of 2001-2002, and thus does not take into account more recent changes. However, if certain sites have become complete by a process of adding-on (Mexico), others have been largely revised (France).

one must include the British Foreign and Commonwealth Office as well as the somewhat less reserved *Farnesina*, Italy's ministry of foreign affairs. Amongst those ministries that supply discontinuous information must be counted the *Département Fédéral des Affaires étrangères* (DFAE) of the Swiss Confederation. Amongst those that supply detailed and useful information without so much developing their diplomatic history at length are to be included the MID (Russia), the *Palacio das Necessidades* (Portugal), and, outside of Europe, the U.S. State Department and the ministry of foreign affairs of the People's Republic of China. Finally, one should mention the Belgian ministry of foreign affairs, which approaches the matter in a reduced, linear manner.

The following examination of 14 sites, classified according to the simple presence or absence of a "historical" rubric, aims to evaluate the weight of national and/or institutional memory in the construction of a category that particularly implies the image that a state wishes to give of itself.

FOREIGN RELATIONS: TOTAL OR PARTIAL HISTORICAL AMNESIA

Certain sites contain no history or very little.

To say that certain countries are little interested by the idea of offering a retrospective vision of their international relations is too easy, even when considering the costs of building what is a relatively unimportant site. In fact, it very much seems that the difficulty of managing a recent past involving change of political regime has been able to influence the decision of the site's promoters. In other words, how can one institutionally take into account a recent past that is responsible for conflict, violence, and wounds, particularly when the actors are sometimes still living and perhaps even working?

Neither Spain nor Argentina, for example, include a historical rubric in their respective ministerial sites. And yet both countries returned to democracy several decades ago and both are countries that love to celebrate the grandeur of the national past – its empire in the case of Spain, its memories of economic development and certain iconic political figures in the case of Argentina. No doubt the insurmountable

difficulty of accounting for certain segments of that past helps explain this absence.

In Spain, the memory of Francism is still burning hot. One need not be a great historian to recognize this. To this general remark, however, it must be added that the change of political regime, the brilliant transition to democracy accomplished in this country, rested on the deliberate and nearly total refusal of “purification” in favor of appeasement and civil harmony. The better part of the Franco-era functionaries in the *Ministerio de Asuntos Exteriores* kept their jobs. Under these circumstances, how is one to both scientifically and officially present the history of the Civil War, of the Francist crusade, of Francist Spain at war, and of the long dictatorship that was to follow late into the twentieth-century? From many points of view, not writing history when it is not necessary to do so facilitates the management of the present. Thus, of the 13 rubrics to be found at the Ministry’s home page, not one touches upon history (www.mae.es).³ But this case is not at all unique to Europe.

In Argentina, the situation can be *a priori* understood with the aid of similar hypotheses (even when one takes into consideration financial questions). The *Cancilleria* has no online history. All the same, the country loves to examine the evidence of rapid economic growth and the promise of Northern-style power in its not-so-distant past. One finds no history in the Ministry’s site. There is thus no consideration of the different manners in which the great political parties have led foreign affairs, no mention of regime change, and hence no need to account for the very recent, difficult, and bloody military past. There is similarly no need to examine the willfully erratic policy observed by Argentina *vis à vis* the United States over this period... If the historian does not exactly know the reasons that have led to this absence of history, he can at least understand the difficulties that have led to not presenting this history *there* as well as the advantages that might accrue

³ Travelers Advisory, Grants, Fellowships and Readerships, Press Reviews, General Information, Enter in the MAE, Embassies and Consulates, News, OID Information, Conferences and Publications, Contests, Links, Subsidiary Organizations, Information for MAE Employees.

to said ministry by not raising a delicate question on a site that, it is true, has been only very slightly developed (www.mrecic.gov.ar).⁴

These two sites, more detailed than in the Spanish case (13 entries against 4), are thus exclusively functional and practical and are in no way rooted in the past.

There are different cases: a ministry that, under pressure of light historical trauma, forgets a quarter-century of its history, another that does not display its history beyond the first change of regime...

Italy thus presents very little institutional history on the website of its ministry of foreign affairs, the *Farnesina* (www.esteri.it). There is a little history in the discussion of the ministry's buildings (www.esteri.it/lafernesina/luoghi/index.htm) and a little also under the rubric "Servizio Storico" but only for the purpose of presenting the history of ministerial archives in several paragraphs (www.esteri.it/archivi/servsto/archivsto/archiv1.htm)... In any event, mention is nowhere made of matters that would indicate the past existence of another political regime and there is nothing on the fascist era. One finds neither "Mussolini" nor any of the period's ministers of Foreign Affairs, even if the ministry's imposing edifice in the *Foro Italico* is no stranger to fascist architectural policy. The past is not accepted or not judged externally presentable (despite obvious traces of continuity in contemporary society) or, finally, is simply judged unnecessary.

Such selectivity is neither specific to Europe nor to democratic regimes that are confronted with an authoritarian past. If one turns to Asia, for example, one finds in the collectively autocratic Chinese communist regime the same reflex to defy and obscure a "different" past.

Outside of Europe, the English version of the website of the Ministry of Foreign Affairs of the People's Republic of China consecrates a modest part of its architecture to history (www.fmprc.gov.cn/eng). Only one of 34 rubrics is in fact dedicated to "Diplomatic History" (www.fmprc.gov.cn/eng/c698.html). However, behind this single entry, one finds 58 articles that sweep across themes and domains of foreign relations reflecting a Chinese

⁴ The Chancellorcy, Travel Service, Foreign Trade, The Argentine Republic.

foreign policy very much turned toward little syntheses of the type: “The Long-term Stable Constructive Partnership Between China and the European Union”,⁵ “Establishment of Sino-French Diplomatic Relations”⁶ (www.fmprc.gov.cn/eng/5689.html), “China and Brazil” (www.fmprc.gov.cn/eng/4320.html)... Nevertheless, as one might expect, this diplomatic history of China is strictly limited to the communist era. Imperial and republican China before Mao receive no space, however minimal, in this external presentation of Chinese history. At least in the English version, partial historical amnesia depends upon a policy of deliberate selectivity, a policy that censures any mention of other regimes besides the present one.

The case of Japan’s MOFA is noticeably different. The English site of the Japanese Ministry (www.mofa.go.jp) is also very detailed, including a remarkable double-entry system: 13 or 55 categories proposed on the home page alone! Yet history is not visibly a preoccupation here (no entry proposed from the outset) nor even a global concern (there is no general history of the Ministry). Starting from the rubrics “Postwar Issues” (www.mofa.go.jp/policy/postwar/index.html) and “Culture”, one comes upon the Bluebook (a publication of diplomatic documents from recent years, accessible on line beginning in 1994); there is nothing earlier. A thorough search, however, reveals that the category “Regional Affairs” contains quite a few little historical notes concerning Japanese foreign relations (www.mofa.go.jp/region/), though these are of an uneven depth. In that part dedicated to the Near East, for instance, the author refers to a “Silk Road” between Japan and the United States (www.mofa.go.jp/region/middle_e/relation/history.html). History, however, begins with the “Japanese defeat” and no mention is explicitly made of regime change (www.mofa.go.jp/region/n-am/us/relation.html) or relations with the European Union before 1991 (www.mofa.go.jp/region/europe/eu/overview/history.html)...

⁵ The stable and constructive long-term partnership between China and the European Union.

⁶ The establishment of Sino-French diplomatic relations.

FOREIGN RELATIONS: A NECESSARY MEMORY

Certain countries make moderate reference to history on the sites of their ministries of foreign affairs.

Some of them seem to engage in history by necessity (Switzerland). Others seem to accord a deliberately limited place to history in order to offer a future-oriented image of the country (Great Britain) and sometimes *also* due to a lack of interest in an often complex past (Belgium). These three countries – Switzerland, the United Kingdom, and Belgium – have more or less directly experienced regime change elsewhere in Europe, even as their own domestic regimes enjoyed a remarkable institutional continuity.⁷ Others grant history a middling role (Russia, Portugal, Germany and, outside of Europe, the United States), managing their past with greater or lesser forthrightness, disingenuousness, and self-satisfaction.

To judge by its website, the *Département Fédéral des Affaires étrangères de la Confédération helvétique* (DFAE) is not very interested in history (www.dfae.admin.ch). The website offers visitors many history pages, often by means of sending them to other sites and only in order to demonstrate its neutrality (the “historical questions” of the *Commission indépendante d’expertes dite Commission Bergier*: www.switzerland.taskforce.ch/W/W2/W2a/a1_fn.htm) or in order to respond to international criticism, particularly concerning the role of Switzerland during the Second World War (under the category “Switzerland in the Second World War”). History, in other words, mainly features when it seems imperative to maintaining the national image. Otherwise, it is judged superfluous.

Thanks to its strong institutional continuity and its freedom from radical political change in the twentieth-century, Great Britain seeks to give an image of itself as of a country turned resolutely towards the future. The site of the Foreign and Commonwealth Office, London, for instance, significantly presents itself under the motto

⁷ Invaded in 1940, Belgian democracy was interrupted until war's end.

“Creativity, innovation, and quality” (www.fco.gov.uk). In what would seem a relation of cause and effect, history is here offered in homeopathic doses. In several lines, the very brief “History Notes” (www.fco.gov.uk/news/keythemehome.asp?9) present the “FCO Historians”, three series of historical publications, and several practical aids, to which are regularly added nine short articles, all devoted to the history of the twentieth-century. One thus finds amongst these titles “Britain’s Entry into the EC”, “Nazi Gold”, and “Women in Diplomacy” ... One also finds several very domestic historical notes in the presentation of the Ministry’s buildings (www.fco.uk/directory/dynpage.asp?Page=62 and www.fco.gov.uk/directory/tour.asp). None of this is to say that the Ministry is not interested in history; indeed, far from it. The site’s discretion implies no refusal, a fact to which the works published directly or indirectly under the aegis of the FCO attest. In its public presentation, however, history is judged neither determinant nor of the first importance.

The site of the *Ministère belge des Affaires étrangères, du Commerce extérieur et de la Coopération au Développement* (www.diplobel.org, www.diplobel.fgov.be) has not forgotten history but neither is it slowed down by it. It is in the category “Guide to the Ministry” that one finds the well-named and brief “Historical Survey” (www.diplobel.org/Ministry/gids%20-%20fr/2.htm). Occasionally written with a domestic audience in mind (“our country”), the survey is divided between four chronological “periods”: “1830-1875”, “1875-1914”, “between the wars”, and “after 1945”. To judge by this chronology, the two wars “escape” the history of the ministry. In one phase, “violated neutrality” is evoked for the First World War; nothing is said of the Second. The occupation of Belgian territory during the First and Second World Wars does not explain much (post-war reconciliation and the European construction require that the nationality of the occupying army is never mentioned). And yet there were working governments in exile during these periods and, within the occupied area, certain institutions remained functional. Yet there is no point in insisting. In Belgium, as in France (the “Vichy Syndrome”), there are elements of a war-era “syndrome”, even if these

are less important, less widely studied, and less often recognized than in the French case. The internet site of the Belgian ministry of foreign affairs is a reflection of this unrealized *aggiornamento* in Belgian institutional history.

Apropos extra-European comparisons, the site of Mexico's *Secretaria de Relaciones Exteriores* (www.sre.gob.mx) gives an important place to history (five out of fourteen categories) (www.sre.gob.mx/acerca/sre/historiasre.htm). But this long exposé (21 pages) is only linear at a glance. In fact, great emphasis is placed on the twentieth-century (16 pages) and, more particularly, on recent years (8 pages). In a country with a first-rate historiography and a well-developed history of international relations, the terminology of chronological de-coupling in terms of which the six (very unequal) periods of Mexican history are presented is rather surprising. Indeed, the manner in which these periods are joined one to the other gives the impression that the site was developed less under the aegis of directed revision than by simple accumulation. After a section on the "Nineteenth-century" follows an elliptical "dawn of the twentieth-century" where one might have expected the word "Revolution". Following an astonishingly precocious (from the perspective of traditional Mexican historiography) "post-revolutionary step" from 1917 to 1946 comes a "modern step", covering the period from 1946 to 2000. This category is extended to include the "end of the twentieth-century" where the reforms of 1998 are evoked. There is also a section on the "new millennium" touching upon, without quite saying so, the end of the Revolutionary-Institutional Party's hegemony and the rise to power – this time explicitly noted – of the *Partido de Accion Nacional* (PAN). Of all the entries in this category, only the latter appears in boldface on the site, insisting on the fact that "today we can speak of a democratic Mexico". The fundamental twentieth-century regime change represented by the Revolution, in other words, is, if not quite erased, at the very least played down in the representation of the Mexican past. This representation remains very much engaged with the present and deliberately open to the future.

The site of the Russian Ministry of Foreign Affairs (MID) is rather complete (www.in.mid.ru/website).⁸ However, this holds only for the Russian version of the site. The English, French, Spanish, and German versions – all identical – by contrast have been very poorly prepared and contain only three categories. Unless one allows that such a difference is “only” an expression of financial exigencies, one must entertain two other possible and complementary explanations: in the first place, a sort of “nationalist” prerogative and, in the second, an interest in providing differential access to national (or Russophone) and foreign (or non-Russophone) publics.

History is present in ten categories of the Russian language version. The “archive service”, in particular, presents a global history, including a chronology of foreign ministers and synthetic articles on a number of themes (www.in.mid.ru/website/ns-arch.nsf). Three features of are worth noting here. First, the history of Czarist Russia is developed at greater length (4/8es) than that of the USSR (3,5/8es) and the site does not insist *in the historical category* on the policies of the new Russia (0,5/8es). Indeed, today’s Russia is exclusively addressed in the presentation of several eloquent figures (number of embassies and personnel) whereas other segments of the past are developed at length through a number of thematic articles. On the other hand, the idea of continuity in foreign policy across each regime is clearly affirmed (somewhat in the Brazilian manner, even if in this case the changes have been only political). Indeed, the case is made for policy identity from a period anterior to the Romanovs through the USSR to Putine – from Czarist monarchy through Communism to the nearly democratic present, in other words. In striking distinction to Chinese obfuscation, this way of writing or presenting the history of Russian foreign policy – effacing all changes of policy between one regime and the next – is not isolated. The same method is, to one degree or another,

⁸ In 1991, the decision was taken to name it the Ministry of Foreign Relations. However, this site is still signed “department of the MID” in December 2001. Where relevant, it is always the MID that is cited.

to be found at work in the Italian, Brazilian, and even the French sites. Finally – and this is the third characteristic of the site – the MID inscribes its policy in a very long term perspective, extending Russian foreign policy all the way back to the political foundation of Russia. The first part of the exposé begins with the ninth-century (even France, though very conscious of its history and the antiquity of that history, does not dare go so far), a date that, it is true, is commonly accepted as the birth of Russia (the MID was only created under this name in 1802). Russia is thus presented as taking part for over a millennium in world-historical stakes. This is a Russia with a relentlessly active foreign policy, one that is just as present in Byzantium as in contemporary globalization, the principal agent in the struggle against fascism and the decisive partner in the Détente...

Portugal's *Ministério dos Negocios Estrangeiros* has created a detailed and well-illustrated site in which history enjoys a prominent place (www.min-nestrangeiros.pt/mne), occupying – albeit modestly – the third of seven categories (with three sub-categories out of 28). The “Aspectos Historicos” consists of three elements. The briefest of these, “História da Instituição”, is half a page in length (www.min-nestrangeiros.pt/mne/historia). The “Sinopse da Historia Diplomatica portuguesa”, for its part, is in fact a simple (and undated) list of sovereigns and is followed by a long and detailed chronology that includes, with dates, the ministers of foreign affairs and the principal events chosen by a diplomat (www.minestrangeiros.pt/mne/histdiplomatica/principal.html). The historical presentation closes with a series of “discussions”, “Discursos”. However, in focusing its very detailed chronology (36 pages) on the ministry, its ministers, and the history of diplomatic relations, this part of the site does something remarkable (www.minnestrangeiros.pt/mne/histdiplomatica/sino36.html): nowhere is regime change mentioned. Indeed, the name of Salazar only appears in 1936 and then simply to acknowledge, without offering the reader any indication of his principal function, that he had taken provisional charge of the Ministry...⁹ There is thus

⁹ The name next appears in 1942, 1943, and 1957.

no admission of regime change in the 1920's and just as little for the 1970's.

The site of Germany's Auswärtiges Amt is in this respect much more successful (www.auswaertiges.amt.de). There is an immediate historical entry (www.auswaertiges.amt.de/www/de/aamt/geschichte/index.html) as well as another for certain archives (www.auswaertiges.amt.de/www/de/infoservice/politik/index.html). The historical portion of the site presents a general history of the Ministry since 1870 and does not avert its glance from the Nazi period. What's more, certain pages tend to underline, not without reason, the fact that traditional diplomacy and the Ministry had lost (some) of their importance, power, and, implicitly – most important for the site and the image of the Ministry – responsibility during this period, to the degree that the National Socialists had allowed both the Party itself and a collection of other ministries (in particular, the Ministry of Propaganda) to play a role in the construction of foreign policy.

Crossing the Atlantic, one finds that the North American State Department's site is, like its German counterpart, clear without skirting major issues (www.state.gov). It is of course true that it disposes of greater financial, technical, and scientific means than, say, the Portuguese site but it also has fewer political variations to explain, justify or forget. The historical portion of the site (History, Education & Culture, one of nine site entries) opens on to the Office of the Historian. This is first and foremost reserved to sources and responding to questions from the public and researchers. A project of the State Department's Bureau of Public Affairs, the site includes in its historical category eleven windows, including a detailed chronology of the voyages undertaken by the President and Secretary of State (www.state.gov/r/pa/ho/trv1/c4388.htm), a special section on documentation relating to the "Holocaust", and a chronology of national diplomatic history (Timeline of US Diplomatic History). There, as in the French site, one finds a rather commonplace portrait gallery (www.state.gov/r/pa/ho/c1799.htm) which allows one to click on the images and pass directly to a more extensive discussion (diplomatic history in the American case, biographies in the French one). However, as of early

March 2002, this part of the site has only been completed for the period of Independence (the French site, in this respect, is complete).

FOREIGN RELATIONS: THE EXPOSURE STRATEGY OR THE INSTRUMENTALIZATION OF HISTORY

There are other countries in which the institutional strategy seems to be exactly the inverse of that of Spain or Argentina. Such is the case of France and Brazil. Here, one finds one's self confronted with an abundance of history.

The site of the French *Ministère des Affaires Étrangères* (www.diplomatie.gouv.fr/index.html) contains, together with that of Brazil, the most exhaustive discussion of history. It is also, *in this domain*, the most complete site; indeed, it is remarkably detailed. Under the rubric "diplomatic archives" (www.diplomatie.gouv.fr/archives/index.html), one of thirteen site entries, history appears in nine (in-depth) sub-rubrics, including a very handsome portrait gallery with accompanying discussion (www.diplomatie.gouv.fr/archives/dossiers/140ministres/index.html) and a short series of "Great Diplomatic Figures" (www.diplomatie.gouv.fr/archives/dossiers/grandes-figures/index.html): Richelieu, Vergennes, Chateaubriand, Briand.

The site was reworked and improved in 2001. A preface to the archives rubric (Hélène Carrère-d'Encausse) has been eliminated. Nevertheless, the site conserves a profound trace of the Vichy syndrome in the administration of foreign affairs. In the portrait gallery that begins in 1574 with Luis de Revol,¹⁰ a pretty and very artificial continuity allows one to pass almost directly from the end of the France of the Third Republic to that France in exile grouped in London around General de Gaulle. In a certain manner, the reader is invited to think that foreign affairs did not exist under Vichy and that the Ministry thus had nothing to do with the "Années noires". This total simplification of memory is by no means particular to the Ministry's website; it is also the version advanced by the precious and singular

¹⁰ In 1589 in the title.

synthesis of the history of the Ministry of Foreign Affairs published by CNRS¹¹ as well as by the *Annuaire diplomatique*, an official annual publication of the Ministry (or by the French Association of Artistic Action in a hardly modified form)... The internet site of the Ministry thus presents in its portrait gallery a chronology of images that is entirely consistent with the dominant memory – the term is not the most modern – of the Second World War: which is to say all that one does not wish to understand about Vichy. At a detailed level, the margins of obfuscation are lightly fluctuating with the Third Republic prolonged by a semester under Paul Baudoin – a “minister of the Vichy government”,¹² of course, but at the same time a “minister of the Third Republic”.¹³ Nor is this internal contradiction a cause of embarrassment. If Laval is absent from this sector of the portrait gallery as Minister of Foreign Affairs during the Second World War, he nevertheless appears under the rubric dedicated to the inter-war period, having in fact occupied this position on five separate occasions between 1932 and 1936. And once one “clicks” on this portrait of Laval, the text has him reappear as Minister under the Occupation – but only from April 1942 through August 1944, not from October 1940 to December 1941. As if the origins of the French state (it is true for that part of this site concerning the Third Republic), however fundamental to the history of collaboration and the politics of exclusion, should be spared Laval!¹⁴ The confusion between the memory and history of the Second World War is thus evident (according to common “scientific” stereotypes) in the representation offered by the site of the French Ministry of Foreign Affairs. This confusion is deliberate: from

¹¹ *Les Affaires étrangères et le corps diplomatique français*, vol. II, CNRS, Paris: 1984.

¹² The treatment of the Second World War in this site seems to have given way to ample debates in the Ministry but the tradition denying all overlap between the Third Republic and Free France seems to have resolutely swept it away.

¹³ Baudoin stepped down after Montoire, Laval taking charge of the Ministry.

¹⁴ “Laval Pierre. Senator, President of the Council, died 15 October 1945. 14 January – 21 February 1932; 13 October – 7 June 1935, thrice minister; 7 June 1935 – 24 January 1936, Senator, President of the Council, Minister for the fifth time. 18 April 1942 – August 1944, Minister of the Vichy government” www.diplomatie.gouv.fr/archives/expo/140/2guer/08.html.

the earliest stages of site construction, it was decided to overlook the scientific objections raised by certain members of the committee charged with organizing it.

The Brazilian Ministry of Foreign Affairs (*Ministério das Relações Exteriores*) (www.itamaraty.gov.br) is also an example of a ministry that places great emphasis on national history and, in particular, the history of international relations. Here, too, we see that the historiographical construction instrumentalized by official institutions is in no sense unique to Europe. This example also allows us to conclude with the country that once again welcomes us, each time better than the last. One of the fifteen entries (*Temas de Política Externa*) found at the site of the Brazilian Ministry leads to either a brief “*Panorama da Política Externa*” or towards “*A construção da nação*” (<http://www.mre.gov.br/cdbrasil/itamaraty/web/port/index.htm>). Above all, one of the three entries presented as central to the site, “*A Diplomacia Brasileira*” opens on four primarily historical rubrics. The second of these, the “*História da Diplomacia brasileira*” (http://www.mre.gov.br/acs/diplomacia/portg/h_diplom/menu_hd.htm) is a remarkable work of history in two versions, Portuguese and English, each of which is at least a hundred pages long (<http://www.mre.gov.br/acs/diplomacia>).

The important place given history here is no doubt linked in part to the existence and antiquity (relative to most other countries on the continent) of the Diplomatic School, the *Instituto Rio Branco*. It is also linked to the remarkable sophistication of the Brazilian history of international relations. And yet these explanations are not enough, even if the analogy between France and Brazil would seem to support them. For the study of the history of international relations is highly developed in other countries as well (the USA, Germany, and so on). Similarly, Brazil is not alone in supporting a well-established program for training diplomats (UK, Germany, etc.). Unlike Brazil, however, these countries have chosen to develop their ministerial web sites in a different manner altogether. If Brazil has chosen to emphasize its diplomatic history, this fact no doubt has much to do with a desire to justify its power, at least regionally, by publicly underlining the rich,

well-studied, and historically “linear” character of its national foreign policy.

In the fourteen sites we have examined, one observes a variety of sometimes complementary strategies for drawing upon history.

For certain sites, *history poses problems that have yet to be surmounted* (Belgium). The responses and evasions to this situation vary widely. These include total amnesia (Argentina and Spain), partial amnesia (Japan and China), taking short cuts around difficult periods (Belgium), and political “smoothing over” or highly simplified reconstructions (Portugal) that can sometimes appear genuinely acrobatic in their contradictions (France). As recent events in France show, the deliberate “managing” of history involved in this last approach is largely useless.

Elsewhere, history appears as *an expression of the age – indeed, the antiquity – of institutions*. This category includes all those sites in which the antiquity of regional power is emphasized (Russia and France, in particular).

Finally, there is *history as affirmation or memory of national grandeur*, namely, those sites where an aspiration to national grandeur is implicitly evoked by reference to an immensely rich and detailed history (Brazil and France).

In most cases, however, one fact stands at the heart of the multiple biases, evasions, masks, and obfuscations found at these sites: political regime change. It goes without saying that this is a subject that demands further study. Such a study would require a team of specialists capable of conducting research across European languages. Understanding how political regime change is managed would also require examining many other aspects of these sites: how they are created; the writing of the diplomats and historians who, whether members of the institution or not, have contributed to the historical pages; the construction, use, and sometimes disappearance of national heroes; the representation of foreign countries...

Beyond this examination, it remains to suggest something of a response to the question with which we began: on the basis of the sites

studied, there seems to be neither a trait specific to European international relations in the twentieth-century nor any strategy particular to European countries for writing the history of international relations – especially when it comes to the question of political regime change.

THE CONTINUITY OF AMERICAN FOREIGN POLICY

Christopher Coker

“The critical moment in the twentieth century will come when nineteenth century ideas no longer have the power to keep a twentieth century people in their grasp” (G K Chesterton, on a visit to the US in 1921).

Among the papers Woodrow Wilson took to Versailles in 1919 was a much underlined memorandum from the American academic, Frederick Jackson Turner, a scholar Wilson greatly admired. Turner thought that the genius of American democracy might be injected back into Europe. The gist of his paper, entitled ‘Interest political parties in a durable League of Nations’, was that America’s experience was probably not unique after all. The American frontier experience might provide a model for Europe’s future. Of course, the political parties were not vacant lands which Turner believed to be the essence of democracy, a thesis that had made him famous. The frontier, he claimed, had been the cradle of democratic ideals that ultimately fostered the discontent that precipitated the breach between the colonies and England. Now they could bring the New and Old Worlds together, as they had in 1917. The central theme of American foreign policy after the war, he insisted, should be to apply the frontier experience by sustaining a pluralistic party system or democratic order that would mitigate the worst aspects of European nationalism and thus prevent future wars.¹

As a President, Woodrow Wilson remains the most influential for he was the man who took the United States into European history

¹ Lloyd Gardner, *A Covenant with Power: America and world order from Wilson to Reagan*, Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1982, p. 23.

in 1917, the year that Lenin took Russia out of it when he concluded peace with Germany at Brest-Litovsk. When the Soviet Union re-emerged into history once again in 1945 many American Presidents in dealing with it found inspiration in Wilson's vision of a world made safe for democracy. Lyndon Johnson often quoted Wilson's assertion that "we created this nation not to save ourselves but to save mankind". Jimmy Carter tells us in his memoirs that when he pondered what to say in his inaugural address Wilson's speeches influenced him the most.²

If Woodrow Wilson affords one element of continuity in twentieth century American foreign policy Jackson Turner affords another. It is to Turner that we must first turn if we are to understand what is most consistent about the foreign policy of the United States: the fact that it is a country that has been sustained by a national myth, and a myth that is inherently *modern*.

TURNER, THE FRONTIER MYTH AND THE AMERICAN IMAGINATION

Frederick Jackson Turner imposed on American history a view that stressed its frontier as the crucible of American nationality, and its own exceptionalism. He is perhaps the best example of how a historian helped forge a national myth, and with it a national ideology. From 1892-1910 Turner was Professor of American History at the University of Wisconsin. At the outset of his career he was invited to give a paper at a special convention of the American Historical Association at the Chicago World Fair in 1893. The thirty-three year-old Turner presented the paper on "the significance of the Frontier in American history", a paper which made him one of the most celebrated of American historians of his time. His main contention was that "the factor of time in American history is insignificant when compared with the factors of space and social evolution...". Turner considered constructed space as a lived experience and therefore socially produced. Consequently the American West was a form of society rather than a place:

² Jimmy Carter, *Keeping Faith: memoirs of a President*. New York: 1982, p. 19.

The frontier is the line of most rapid and effective Americanisation. The wilderness masters the colonist. It finds him European in dress, industries, tools, modes of travel and thought. It takes him from a railroad car and puts him in the birch canoe. It strips off the garments of civilisation and arrays him in the hunting shirt and the moccasin. It puts him in the log cabin with the Cherokee and Iroquois... In short, at the frontier, the environment is at first too strong for the man. He must accept the conditions which it furnishes or perish. But little by little he transforms the wilderness, but the outcome is not the old Europe, not simply the development of Germanic germs.... The fact is, that there is a new product that is American... Thus the advance of the frontier has meant a steady movement away from the influence of Europe, a steady growth of independence on American lines.³

As Turner revealed some years later to Carl Becker, one of his most influential students, his path-breaking essay was “pretty much a reaction” to what he considered the mistaken notions of his Johns Hopkins mentor, Herbert Baxter Adams, who had insisted that American history had been done, that historians were better off researching the history of Europe.⁴

The frontier thesis, in other words, was a way by which Turner's generation, by deconstructing the American past, rejected the European biased origins theory which dominated American history in his day. What he presented instead was a steady growth of the American character which pointed to the exceptional nature of American nationality. If the United States first entered European history in 1884

³ Each generation produces fresh commentaries on Turner. See for example Benson, L, *Turner and Beard: American historical writing reconsidered*. New York: Free Press, 1960; Billington, R. A. (ed), *Frontier Thesis: valid interpretation of American history?* New York: Holt, Rinehart & Winston, 1966. Noble, D, *Historians against History: the frontier thesis and the national covenant in American historical writing since 1830*. Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1965.

⁴ Richard Etulain, *Writing Western History: essays on Western major historians*. Albuquerque: University of New Mexico Press, 1991, p. 6-7.

at the Congress of Berlin (which it attended as an observer) it re-entered it in 1917 – this time as a principal actor – the myth of the frontier had captured the American imagination.

Using that word, of course, one is reminded immediately of the difference in key terms that characterises the debate on US foreign policy. Some commentators prefer to see it in terms of socio-economic forces, vested interests and power; others see myths, norms, and culture as the important influence. I confess myself a member of the second school. Ideas have been the principal theme of international politics for the past two hundred years. This was the great illumination of the European Enlightenment (which gave birth of course to the American republic). Once science replaced faith as the principal source of knowledge the question had to be asked: did the perception of the senses distort external reality, or did the senses indeed make it up? Ironically, science was the last field to recognise (in Heisenberg's Uncertainty Principle of the 1920's) that the observer influences the events that are observed; that the participating mind changes the reality in which it participates. But if scientific thought took a long time to make this point social thought did not. Ideology (an eighteenth century term) was grounded on the principle that reality affected the mind, just as the mind interpreted reality – that generated the seed of the ideological wars of the twentieth century.

De Tocqueville told us that we will never understand a people if we do not understand their ideology and their myths. Without irony Max Lerner once entitled a book 'Ideas are weapons'. What gives ideology its force is its passion. Truth lies in action, and meaning is given to experience by 'a transforming moment' which more often than not in the modern age was war. And the heroic feats of war are a powerful stimulus to national imagination.

I recognise, of course, that there is no such thing as an American imagination in the sense of some communal or historically constructed entity which passes from generation to generation and touches the whole nation. There are, however, identifiable social traditions which can be discussed in terms of common themes. In this case we are discussing a particular ideology.

Ideology is neither a religion nor a philosophy, nor the interpretation of folk stories or works of art, even though it may draw on all of these and other sources. Ideologies are the collective myths around which a nation understands itself and distances itself from others. The problem for the United States, writes Agnes Heller, is that there were no old memories, no old stories, no mythologies, no indigenous fairytales that could help make the United States understand itself. There might have been stories of the War of Independence, and later of the Civil War, but these stories hardly formed a living memory or a collective consciousness. American nationalism was strong by the 1890s but it was not historically grounded. As a social invention the US needed to invent a myth, a historically rooted story and memory which the frontier myth offered. And she adds, the more 'historical' an ideology is, the deeper its historical roots, so the greater part acts of war and conquest will play in it.⁵

If myths are one of the key features of modernity, modern myths differ from pre-modern in terms of agency: the ability to make one's own future. And as a myth, Turner's thesis performed a number of functions that were important for the Great Power America was in the process of becoming.

1. It offered a way of absorbing the immigrants in a historical myth that was peculiar to the United States. The importance of immigration was already evidenced in Madison's Tenth Federalist Paper. It was only by enhancing the diversity of the population of the New World, claimed Madison, that the United States could avoid any one group dominating another. Thus the existence of the frontier had a formative effect on the development of the United States and later on the development of America's international thought. Madison recognised that other nations had an interest in America's internal affairs. Only later did the United States begin to have an interest in the internal affairs of other nations.⁶

⁵ Agnes Heller, *A Theory of Modernity*, p. 102-103.

⁶ James Madison, *Federalist Papers*, n° 10.

The fact that in the multiethnic society the United States became in the course of the twentieth century the ethnic factor might be exploited by others was to endure well into the twentieth century. One hundred and fifty years later the same question was posed by Allan Bloom in his book *The Closing of the American Mind*. America, he insisted, “cannot be sustained if the people keep only to their own ways and remain perpetual outsiders. The society has got to turn them into Americans”.⁷ In that sense, foreign policy was indeed domestic policy writ large.

2. Turner’s writing struck such a chord because it tapped into an American imagination at a particular moment in its history – on the eve of the Spanish-American War (1898) when it was at its most self-confident. It was a mood captured by Joseph Conrad in *Nostromo* especially in the person of one of its chief characters, the Yankee businessman Holroyd, who we are told, has “the temperament of a Puritan and an insatiable imagination of conquest”. Holroyd has a globalising eye, and an implicit belief that the twentieth century will be America’s. “We will be giving the word for everything: industry, trade, journalism . . . we shall run the world’s business whether the world likes it or not. The world can’t help it and neither can we”.⁸

The frontier myth was important for the sense of mission it imparted to American policy abroad. Turner had insisted that the land in the West had the power to shape America’s political, economic and cultural institutions and, in particular, its commitment to democracy. For the frontier myth stressed the exceptional character of American nationality: a free people creating a free land. And free land was not the empty space of geographers. It was time as well, for Turner created a timeless or historical uniqueness to America which gave the frontier a determining power over different generations. What Turner produced was what he himself called “the national history of the American spirit” which could also account for the development of the spirit after 1890, the year in which the frontier was finally closed. In the coal barons,

⁷ Allan Bloom, *The Closing of the American Mind*, New York: 1986.

⁸ Joseph Conrad, *Nostromo*, London: Penguin, 1990, p. 94-951.

steel kings, oil kings and railway magnates of twentieth century America he saw a new social dynamics. Even in the robber barons of his own day he saw the same “constructive fever ... to seek new avenues of action and power...” to express the horizon of the nation's activity.⁹

3. Above all, Turner's thesis should be seen as only one of a series of nineteenth century myths which so much influenced the twentieth century state that the US was to become. As Dean Acheson recognised in the 1960s, “we are not a twentieth century people: we are a nineteenth century people: our minds are not our own but our great grandparents' minds”.¹⁰ The nineteenth century, the historian Norman Stone once observed, had all the ideas; the twentieth century had the technology to realise them, to carry them out. This was the unique dialectic of America's engagement with the world.

Turner's thesis, to be sure, was only one of a number of nineteenth century myths (retributive justice in the Wild West was another – as we shall see) all of which inspired US policy makers as the twentieth century unfolded. What the paper Turner drafted for Woodrow Wilson shows is that every generation recreated a myth or tradition by inspiring different policymakers at different times.

AMERICAN MODERNITY

As I have argued, the frontier myth was part of an ideology. Both the myth and the ideology were inherently ‘modern’. In looking at the nature of US modernity I am influenced by the work of Talcott Parsons and especially by his book *The Evolution of Societies* (1977). Parsons contended that what distinguished the US was the ‘associational’ pattern of modernity (an idea which was at the core of the frontier thesis). It made everyone equal in the eyes of the law and the eyes of each other. Parsons was not the first, nor, I suspect, the last social commentator to appreciate the unique cultural configuration of America. De Tocqueville in many ways had done this before but Parsons

⁹ Alan Munstow, *Writing History: Frederick Jackson Turner and the deconstruction of American history in Cologne-Broukes* (ed) *Writing and America*, London: Longman, 1996, p. 18.

¹⁰ Dean Acheson, *This Vast Eternal Realm*, New York: W. W. Norton, 1973, p. 172.

was one of the most persuasive recent commentators. For he argued that the industrial and French Revolutions, as Hegel recognised, had initiated a major transformation in Western Europe which had led to the emergence of the first modern society. Where the Industrial Revolution had differentiated the economy from the 'societal community', the democratic revolution had differentiated the polity.

Both processes of differentiation had led to the need for a new form of social integration. The identification of 'integration' as the central problem of modern societies was at the heart of Parson's own understanding of modernity. For the emergence of modernity is associated in his work with the weakening of the 'ascriptive framework' of monarchy, aristocracy and established churches, as well as an economy circumscribed by kinship and localism. In his view, what made the US different from other modern societies was the fact that the industrial and democratic revolutions were more intimately combined in America. So much so that he argued with De Tocqueville that not only was the United States unique but it was unique because it had taken the lead "in the latest phase of modernisation".¹¹

What struck Parsons is what strikes the visitor to the United States today – the existence of a secular public education, the relative absence of divisive forms of social consciousness and an associated 'openness' of class structure which accounts for the absence of a socialist party of any electoral importance (a problem which taxed Western Marxists such as Gramsci in the 1920s). Parsons attributed the absence of what Nietzsche would call the politics of 'resentiment' (the relative absence of alienation) to a shift from 'ascription' to 'achievement'. All modern societies, of course, are distinguished by this trend but the US is distinguished the most. Within American society there is a clear trend to 'volunteerism', 'civic activism' and 'egalitarianism', which makes the United States the most pluralistic or *inclusive* social community in the world.

It was that inclusiveness that inspired the United States to include the rest of the world in part by making the world safe for democracy

¹¹ Talcott Parsons, *The Evolution of Societies*, Engelwood Cliffs: Prentice Hill, 1977, p. 182.

(the great Wilsonian project, and that of his successors). Elaborating on the distinctiveness of American society Parsons went on to contend:

Universalism which had its purest modern expression in the ethics of aesthetic Protestantism has exerted continuing value pressure towards inclusion – now reaching the whole Judeo-Christian religious community and beginning to extend beyond it. The inclusion of this component *alone* could not lead to a static universalistic tolerance. It is complemented by an activist commitment to building a good society in accordance with Divine Will that underlies the drive toward mastery of the social environment through expansion in territory, economic productivity and knowledge. The *combination* of these two components contributes to the associational emphasis in modern social structure – political and social democracy being conspicuously associational.¹²

The presence of an ‘associational’ pattern of development in the US provided a favourable context for ‘an early initiation of the educational revolution and its extension further than any other society’.¹³ For Parsons the importance attached to education and even the role of educationalists represented the third revolution, one still largely specific to the United States. As central a feature of American modernity as the other two, it constituted the vital mechanism through which the stratification and occupational systems were opened up and the associational pattern strengthened in the course of the twentieth century.

Now, it seems to me that if Parsons is correct (as I think he is) three conclusions follow. And all three in turn explain the *ideological continuity* of American foreign policy from the time the United States came into world history in 1917. Perhaps, it applies even earlier, from 1850 onwards, in its relations with its Latin American neighbours.

1. It is the *associational* emphasis in US policy (or pluralism) that explains its pluralistic foreign policy – its wish to include other

¹² *Ibid*, p. 187.

¹³ *Ibid*, p. 191.

societies in the American project which is to be found at the heart of both its 'exemplarist' and 'redemptionist' ideologies.

As for exemplarism, the message is simple. As the richest country in the world, richer in material and human resources than any other, the United States has a role, if a limited one: to save the world by the example it sets, rather than by its exertions. One is familiar with many of the slogans of exemplarism: the Puritans' 'shining city on the hill'; Madison's 'workshop of liberty'; Roosevelt's 'arsenal of democracy'; and more recently, Reagan's 'beacon of liberty'. Exemplarism has its nineteenth century roots, particularly in the advice of the Founding Fathers. John Adams, for one, claimed to be a well wisher of freedom, though not its champion. Lincoln later argued that if the US tried to champion freedom it would lose its own. Even in the 1930's exemplarism carried a message. For Americans did not call their policy 'isolationism.' Instead, Herbert Hoover talked of the country's 'independent internationalism'; Charles Beard, the historian, preferred the term 'imperial isolationism'.¹⁴ One was 'internationalist' because it set an example Americans hoped others would follow; the other was 'imperial' because of its ambition.

Parsons was right, however, to identify a puritan subtext to American modernity for there was another ideological mandate which the US increasingly chose to pursue – 'redemptionism'. Indeed, writes Perry Miller, "any inventory of the elements that have gone into the making of the American mind would have to commence with Puritanism.... [for] without an understanding of Puritanism there is no understanding of America".¹⁵ Under his administration, Truman told the American people, the United States had finally 'stepped into the leadership that God had intended'. When Secretary of State, Dean Acheson was enthused with much the same idea. Later in his memoirs, *Present at the Creation*, Acheson recalled how his father "widely read in Christian doctrine" had aimed at the salvation of his soul by

¹⁴ Charles and Mary Beard, *America in mid-passage*, New York: Macmillan, 1939, p. 437.

¹⁵ Perry Miller, *The Puritans*, v. 1, New York: Harper and Row, 1967, p. 11.

performing charitable works.¹⁶ And this is what the Truman administration attempted to do through the Truman Doctrine.

Another element of Puritanism was the belief in the necessity of hard work. God's grace had to be earned by hard labour. A slothful or lazy people were unlikely to succeed. Thus we find even a liberal conservative like George Kennan lecturing the Third World in the 1970s on the need for hard work. In his memoirs this is what he writes of his great grandparents in Wisconsin, Turner's academic home before he left for Harvard in 1910.

The Wisconsinites worked hard. Had they been like the Africans, a violent, lazy people, devoted more to war than industry; had they wasted what little they held in civic strife, they would be what Africa is today. Is no credit to be given to the old-fashioned American virtues of thrift, honesty, tolerance, civil discipline and hard work?¹⁷

It was the old Puritan message, one which led him to conclude that much of the Third World was largely responsible for its own underdevelopment. This too was part of the frontier myth. For the frontier was a civic space, a place where the lazy and slothful became Americans through the challenge that it posed.

2. Parsons' work is also important in its claims for American universalism. In claiming that the United States was the most modern society in the world he was putting forward an idea that was popular for much of the twentieth century. If you want to see your own future, visit New Year, declared a confident Zbigniew Brzezinski in 1962.

Today we have moved away from that position. Smuel Eisenstadt writes that from the very beginning history uncovered 'multiple modernities'.¹⁸ If Europe got there first, its model was not exported. And the very first society to reject it was the United States – not any of

¹⁶ Dean Acheson, *Morning and Noon*, Boston: Houghton and Mifflin, 1965, p. 18.

¹⁷ George Kennan, *The Cloud of Danger*, New York: Little and Brown, 1979, p. 112.

¹⁸ Smuel Eisenstadt, 'Multiple Modernities', *Daedalus* 129:1 Winter 2000, p. 13.

the Asian or Moslem countries whose rejection might have been attributed to the existence of traditions distinct from those of Europe. The break occurred in the 1820s/30s *within Western civilisation itself*. It occurred in the New World. The crystalization of a distinctly different pattern of modernity took place through a confrontational discourse with Europe, especially England and France. Such confrontations were to become characteristic of the ongoing discourse about modernity as it expanded throughout the world. But we often forget that the first revolt against Europe began in the United States. The very existence of the republic is a reproach to Europe.

But Parson's comforting belief that the US represented the future of all of us was in tune with one of the deepest impulses of American political thought. It explains its implicit universalism. The conclusion to which his analysis clearly pointed from the beginning was that the development of American society in the modern era had of universal significance in human history. And that for a particular reason. Ideological differences notwithstanding, the United States had seen all its enemies from Nazi Germany to Imperial Japan and most recently the Soviet Union in terms of its own modernity. All were deemed to be 'unmodern', though modern enough to be converted.

Although Parsons recognised the differences between modern societies as different as the US and the Soviet Union, he considered that they all displayed important common characteristics and belonged in a technological, economic and socio-cultural sense to one world.

There was a convergence of socio-cultural development, as nearly all societies reflect to varying degrees the industrial revolution, the democratic revolution, and the educational revolution. It is, therefore, only a slight exaggeration to say that all contemporary societies are more or less modern. We should not make too much of the fact that the US and the Soviet Union have had ideologies varying from older Western European patterns.... The value content of these ideologies should be regarded as specifications of the more general Western value patterns of instrumental activism rather than departures from it.¹⁹

¹⁹ Parsons, *Evolution of Societies*, *op. cit.*, p. 236.

As slogans, making the world safe for 'democracy' (1917-65) or 'diversity', the rallying cry after 1965, they were inspired by the implicit, if usually unstated, belief that its diverse enemies were 'unmodern'.

One explanation for this was the role of religion in what Parsons calls 'the ideologies of social criticism and revolt'. The United States, unlike Western Europe, had a civic religion about which de Tocqueville had written at length. The religious motif was uppermost in America's discourse about itself. What social scientists such as Robert Bellah began to recognise in the 1950s was that religion is not opposed to modernity: it is modernity when it underwrites 'a commitment to the source of ultimate value'; when it enables societies to 're-value their traditions and myths. But what distinguished American liberalism from both fascism and communism was that it was not a substitute for religion. To some extent even Imperial Japan developed a political religion in the 1930's when Shinto nationalism and Zen Buddhism underpinned the country's self-conscious 'revolt against modernity': the title of a conference the government convened in 1943.²⁰

De Tocqueville himself had compared the French Revolution to 'a religious revival' calling it 'a (new) species of religion'. After the First World War there was an intensified revival of the pseudo-religious strain in politics as fascist demagogues and communists alike spoke of the 'regeneration', 'reawakening' and 'rebirth' of the nation. Communism and fascism both caricatured the fundamental pattern of belief by attributing sacredness to entire collectives such as class, nation or race, which had already partly supplanted God as the object of mass enthusiasm. These, in turn, became 'a congregation of the faithful' which required martyrdom. They spoke with an emotional power best described by one willing Italian philosopher as 'the rape of the soul'. All men had to do was make a quantum leap of faith.²¹

²⁰ See Denis Washburn, *The Dilemma of the Modern in Japanese Fiction*, New Haven: Yale University Press, 1995, p. 7t.

²¹ For a discussion of 'political religions' see Michael Burleigh, *The Third Reich: a new history*, London: Macmillan, 2001, p. 1-9.

The United States too, in a brief moment of its history, threatened to become a political creed. Through McCarthyism an attempt was made, writes Garry Wills, to turn the United States into a 'ism'; to punish Americans not only for acting out of character but thinking un-American thoughts through the notorious Un-American Activities Committee of the early 1950s.²² There was always a danger that the country with its unique civic religion would become a political religion itself – thus limiting its universal appeal as Soviet communism had with its emphasis on 'socialism in one country', and national socialism which was always more nationalist than socialist. Its pluralistic polity saved it from that fate.

3. The third element in Parson's model that accounts for the continuity of US policy is the educational revolution. The importance of universities was acknowledged by Lord Bryce back in the 1890s, as well as their social agenda: to abolish the state of unhappiness. If only for its symbolic importance, Wilson's Presidency is interesting: that a former Princeton professor who also taught at Johns Hopkins should draw on the work of a professor from the University of Wisconsin was to be expected of the leader of a nation that treated its intellectual class as an aristocratic elite.

In the second volume of *Democracy and America* De Tocqueville showed how an aristocratic age was giving way to a democratic one. But he also grasped how this was a very gradual process. The existence of some kind of aristocratic order was still necessary to maintain some of the freedoms of otherwise increasing democratic societies. The modern age, writes John Lukacs, was marked by the co-existence of aristocracy and democracy, something which has now ended.²³ In the United States that aristocracy was an academic elite. And Turner too can be invoked here for he saw in America's academic elite a new social group, one that did not form a separate class but could *mediate* between the two classes: the bourgeoisie and the proletariat, and thus prevent them from polarising American politics. In his 1910 commencement

²² Gary Wills.

²³ John Lukacs, *At the End of an Age*, New Haven: Yale University Press, 2000, p. 13.

address to the University of Indiana he saw them as the bearers of 'memory, traditions and an inherited attitude towards life'.²⁴

The power of that elite was criticised in 1917 by the left wing social critic Randolph Bourne in an article entitled 'The War and the Intellectuals'. In it he criticised the American intellectual community for its uncritical support of Wilson's decision to take the United States into the First World War. For a man who still retained an implacable animus against war it was a bitter experience to see the unanimity with which most American writers had rushed to support the war effort. Indeed, not content with merely supporting the war they claimed to have effectively willed it in the face of national indifference as to which of the belligerent powers should prevail.²⁵

Looking back on the intellectual community's standing in American life it is difficult to see how they could not have resisted the wish to enter history on the terms of engagement Woodrow Wilson staked out in 1917. It would be difficult to find any other modern society whose intellectual class so evocatively captured the first principles of American policy. Indeed what is striking about Nazi Germany and the USSR is the absence of an intellectual elite that actually shaped nazi or Soviet thinking once the movements came to power. This was not true of the United States.

Here I would isolate the work of the three great liberal philosophers at the turn of the twentieth century, Charles Peirce, William James and John Dewey, all of whom formulated a special US creed: 'the will to truth' (an intellectualised form of the will to power), an all-encompassing march of American modernity. Of the three philosophers James is perhaps the most interesting for his voice and speech and even turn of phrase were all authentically American. He deliberately employed such characteristic expressions as 'cash value' and 'results' and even 'profits' in order to bring his ideas within reach of the 'man in the street'. He spoke with a force and directness which

²⁴ Munstow, *Writing History*, *op. cit.*, p. 188.

²⁵ Cited in Jon Glover/Jon Silkin, *The Penguin Book of the First World War*, London: Viking, 1989, p. 349-354.

made his philosophy of pragmatism second nature to his fellow citizens.²⁶

In James' philosophy of action, the first principle of which is 'purpose', there is a distinct echo of Wilsonian thinking. If our experience, he argued, discloses an unfinished world, a world with a future, with aspects which are still in the making, we must ask what part we have in shaping that process. We cannot decide what is morally good or bad until we have a moral order. But if we don't want such an order in the first place we cannot be made to believe in what is good or bad by rational argument. That we make moral distinctions and take them seriously is decided by our will, not our intellect.

When Woodrow Wilson declared war on Germany in 1917 he confidently asserted that 'our object is to vindicate the principles of peace... we are glad to fight for the ultimate peace of the world.'²⁷ The idea that war was being fought for peace was the ultimate conclusion of America's historic mission to rid the world of tyrants whether they took the form of eighteenth century kings or twentieth century German gauleiters. It was only inevitable that later Soviet commissars would be added to the list. In that sense the Cold War was indeed a war, rather than an armed peace, for it could end in only one outcome: the unconditional victory of one side, and the unconditional surrender of the other.

James' second principle is 'effort'. Effort tells us that we are free, that our will (or free-thinking) is capable of bringing about change. We are not passive spectators but actors in our own history. It is not enough, however, to await evidence that will confirm us in this opinion. It we resolutely refuse, for example, to consider the possibility of God's

²⁶ Similar thinking of course is to be found in Anglo-American thought. See J S Mill:

When men have realised that time has upset many fighting faiths, they may come to believe even more than they believe the very foundations of their own conduct that the ultimate good desired is better reached by free trade in ideas – for the best test of truth is the power of the thought to get itself accepted in the competition and the market. (Cited by Mary Midgeley, "Thickets of legal precedent", *Times Literary Supplement*, June 21, 2002, p. 11.)

²⁷ Cited in Iriye, 'War as peace, peace as war' in Philip Windsor (ed) *Experiencing the Twentieth Century*, Tokyo: Tokyo University Press, 1985, p. 36.

existence until we have proof of it we will fail to put ourselves in a place where we may find proof, or where we may experience the reality if it is there to be found. The 'cash value' of abstract ideas, James declared, is such that they can only be known when lived through. Only by wishing to believe in them (in the possibility of their existence from the outset) will we be willing to act in ways that will put us in the presence of them (if they are there to be found). And that may require that at some point we fight our way into history.

Effort, of course, was endless in the twentieth century. 'It will be our business', declared Woodrow Wilson when he took the United States into the First World War, 'to fight for a new era'. 'All our lives', Dean Acheson told the American people in 1946, after the Wilsonian order had collapsed and another war had been fought to punish those held responsible for its failure, 'the need for effort will always be with us'.²⁸ There appeared to be no end to America's labours, only a constant striving.

The final element in James' philosophy of action is 'will' itself. For effort would be of little avail if it were no more than a blind will to power. Our efforts must be governed by our purposes and our purposes, in turn, must be framed in the light of our beliefs. A belief which has nothing to do with conduct is not a proper belief. Our conduct, however, must be informed by ideas. In the end, we hold our beliefs through our will to believe.²⁹ Few American policymakers of importance ever doubted the veracity of their convictions even in the darkest moments of their history.

Like his equally famous brother who became a British subject in 1916 in protest at America's failure to come into the war, William James was representative of a specific elite that was largely English in origin. Indeed, Randolph Bourne criticised it for 'colonising' American foreign policy, for holding it hostage to British interests. But the social

²⁸ Cited in T Smith, *America's Mission: the United States and the worldwide struggle for democracy*, Princeton: N.J.: Princeton University Press, 1997, p. 137.

²⁹ Bird and J E Smith, *The Spirit of American Philosophy*, Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1963. See also H Puttanan, 'William James' ideas', *Raritan*, 1989, v. 8, p. 27-44.

basis (and thus popular appeal) of the intellectual class was broadened in the 1930s by immigration from Eastern and Central Europe. With the arrival of 300,000 or more intellectuals and academics – refugees from Hitler's New Order – the United States moved to the centre of European thought. It found itself the home of some of the great centres of European intellectual life – the Vienna circle which influenced thought on mathematics, linguistics and philosophy; the Institute of Mathematics at Gottingen; most of the members of the Frankfurt School; and almost the entire staff of the Berlin School of Politics.

The playwright Bertold Brecht recognised the significance of this exodus from the beginning. "Immigration is the best school of dialectics. Refugees were the keenest dialecticians", he claimed in his book *Refugee Dialogues*; for "they are refugees as a result of change and their sole object of study is change".³⁰ The generation that escaped from Germany and Central Europe in the 1930s was conscious of its own importance in the conflict that was about to unfold. Many, like Hannah Arendt, moved from philosophy to political theory, from a life of contemplation to one of action in recognition of the fact that in the twentieth century the 'political' had an urgency that could no longer be denied. Their personal encounter with totalitarianism demanded that the US commit itself to the defence of democracy worldwide. That commitment, in turn, was aided by the political language they forged. In Chicago Hans Morgenthau and Leo Strauss did much to invent the language of American realism in the 1950s. Arendt was the first to coin the term 'totalitarianism'.

What the refugees succeeded in doing was to involve their adopted country in a historic dialogue with the Old World from which they had fled. In so doing they made their own unique contribution to the dialectics of the western alliance that became the cornerstone of American foreign policy after 1941. Indeed like Turner himself in 1919 many American historians in the early years of the Cold War began to insist that there was no American history as such, only *western* history.

³⁰ Cited Martin Jay, *Permanent Exiles: essays on the intellectual migration from Germany to America*, New York: Columbia University Press, 1985, p. 28.

Challenged by the émigrés in their midst, they took the 'idea' of America into the realm of western history, instead of creating a non-western history for their readers as Turner had wanted. The frontier was now the western world as a whole. Europe and America were not so different. In the words of one distinguished historian the United States and Europe were "moved by the same rhythm, stirred by the same impulses and inescapably involved in the same crises".³¹

CONCLUSION

Space does not permit speculation about the future but I would end on one other note struck by Parsons. His final conclusion was that America represented the future of all Western societies. Yet in the relatively short space of time which has elapsed since Parsons completed his study twenty-five years ago it is clear that America's principal allies – the European powers – have become increasingly critical of the American model which contrasts so markedly with their own. Contrary to the bold closing assertion he offered "for the idea of the post-modern... is premature",³² European societies have become post-modern states pursuing what Robert Cooper, the British diplomat, calls 'a post-modern foreign policy'.

In its refusal to follow its other Western partners down the internationalist and transnational route (as evidenced by its apparent 'unilateralism') the United States will remain true to its own version of modernity. But US foreign policy will become more *exclusive* than inclusive. 'Exceptionalism' (not 'exemplarism', or 'redemptionism') may well be the new ideological glue that holds it together. As Agnes Heller observes, the frontier thesis has another message: one linked to the major ethical power of North Americans: the idea of justice. Like the constitution, the myth involves not distributive justice, but retributive justice. And it is around the idea of competitive justice that

³¹ Cited Peter Novick, *That Noble Dream: the 'objectivity' question and the American historical profession*, Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1988, p. 310.

³² Parsons, *The Evolution of Societies*, *op. cit.*, p. 241.

American capitalism and the justice system itself now revolves. Central to both is the idea of penalty and reward: those who are successful are rewarded; those who fail, fail in spectacular fashion. The Europeans are increasingly critical of this model which departs so radically from their own social democratic first principles. Whether the western alliance – the seed of which was contained in Turner's 1919 paper – can survive this critique is a moot question.

MODELOS ECONÓMICOS, REGÍMENES POLÍTICOS Y POLÍTICA EXTERIOR ARGENTINA

Mario Rapoport y Claudio Spiguel

I. INTRODUCCIÓN

Un lugar común en los análisis sobre la política exterior argentina desde mediados del siglo XX y hasta la década del '90 es el diagnóstico sobre su forma errática, oscilante, con diversos conflictos internos en torno a la misma. Estas oscilaciones y conflictos, al igual que en la política económica, son contrastadas con la relativa “coherencia” y aparente homogeneidad de la política exterior argentina en la etapa fundacional de la economía y el estado moderno, desde el último tercio del siglo XIX y hasta 1930 – o 1943 –, en lo que habría configurado una verdadera “política de Estado”.¹ Tal descripción, que a veces es esgrimida como explicación, remite desde posturas neoliberales a la exaltación de los sólidos vínculos de la Argentina con una gran potencia, entonces Gran Bretaña, y ha fundamentado la política de alineamiento con los EEUU durante la presidencia de Menem.

Es también frecuente que la explicación respecto de la presunta incoherencia de la política exterior en el último medio siglo se remita a la pronunciada discontinuidad de los regímenes políticos, desde la vigencia del régimen peronista (1946-1955) y pasando por la alternancia posterior de dictaduras militares – incluida la instaurada en 1976, con las hondas transformaciones de la economía y sociedad argentina que provocó – y precarios interregnos limitadamente democráticos, de vigencia del régimen representativo y la constitución, cercenados

¹ Ver por ejemplo, Cisneros, A. y Escudé, C. *Historia general de las relaciones exteriores de la República Argentina, 1^{era} Parte*, Buenos Aires, 2000.

desde su origen por proscripciones legales y tutelados por las FFAA, hasta 1983.

Esta constatación de la relación entre “erratismo” de la política exterior y falta de continuidad institucional, con alta variación de regímenes políticos, es, sin embargo, insuficiente. Trascender su superficialidad, evitando una explicación mecánica de causa-efecto, requiere bucear en un tercer término: las condiciones de producción de las diversas políticas exteriores, poniendo al descubierto que la propia discontinuidad institucional ha sido a su vez expresión de agudos conflictos sociopolíticos emergentes tanto entre la sociedad y el Estado como en el interior del mismo Estado (en el seno de las clases y sectores dirigentes del mismo) conflictos que se han expresado también en pugnas y disputas por la política exterior del país. Por eso, investigar la relación entre políticas exteriores y regímenes políticos en la Argentina supone, además de enfocar los lazos entre política exterior y política interna, analizar las transformaciones y vaivenes de los regímenes políticos en su íntima y a veces contradictoria vinculación con la naturaleza socio-histórica del Estado, el proceso de su formación y la estructura económica de la sociedad. Esta estructura incluye las formas de su inserción mundial a lo largo de los distintos períodos de la historia argentina contemporánea.

En estas páginas abordaremos la relación entre regímenes políticos y política exterior, ahondando en el análisis de ciertos períodos y coyunturas que ponen de relieve aspectos esenciales del tema: la formación del Estado argentino y la política exterior del régimen conservador; la coyuntura de las guerras mundiales, con su entrelazamiento de política interna y exterior y los cambios sociales y en el régimen político que tuvieron lugar en esos años; el análisis de los golpes de Estado, particularmente desde 1955 a 1976 y sus determinantes internacionales; la última dictadura militar y su política exterior; la guerra de Malvinas y, finalmente, la evolución del régimen constitucional argentino desde 1983 hasta el presente. Pero en ese análisis tendremos presente especialmente los factores económicos y, particularmente, los tres modos de acumulación principales en la historia argentina: el modelo agroexportador (1880-1930), el de industrialización por sustitución

de importaciones (1930-1975) y el rentístico-financiero (de 1976 al presente), pues tuvieron una influencia decisiva en la evolución del Estado y de los regímenes políticos y en la formulación de la política internacional del país. Finalmente, intentamos no limitar el análisis a regularidades formales, sino extraer conclusiones de largo plazo sobre el tema que contribuyan también a desentrañar los dilemas del atormentado presente argentino.

II. FORMACIÓN DEL ESTADO, RÉGIMEN OLIGÁRQUICO E INSERCIÓN INTERNACIONAL

El abordaje histórico pone de manifiesto que el proceso de construcción y consolidación del Estado nacional argentino a partir de mediados del siglo XIX, que culminó en la década del '80, fue correlato y función de la consolidación de la estructura económica moderna y de las relaciones internacionales privilegiadas con la Europa capitalista, proceso en el que se configuró un país dependiente, receptor de las inversiones de capital fundamentalmente británico, pero también francés, alemán, belga y de otros orígenes, y exportador de productos agropecuarios al mercado europeo.

Desde la génesis de la nación, en el proceso de la revolución de mayo de 1810 y de la independencia argentina, se frustraron gran parte de los contenidos democráticos y populares a los que aspiraban los primeros patriotas. También, a través de las diversas guerras civiles que enfrentaron a las provincias, y contrarrestando las fuerzas centrífugas que vinculaban a las distintas regiones con los países vecinos a través de circuitos mercantiles que existían desde la colonia, se fue afirmando el rol hegemónico de la provincia de Buenos Aires, la más poderosa, poseedora del puerto de ultramar. Se configuró así una economía basada en el Litoral y Bs. As, especializada en la producción de cueros y carnes saladas para la exportación a través de la cual los terratenientes realizaban la renta del suelo, y subordinada a las relaciones comerciales con los capitalistas europeos, sobre todo de Gran Bretaña y Francia, introductores de manufacturas industriales. Tal hegemonía económica, conjugada con el librecambismo portuario, consolidó los desequilibrios

regionales obturando las potencialidades productivas, agrícolas y artesanales de las provincias interiores y limitando los impulsos a la conformación de un mercado interno nacional sobre bases endógenas.

Tras la caída de Rosas en 1852 y la guerra civil entre los porteños y la Confederación que agrupó a las provincias interiores, se afirmó, desde 1862, la hegemonía porteña y su tendencia centralizadora y se edificó progresivamente el Estado nacional como expresión de esa hegemonía en una red de alianzas con diversas oligarquías provinciales. Ese proceso tuvo su instrumento y expresión principal en la fuerza militar, el ejército de línea, que fue subsumiendo o destruyendo a las fuerzas armadas provincianas.²

La centralización y edificación de las instituciones estatales nacionales afirmaron en lo económico el rumbo agroexportador y librecambista. En el plano político consolidaron la fachada de un régimen constitucional calcado de las repúblicas representativas, pero que, en coherencia con el régimen social predominante, se reveló como instrumento oligárquico de dominio y hegemonía no sólo frente a los sectores díscolos de las elites provincianas o fracciones marginales de pequeños terratenientes, sino también contra los sectores populares, en un principio rurales pero crecientemente urbanos. Recordemos que entre 1860 y 1880 transcurre el período de la “prehistoria” de una embrionaria burguesía industrial y de una incipiente clase obrera moderna, localizadas fundamentalmente en la ciudad de Buenos Aires.

La afirmación de este Estado oligárquico, liberal y antidemocrático, fue así funcional a la consolidación y perpetuación del orden terrateniente en las nuevas condiciones históricas de la expansión del capitalismo mundial y se manifestó en una política exterior basada en el libre comercio y el establecimiento de fuertes vínculos mercantiles y financieros con la Europa capitalista. Derrotados los otros proyectos de organización nacional con centro en el interior, la consolidación de un mercado interno nacional unificado se produce de modo subordinado al interés agrario exportador y al mercado externo y sobre

² Ver Oszlak, O, *La formación del Estado argentino*, Buenos Aires, 1997; Botana, N., *El orden conservador*, Buenos Aires, 1985.

la base de la penetración del capital extranjero europeo, que pasa a controlar ramas claves de la economía (ferrocarriles, frigoríficos, comercio de importación y exportación, etc.) en asociación con el poder social dominante, condicionando a partir de entonces el desarrollo capitalista del país. Ello se expresará en política exterior con una orientación atlantista, de espaldas a las otras naciones de América del Sur.

La Guerra de la Triple Alianza (1865-1870) fue, en muchos sentidos, un hecho fundacional del Estado nacional argentino y de su política exterior. La guerra enfrentó el desafío paraguayo, con su modelo de desarrollo antagónico al que impulsaban los sectores hegemónicos de las clases dirigentes argentinas y siendo considerado por éstas un potencial foco de contagio respecto de núcleos provinciales y sectores populares. Profundamente impopular en el país, significó un salto en la represión de las últimas rebeldías provincianas, en la centralización y la consolidación del ejército nacional y del poder del Estado y en las relaciones financieras con Gran Bretaña, expresadas en el notable incremento de la deuda pública con la que la Argentina entrará de lleno en el mercado capitalista mundial.

Este fue, además, el prólogo de la afirmación de la soberanía territorial del Estado, con la Conquista del Desierto de Roca de 1879-80, verdadero genocidio de los pueblos originarios del sur de Buenos Aires, la Patagonia y el Chaco argentinos. Consolidando las fronteras en el plano estatal, esa “conquista” significó simultáneamente en el plano económico-social la afirmación del patrón latifundista de apropiación del suelo y el consiguiente reforzamiento del poder social y político de los terratenientes, especialmente bonaerenses, y de su alianza con núcleos claves de las elites provincianas. Su corolario fue también la subordinación final de los gauchos, los pastores criollos, ahora sin frontera abierta donde obtener medios de vida propios y sometidos definitivamente a las labores agropecuarias en las estancias. El último acto del proceso es la federalización de la ciudad y puerto de Buenos Aires, que si en su expresión jurídica aparece como la culminación de la organización federal, consagra en los hechos, conjuntamente con el enorme poder presidencial sancionado por la

Constitución, la supremacía incontestable de las autoridades nacionales, contribuyendo al cercenamiento por décadas de las condiciones para una genuina expresión de las autonomías provinciales.

En cuanto al régimen político, el “orden conservador” fue la expresión cristalina de la naturaleza de los intereses sociales que edificaron ese Estado consagrando, por mecanismos formales e informales, la exclusión de la participación política de la inmensa mayoría de la población criolla y de las grandes oleadas de inmigrantes europeos que llegaron por ese entonces al país. Contingentes poblacionales de los que emergerán las nuevas fuerzas sociales subordinadas económica, social y políticamente: la clase obrera urbana y rural, el campesinado agricultor, vastas capas medias urbanas y, progresivamente, sectores de la burguesía media urbana y rural.

Tal régimen político se expresó en una política exterior destinada fundamentalmente a dar garantías a los inversores europeos, a asegurar la financiación externa del Estado y a consolidar los mercados europeos para los productos de una Argentina especializada en la producción agroexportadora, con una base unilateral y precaria que en su rápido y deformado crecimiento manifestaría pronto las restricciones que la estructura económica y social imponía al desarrollo productivo del país.

Los presupuestos de esa política exterior, atlantista y liberal, de la Argentina “abierta al mundo” (y el mundo era la Europa en la etapa del capital financiero), desde la gestación del Estado nacional, con la presidencia de Mitre, dieron la espalda a América del Sur. Como lo expresaron sus fundadores teóricos y prácticos implicaba la oposición a toda política de alianzas permanente y afianzamiento de vínculos económicos con los países vecinos, incluyendo el rechazo a iniciativas de solidaridad interamericana frente a intervenciones o amenazas extrarregionales (como el caso de la agresión española a las islas peruanas).³ Cercenadas tendencias anteriores de búsqueda de una política americanista,

³ Ver Alberdi, Juan B., *Escritos póstumos, T III: Política exterior de la República Argentina*, Buenos Aires, 1896; Salas, Hugo R., *Una política exterior argentina, Comercio exterior e ideas en sus orígenes y consolidación (1862-1914)*, Buenos Aires, 1987.

las vigas maestras de la política exterior enunciadas más arriba configuraron un verdadero “consenso” conservador que se manifestó a través de distintas corrientes ideológicas. Una, predominante, de corte “comercialista” liberal, que evitaba la aparición de conflictos, y, como la sombra al cuerpo, otra caracterizada por la “real politik” del nacionalismo territorial, que preconizaba políticas de fuerza frente a los países vecinos (sobre todo con motivo de los diferendos limítrofes heredados de la reciente formación de las naciones) y que se conjugaba con la espiral armamentística, en un eco del “equilibrio europeo”.⁴ Dos caras de una misma moneda, ambas corrientes emergían del consenso conservador europeísta y librecambista. Allí la guerra del Paraguay vuelve a constituirse en un signo paradigmático de la articulación de aquellas dos orientaciones. La guerra, hecho culminante de toda política exterior, conjugó simultáneamente la búsqueda de la más estrecha alianza con el capital europeo a la confrontación abierta con el país hermano.

Estas dos caras de la política exterior conservadora tuvieron su base en corrientes ideológicas diversas de la propia oligarquía, en la que se conjugaron siempre el liberalismo cosmopolita con el tradicionalismo que enfatizaba el hecho territorial, corrientes que expresaban tradiciones históricas y pugnas entre distintas regiones: Buenos Aires, el Litoral, el interior. Pero crecientemente, como en otros conflictos y pugnas en el seno del régimen conservador, esas fisuras van reflejando la diversidad de asociaciones con diferentes capitales y potencias europeas. El capital de origen británico – hegemónico –, el francés y belga y, visiblemente, desde principios del siglo XX, el alemán, austrohúngaro e italiano, con sus inversiones directas y financieras pasan a constituir un pilar de la estructura económica interna y, en asociación con diversas fracciones locales, terratenientes y comerciales, del Estado. Tal asociación va conformando núcleos de capitalistas intermediarios que adquieren su expresión sociopolítica en las diversas camarillas y corrientes del partido gobernante. En la medida que se agudiza la competencia internacional, la pugna de distintas potencias por esferas de influencia y la carrera

⁴ Ver Paradiso, J, *Debates y trayectoria de la política exterior argentina*, cap. 1, Buenos Aires, 1993.

armamentista, que darán lugar a la Primera Guerra Mundial, la realidad internacional adquiere su dimensión particular en la Argentina en la disputa entre esas diversas corrientes de la elite por el control del Estado, llave fundamental para encauzar la inserción internacional – económica, política, estratégica-militar – del país. Disputas que se agudizan cuanto más se fisura el “globalismo” del concierto europeo de la “belle epoque”, en la primera década del siglo XX.

Este es un rasgo permanente de la inserción internacional dependiente de la Argentina, que subtiende la historia de sus clases dirigentes y del Estado a lo largo del siglo y es una de las variables, junto con las contradicciones emergentes del conflicto social, para analizar las pugnas dentro del Estado en términos de política económica y de política exterior. Aún cuando durante períodos prolongados se puede establecer el predominio de la conexión con una potencia hegemónica, sobre todo en el plano económico, esta diversidad de vínculos se vuelve relevante para analizar la historia política del país y de su Estado, trascendiendo una óptica economicista. Volviendo a la política exterior conservadora, frente a la hegemonía de los vínculos con Gran Bretaña, las líneas de política exterior impulsadas, por ejemplo, por el Canciller Zeballos en la primera década del siglo XX conjugaban la “real politik” y la carrera armamentista con las nuevas doctrinas en boga, pero también fueron expresión de intereses más mercantiles en los que se expresaba el avance de la influencia alemana en la economía y en las clases dominantes argentinas frente a los sectores probritánicos hegemónicos.⁵

Otro eje clave y duradero del “consenso” conservador en materia de política exterior y que deviene de la asociación con Europa en los marcos de la nueva competencia mundial, es su distancia y hasta hostilidad frente a la política panamericana de los EEUU. Esta tendencia se perfila desde la conferencia de Washington de 1889, con la que el país del Norte promueve una unión aduanera continental en función de ampliar su influencia más allá del Caribe y horadar, en

⁵ Cf. Paradiso, *ibidem*, p. 45.

tanto potencia emergente, la hegemonía inglesa y europea sobre América del Sur. En aquella ocasión la delegación argentina, compuesta por dos futuros presidentes, (Manuel Quintana, abogado de los ferrocarriles ingleses, y Roque Sáenz Peña, representante más adelante de la corriente “modernista” que dentro del conservadurismo fracturaría la hegemonía de los sectores probritánicos en el gobierno) fue contundente; frente a la “América para los americanos” pronunciaron un nuevo lema: “Sea América para la humanidad”. Esta línea de la política exterior conservadora constituirá una realidad de larga duración como tendencia dentro de la elite tradicional argentina.⁶

Pese al desarrollo ulterior de los vínculos argentino-norteamericanos y el creciente peso de las inversiones directas y financieras de aquel origen en la economía argentina, incluyendo ramas claves de la agroexportación, los EEUU no lograrían establecer vínculos estables con sectores mayoritarios de la clase terrateniente, que realizaban la renta del suelo exportando a los mercados europeos los productos agropecuarios de clima templado, mientras que el país del Norte, salvo breves coyunturas (por ejemplo las guerras) mantuvo cerrado su mercado interno a las exportaciones argentinas e incluso se transformó en un competidor de las mismas en el mercado mundial. Esto constituyó un factor condicionante para la perduración de sólidos vínculos con los intereses europeos, en los que se apoyaba la elite tradicional, potenciando conflictos tanto más agudos cuanto más EEUU se transformaba en la potencia hemisférica por excelencia y en una superpotencia mundial.

En suma, el “consenso” oligárquico respecto de la política exterior antes descripto, caracterizado por lo que Juan Carlos Puig llamó “dependencia nacional”, es el resultado de relaciones asimétricas con Gran Bretaña y Europa que tiene su sustento en una asociación de intereses locales e internacionales interna a la sociedad y al Estado y en la disputa entre ellos.

⁶ Ver McGann, T. F., *Argentina, Estados Unidos y el sistema interamericano*, Buenos Aires, 1960.

Así, la conexión hegemónica con Gran Bretaña (con sólidas bases en las inversiones en los ferrocarriles, frigoríficos y el sector financiero; en el control del mercado inglés de carnes; y en la asociación con los núcleos más poderosos de terratenientes y el comercio importador) se desplegó y sostuvo siempre en conflicto, con los sectores pro franceses primero (surgidos de antiguas conexiones mercantiles y financieras anteriores a 1880 con el predominio de la exportación lanar) y, sobre todo desde principios del siglo XX, frente al significativo avance del capital alemán (finanzas, armamento, electricidad, agroexportación, cultivos regionales) y de otras potencias de Europa continental (Austria-Hungría, Italia). Tales pugnas se procesan en el plano estatal en el Congreso (donde la cámara de Senadores es el ámbito de negociación entre las distintas oligarquías provincianas) y dentro del partido gobernante, en la confección de las fórmulas presidenciales de los “gobiernos electores”, aunque pocas veces – aún en el caso de la posición frente a los conflictos limítrofes – las discrepancias ponen en cuestión los carriles fundamentales de la política exterior.

En 1902 el incidente del bombardeo a las costas de Venezuela por flotas europeas de las potencias acreedoras, en función del cobro de la deuda externa de ese país, encuentra al régimen conservador relativamente unido. La Doctrina Drago, expresada en una comunicación del canciller argentino a la Casa Blanca, contra el uso de la fuerza en esos casos, que sienta un importante precedente en el cuerpo antiintervencionista de la doctrina de política exterior argentina, refleja el temor de uno de los estados más endeudados y se conjuga con la intencionalidad de comprometer en esa posición a los Estados Unidos, que ha comenzado a ejercer su política intervencionista y a desplegar su influencia sobre el hemisferio.

En este período inicial del siglo XX, se gestan rasgos de largo plazo en la vida política nacional. En los sectores populares, con la compleja integración de los caudales inmigratorios, la honda repercusión de los conflictos europeos y de los movimientos y revoluciones sociales se potencia con el internacionalismo obrero anarquista y socialista y se va entrelazando complejamente con las percepciones sobre la realidad latinoamericana (el intervencionismo norteamericano, la Revolución

Mexicana), manifestándose desde entonces la poderosa influencia política e ideológica del escenario mundial en la sociedad argentina.⁷

Tal rasgo se revelará en la repercusión posterior de las guerras mundiales, revoluciones populares y luchas antiimperialista, y en los movimientos de solidaridad, (que como en el caso de la guerra civil española, configuran las redes de “otras relaciones internacionales”, ajenas al Estado pero de gran influencia en la vida política) y aparece como contracara del cosmopolitismo dependiente de la elite conservadora (que en las primeras décadas del siglo se combina sin conflicto con la extrema xenofobia frente a un movimiento obrero con alta presencia de los inmigrantes). A la vez este rasgo de la sociedad influirá de diversos modos sobre las percepciones respecto de la realidad nacional de las distintas fuerzas sociales y políticas y sobre las tomas de posición y cuestionamientos respecto de la inserción internacional del país y la política exterior del Estado.

El crecimiento del peso social de vastas capas medias urbanas y también de una burguesía media urbana y rural, condicionada y a la sombra de los intereses dominantes de la estructura agroexportadora, se manifiesta rápidamente desde fines del siglo XIX en el cuestionamiento, de carácter democrático, a la exclusión de la representación política de las mayorías, condicionadas por el origen inmigratorio de una parte de ellas y por el régimen de elecciones manipuladas y de “opereta”, sostenidas en el caudillismo latifundista y los usos precapitalistas en las zonas rurales y provincias y crecientemente por la violencia comicial en las zonas urbanas.

Ese cuestionamiento al régimen conservador se condensa y encauza en la formación y desarrollo de la Unión Cívica Radical. Esta articula, tras su planteo democrático de regeneración institucional para hacer posible la vigencia de la voluntad popular, a diversos y heterogéneos sectores sociales, desde sectores terratenientes marginados hasta peones rurales, incluyendo el creciente apoyo de las capas medias

⁷ Ver Rapoport M. y Crisorio B. C. The National State, communities of European origin and Argentinian international policy in the first half of the XXth century. In: Savard P. y Vigezzi B. (ed.), *Multiculturalism and the History of International Relations from the 18th Century up to the Present*, p. 244-268.

y reflejando en su seno el peso de sectores de burguesía media, sobre todo rural. Con el liderazgo de Hipólito Yrigoyen se afirma, frente a otras corrientes conciliadoras, una estrategia de cuestionamiento, aún reducido al plano político, del conjunto del régimen conservador y sus instituciones, estrategia que se expresaba en el abstencionismo electoral y la organización de levantamientos cívico-militares, sucesivamente derrotados.⁸

III. GUERRAS MUNDIALES, CAMBIOS POLÍTICOS Y POLÍTICAS EXTERNAS MÁS AUTONÓMICAS

Los periodos de las dos guerras mundiales constituyen coyunturas privilegiadas para el análisis de la relación entre la política exterior y los conflictos políticos internos, incluyendo importantes cambios en los regímenes políticos. No es por casualidad que los dos grandes movimientos políticos de base popular, que cuestionaron en mayor o menos medida el poder de las clases dominantes tradicionales, y expresaron y abrieron procesos de cambio social y reforma política, hayan ascendido al gobierno bajo los influjos de tales coyunturas: (en el contexto de la Primera Guerra, el radicalismo, y como resultado de los procesos internos generados por la Segunda, el peronismo), constituyéndose a partir de entonces en los dos grandes cauces de expresión electoral de las mayorías populares.

Los dos grandes conflictos internacionales han sido un poderoso condicionante del proceso político interno, acelerándose en esas coyunturas tendencias de largo plazo y agudizándose el conjunto de las contradicciones sociales: contribuyeron a fracturar a las elites tradicionales, llevando a su extremo las disputas entre distintas corrientes por el control del poder y generando fisuras en el aparato del Estado que debilitaron el control político de las clases dominantes sobre el conjunto de la población. Al mismo tiempo las guerras mundiales aceleraron cambios económicos, sociales e ideológicos que potenciaron

⁸ Cf. Tulchin, J. A., *La Argentina y los Estados Unidos, Historia de una desconfianza*, Buenos Aires, 1990, p. 114-115.

la actividad de sectores excluidos tradicionalmente del poder político, lo que a su vez debilitó la hegemonía de los sectores dirigentes y reforzó sus disensos y pugnas.

Con la Primera Guerra el “consenso” oligárquico, ya fisurado por las disputas antes reseñadas, termina por romperse. La declaración de la neutralidad argentina frente a la guerra mundial por el conservador Victorino de la Plaza, una neutralidad “pasiva”, era funcional a la hegemónica conexión con Gran Bretaña cuya diplomacia aceptaba esta posición en tanto garantizaba el normal funcionamiento de las relaciones comerciales bilaterales. A su vez fue defendida por el espectro pro alemán del conservadurismo con un acrecentado peso de la economía y el control de palancas del Estado. Una posición que garantizaba la continuidad de las relaciones con Europa y bajo la cual proseguía el sordo conflicto por el predominio en el poder. Al mismo tiempo la neutralidad fue cuestionada desde el inicio por las corrientes pro francesas y pro belgas del conservadurismo en una campaña político-ideológica en la que se enarbolaba la defensa de la “civilización y la libertad frente al militarismo prusiano”. A ese cuestionamiento se sumó desde 1917, con la entrada de EEUU en la guerra, la ofensiva diplomática que Washington proyectó sobre todo el continente.

Las discusiones sobre la posición internacional del país cuyo escenario más visible era el ámbito parlamentario, vuelven evidente y potencian a un nuevo nivel la división entre distintas camarillas del *establishment* oligárquico y se entrelazan con los disensos frente al rumbo político interno, en particular frente al desafío del radicalismo yrigoyenista. El monolitismo conservador se quiebra respecto de la táctica a adoptar: Abrir el juego electoral con la vigencia de la Ley Sáenz Peña de 1912 (que consagraba el voto universal masculino, secreto y obligatorio) eligiendo el “mal menor”, sobre la base de cooptar al radicalismo y cerrar el camino a su insurreccionalismo que desde los años anteriores, aún por carriles separados, podía conjugarse peligrosamente con las rebeliones obreras y campesinas, o su alternativa, mantener sin fisuras el régimen oligárquico en función de prevenir un curso de “subversión” social total. La oposición radical cabalga sobre esta fractura entre distintos sectores conservadores (el conservadurismo

de la provincia de Buenos Aires asociado al ferrocarril inglés y el ala modernista que busca el aval radical para horadar desde el gobierno la hegemonía pro inglesa). En 1916, en las primeras elecciones presidenciales bajo la nueva ley electoral, estas fisuras contribuyen a impedir en el Colegio Electoral una única candidatura conservadora que cierre el acceso a la presidencia de Yrigoyen, triunfante en las urnas.

Así, por un lado, el yrigoyenismo ha arriado su bandera del descabezamiento de todas las instituciones del régimen conservador como condición para su participación electoral. Pivoteando sobre las contradicciones interoligárquicas, su participación final en las elecciones de 1916, motorizada por el episodio de la “fiebre electoralista” desatada en el partido a partir de la concesión de la ley Sáenz Peña, le permiten el acceso a la presidencia en los marcos de un edificio institucional del Estado (FF.AA, Parlamento, burocracia y Poder Judicial, gobiernos provinciales, etc.) que se conserva intacto y bajo control de las clases dominantes de terratenientes y grandes capitalistas intermediarios de los capitales extranjeros, un aparato estatal moldeado en función de esos intereses hegemónicos en la economía y la sociedad. Este hecho marcará, junto con la insuficiencia del programa radical para una transformación de la base económica agroexportadora, los límites de la reforma política e institucional abierta en 1916. Ello se manifestará con crudeza en el golpe militar de 1930, verdadera restauración oligárquica en la que el Estado elimina las instituciones representativas y, por muchos años, la expresión de la voluntad popular.

Al mismo tiempo el acceso de Yrigoyen a la presidencia en 1916 implicó y generó importantes cambios políticos, incluyendo la política exterior. El hecho de que estos cambios, aún en las condiciones limitativas antes expuestas, se produjeran en el contexto de las oportunidades abiertas por el extremo fraccionamiento de las elites oligárquicas generado por la guerra y las consiguientes fisuras que engendró en el dominio estatal hace visible una realidad de larga duración: el carácter extremadamente restrictivo y antidemocrático del Estado argentino, coherente con los estrechos marcos que una estructura económica agudamente dependiente impone al desarrollo social y por ende, con la incapacidad de los intereses económicos y sociales

dominantes para generar un consenso social duradero y suficientemente extendido que hiciera posible la plena vigencia de las instituciones de la democracia representativa.

La guerra y sus efectos sobre la sociedad nacional, (crisis, contracción agrícola, reducción del ingreso de capitales e importaciones, tenue proceso industrial sustitutivo de las mismas, debilitamiento de las relaciones de dependencia) desnudaron ante la percepción de vastos sectores sociales la extrema vulnerabilidad y dependencia de la economía argentina al tiempo que generaron un mayor espacio para las fuerzas sociales partidarias de mayor autonomía política y económica de la nación. Así esa coyuntura favorece el desarrollo de corrientes del pensamiento que se expresan en el nacionalismo popular, lo que se manifestará en la política exterior Yrigoyenista.

En su primer gobierno mantiene intransigentemente la neutralidad del país frente a la oposición interna y de los EEUU, dota a la neutralidad de un carácter “activo”, cuestionando los fundamentos de la guerra entre las grandes potencias. Ello se manifiesta en iniciativas diplomáticas como el impulso a un congreso de países neutrales del continente, iniciativa que naufraga por la oposición de EEUU. Terminada la contienda bélica y, enfrentando incluso a la corriente conservadora del partido, graficada en las posiciones del futuro presidente Alvear, retira a la delegación argentina de la Sociedad de Naciones sobre la base de la reivindicación de principios universalistas basados en la igualdad de las naciones, tanto las victoriosas como las derrotadas, grandes o pequeñas (manteniéndose la Argentina al margen de aquella organización con hegemonía anglofrancesa hasta la década del '30). Los aspectos autonomistas en política exterior de Yrigoyen aprovechan en la posguerra la rivalidad mundial y en el escenario argentino entre EEUU y Gran Bretaña y se esgrimen fundamentalmente en relación al hegemonismo e intervencionismo de Washington en el hemisferio, mientras la política exterior respecto de Gran Bretaña y Europa mantiene un bajo perfil compatible con el peso económico de esos vínculos y su base en núcleos privilegiados de la elite tradicional.

La literatura de origen fundamentalmente anglosajón que conceptualiza esta política como “aislacionista” escamotea el hecho,

que es también una tendencia observable a lo largo del siglo en la política exterior argentina, de que las corrientes autonomistas en el plano diplomático respecto de las grandes potencias, y, en particular en el caso reseñado respecto de EEUU, se conjugan con otros principios universalistas opuestos a los “marcos globalistas” hegemónicos y se manifiestan en una tendencia latinoamericanista en la política exterior de gobiernos que con mayor o menor alcance representan a fuerzas económicas y sociales cuyo desarrollo choca con los marcos dependientes de la economía y el Estado, fuerzas cuya debilidad económica se conjuga con una fuerza política derivada del apoyo popular y no del control tradicional del aparato del Estado.

Estos cambios en la política exterior en las presidencias de Yrigoyen son simultáneos con una democratización de la vida política interna. La mayor vigencia de las libertades democráticas favorece el desarrollo y auge de los movimientos sociales: el movimiento obrero, de los chacareros y en las capas medias – cuyo exponente más significativo es el de la Reforma Universitaria de 1918 –. Ello se combina con el papel de arbitraje que el gobierno intenta reservar al Estado en los conflictos obrero – patronales y frente a las grandes empresas de propiedad extranjera.⁹ Al mismo tiempo los límites en esta democratización, como en la política exterior, surgen de la continuidad, sin grandes cuestionamientos, de la estructura agroexportadora y del poder social y estatal que la reproduce: esto se refleja en las sangrientas represiones, particularmente al movimiento obrero (Semana Trágica de 1919, la Patagonia sangrienta de 1921-22) bajo presión de los intereses terratenientes y de sus socios extranjeros y cuando tales movimientos desbordan los límites del “arbitraje” gubernamental.

Con la Segunda Guerra Mundial se reeditan de modo más nítido y en un plano superior las tendencias ya analizadas: las fracturas en el seno del régimen político conservador y del Estado y el desarrollo de cambios económicos y sociales que encuentran nuevas expresiones en el plano político, generando agudos conflictos e incluso un cambio de régimen. El nuevo conflicto bélico internacional, signado por

⁹ Rock, D., *El radicalismo argentino (1890-1930)*, Buenos Aires, 1977.

dramáticas connotaciones ideológicas y morales que no tuvo el primero, encuentra a la Argentina en circunstancias de cambio económico y social. Más agudamente que en 1914-1918, el proceso de la lucha por la política exterior potencia el proceso político interno que a la vez se expresa en esa lucha, llegando ambos planos a confundirse.

Nuevamente es la posición neutral del país un disparador de la conflictividad interna e internacional. A posteriori del golpe de Estado de 1930, y desde 1932, el gobierno está en manos de la oligarquía conservadora a través de un régimen, el de la “democracia fraudulenta”, que conserva la fachada parlamentaria y constitucional pero se asienta primero en las proscripciones y luego en la generalización e institucionalización de los mecanismos del fraude en las compulsas electorales, tanto más violentos y evidentes cuanto más se ha complejizado la sociedad argentina con la industrialización y el desarrollo urbano.

Al comenzar la guerra la posición de neutralidad no genera mayores conflictos dentro de la elite apareciendo como el corolario lógico del “consenso” dentro de la “Concordancia” gobernante (conservadores, radicales antirrygoyenistas, socialistas de derecha). Bajo tal consenso se ha perpetuado la hegemonía de la conexión angloargentina y de los núcleos sociopolíticos afines a la misma, (con la incorporación de Argentina a la Sociedad de Naciones), núcleo hegemónico que ha convivido con una renovada presencia de corrientes, minoritarias pero influyentes, proalemanas y profascistas en el *establishment* y también con corrientes liberales, modernistas, que en los últimos años han buscado una mayor complementación económica con los EEUU, (en los marcos del proceso de industrialización sustitutiva), pese a que la política exterior conservadora se ha manifestado durante la década del ‘30 en posiciones agudamente discrepantes con la estrategia panamericana de los EEUU, a través de confrontaciones diplomáticas que revelan la fuerte conexión con Gran Bretaña y Europa. Sin embargo, hasta 1941 la posición neutral del gobierno coincide con la idéntica posición norteamericana, cuenta con el sustancial apoyo inglés y es defendida por los partidarios del Eje.

Es en ese año, tras la consolidación del poder alemán en Europa, la invasión a la Unión Soviética y sobre todo el bombardeo a Pearl

Harbour y el ingreso de EEUU en la guerra, que el conflicto interno se desata y potencia la crisis del conservadurismo. La ofensiva hemisférica de Washington en pro de la ruptura de relaciones con el Eje choca en la Conferencia de Río de Janeiro de 1942 con el neutralismo conservador del presidente Castillo y el Canciller Ruiz Guiñazú. Posición en la que se atrincheran por un lado los sectores anglófilos con el apoyo de los intereses británicos dentro del país y la comprensión del Foreign Office y, por el otro lado, las corrientes proalemanas y proeje dentro de la elite tradicional, con peso en las fuerzas armadas. Al mismo tiempo, la corriente liberal del conservadurismo, confluyendo con la posición proaliada mayoritaria de la oposición democrática y estimulada por la oposición norteamericana al gobierno de Castillo y el consiguiente conflicto argentino-norteamericano, pasa progresivamente a cuestionar la neutralidad, ligando el triunfo de la causa aliada y el alineamiento de la Argentina con ella a las promesas de una democratización de la vida política argentina. Aunque estos núcleos no logran posiciones hegemónicas en el gobierno de Castillo contribuyen a horadar a la coalición conservadora. El consenso interno a la elite tradicional se fractura. Como hemos señalado en otros textos tal fractura, manifestada en la opción entre la neutralidad y las posiciones pro-aliadas, revela en realidad, de modo particular, un episodio agudizado de la rivalidad anglo-norteamericana por esferas de influencia en la economía y el Estado argentino, una rivalidad que hace posible el mayor activismo de los sectores proeje, en realidad más débiles y minoritarios en su fuerza económica y en el Estado.¹⁰

Tal crisis de hegemonía corroe al conservadurismo y es el escenario del golpe militar de 1943, en el que las FFAA vienen a garantizar la continuidad del Estado clausurando la fachada constitucional parlamentaria fraudulenta. Pero este no es el prólogo de la resolución de esta crisis de hegemonía sino de su reedición en nuevas condiciones.

En las condiciones de la guerra mundial, las fracturas en la elite y el Estado se manifiestan también agudamente en las propias fuerzas

¹⁰ Ver Rapoport, M, *¿Aliados o neutrales? La Argentina frente a la Segunda Guerra Mundial*, Buenos Aires, 1988; Rapoport, M, *Gran Bretaña, Estados Unidos y las clases dirigentes argentinas, 1940-1945*, Buenos Aires, 1981.

armadas, reserva del mismo. La ratificación de la neutralidad por la dictadura militar es sustentada en el predominio inicial de las corrientes proalemanas, así como en el continuado peso de los intereses británicos y también en el desarrollo de diversos sectores nacionalistas en el ejército, desarrollo estimulado por la industrialización y la guerra. Éstas esgrimirán aquella posición diplomática como signo de independencia frente a la hostilidad y la política de sanciones, diplomáticas y económicas, de los EE UU.

A la vez el conflicto en torno a la política exterior, con el desarrollo de la guerra va dejando de vincularse al destino de la misma, ya determinado a favor de la causa aliada, y es crecientemente expresión del conflicto bilateral entre Argentina y EEUU. En este contexto, rota ya la neutralidad en enero de 1944, se fortalece en el seno del gobierno militar la figura del Coronel Perón y su corriente, que disputa la hegemonía del ejército a los sectores del nacionalismo “duro”, oligárquico y tradicionalista, y va articulando una política de reformas sociales y alianza con los sindicatos, con postulados nacionalistas e industrialistas.

La emergencia de Perón y su política en el seno del gobierno militar contribuye a polarizar a la sociedad. Mientras importantes sectores obreros y populares van depositando en su figura las esperanzas de soberanía popular, independencia nacional y justicia social, la oposición democrática sitúa el camino de la democratización del país en el derrocamiento del gobierno militar y en particular en la oposición a la figura de Perón, cuya importancia crece a lo largo del año '44 y '45. A este planteo se irán sumando rápidamente importantes contingentes de las clases dominantes tradicionales, hasta poco antes partidarias de la neutralidad en la guerra y principales beneficiarias del régimen conservador, y el activismo opositor converge con los postulados de la política norteamericana frente al régimen militar.¹¹

En realidad ya la discusión sobre política exterior (aliados o neutrales, o mejor, democracia o fascismo), encubre otra polarización

¹¹ Rapoport, M., Los partidos políticos y la Segunda Guerra Mundial. In: *El Laberinto*, op. cit., p. 121-190.

interna. La Argentina ha dejado de ser neutral en enero de 1944. Negociaciones, primero secretas y luego abiertas, con EEUU, implican el levantamiento de las sanciones y reflejan el predominio de Perón en las decisiones del gobierno de Farrell. En acuerdo con la invitación formulada por la Conferencia de Chapultepec, el gobierno militar declara en marzo de 1945 la guerra al Eje, un mes después que otros seis países americanos (Chile, Ecuador, Perú, Venezuela, Uruguay y Paraguay), en una decisión vinculada al diseño del sistema internacional de la posguerra en la Conferencia de San Francisco y a los acuerdos norteamericano-soviéticos de Yalta, lo que desmiente la versión de que fue una medida meramente oportunista del gobierno argentino.¹² Sin embargo, este es el prólogo de la agudización de la ofensiva de la diplomacia norteamericana, graficada en la actividad del embajador Spruille Braden de oposición al gobierno militar y a Perón durante su estancia en Buenos Aires, de mayo a septiembre. Sobre la base de sus acusaciones de complicidad con las potencias del eje, esta ofensiva congrega en torno suyo a toda la oposición, incluyendo a los núcleos más poderosos de terratenientes y del *establishment*, que como lo demuestra su historia anterior, se alinean en la hora con Braden más por temor a Perón y a los cambios sociopolíticos que representa que por amor a los EEUU. También la oposición de los partidos democráticos busca el apoyo de los Estados Unidos contra el “nazi peronismo”.

En la segunda mitad del año '45, ya frustrados otros conatos de recambio al interior del gobierno militar alentados por la oposición y la embajada norteamericana, la ofensiva opositora busca el desalojo de Perón del gobierno, lográndolo el 9 de octubre, planteándose incluso la exigencia de la entrega del poder a la Corte Suprema de Justicia. Pero el 17 de octubre un vasto movimiento obrero y popular en Buenos Aires y otras provincias del país, con cierto grado de espontaneidad pero encauzado y dirigido por los partidarios de Perón, reclama la libertad del dirigente y la defensa de las conquistas sociales y fuerza un

¹² Rapoport, M., Argentina y la Segunda Guerra Mundial, mitos y realidades. In: *Estudios Interdisciplinarios de América Latina y el Caribe*, Tel Aviv, Vol. 6, n° 1, enero-junio de 1995, p. 5-21; Humphreys, R.A., *Latin America and the Second World War, 1942-1945*, University of London, 1982.

nuevo cambio en la relación de fuerzas dentro del ejército logrando la reposición de su líder, en un proceso que agudiza aún más la crisis del Estado, de los sectores tradicionalmente dominantes y también del propio régimen militar, y genera la convocatoria a elecciones de febrero de 1946.

En ellas se enfrenta a Perón todo el espectro político anterior unido, desde dirigentes conservadores connotados hasta el partido comunista, expresando un fugaz y tardío episodio de la alianza antifascista de la guerra. La Unión Democrática es respaldada en su campaña por el Departamento de Estado norteamericano, con el *Blue Book* donde se denunciaban las presuntas vinculaciones de los gobiernos argentinos con los países del Eje. Su programa plantea incluso reformas democráticas de carácter avanzado pero significativamente carece de toda definición respecto de la industrialización del país.

Por otro lado, se dibuja una nueva coalición, aún informalmente articulada en torno a la figura de Perón, con el aval de los sindicatos bajo su influencia, que busca el apoyo de los industriales y presenta la candidatura peronista como garantía de defensa de la soberanía nacional frente a la ingerencia extranjera (Braden o Perón). La actividad de la diplomacia norteamericana dio un sesgo antiimperialista a la campaña presidencial de 1946 y fue un elemento decisivo para el triunfo electoral de Perón.

Dos concepciones en torno a la democratización política se enfrentaron, articuladas ambas con opuestas posiciones respecto del conflicto diplomático con los EEUU y sobre la inserción internacional: atada una de ellas al apoyo de Estados Unidos y a la integración al sistema internacional de la posguerra, que, presumían sus promotores locales, habría de prolongar la Gran Alianza de la guerra echando los cimientos de un nuevo orden global; ligada la otra al planteo de mayor autonomía nacional, bajo postulados nacionalistas-industrialistas.

Encontró así expresión particular y salida política, largamente demorada por el carácter extremadamente restrictivo del Estado argentino y del régimen político conservador emergente del golpe de 1930, la polarización económica y social que resultó del proceso de industrialización sustitutiva de importaciones a partir del agotamiento

del “modelo agroexportador” en el período de entreguerras, con la crisis del ‘29, y los consiguientes cambios en la estructura social. Así en el trasfondo del conflicto político, se decidía el rumbo económico y la inserción internacional de la Argentina en la posguerra. Con el peronismo triunfa el proyecto reformista de prolongar la industrialización sustitutiva, sobre la base de la expansión del mercado interno, vía redistribución del ingreso, y la protección del Estado, que hereda los instrumentos del intervencionismo conservador de los años ‘30 y los amplía con la política de nacionalizaciones de servicios públicos, crédito industrial y controles financieros y del comercio exterior. Los intereses económico-sociales que se expresan a través del nuevo movimiento populista y alcanzan el control del gobierno conllevan la génesis de un nuevo régimen político y también, con su “tercera posición”, un nuevo tipo de política exterior.¹³

El triunfo electoral del peronismo fue posible sobre la base de los cambios políticos internos: el nuevo rol de la industria liviana en la estructura económica del país; la fuerte base de apoyo obrera y popular que el gobierno capitalizó en el terreno electoral y en la movilización política; y el cuerpo de reformas sociales que implicaron una pronunciada redistribución del ingreso y se compatibilizaban, a través de la expansión del mercado interno, con el objetivo industrialista de expandir hasta el límite la sustitución de importaciones.

El nuevo gobierno buscó definir una nueva inserción internacional del país en el mundo bipolar creado por la guerra fría a través de la llamada Tercera Posición, por la cual “se pretendía balancear el peso considerable de los EEUU, procurando un mayor protagonismo en América Latina, consolidando la tradicional conexión con Europa y estableciendo vínculos diplomáticos con el bloque socialista, aunque sin que esto significase abandonar la alineación a Occidente”.¹⁴

¹³ Ver Rapoport, M y Spiguel, C., Estados Unidos y el peronismo. La política norteamericana en la Argentina, 1949-1955, Buenos Aires, 1994; Rapoport, M, Tres momentos de la política exterior argentina. In: *Tiempo de crisis, Vientos de cambio, Argentina y el poder global*, Buenos Aires, 2002, p. 159-161.

¹⁴ *Idem*, “Tres momentos de la política exterior argentina”, p. 159-160.

Ello se articulaba con el complejo de fuerzas económicas emergentes del proceso de industrialización que caracterizaron al populismo peronista, su nacionalismo y su política exterior. Fuerzas económicas estructural e históricamente débiles (lo que explica también el grado de autoritarismo del gobierno que las expresaba), que en aquella etapa se expandieron a través del proceso de reformas económicas y sociales, capitalizando el apoyo popular y dejando una honda huella política, social y también económica, con la expansión de la industria nacional mercadointernista, de las economías regionales y del área capitalista de Estado. Aspectos todos sin los cuales no se pueden explicar las convulsivas dos décadas siguientes.

IV. GOLPES DE ESTADO, INESTABILIDAD INSTITUCIONAL Y PUGNAS POR LA INSERCIÓN INTERNACIONAL DEL PAÍS

Los límites alcanzados por las reformas peronistas en la estructura económica dependiente y donde predominaban todavía los sectores económicos tradicionales, la debilidad de los nuevos núcleos empresarios expandidos bajo el proceso de industrialización, y la subordinación de las fuerzas sindicales al aparato de gobierno, lo que acentuaba sus tendencias autoritarias, hicieron posible también el derrocamiento del mismo, pese a la perdurable fuerza política del movimiento peronista. No obstante, las transformaciones operadas y el hecho de que el peronismo alcanzó a ejercer un grado de control sobre palancas claves del Estado, a la hora de la verdad, el golpe militar de 1955 demostró que el poder del Estado, como en 1930, respondió a los intereses tradicionales, unificadas sus diversas corrientes en desalojar al peronismo e iniciar una nueva y dramática etapa en la vida argentina.

Con la “Revolución Libertadora” que derrocó al segundo gobierno peronista se inicia una etapa de aguda inestabilidad institucional en la vida política argentina, caracterizada por una sucesión de gobiernos civiles precarios, golpes de Estado y dictaduras militares, hasta 1983.

A través de estos episodios se fue afirmando la centralidad de las fuerzas armadas en la vida política del país operando no sólo como reserva del poder del Estado sino crecientemente como brazo político,

el “partido militar”, de un poder económico y social concentrado, el de las elites agroexportadoras y de grandes empresarios asociados al capital extranjero. Las políticas económicas, sociales e internacionales que permitían la reproducción de esos intereses dominantes en la economía y la sociedad se volvieron, en aquella etapa de la historia argentina, incompatibles con la vigencia de la constitución y el funcionamiento normal de las instituciones representativas emergentes del sufragio universal. Al mismo tiempo, es a través de los gobiernos de facto como se despliegan a fondo políticas neoliberales que pugnan por una reinserción dependiente de la Argentina en el mercado mundial de un modo compatible con los intereses mencionados, que en aquel período buscan todavía aprovechar el mercado interno industrial expandido en las décadas anteriores e incluso exportar manufacturas.

Como en 1930, desde 1955 en adelante se pueden discernir tres órdenes de propósitos que en proporción diversa acicatean la actividad de las fuerzas cívicas y militares que motorizan los golpes de Estado: 1) La necesidad de clausurar cualquier expresión de la voluntad popular suprimiendo las libertades democráticas, sindicales y las garantías constitucionales para poder ejercer sin mediaciones el poder coercitivo del Estado a fin de impedir la contestación real o potencial de amplios sectores de la población frente a las políticas antes expuestas. 2) Igualmente, la proscripción del peronismo, a fin de retrotraer sus reformas sociales y debilitar el poder sindical a partir de la “revolución libertadora” de septiembre de 1955. 3) Y, finalmente, en el golpe del 24 de marzo de 1976, el objetivo de tronchar de raíz, bajo el pretexto del combate al terrorismo urbano, el auge del movimiento popular, que con fuerte protagonismo de obreros industriales y amplios sectores medios había eclosionado desde el Cordobazo de 1969 y otros estallidos posteriores a través de diversas expresiones sociales y políticas, algunas de características revolucionarias.

Se buscaba asimismo, ejercer sin mediaciones el control de las instituciones gubernamentales, desalojando de ellas a fuerzas proclives al nacionalismo económico que, como el peronismo (1973-1976) o el radicalismo del presidente Illia (1963-1966), pugnan por seguir desarrollando políticas industrialistas mercadointernistas y autonomistas

en el plano internacional. Gobiernos que sin atinar a solucionar las contradicciones de la estructura económica y social, obstaculizaban también su resolución a favor de los intereses tradicionales.

De todos modos, es visible la heterogeneidad del frente golpista en 1966 cuando el derrocamiento de Illia: la corriente de Onganía, hombre caracterizado por la CIA como “buen amigo de los EE.UU”, orienta la política exterior hacia el alineamiento con Washington, adscribiendo a la llamada “Doctrina de la Seguridad Nacional” y las “fronteras ideológicas” (verificándose en ese turno dictatorial el mayor grado de acercamiento a la política exterior norteamericana hasta entonces y que sólo se reeditaría en un nivel superior con la presidencia de Menem). Su caída, preanunciada por el Cordobazo, y el recambio dictatorial del Gral. Lanusse ubican en el control del poder a una poderosa corriente militar “liberal”, representativa de un núcleo de grandes terratenientes e intermediarios tradicionales, históricamente asociados a Europa y que buscan diversificar el espectro de relaciones comerciales y políticas del país sin atender a las “fronteras ideológicas”. Articulándose con sectores de negocios vinculados a las relaciones argentino-soviéticas, es bajo este turno dictatorial que se afirma la “apertura al Este a través de hombres de derecha” que tanta importancia tendrá en las relaciones internacionales argentinas bajo la dictadura de Videla desde 1976. Es precisamente esa heterogeneidad golpista (junto con la intención de salvar en parte los jirones de la retórica democrática de la Alianza para el Progreso) lo que explica en 1966 la reluctancia del embajador norteamericano en Buenos Aires a aparecer públicamente alentando el golpe contra Illia (a diferencia de lo ocurrido con Lincoln Gordon en 1964 en Brasil), pese al liderazgo de Onganía, a la hegemonía de las fuerzas pronorteamericanas en la conspiración y al básico respaldo de Washington al golpe en curso.¹⁵

Del mismo modo la campaña golpista que culmina el 24 de marzo de 1976 e instala la dictadura de Videla expresa la confluencia de distintas corrientes militares que, con la dictadura y en el marco de

¹⁵ Rapoport, M. y Laufer, R., Estados Unidos ante el Brasil y la Argentina: Los golpes militares de la década de 1960. In: Rapoport, M., *Tiempo de crisis, vientos de cambio... op. cit.*

una política económica común a los distintos núcleos del *establishment* argentino, pugnarán entre sí por la inserción económica y estratégica del país, consolidándose las nuevas “relaciones triangulares” que vincularon a la economía y el Estado argentino con las dos superpotencias que disputaban la hegemonía mundial en los marcos de la bipolaridad: EEUU y la Unión Soviética, relaciones con sustento interno en distintas facciones de la propia dictadura y de las clases dominantes, elemento fundamental para comprender el erratismo aparente de la política exterior del “Proceso de Reorganización Nacional” de 1976 a 1983.

En resumen, como hemos visto en todos los golpes de Estado, con sus secuelas de regímenes militares, estuvo presente el conflicto en torno a la inserción internacional del país, su política económica internacional y la orientación de sus relaciones internacionales, no sólo entre las fuerzas autonomistas respaldadas en las mayorías populares por un lado y el poder económico y social dominante por el otro, sino también en el seno de este último.

A la vez, en muchas ocasiones la política exterior aparece en forma explícita y de modo visible como elemento desencadenante de la inestabilidad institucional. Así ocurrió con el derrocamiento del desarrollista presidente Frondizi en 1962, al intentar establecer un puente mediador frente a la hostilidad de Washington respecto de la Revolución Cubana. “Su actitud ‘comprensiva’ hacia Cuba, simbolizada por la entrevista concedida por el presidente al ‘Che’ Guevara en la residencia de Olivos (aunque finalmente el gobierno rompió relaciones con La Habana), fue una de las causas de su derrocamiento por parte de los militares”.¹⁶ También en los preparativos del golpe de 1966, la política exterior, de corte autonomista, del gobierno radical de Illia fue un elemento importante. En materia económica, con la anulación de los contratos petroleros firmados con empresas internacionales bajo el gobierno de Frondizi generó picos de tensión en las relaciones con los EEUU, mientras que, en el terreno diplomático, decidió no integrar la fuerza interamericana que con la cobertura multilateral de la OEA

¹⁶ Rapoport. M., *Tres momentos de la política exterior argentina*, *ibidem*, p. 162.

acompañó la intervención norteamericana en Santo Domingo en 1965.¹⁷

Desde 1955 a 1976, como hemos visto, la Argentina asiste a una oscilación que ha sido caracterizada como “péndulo político”, en ese péndulo se manifestaba el conflicto social emergente de una Argentina semiindustrializada, fruto del proceso anterior, desde la crisis del '30 hasta los primeros gobiernos peronistas. Hasta 1976 el funcionamiento económico de la Argentina pivotea sobre la actividad industrial mercado internista que es la base de la fuerza de los sectores partidarios del nacionalismo económico y de una clase obrera fuertemente concentrada y vastas capas medias. Esa actividad industrial así como la importante área estatal de la economía genera márgenes para la búsqueda de mayor autonomía económica y política del país.

Sin embargo, el desarrollo de la industria se ve constreñido por las características del sector externo, lo que se manifiesta en las sucesivas crisis de balance de pagos de la época. Se trata de una industria liviana dependiente de importaciones y de fondos provistos por las exportaciones agropecuarias, limitadas tanto por la nueva configuración de los mercados mundiales, incluyendo la competencia estadounidense y el creciente proteccionismo europeo, como por una estructura interna del sector limitada en su desarrollo por el control de los sectores terratenientes y monopolistas comercializadores sobre las condiciones de producción.¹⁸

Así los períodos de auge industrial son seguidos de crisis en los que, a través de políticas de ajuste con devaluación, la economía rinde tributo al sector agroexportador y al capital financiero extranjero. Por un período las políticas predominantes buscan continuar el proceso de industrialización por la vía dependiente atrayendo capitales extranjeros al sector. Políticas que generan en su desarrollo un proceso

¹⁷ Rapoport, M. y Laufer, R., *Estados Unidos ante el Brasil y la Argentina: los golpes militares de la década de 1960*, *ibidem*.

¹⁸ Cf. Portantiero, JC., Clases dominantes y crisis política en la Argentina actual. In: Braun, O., (comp.), *El capitalismo argentino en crisis*, Buenos Aires, 1973; O'Donnell, G. “Estado y alianzas en la Argentina, 1956-1976”, *Desarrollo Económico*, n° 64, Buenos Aires, enero-marzo de 1977 y *El Estado Burocrático Autoritario*, Buenos Aires, 1982.

de concentración y extranjerización en la industria, que afecta al empresariado nacional, y de distribución regresiva del ingreso que limita la expansión ulterior del mercado interno, y a la vez refuerzan los factores deudores del balance de pagos, conduciendo a ulteriores ajustes recesivos.¹⁹

El péndulo político, condicionado por estas contradicciones económicas, se expresa en la política exterior en la oscilación entre políticas autonomistas, conjugadas con el nacionalismo económico, por un lado y políticas “aperturistas” que pugnan por una asociación con las grandes potencias, por el otro. Si desde 1955, la marca de la guerra fría y la hegemonía económica, política y militar de Estados Unidos en el continente determina las políticas de alineamiento con Washington, no tarda en manifestarse el peso de otras relaciones internacionales que adquieren más visibilidad en la medida en que recrudece la competencia internacional. Esas relaciones tienen incidencia en las clases dirigentes, en las que existen poderosos núcleos de intereses asociados a los países europeos y, posteriormente, al compás de la crisis de la hegemonía norteamericana, sectores terratenientes, financieros e industriales que buscan afirmar las conexiones con la Unión Soviética y el Este europeo, ganando esos mercados para las exportaciones argentinas.²⁰ Estas conexiones se van expresando en las pugnas en el seno de las clases dominantes, de las elites y corrientes civiles y militares y en modalidades de política exterior que, en el marco de la adscripción occidental, aprovechando la bipolaridad mundial buscan tomar distancia del alineamiento con Washington, aunque no se conjugan con los propósitos del nacionalismo económico sino de la “diversificación de la dependencia”. Nuevamente es preciso destacar

¹⁹ Ver Rapoport, M. y colab., *Historia económica política y social de la Argentina (1880-2000)*, cap. 5 y 6, Buenos Aires, 2000, p. 582-603.

²⁰ Ver Laufer, R. y Spiguel, C., Europa Occidental en las relaciones internacionales argentinas del mundo bipolar, 1970-1990. In: *Ciclos en la historia, la economía y la sociedad*, n° 14-15, 1^{er} Semestre de 1998, Buenos Aires, p. 113-147; Rapoport, M., La Argentina y la Guerra Fría: opciones económicas y estratégicas de la apertura hacia el Este (1955-1973). In: *El Laberinto... op. cit.* y La posición internacional de la Argentina y las relaciones argentino-soviéticas. In: Perina, R. y Russell, R. *Argentina en el mundo, 1973-1987*, Buenos Aires, 1988, p. 171-207.

aquí la no complementariedad de las economías argentina y norteamericana en el plano agropecuario, factor condicionante de esa diversidad de relaciones y de la recurrencia de sectores hostiles a los Estados Unidos dentro de los círculos dirigentes del país.

Esas políticas exteriores han sido caracterizadas por Puig como de “autonomía heterodoxa”, sin ruptura radical con el mercado mundial capitalista pero tomando distancia e incluso confrontando con las políticas de Washington. Sin embargo, tales políticas, como se ha señalado, no se articulan con propósitos autonómicos, propios del nacionalismo empresario o de movimientos políticos reformistas. Surgen por el contrario de núcleos de terratenientes y grandes empresarios intermediarios de capitales extranjeros, y en el seno del Estado dependiente, y han caracterizado a gobiernos y períodos en los que se reforzó la subordinación económica y política de la nación y su condición periférica, incluyendo la dictadura de Videla, con su curso de destrucción de la industria nacional y endeudamiento externo, dejando en herencia un país más dependiente que nunca de sus exportaciones primarias y de los flujos de capital extranjero. En suma, bajo la categoría “autonomía heterodoxa” se confunden políticas tan diversas como las de Perón o Illia, por un lado, con las de Lanusse, Videla o Viola, por el otro.

Siendo el único parámetro del grado de autonomía la distancia respecto de la política de Washington, se opaca la concurrencia entre distintas potencias en el mercado mundial contemporáneo y en el sistema internacional de relaciones y su incidencia particular en las clases dirigentes argentinas a lo largo del siglo XX. Se paga tributo así, como hemos señalado anteriormente, a una visión estructuralista extrema del escenario internacional, que absolutiza la existencia de un sólo centro y hegemonía internacional, siempre relativa y en pugna, y desvanece las rivalidades estratégicas a nivel mundial. También, para el período que estamos tratando esta concepción, por otra parte característica de ciertas teorías de la dependencia de la época, identifica la bipolaridad mundial con la competencia entre sistemas económicos (capitalista y socialista) y niega la disputa por esferas de influencia en que crecientemente se

transformó la pugna entre EEUU y la URSS a escala mundial, de los años '60 a los '80.²¹

V. LA DICTADURA MILITAR Y SUS CONSECUENCIAS:
DESINDUSTRIALIZACIÓN, RELACIONES TRIANGULARES Y
DEPENDENCIA "HETERODOXA"

El 24 de marzo de 1976 se implantó la dictadura militar autodenominada "Proceso de Reorganización Nacional", la más sangrienta de la historia argentina. Su gestión tuvo hondas consecuencias en la economía, la sociedad, la política y la cultura del país. El terrorismo de estado, incluyendo el método (inaugurado por el nazismo) de la detención ilegal y desaparición de personas, fue dirigido centralmente por la cúpula dictatorial e implementado sistemáticamente a través de las tres armas y con el protagonismo de las distintas camarillas y corrientes militares que habían convergido en el golpe de Estado. Apuntó, como hemos señalado, a clausurar el período de auge de los movimientos populares de años anteriores que irrumpió en 1969 con el Cordobazo. Pero también el desmantelamiento de todas las potenciales resistencias políticas, gremiales y sociales de los más diversos sectores populares era una condición fundamental para lograr la drástica y regresiva reconfiguración de la estructura económica y social de la Argentina que la dictadura llevó adelante.

Este proyecto tenía determinantes sociopolíticos y económicos. Por un lado se proponía resolver a favor de las clases dominantes de terratenientes y capitalistas intermediarios ligados al capital extranjero el "péndulo político" de las décadas anteriores cercenando la industria nacional y el mercado interno, sede de la fuerza del movimiento obrero y de los sectores empresarios partidarios del nacionalismo económico. Por el otro, el plan del ministro del dictador Videla, Martínez de Hoz, buscó readaptar a la economía argentina en los marcos de un tipo de división internacional del trabajo que se presentó como un retorno a

²¹ Cf. Puig, J. C., *Doctrinas Internacionales y autonomía latinoamericana*, cap. VII., Universidad Simón Bolívar – Instituto de Altos Estudios de América Latina, Caracas, 1980.

las fuentes: a la Argentina “abierta al mundo” de la época agroexportadora que había construido la generación de 1880 un siglo antes.

Se trataba de un programa tradicional reclamado por el liberalismo oligárquico argentino desde mucho antes que coincidió con la crisis internacional, en momentos en que los círculos financieros de las grandes potencias promovían la atracción de los excedentes financieros acumulados en los países centrales por parte de los países del tercer mundo para su rápida valorización, y en un momento en que el capital internacional no encontraba ya oportunidades rentables para la inversión directa en la industria argentina. Por otra parte, la dictadura militar, junto a la chilena de Pinochet, se anticipó a los modelos neoliberales impuestos más tarde por Thatcher, Reagan y el Consenso de Washington, constituyéndose así en una avanzada en la implementación de esas ideas económicas en el mundo. En el caso argentino, frente a los techos alcanzados por la industrialización sustitutiva de importaciones y las encrucijadas a las que se enfrentaba, la drástica solución fue la “vuelta atrás”, retrogradando la estructura productiva a una etapa anterior con el pretexto de “modernizarla”.²²

La apertura financiera, la subvaluación del dólar, la elevación de las tasas de interés internas con la atracción de los capitales golondrinas se combinaron con los mecanismos rentísticos especulativos del sistema financiero garantizados por el Estado, haciendo posible su valorización usuraria y una formidable exportación de capitales desde la Argentina, alimentada con el endeudamiento del Estado y las empresas públicas. Se inició así un modelo “rentístico-financiero” que perduraría bajo los gobiernos democráticos posteriores. A ello se sumó una drástica redistribución regresiva del ingreso hecha posible por la inflación y la represión de la actividad sindical.

La política económica de la dictadura generó así un inédito proceso de desindustrialización, atenazada la industria nacional mercadointernista por la apertura importadora; el estímulo a la especulación financiera por sobre las actividades productivas y la

²² Ver Shvarzer, Jorge, *La política económica de Martínez de Hoz*, Buenos Aires, 1986; Ciafardini, H. *Crisis, inflación y desindustrialización en la Argentina dependiente*, Buenos Aires, 1990.

progresiva contracción del mercado de consumo. Simultáneamente se afianzó un proceso de reprimarización de la economía argentina, especializándose fundamentalmente en la producción y exportación de cereales, algunas manufacturas de origen agropecuario de escasa elaboración, complementados con la producción de ciertos insumos de uso industrial difundido (papel, aluminio, tubos de acero sin costura, etc.) y energía. Llegó a reafirmarse así la fracción terrateniente y agroexportadora dentro de las elites dominantes al tiempo que se concentraba el poder económico en un pequeño número de grupos monopolistas cuya acumulación surgía de las prebendas estatales al precio de un gigantesco endeudamiento paralelo a la regresión productiva.²³

En lo inmediato la política dictatorial implicó la consolidación de un nuevo esquema de relaciones internacionales, en el terreno económico, político y diplomático, que se venía gestando desde los inicios de la década del '70.

Por un lado, se profundizó la dependencia de la financiación y la tecnología de los países occidentales. En pocos años se quintuplicó la deuda externa pública, una gran parte a través de mecanismo ilegales y no registrada por los organismos públicos correspondientes, acompañada por el endeudamiento privado (la deuda privada de los grandes grupos económicos beneficiados por el poder dictatorial sería estatizada cuando sobrevino la crisis financiera y se encareció el crédito internacional). Esa fue la etapa de génesis de la gigantesca deuda pública argentina que desde entonces hasta la actualidad no hizo más que multiplicarse, enorme hipoteca que incrementaría el peso de los acreedores externos, fundamentalmente de la banca norteamericana, en las relaciones internacionales del país.²⁴

Al mismo tiempo uno de los efectos esenciales de la “apertura económica” de la dictadura de Videla fue la concentración de las exportaciones agropecuarias en el mercado soviético, en una magnitud

²³ Ver Rapoport, M. y colab., *Historia económica... op. cit.*, cap.VII, p. 788-856.

²⁴ Ver Olmos, A. *Todo lo que usted quiso saber sobre la deuda externa y siempre le ocultaron*, Buenos Aires, 1995.

sólo comparable a la que ostentó en otra etapa histórica el mercado británico. Ello garantizó a los sectores agropecuarios tradicionales fuentes seguras de ingresos frente al progresivo cierre del Mercado Común Europeo y confluía con los planteos de la Unión Soviética para América Latina, que promovían un tipo de complementación comercial característica de la vieja división internacional del trabajo de fines del siglo XIX y gran parte del siglo XX.²⁵ Internamente estas relaciones tenían su sustento en un importante sector de terratenientes y empresarios vinculados a los negocios con la URSS y otros países de su órbita, consolidándose de ese modo la asociación de esa superpotencia con un poderoso sector de clases dominantes argentinas. Según proclamaron los jerarcas soviéticos, “La Argentina devino en socio más importante de la Unión Soviética entre los países emergentes” y “el interlocutor más importante de la URSS en América Latina”.²⁶

Se generó de ese modo un nuevo tipo de “relaciones triangulares” similar al que existía con Gran Bretaña y EEUU en el período de entreguerras. Como entonces, no se trataba de relaciones complementarias y armónicas sino de la manifestación de la competencia económica y estratégica internacional por el mercado (y el Estado) argentino. En aquella época los intereses británicos (y europeos) en el país, asociados a sectores hegemónicos dentro de las elites dominantes argentinas, hacían valer el peso del mercado comprador y su fuerza interna para contener el avance de la ofensiva inversora y de la hegemonía de EEUU, gran proveedor y creciente exportador de capitales y financista.

Bajo las nuevas relaciones triangulares, las relaciones comerciales con la URSS, más allá de un simple “pragmatismo” del sector agroexportador argentino, reflejaban y acompañaban el afianzamiento y la ampliación de otros vínculos del Estado y el poder económico soviético con sectores empresarios argentinos en el terreno financiero,

²⁵ Ver Rapoport, M, Las relaciones argentino soviéticas. In: Perina, R. y Russell, R., *op. cit.*, p. 199-200.

²⁶ Alexei Manzhullo, viceministro soviético de comercio exterior, “Intercambio URSS-Argentina”, *Clarín*, Buenos Aires, 16.1.1983; Nota de agencia Tass, *La Nación*, Buenos Aires, 7.6.1981. Ver Vacs, A. *Los socios discretos*, Buenos Aires, 1974; Gilbert I. *El oro de Moscú*, Buenos Aires, 1995.

y con el Estado en obras públicas y de infraestructura (conclusión de Salto Grande, estudios de factibilidad para una gran represa en el Paraná Medio, centrales termoeléctricas, área nuclear, etc, con provisión de equipos y financiación soviéticos, en el marco de compromisos argentinos para equilibrar la balanza comercial bilateral, bajo una de las modalidades preferidas de la operatoria del capital soviético en el Tercer Mundo), y también en el afianzamiento de vínculos diplomáticos y militares con un país periférico, inserto en Occidente y parte de un continente que era esfera de influencia tradicional de los Estados Unidos.

Este proceso se materializó en el contexto mundial de la década del '70, caracterizado por la crisis y declinación relativa de la hegemonía norteamericana en el mundo, la ofensiva estratégica de la URSS en los marcos de la “detente”, y un nuevo rol, más autónomo respecto de los EEUU, de Europa Occidental. A la vez coronó una tendencia a la ampliación de los vínculos con la URSS presente desde antes en la elite argentina y que comenzó a plasmarse desde la dictadura de Lanusse en 1971, y tuvo su sustento interno en sectores terratenientes, financistas y grupos monopolistas que en asociación con ciertas corporaciones empresarias intermediarias de capitales de Europa Occidental, constituyeron una poderosa fracción dentro del bloque dominante en la economía y el Estado argentino, elemento clave para explicar las características de la toma de decisiones y las pugnas en torno a la política exterior desde entonces hasta los inicios de la década del 1990.²⁷

El ministro de Economía de Videla, José Alfredo Martínez de Hoz, resumía en su figura y en su práctica la orientación de la política económica y de las relaciones internacionales bajo la dictadura: representante de liberalismo oligárquico y partidario de las recetas económicas de la “escuela de Chicago”, era miembro de una de las más poderosas familias de la oligarquía terrateniente argentina de la pampa húmeda. Directivo de firmas de varios grupos empresarios monopolistas

²⁷ Sobre el rol de Europa y de los intereses proeuropeos en las relaciones triangulares de la época, Ver Laufer, R. y Spiguel, C., Europa Occidental en las relaciones internacionales argentinas del mundo bipolar (1970-1990), *Ciclos en la historia, la economía y la sociedad*, n° 14, p. 113-147.

locales, hombre de confianza para el *establishment* financiero internacional e importantes círculos de negocios en los Estados Unidos (recibiendo el respaldo de David Rockefeller en su visita a Buenos Aires en 1979), fue a la vez protagonista del afianzamiento de los vínculos comerciales con la URSS, incluyendo su rol decisivo en la negativa a adherir a la Argentina al embargo cerealero a la URSS promovido por EEUU en ocasión de la invasión rusa a Afganistán. Pese a las presiones norteamericanas, incluyendo la misión del Gral. Goodpaster, enviado por el presidente Carter en enero de 1980, la decisión de no plegarse al embargo implicó un salto cualitativo en la concentración de las ventas (80% de los cereales, 20% de las carneas, 41,8% de las exportaciones totales en 1981) en el mercado soviético, reduciendo incluso las ventas a otros mercados tradicionales pese a las seguridades en contrario brindadas a EEUU.

Por el nuevo tipo de inserción internacional manifestado en las relaciones “triangulares”, la Argentina resultaba vinculada principalmente con las dos superpotencias que disputaban el mundo en esa etapa de la bipolaridad, lo que dotaba a ese tipo de relacionamiento de importantes componentes políticos y estratégicos. Ello se manifestará a través de la aguda pugna entre distintas corrientes militares en el seno de la dictadura por el control del poder, pugnas que estuvieron en la base también de la evolución de la política exterior y de sus cambios.

Así la política exterior del último régimen militar tuvo características “heterodoxas” respecto de las de otras dictaduras militares latinoamericanas, aunque una heterodoxia en las antípodas de la autonomía. Nació proclamando su vocación occidentalista y de lucha contra la “amenaza comunista” y del “marxismo internacional”, lo que corroboró con la atroz represión fascista y el contenido profundamente antidemocrático y antipopular de su política. La escalada represiva, que buscó destruir no sólo a fuerzas políticas contestatarias y revolucionarias, sino todo tipo de organización social que le ofreciera resistencia, se proyectó fuera de las fronteras en la colaboración represiva con las otras dictaduras del Cono Sur (Plan Cóndor).

Simultáneamente, junto a la apertura importadora y financiera y al proceso de desindustrialización que hemos reseñado, se afianzaron

las relaciones con La URSS en los planos económico (convenios comerciales, emprendimientos en obras de infraestructura), político y diplomático, cultural y en las relaciones militares (intercambio de misiones). Este proceso fue paralelo al desarrollo de agudos conflictos diplomáticos y picos de tensión con los Estados Unidos. Desde 1977 el gobierno de Carter desplegó la política de promoción de los derechos humanos, en el marco de una estrategia global para recomponer la hegemonía norteamericana en el mundo, elemento que caracterizó la política de Washington hacia la dictadura argentina. La condena a las flagrantes violaciones a los derechos humanos por parte de la dictadura de Videla se combinó en 1978 con la suspensión de toda ayuda militar a la Argentina (créditos, donaciones, ventas, etc.). Mientras la dictadura respondía con acusaciones de “intervención en los asuntos internos” y reproches sobre la incomprensión de Occidente respecto de su cruzada “antisubversiva”, reproches que adquirieron un tono grotesco de legitimación fascista de la represión, inversamente contaba con el consecuente respaldo soviético, que opuso a lo largo de esos años su veto en todos los foros internacionales a las iniciativas de condena a la dictadura militar argentina por sus crímenes. Sin embargo, este respaldo no se basaba en consideraciones sobre el principio de no intervención en los asuntos internos, pues al mismo tiempo la URSS promovía o apoyaba las resoluciones contra la sangrienta dictadura de Pinochet.²⁸ Como explicitaría años más tarde, luego del fin de la URSS, el ex-premier Gorbachov: “Lo que sucedió en la Argentina de los años 70 es un ejemplo... de la guerra fría... Los EEUU apoyaban algunos regímenes dictatoriales y esto era suficiente para que la Unión Soviética apoyara a otros. Era una política de bloques.”²⁹

²⁸ El premio Nobel de la Paz argentino A. Pérez Esquivel denunció este respaldo soviético a la dictadura argentina en el tratamiento de los desaparecidos en la Argentina, acusando a la URSS de “imperialista y reaccionaria” y de apoyar a la dictadura fascista argentina. Ver *Revista Humor*, n° 36, Buenos Aires, 1982. También el canciller del último turno dictatorial, Aguirre Lanari destacó que “los países socialistas... han acompañado a la Argentina... en la cuestión de los derechos humanos”, *La Prensa*, Buenos Aires, 3.12.82.

²⁹ Declaraciones de Gorbachov, *Clarín*, Buenos Aires, 6.12.1992.

Con el rechazo en 1980 a adherir al embargo cerealero contra la URSS y el salto cualitativo que implicó en las relaciones económicas con esa potencia, hechos a los que se sumaría el involucramiento de la dictadura argentina en el golpe de Estado de García Meza en Bolivia, llegaron a su momento de máxima tensión las relaciones argentino-norteamericanas. Washington no designó embajador en Buenos Aires y las relaciones bilaterales sufrieron un marcado enfriamiento hasta la asunción de Reagan, en enero de 1981.³⁰

Un eje clave de la política exterior de la dictadura hasta 1980 lo constituyó la política de confrontación y los preparativos bélicos con relación al conflicto con la República de Chile por la posesión de tres islas al sur de Tierra del Fuego y el Canal de Beagle (uno de los varios puntos fronterizos en los que ambos países disputaban la soberanía desde fines del siglo XIX). En 1971, en tiempos de la dictadura de Lanusse, se había sometido el diferendo a la consideración de una Corte Arbitral cuyo veredicto sería aprobado o rechazado por la Corona inglesa que laudaría en definitiva. El laudo británico a favor de Chile y su impugnación por la dictadura de Videla, una vez vencidos los plazos previstos para su revisión, en 1978, dejaron montado el dispositivo para una escalada de conflictos diplomáticos que bordeó el estallido de una guerra en diciembre de 1978.

Durante ese año los medios de difusión saturaron a la población con una campaña chauvinista en la que se resucitaba la óptica de un transnochado “nacionalismo territorial” del más viejo cuño oligárquico. Incluía la presentación de la historia de la nación argentina desde el punto de vista de los virreyes españoles de Buenos Aires, caracterizándola por la tendencia a la amputación territorial con la “pérdida” (sic) de Bolivia, Paraguay, Uruguay. La campaña de preparación de la opinión pública para la guerra, (que tenía su correspondiente paralelo en los planteos de la dictadura chilena) se entrelazó con el desarrollo en Buenos Aires del campeonato mundial de fútbol. Éste fue utilizado por el régimen dictatorial para intentar ganar “respetabilidad internacional”

³⁰ Russell, R., Argentina y la política exterior del régimen autoritario (1976-1983). In: Perina, R. y Russell, R., *op. cit.*, p. 110.

en el mismo momento en que se producía una nueva vuelta de tuerca de la sangrienta represión. Pero además de intentar echar una pesada cortina sobre sus crímenes – rasgada crecientemente por las Madres de Plaza de Mayo y otros organismos de Derechos Humanos y la solidaridad internacional – también la dictadura buscó instrumentar los sentimientos deportivos de la población para pavimentar el camino de los preparativos bélicos, intentando lograr una base de masas para su política interna y externa, en uno de los momentos más agudos de fascistización ideológica y práctica del régimen.

Sin embargo, en la preparación de la guerra contra Chile no se trataba sólo de lograr la cohesión interna ni tampoco exclusivamente de fundamentar las gigantescas compras de armas que la escalada hizo posible (en las que se destacaron las ventas de ciertas potencias europeas). La confrontación entre los dos países latinoamericanos y los preparativos bélicos trascendían estos objetivos y poseían importantes determinantes estratégicos. El conflicto por el Canal de Beagle ponía en primer plano el control del paso interoceánico austral del hemisferio americano – único paso naval en caso de inutilización del Canal de Panamá – en el extremo del Atlántico Sur, un área clave para el transporte mundial, frente a las islas Malvinas controladas por Gran Bretaña, con proyecciones hacia la Antártida, y donde era ya importante la presencia de flotas pesqueras soviética y de otros países del Este.³¹ Esto sucedía en un período mundial de aguda confrontación estratégica entre las dos superpotencias, con el despliegue de bases y flotas en todos los continentes y mares y el estallido de conflictos locales disparados o condicionados por la disputa bipolar en zonas vinculadas a muchos pasos interoceánicos.³²

Finalmente la confrontación bélica fratricida que se preparaba entre las dictaduras de Videla y Pinochet fue frenada. Por un lado, a

³¹ La dictadura concretó con la URSS un importante convenio pesquero y de industrialización del krill en el Atlántico Sur, inaugurando una línea de las relaciones bilaterales que continuaría, luego de la Guerra de Malvinas, bajo el gobierno de Alfonsín, hasta la firma del convenio ictícola de 1986, lo que generó como represalia por parte de Gran Bretaña la declaración de la zona de pesca exclusiva en torno a las islas Malvinas.

³² Ver Rapoport M., *Las relaciones argentino-soviéticas*, op. cit., p. 182.

contracorriente de la fascistización y el chauvinismo promovido por la dictadura, se fue manifestando una creciente oposición popular, en la que jugaron un gran papel amplios sectores de la iglesia católica, pronunciamientos a favor de la paz con Chile de intelectuales connotados como Ernesto Sábató y otros, y diversas corrientes populares y personalidades políticas de oposición. Ello se expresó en las procesiones religiosas de esos años que se convirtieron en grandes demostraciones por la paz de contenido antidictatorial. Por otra parte, jugaron en contra del desencadenamiento de la guerra la intervención del Papa Juan Pablo II, ciertos intereses europeos, la posición de Brasil y el gobierno de Carter, temeroso de un foco de conflicto en el Cono Sur de imprevisibles consecuencias estratégicas. Esas condiciones y la llegada de un enviado del Vaticano, el Cardenal Samoré, a principios de 1979, con la recepción popular a su figura convertida en la primera manifestación popular masiva bajo la dictadura, que marchó con banderas argentinas y chilenas y consignas por la paz desde la Catedral en la Plaza de Mayo hasta la nunciatura apostólica, obligaron a la dictadura a aceptar la mediación papal en el conflicto.

Se ha buscado explicar la “heterodoxia” de la política exterior de la dictadura de Videla – incluyendo los conflictos diplomáticos con EEUU y el conflicto del Beagle – como un resultado de las contradicciones entre dos tipos de diplomacia, una económica y otra militar. La primera de carácter liberal, “pragmático”, ligada a consideraciones de índole comercial y financiera, respetuosa del *statu quo* internacional y sin limitaciones ideológicas; presidida la diplomacia militar por una ideología “nacionalista” y “occidentalista”, atada a las doctrinas de “la seguridad nacional” y a consideraciones geopolíticas, partidaria de la política de poder en las relaciones con los países vecinos. Las contradicciones entre diplomacia económica y militar explicarían “las inconsistencias y ambigüedades de la política exterior del ‘Proceso’ en el área”.³³

³³ Ver. Russell R., Argentina y la política exterior... In: Russell R. y Perina, R., *Argentina en el mundo... op. cit.*

Tales contradicciones devendrían de una disfuncionalidad entre elites dirigentes: a saber, de las tensiones dentro de la alianza FFAA/ poder económico hegemónico, tensiones que surgirían del hecho de que “las FFAA adquirieron márgenes relativos de autonomía frente a los grupos económicos dominantes” en beneficio de los cuales se producía en definitiva la transformación económica y social operada por la dictadura.³⁴ Tales márgenes estarían vinculados, según esta tesis, al incremento de los privilegios corporativos de las FFAA y devenían en la imposición de sus concepciones y visión del mundo.

Esta tesis ha sido planteada como clave explicativa para dar cuenta también de los enfrentamientos producidos en el interior del régimen y de lo que se presenta como el “rumbo errático” de su política exterior, desde Videla y el conflicto del Beagle a Galtieri, el acercamiento a EEUU y, súbitamente, la recuperación por la Argentina de las islas Malvinas y la guerra con Inglaterra.

Es evidente que un régimen controlado por las FFAA en todos los niveles de las instituciones estatales y paraestatales, nacionales y provinciales, con el reparto entre las tres armas de las jurisdicciones y funciones, convertía al componente corporativo al igual que a los privilegios y doctrinas militares en elementos condicionantes para explicar ciertas particularidades de la política interna e internacional de la dictadura. Sin embargo, esta tesis resulta superficial, abstracta e impotente para explicar las determinaciones esenciales de la política exterior del régimen y sus variaciones en el tiempo. En primer lugar la ideología del nacionalismo territorial y las políticas de poder dentro de América Latina, características por cierto de muchas dictaduras militares, lejos de la incoherencia, estuvieron presentes desde la formación del Estado oligárquico argentino en épocas del “civil” régimen conservador interactuando en determinados períodos con las políticas más crudamente liberales, “cosmopolitas” y de subordinación económica y diplomática a las grandes potencias. Además, no sólo en la Argentina sino en todo el continente los conflictos limítrofes y enfrentamientos entre países latinoamericanos, acompañados de la ideología del

³⁴ Russell R., *ibidem*. p. 101.

nacionalismo oligárquico o favorecidos por las doctrinas funcionales al “corporativismo militar”, han sido históricamente condicionados, instrumentados, potenciados o aplacados por intereses externos, económicos y estratégicos, coyunturales y de largo plazo, vehiculizados en la operatoria de las grandes potencias en el área. Determinantes que se materializaban en las propias relaciones asimétricas de dependencia y subordinación de los estados dependientes y que las clases dominantes locales promovían a través de las políticas liberales, “pragmáticas”, de su “diplomacia económica” (y este ha sido el caso tanto en la paradigmática Guerra del Chaco entre Paraguay y Bolivia como en la reciente guerra entre Perú y Ecuador en plena época “globalizada”).³⁵

Ciertamente, la existencia de regímenes democráticos, respaldados por la voluntad popular, ha favorecido en general las soluciones pactadas de las controversias y diferendos territoriales entre los países del área, pero es de señalar que esta tendencia se ha verificado del modo más consecuente, con un ideario latinoamericanista conjugado con políticas de alianza, convergencia e incluso integración económica, bajo gobiernos que expresaron a fuerzas proclives al nacionalismo económico y que intentaron políticas de desarrollo y ampliación de la autonomía económica y política respecto de las grandes potencias.³⁶

Por otro lado, la tesis aquí criticada hace abstracción de la convergencia esencial de “diplomacia económica” y “militar” en los hechos decisivos y en los rasgos “heterodoxos” – en términos de Puig – de la política exterior dictatorial hasta 1981: la ampliación y profundización de las relaciones con la URSS por parte de los turnos dictatoriales de Videla y Viola, tanto en el plano económico como en el militar constituyeron un factor decisivo para explicar la conflictividad con los EE UU.

³⁵ Ver Rapoport M. y Madrid E., Los países del Cono Sur y las grandes potencias. In: Rapoport M. y Cervo A. L., (Comp.), *El Cono Sur, una historia común*, Buenos Aires, 2002.

³⁶ Ver Quijada, M., El proyecto peronista de creación de un Zollverein sudamericano, 1946-1955. In: *Ciclos en la historia, la economía y la sociedad* n° 6, Buenos Aires, 1994; Moniz Bandeira, L. A., Las relaciones en el Cono Sur: iniciativas de integración. In: Rapoport, M. y Cervo, A. L. (comp.) *El Cono Sur, una historia común*, op. cit.

Así, el “pragmatismo desideologizado” de Martínez de Hoz reflejó en realidad los intereses de importantes sectores del poder económico local asociado a esas relaciones y a ciertos intereses europeos, que buscaban afianzar la “diversificación de la dependencia” en el marco de una disputa cada vez más aguda con los sectores pronorteamericanos del *establishment* local. Una pugna que fue determinante en las contradicciones en el seno del régimen dictatorial y en las variaciones de su política exterior, en tanto el “poder económico” y las clases dominantes no constituían, como no lo han sido a lo largo del siglo XX, un bloque homogéneo, pese a la coincidencia de intereses básica que motorizó los rasgos generales de la política económica de la dictadura.

Por su parte, el “occidentalismo” proclamado por las FFAA no fue óbice para el anudamiento de importantes lazos en el terreno militar con la Unión Soviética. Esa convergencia otorga coherencia a los aspectos principales de la política exterior de la dictadura hasta el desplazamiento de Viola por Galtieri a fines de 1981. En realidad las pugnas y enfrentamientos entre distintas corrientes militares, potenciadas ciertamente por la feudalización del poder y las características del régimen dictatorial, no pueden reducirse como se ha planteado a conflictos interpersonales o corporativos. Por el contrario, estaban determinadas en última instancia por la articulación de las distintas corrientes militares con distintos sectores de terratenientes, capitales intermediarios y corporaciones financieras asociados a distintos centros del poder mundial y en aguda disputa por el control del Estado y el poder dictatorial (no exclusivamente militar).

Tampoco la conservación del área capitalista de Estado (empresas públicas, fabricaciones militares, etc.) puede explicarse simplemente por un “nacionalismo militar” en contradicción, como se ha aducido, con las posturas liberales de la política económica de la dictadura. Es cierto que el origen y la ampliación de las empresas estatales estuvieron asociados a su promoción y defensa por parte de las corrientes políticas e intereses empresarios proclives al nacionalismo económico, que se expresaban también en corrientes reales, aunque generalmente débiles, dentro de las FFAA. Sin embargo, no se debe olvidar la función que

las empresas estatales tuvieron dentro de la política económica de la dictadura, en el marco de un Estado que, más que nunca, operaba como el instrumento nítido de sectores terratenientes, intermediarios de capitales extranjeros e intereses transnacionales.

Así, lejos de servir como palanca para el desarrollo autónomo y la acumulación de capital en manos de una burguesía nacional, por otra parte agudamente afectada y debilitada por los cambios económicos que la dictadura promovía, el área estatal de la economía (además de su instrumentación para potenciar el endeudamiento público en función de alimentar la especulación financiera y la extracción de capitales de la Argentina) tuvo como función predominante ser palanca para la acumulación, a través de diversos mecanismos, legales o ilegales, de los grupos económicos de capital concentrado orgánicamente vinculados al aparato estatal, la mayor parte de ellos intermediario de capitales extranjeros, testaferros de los mismos o directamente empresas transnacionales. (Esta función de la importante área estatal de la economía la convirtió así, desde el fin del primer peronismo, en un factor determinante en las pugnas por el poder estatal entre distintas fracciones de las clases dominantes, asociadas a distintos intereses transnacionales, y su control fue un elemento clave en la orientación de las relaciones económicas internacionales del país con las grandes potencias). Esto condujo a su saqueo, creciente déficit y descapitalización, lo que a la larga legitimaría su privatización y extranjerización lisa y llana con la aplicación de las políticas neoliberales bajo la presidencia de Menem en los años '90, y se produjo, por cierto, en otras condiciones internacionales. Así se conjugó el liberalismo de Martínez de Hoz con la operatoria del régimen militar que tampoco en este aspecto tuvo nada de "nacionalista".

VI. EL DEBILITAMIENTO DE LA DICTADURA Y LA GUERRA DE MALVINAS

La frustración de los planes para una guerra contra Chile fue el prólogo de una agudización de las contradicciones sociales y políticas que debilitaron al régimen y, en particular, al sector hasta entonces hegemónico en la cúpula dictatorial con Videla, que planificaba con

su sucesor Viola una salida política continuista buscando el aval de corrientes políticas civiles proclives a la colaboración.

En 1981 se desata una crisis financiera incontenible, corolario inevitable del plan Martínez de Hoz, que inauguró una larga década recesiva en la economía argentina y fue el capítulo local anticipado de la crisis de la deuda externa latinoamericana desatada en México con posterioridad. Pero también operó un elemento escasamente sopesado en las reconstrucciones historiográficas y en los análisis políticos: la resistencia popular. Una zigzagueante reactivación del movimiento sindical opositor y de los conflictos obreros, a partir del primer paro general en abril de 1979, pese a la represión y al colaboracionismo directo de una parte de las jerarquías sindicales; el desarrollo a un nuevo nivel de la lucha democrática encabezada por las Madres de Plaza de Mayo y otros organismos defensores de los derechos humanos; la oleada de protestas de pequeños y medianos productores agropecuarios en los inicios de la década del 80, son todos afluentes que impulsan y expresan un salto en el movimiento antidictatorial, y conforman el trasfondo, junto con la crisis financiera, del naufragio de la salida continuista “cívico-militar”, planificada por Viola y sus equipos.

En esas condiciones se agudiza la pugna entre las distintas corrientes en el seno del régimen. Ella deriva en el desplazamiento de Viola y la corriente hasta entonces hegemónica, que sin embargo conserva el control de resortes claves del gobierno y el aparato estatal. El recambio, esta vez no planificado sino resultado de esa disputa que operaba debilitando la cohesión del régimen, eleva a la cúpula del mismo a Galtieri, ex-jefe del II cuerpo de Ejército, destacado por sus actividades represivas y sus ideas reaccionarias, como expresión de una coalición de corrientes militares opuestas al violismo, que a la postre se revelaría muy heterogénea. Prolongando una línea internacional que ya había desplegado Galtieri como comandante en jefe del ejército bajo la presidencia de Viola, durante una gira que realizó a los EEUU, la nueva cúpula dictatorial propicia un acercamiento a Washington sobre la base de una intervención, acordada con los EEUU, de oficiales, asesores y armas para la organización, en colaboración con la CIA, de las fuerzas contrarrevolucionarias en Nicaragua y América Central. Tal

relineamiento se producía sobre la base del ascenso de Reagan a la presidencia, el consiguiente abandono de la política de los “derechos humanos” de la administración Carter, y la adscripción a criterios geopolíticos y estratégicos en las relaciones con los gobiernos latinoamericanos, en función de la nueva política global de ofensiva en la disputa bipolar y de recomposición de la hegemonía norteamericana en el mundo. En esas condiciones el acercamiento de la dictadura argentina a Washington expresaba un giro en favor de la política norteamericana, mientras que por primera vez desde 1976 la Unión Soviética a través de su agencia noticiosa criticaba abiertamente a la Junta militar argentina.

Sin embargo, como un signo de la agudización de las contradicciones internas en la sociedad argentina, en el propio régimen dictatorial y en la posición internacional del país, el 2 de abril de 1982, pocos días después que manifestaciones de protesta obrera y popular antidictatorial habían sido reprimidas en los alrededores de la Plaza de Mayo, se producía la recuperación por las FFAA argentinas de las Islas Malvinas (capturadas por los ingleses en 1833, en un acto de piratería típico de la época, y que constituyen desde entonces un enclave colonial británico en territorio nacional). Este hecho y la posterior declaración de guerra británica con el envío de una flota al Atlántico Sur, cambió todo el escenario político interno e internacional, colocando en primer plano la especificidad del “conflicto Norte-Sur” en las relaciones internacionales y la política exterior argentina.

Muchos aspectos del desencadenamiento de estos hechos permanecen aún oscuros en la historiografía. Sin duda la nueva cúpula dictatorial buscó ganar consenso popular para el régimen y para su propia hegemonía dentro de él apelando a una causa de reivindicación nacional frente al imperialismo británico cara a las mayorías populares. Pero con ser éste un determinante de peso, sobre todo para comprender el proceso político interno durante el conflicto, no agota la explicación de su génesis ni mucho menos la del desarrollo de la guerra. Tampoco, como en el caso del conflicto del Beagle, la explicación puede detenerse en la ideología del “nacionalismo territorial” presente en las doctrinas militares, más aún teniendo en cuenta las diversas e incluso antagónicas

hipótesis de conflicto, blancos, alineamientos y disposiciones de fuerzas que implicaban por un lado la recuperación de las Malvinas y por el otro la disputa con Chile por el Canal de Beagle. Parece probable que la corriente que dirigía la dictadura e impulsó la recuperación de las islas, intentó la iniciativa “para detener la crisis en la que el país se hallaba sumido, resolver las contradicciones que surgía de su posición internacional y amalgamar los consejos cruzados de Washington y Moscú”, confiando en un conflicto corto que obtuviera la mediación y hasta el aval de los EE UU y/o el respaldo soviético, obligando a Londres a una salida negociada y reposicionando al Estado argentino en la disputada y estratégica área del Atlántico Sur.³⁷ Lo cierto es que más allá de estos determinantes iniciales, y de los errores de percepción de la corriente militar que impulsó la recuperación – sobre todo respecto de la posición del Estado norteamericano con relación a Gran Bretaña y en particular el cambio que implicaba la política de la administración Reagan con relación al conjunto del sistema internacional y la respuesta soviética frente a ese cambio –, el envío de la flota inglesa al Atlántico Sur y el desencadenamiento de una guerra entre una gran potencia y un país dependiente y periférico tensó al rojo vivo la contradicción Norte-Sur inherente al sistema internacional.

Por una parte, más allá de las intenciones de la búsqueda de consenso por parte de la dictadura, la respuesta popular frente a la recuperación de las islas para la soberanía argentina y, más aún, frente a la agresión inglesa, implicó una intensa conmoción en la opinión pública local. La emergencia de profundos sentimientos de reivindicación de los intereses nacionales, contradictorios en su esencia con la naturaleza del régimen dictatorial, desbordó los torpes intentos de manipulación de la dictadura y generó, a partir de las iniciativas de solidaridad popular hacia los soldados y tropas que marchaban al combate, una activación

³⁷ Rapoport, M., *La posición internacional de la Argentina y las relaciones argentino soviéticas*, op. cit., p. 185. Ver también Rapoport, M., *La guerra de las Malvinas y la política exterior argentina: la visión de los protagonistas*. In: *El laberinto argentino*, op. cit., cap. V.; Büsser, Carlos, *Malvinas, la guerra inconclusa*, Buenos Aires, 1987; Costa Méndez, N. Testimonios sobre la Guerra de Malvinas, *Revista Militar* n° 742, Buenos Aires, enero-marzo de 1998.

generalizada de las actividades sociales, gremiales y políticas. Amplísimos sectores populares ocuparon calles, plazas y espacios públicos y conquistaron en los hechos libertades que a su vez configuraron un nuevo escenario político interno que condicionaría los siguientes pasos del régimen dictatorial y que éste luego de la derrota ya no podría retrotraer al punto de partida.

Por otra parte, el desarrollo del conflicto bélico generó una profunda crisis en el seno del gobierno de las FFAA. En primer lugar la guerra, lejos de atenuar, agudizó las pugnas entre las diversas corrientes militares y civiles por la hegemonía dentro del régimen. Así, importantes jerarquías militares y del *establishment* de las clases dirigentes actuaron durante el conflicto apostando al desgaste de la cúpula que lideraba la acción bélica y preparándose para un recambio interno. En segundo lugar se abrió una profunda crisis político-ideológica en las filas militares. Las FFAA argentinas, entrenadas y preparadas desde siempre para la represión interna o con relación a hipótesis de conflicto con países limítrofes, en la primera guerra en que estuvieron involucradas durante el siglo XX debían enfrentarse con una de las principales potencias de Occidente. En las filas de los que buscaron llevar adelante el esfuerzo bélico, quienes confiaban en el apoyo o la mediación norteamericana, vieron jugarse todo el respaldo de Washington a favor de su aliado inglés que contó también con el respaldo de las otras potencias de la Comunidad Europea, con la solitaria excepción de España. También la confianza en el apoyo soviético frente a Inglaterra, sobre la base de las estrechas relaciones consolidadas bajo la dictadura, se vio decepcionada: la URSS, pese al apoyo verbal, no vetó en la ONU la resolución condenatoria de la ocupación argentina de las islas e incluso suspendió sus compras de granos durante el transcurso del conflicto, preparándose para operar en las relaciones bilaterales a posteriori del mismo y de un nuevo recambio en la cúpula dictatorial. Por el contrario, eran los países latinoamericanos – de Brasil y Perú a Cuba – así como el amplio campo de naciones del Tercer Mundo articulados en el Movimiento de los No Alineados, quienes resultaban respaldando la posición argentina y desde donde emergieron las manifestaciones más amplias de solidaridad popular. Estas

contradicciones generarían luego de la derrota profundas fisuras en las filas militares, “verticales” y “horizontales”, que debilitaron la cohesión de ese pilar del aparato estatal y, entrelazadas con el proceso político bajo el régimen constitucional, emergerían con la heterogénea corriente nacionalista “carapintada”, en las sucesivas crisis militares hasta los inicios de la década del 1990.

Esta profunda crisis en las fuerzas armadas se conjugó con la absoluta incapacidad del Estado dictatorial para llevar adelante con eficacia el esfuerzo bélico. Entre posturas “triumfalistas” difundidas a través de los medios de difusión y actividades derrotistas de otras corrientes militares y civiles que apostaban a un recambio en la cúpula dictatorial, la Junta Militar no tomó ninguna medida que apuntara a crear mejores condiciones para el aislamiento y desgaste de la posición inglesa (sanciones económicas, etc.). En última instancia, a medida que se desarrollaba el conflicto se volvía más aguda la contradicción entre el régimen dictatorial y la política interna y exterior que el enfrentamiento con Gran Bretaña imponía, lo que condicionó fuertemente la derrota y rendición argentina en junio de 1982.

Esta condujo a la caída de Galtieri y al nuevo turno dictatorial del Gral. Bignone, con el que la corriente videlista recapturó la conducción del régimen. Sobre la base de un proceso de repudio popular incontenible del poder dictatorial, éste prepara una salida electoral negociada con los principales partidos opositores, el peronismo y el radicalismo, que se concretó más de un año después, en diciembre de 1983. Por un lado, el retorno al régimen constitucional fue impuesto por la crisis de la dictadura y el ascenso del movimiento antidictatorial que estuvo en el trasfondo de todos aquellos sucesos. Por el otro, la salida electoral presidida por la propia dictadura militar y negociada con la oposición civil, mantuvo intacto el aparato estatal en manos de un poder económico sumamente concentrado en un puñado de grandes corporaciones intermediarias de capitales extranjeros y terratenientes, un poder emergente de la desindustrialización, el empequeñecimiento del mercado interno y la profundización de la dependencia. Este poder económico y el aparato estatal moldeado a su servicio constituyeron,

junto a la pesada deuda externa y la impunidad para los represores y beneficiarios de la dictadura, la herencia y el condicionamiento que ésta legó a la Argentina de las dos últimas décadas del siglo XX.

VII. GLOBALIZACIÓN, POLÍTICAS EXTERIORES Y DEMOCRACIA: DE LA CRISIS ECONÓMICA A LA CRISIS POLÍTICA

Las hondas transformaciones operadas por la última dictadura militar y profundizadas durante los años '90 en la estructura económica y social y del poder en la Argentina, con el reforzamiento sin precedentes de su inserción dependiente y periférica en el mercado mundial y el sistema internacional, han determinado la evolución del régimen constitucional, del sistema político y de la política exterior hasta la profunda crisis económica, social y política actual.

Estas transformaciones se reflejaron en las corrientes dominantes del pensamiento económico y en materia de política exterior que, a partir de la retirada de la dictadura, proyectaron su visión sobre las causas del autoritarismo militar, la inestabilidad institucional y la ruina del país. Reflejando el balance de la guerra de Malvinas desde la perspectiva de las potencias centrales, el historiador conservador inglés Paul Johnson afirmaría posteriormente, en los '90, que era la victoria inglesa la que había ayudado a los argentinos a obtener un sistema democrático. Reduciendo el contenido de la guerra al carácter de los regímenes políticos de los contendientes, escamoteaba así la incidencia esencial de los intereses transnacionales y de la operatoria de las grandes potencias en los golpes de Estado, en particular el de 1976 y en el sustento al proyecto político económico de la dictadura militar, opacaba el papel de la oposición popular antidictatorial en la crisis y retirada de la misma e identificaba al régimen dictatorial argentino con el nacionalismo y la defensa de la soberanía argentina sobre las Malvinas. Por otra parte Johnson ubicaba en aquella guerra el origen de un periplo que había culminado con la Guerra del Golfo y el "nuevo orden mundial". "... Creo que tuvo efectos positivos sobre los EEUU, porque le permitió superar los complejos de Vietnam, Watergate y las derrotas ante la URSS en África. Malvinas fue parte de algo que se hizo en

Granada, Panamá, y en el ataque a Libia. Eso permitió que se llegase al Golfo como se llegó. Y eso comenzó en las Falkland”.³⁸ Se legitimaba así, tras la oposición entre dictadura y democracia, la ofensiva de los países centrales que generaría la nueva relación de fuerzas con relación a los países periféricos característica de los años 1990.

Las producciones intelectuales locales, inspiradas en esas perspectivas sobre la base del pensamiento neoliberal que comenzaba a abrirse paso en los años '80, generaron una interpretación de las causas del autoritarismo militar y la crisis y “declinación” económica argentina. Éstas serían el resultado de un presunto “aislacionismo” argentino, cuando no de un “desafío nacionalista”.³⁹ Se soslayaba así el hecho de que las tendencias predominantes en la inserción internacional de la Argentina que se pretendían explicar con esos presupuestos devenían no de un presunto aislamiento de la economía y el Estado argentino, sino por el contrario de su estrecha y peculiar imbricación, de carácter dependiente, con las tendencias en pugna entre las grandes potencias en el escenario internacional. Tales interpretaciones resultaban además de una concepción que adjudicaba la génesis y desarrollo de la “declinación” argentina a la industrialización mercado internista cimentada desde la posguerra, contrastándola con la Argentina “abierta” de principios de siglo, la del modelo agroexportador y la “conexión especial” con una gran potencia. Esta concepción, compatible con las perspectivas e intereses promovidos por los “estudios internacionales” de origen anglosajón, había sido por otra parte una matriz del pensamiento conservador liberal argentino desde siempre y comenzaba a adquirir predominio en círculos del *establishment* económico, político y académico de nuestro país en la década del 1980. Más allá de su escasa científicidad desde el punto de vista historiográfico, su revitalización emergía en realidad de la legitimación del propio proceso de desindustrialización impuesto a partir de 1976 y estaría en la base

³⁸ Johnson, P. *Historia de la guerra de Malvinas*, Buenos Aires, 1992, p. 10.

³⁹ Ya hemos señalado en qué medida esta interpretación está presente en la literatura estadounidense para explicar de modo abstracto toda expresión de conflicto o distancia de la Argentina respecto de la política exterior norteamericana.

de las formulaciones históricas justificatorias del “realismo periférico” que acompañó la nueva política exterior de los años '90.⁴⁰

Así, desde 1983, la consolidación del régimen constitucional argentino y el logro de una “democracia estable”, se fue asociando a la búsqueda de una reinserción económica y diplomática de la Argentina en el sistema internacional que dejara atrás definitivamente las políticas mercado internistas y nacionalistas, “tercermundistas”, políticas cuyas bases internas de sustentación, económicas, sociales y políticas, se habían por otra parte debilitado agudamente merced al proceso dictatorial. Un nuevo “consenso” en la visión de los sectores dirigentes, consenso que no anulaba su heterogeneidad, emergencia de las nuevas relaciones de fuerza internas e internacionales. Por un tiempo, bajo la presidencia de Alfonsín, la diplomacia argentina esgrime precisamente el objetivo de consolidación del régimen democrático argentino como elemento fundante y legitimador de una política económica y exterior que, en busca de afrontar la crisis, prolonga tendencias presentes en los sectores dirigentes locales desde la década anterior.

En política económica, mediada por el sinuoso recorrido surcado por la crisis y recesión y los sucesivos planes de ajuste, se esboza la afirmación de una estrategia exportadora, en principio basada en potenciar las exportaciones agropecuarias y más tarde con base en la alianza del Estado con los grupos económicos dominantes, en función

⁴⁰ Fue significativa en ese sentido la producción intelectual de Carlos Escudé, desde la aparición de su libro *Gran Bretaña, EE UU y la declinación argentina, 1942-1949*, Buenos Aires, 1983 y en otras obras suyas, así como las tesis económicas planteadas en el libro de Carlos Díaz Alejandro, *Ensayo sobre la historia económica argentina*, Buenos Aires, 1975. Tesis sobre las que se fue abriendo paso una interpretación “revisionista” de crítica a la política exterior argentina, aunque en verdad representaba un retorno a la visión liberal, “tradicional” y “fundadora” de la misma con el modelo agroexportador y el régimen oligárquico de principios del siglo XX. Con el libro *Gran Bretaña, EE UU y las clases dirigentes argentinas (1940-1945)*, Buenos Aires, 1981, M. Rapoport proponía una interpretación distinta de la de Escudé sobre la evolución de las relaciones internacionales argentinas, lo que generó una polémica, que se publicó en la revista *Desarrollo Económico*, n° 92, enero-marzo 1984. Ver para las confrontaciones en el campo intelectual en materia de relaciones internacionales y de política exterior presentes desde mediados de la década del 1980 y durante los años 1990 en América Latina y en la Argentina, Cervo, Amado L., “Sob o signo neoliberal: as relações internacionais da América Latina”, *Revista Brasileira de Política Internacional*, año 43, n° 2, Brasília, 2000.

de encarar el manejo de la deuda externa y garantizar financiación internacional.

En política exterior, todavía en los marcos de la bipolaridad mundial, la búsqueda de apoyos al nuevo régimen democrático entre los gobiernos europeos, particularmente los de orientación social democrática, y la profundización de las relaciones argentino-soviéticas en los planos económico y diplomático opera, junto a la política latinoamericana del gobierno constitucional, como pivot para procurar de lo que se catalogó como “una relación madura” con los EE UU, cuya administración aparece favoreciendo el retorno de los países del hemisferio a sistemas democráticos de gobierno. Esta estrategia “heterodoxa” (en términos de una línea ya tradicional en las clases dirigentes argentinas), que al principio se manifiesta en intentos de una negociación ‘política’ de la deuda externa con la banca occidental, particularmente estadounidense, pronto manifiesta sus propios límites: El apoyo de las potencias europeas al gobierno argentino no fue óbice para sus presiones por un tratamiento del endeudamiento externo a través de las negociaciones con los organismos financieros internacionales; las relaciones con la Unión Soviética estuvieron fuertemente condicionadas desde 1986 por el derrumbe de las compras de ese origen – que serían reemplazadas por las brasileñas, con la génesis y el desarrollo de la integración regional en el Mercosur –, en el contexto de la crisis rusa, y la nueva política de “distensión” con los EEUU inaugurada por Gorbachov limitó el alcance de aquella estrategia diplomática inicial. Todos estos factores condujeron al gobierno de Alfonsín a formulaciones más “ortodoxas” en su política económica internacional en el contexto de una crisis imparable, escenario de una aguda disputa entre las distintas fracciones en el seno del poder económico y las clases dominantes argentinas que culminó en la hiperinflación de 1989.

Una iniciativa diplomática de aquel gobierno estaría destinada a perdurar inaugurando una nueva y relevante dimensión en la inserción internacional y en la política exterior argentina. Prolongando una tendencia al acercamiento bilateral iniciado ya bajo las dos dictaduras militares en 1979 con los acuerdos sobre la cuenca del Plata, la entrevista

Alfonsín-Sarney de 1985 y el Acta de integración regional entre Argentina y Brasil dieron los primeros pasos en la génesis del Mercosur. La iniciativa, como hemos señalado ya, permitiría una reorientación muy significativa de las exportaciones argentinas, generando un mercado de reemplazo frente a la drástica reducción de las compras soviéticas, y potenció geométricamente y en muy pocos años el comercio intrarregional. Dirigidos a generar condiciones para paliar la recesión económica de la región, los pasos hacia la integración regional se vieron facilitados por los cambios en el escenario internacional, con la crisis rusa, la distensión entre las dos superpotencias y la nueva política de Washington frente a la retirada de las dictaduras militares y los procesos de democratización en el área. Si en un principio pudo concebirse – sobre todo desde el Brasil –, según patrones dearrollistas, como un instrumento para potenciar una política de sustitución de importaciones en escala ampliada, especialización sectorial y apertura limitada, la búsqueda de complementación sectorial, en las que se afirmó el interés de grupos oligopólicos argentinos e inversiones transnacionales, sobre todo europeas, se combinaría pronto con las políticas de apertura generalizada a las inversiones extranjeras y al mercado mundial que caracterizaría las concepciones del gobierno de Menem en la década de 1990.

Este proceso económico y político interno de fines de los años ‘80 fue el prólogo de los grandes cambios en la política económica y exterior de la Argentina operados posteriormente, cambios catalizados por la drástica reconfiguración del escenario internacional que implicó el fin de la bipolaridad entre las dos superpotencias, desde la caída del muro de Berlín hasta el derrumbe de la Unión Soviética en 1991, en lo que se anunció como el “Nuevo Orden Mundial”.

En 1989 con la asunción del justicialista Carlos Menem como presidente, en el contexto de la crisis hiperinflacionaria, y a contracorriente de sus promesas electorales y de los postulados tradicionales del peronismo (industrialistas y mercado internistas, redistribucionistas y afines a la búsqueda de autonomía en la política exterior) se inaugura la aplicación plena de las políticas neoliberales con la reforma del Estado, las privatizaciones de los servicios públicos

y empresas estatales y la desregulación de la economía, en función de promover la atracción de capitales extranjeros como eje fundamental de la política económica. La aplicación del modelo neoliberal que culminó en el plan de convertibilidad de 1991 implicó, en un proceso, un cambio cualitativo, un verdadero punto de inflexión en la política exterior argentina, con la adopción de las políticas de “alineamiento automático” con los EEUU conocidas como de “relaciones carnales” (según la ilustrativa “boutade” del canciller Di Tella) sustentadas en los postulados del “realismo periférico”, con las conocidas implicancias interamericanas e internacionales que ha tenido. Esta nueva política exterior tuvo determinantes internacionales e internos. Se afianzó desde fines de 1990 con el envío de naves argentinas a la Guerra del Golfo, en ruptura con las tradiciones neutralistas y de defensa del principio de no intervención, con la visita del presidente Bush en diciembre de 1990 y con las negociaciones sobre la deuda externa con Washington a través de la aplicación del plan Brady que acompañó la efectivización del Plan de convertibilidad en 1991.

En este proceso tuvo una incidencia decisiva la crisis rusa que desembocó en el abortado golpe de 1991, y luego, el fin de la forma estatal y la desintegración de la Unión Soviética, con la conversión de Rusia en una potencia de segundo orden en el marco de la CEI. Este proceso y el fin de la bipolaridad implicaron la culminación de un proceso de reunificación del mercado mundial, rasgo fundamental de la “globalización” que enmarcó una nueva oleada de exportación de capitales y un salto en la internacionalización de la economía mundial y, también, una nueva relación de fuerzas internacionales. Así los EE UU, única superpotencia remanente, buscaron capitalizar su supremacía financiera y estratégico-militar para afirmar su hegemonía y la unipolaridad en el escenario internacional, en contradicción con el afianzamiento de la multipolaridad que lo caracterizaba en el plano económico, con la existencia de varios centros y potencias secundarias.

A la vez, el alineamiento con Washington del gobierno de Menem se compadecía con la relevancia adquirida por los acreedores externos, en particular la banca norteamericana, y el rol del endeudamiento externo en el funcionamiento de la economía argentina

y en los mecanismos de acumulación de importantes núcleos del poder económico local.

Así la nueva política exterior argentina reflejó, como corolario de agudísimas disputas en el seno de los sectores dirigentes de 1989 a 1991, un cambio y recomposición de la hegemonía en las clases dominantes y el poder económico local, en el que se articulaban los socios de la banca acreedora, los sectores terratenientes agroexportadores y grandes grupos oligopólicos intermediarios de capitales extranjeros. De conjunto, surgió un nuevo “consenso”, que se expresó en el plano parlamentario y político con el apoyo de las diversas corrientes peronistas y del radicalismo a la nueva política económica e incluyó también los acuerdos para la reforma constitucional de 1994 que permitió la reelección de Menem. Las reformas neoliberales, sobre la base de ese consenso, produjeron una concentración y extranjerización económica de cuyos beneficios participaron un pequeño núcleo de oligopolios y sectores empresarios locales.

Simultáneamente, el alineamiento con Washington reflejaba el nuevo predominio adquirido por los grupos de interés asociados a los EEUU en el seno del bloque de poder así reconfigurado, predominio que no anulaba otras asociaciones internacionales como las que se reflejaron en la mayoritaria participación europea junto con grupos locales en la privatización de las empresas públicas.

A la vez, fue la propia adopción de la nueva política exterior de “alineamiento automático” con Washington por parte del gobierno de Menem la que se convirtió en un importante determinante político y estratégico para la afirmación de la nueva hegemonía estadounidense en el espectro de relaciones internacionales y en el bloque dominante en la economía y la sociedad argentina.

Es conocido que la política exterior del menemismo se basó en las concepciones abiertamente dependentistas del “realismo periférico” basadas en: a) el supuesto neoliberal de que la conexión estrecha con la potencia hegemónica es la condición para garantizar el desarrollo económico y la democracia en el país periférico; b) pese a su “realismo” (en realidad “pragmatismo”) se afirma en un horizonte de ideas que presupone que con la globalización se erosionan y pierden entidad los

espacios económicos y políticos nacionales así como las contradicciones y asimetrías internacionales; c) propone una lógica de maximización de los beneficios presuntamente resultantes de la conexión con la potencia hegemónica, sobre la base de reducir los costos del no alineamiento y la distancia en el terreno diplomático, costos que devendrían de la presunta irrelevancia económica y estratégica de la Argentina para la potencia hegemónica.

Hemos discutido en otros textos las falacias teóricas e históricas presentes en esta concepción (incluyendo la de la presunta irrelevancia estratégica de la Argentina para los EEUU). Lo cierto es que, mientras la Argentina se convertía en el “mejor alumno” de los organismos financieros internacionales y era presentado en los círculos del capital financiero internacional y en los medios de los países desarrollados como el modelo de “país emergente” inserto en la “globalización”, la política exterior de alineamiento con Washington, una conducta de “espejo” con respecto a los Estados Unidos sin precedentes en la historia del país, implicaba en realidad, como hemos señalado también, un retorno: la reedición, con un nuevo actor, de la “conexión especial” con Gran Bretaña que caracterizó a la Argentina “abierta” y el régimen oligárquico de principios de siglo y el de los años ’30, (conexión especial que tampoco entonces anulaba la heterogeneidad de relaciones de distintos sectores de las clases dominantes con diversas grandes potencias).⁴¹

La política exterior menemista respecto de EE UU interactuó con su política económica internacional, particularmente en la relación con los organismos financieros internacionales en los que Washington tiene un peso decisivo, para garantizar la afluencia de capitales al país, que fue la condición de la convertibilidad sustentada crecientemente en un proceso de hiperendeudamiento público. Pero también la nueva política exterior implicó la afirmación de importantes vínculos políticos y militares que dotaron a las relaciones bilaterales de importantes componentes estratégicos: el desmantelamiento del misil Cóndor II y

⁴¹ Ver Rapoport, M., La Argentina y Estados Unidos: Un balance descarnado. In: *Tiempos de crisis, vientos de cambio*, op. cit., p. 211-214; y Rapoport, M., *Historia económica política y social de la Argentina*, op. cit., p. 950-958.

los proyectos de industria aeroespacial y de la defensa nacional; la ratificación del Tratado de Tlatelolco y de No Proliferación Nuclear, la reorientación de los votos argentinos en la ONU en línea con el Departamento de Estado y la participación en las Fuerzas de Paz; el retiro de la Argentina del Movimiento de No Alineados; la renuncia a la confrontación en defensa de los intereses nacionales con relación a las Islas Malvinas y la política de aproximación y concesiones a Gran Bretaña, bajo la fórmula del “paraguas” respecto de la discusión sobre la soberanía, reconociendo incluso a los kelpers como parte del conflicto y abdicando así de postulados jurídicos favorables a la Argentina en esa materia, de larga data y que habían obtenido reconocimiento internacional; los votos contra Cuba en la Comisión de Derechos Humanos de la ONU rompiendo con las posiciones argentinas anteriores al respecto; la firma de múltiples tratados multilaterales que relativizaban el principio de no intervención y de autodeterminación; el anudamiento de múltiples pactos y convenios militares con ejercicios conjuntos y presencia de efectivos norteamericanos y servicios de inteligencia de ese origen en el territorio nacional, aún sin la aprobación parlamentaria que la constitución requiere, culminando en la segunda presidencia de Menem con la conversión de la Argentina en aliado “extra OTAN”, en función de la “lucha contra el terrorismo y el narcotráfico” según los lineamientos de la estrategia norteamericana.

Todos los hechos señalados, junto con los viajes de Menem a Washington (primer presidente peronista que visitaba los EEUU) y de diversos funcionarios norteamericanos, comenzando por los presidentes Bush y Clinton, a Buenos Aires y el protagonismo de los embajadores Todman, Cheek, y más tarde Welsh, en la vida política argentina, formaron parte y acompañaron una intensificación de los vínculos bilaterales, gubernamentales y no gubernamentales, que adquirieron “densidad” (en términos de algunos análisis de política exterior) y convirtieron al gobierno argentino durante un largo período en el vocero de las posiciones estadounidenses en América del Sur.⁴²

⁴² Ver Centro de Estudios en Relaciones Internacionales de Rosario, *La Política Exterior del Gobierno de Menem*, Rosario, 1994, y *La Política Exterior Argentina 1994-1997*, Rosario, 1998.

En realidad, sólo un aspecto realmente nuevo, aunque fuertemente condicionado por el conjunto de la política económica y exterior menemista, se potenció como una nueva dimensión en la inserción internacional del país. Esta fue la conformación del Mercosur, desde los acuerdos con Collor de Mello en 1990 a la firma del tratado de Asunción a principios de 1995 y se desarrolló como un elemento del relacionamiento del país que formó parte del nuevo consenso entre los sectores dirigentes, aunque interactuara a veces conflictivamente con otros aspectos de la política exterior y fuera concebido con propósitos y concepciones estratégicas diversas por las distintas fracciones del “establishment” argentino.

De los instrumentos inicialmente concebidos, se afirmó sobre todo la liberalización comercial, potenciando el comercio intrarregional y con América Latina, aunque los principales socios comerciales seguirían siendo los EEUU y la Unión Europea. Afirmándose en la concepción de “regionalismo abierto”, se potenció el rol de la integración regional como factor atractivo para la inversión transnacional, en las que jugaron un papel significativo firmas europeas. Las políticas neoliberales, con sus planes de estabilización hasta su final con las devaluaciones, el impacto de la crisis mundial y la ausencia de coordinación macroeconómica condicionaron la profundidad de la integración y la posibilidad de que incidiera en un mejor posicionamiento e inserción internacional de los países de la región.

La propia vulnerabilidad externa de las economías integrantes obstaculizó el avance del Mercosur, a lo que se sumaron divergencias comerciales y discrepancias en las que incidió la propia política exterior del gobierno de Menem y su alineamiento “automático” con los EEUU. Esto trababa la posibilidad de convergencias en función de una política exterior común del bloque regional y a su unidad para potenciar su autonomía. Reducido en lo esencial a una zona de libre comercio y sobre la base de estos condicionamientos políticos, el Mercosur podía verse reducido a un ámbito amplificador de pugnas transnacionales a través de las alianzas extrarregionales de los países miembros y erosionado frente a la política hemisférica de los Estados

Unidos y su iniciativa de la Asociación de Libre Comercio de América.⁴³

La política exterior menemista acompañó a las políticas neoliberales que produjeron los grandes cambios económicos de la década del '90, según el modelo de inserción internacional propugnado por el llamado Consenso de Washington: Esos cambios profundizaron los rasgos de atraso y dependencia que caracterizan a la estructura económica del país, reforzando tendencias fundamentales en la economía y la sociedad vigentes desde la implantación de la dictadura militar en 1976. Al tiempo que se acentuó notablemente la concentración productiva, comercial, financiera y de la propiedad de la tierra, desaparecieron ramas enteras de la producción nacional, muchas de ellas correspondientes a sectores de tecnología avanzada y decisivos de un potencial desarrollo independiente de la economía argentina. La apertura indiscriminada a la importación masiva condujo a la quiebra a numerosas empresas industriales pequeñas y medianas en ramas tradicionales como la metalúrgica y la textil. En el lapso de un quinquenio fue prácticamente liquidada el área estatal de la economía.

Las consecuencias sociales son profundas y graves. Desde la crisis provocada por el “Tequila” mejicano en 1995, se hizo visible el incremento de la desocupación que por entonces llegaba al 17% de la población económicamente activa (y alcanzaría pronto más del 20%) y a partir de allí se fue agravando al compás de la crisis económica mundial y nacional. La llamada Reforma del Estado expulsó a decenas de miles de empleados al tiempo que las políticas de restricción presupuestarias profundizaron la precariedad de la salud y la educación pública. En el plano laboral, las políticas conducentes en forma explícita

⁴³ Ver sobre el Mercosur y la política económica y exterior argentina, Ferrer, A., Los dos modelos de Mercosur. Integración sostenible o consenso de Washington, *Revista de la Universidad de Buenos Aires*, n° 6, noviembre de 1997; Bernal-Meza, Raúl, Las actuales percepciones argentinas sobre la Política Exterior del Brasil y de sus relaciones con los Estados Unidos. In: *Ciclos en la historia, la economía y la sociedad*, n° 18, Buenos Aires, 2° semestre de 1999; Rapoport, M. y colab., *Historia económica*, op. cit., cap. IX; Vitelli, G., Las rupturas de la convertibilidad y del Plan Real: la reiteración de una misma historia. In: *Ciclos en la historia, la economía y la sociedad*, n° 23, Buenos Aires, 1^{er} semestre de 2002.

a eliminar, flexibilizar y hacer retroceder sustancialmente la legislación protectora del trabajo, producto de más de un siglo de luchas obreras, conjugadas con la fuerte presión que sobre el mercado laboral ejerce la enorme reserva de desocupados y con la anuencia de las direcciones de los grandes sindicatos de la industria respecto de las políticas implementadas, han dado paso a una inédita reducción del “costo laboral” argentino, con una intensificación sin precedentes de la explotación de los trabajadores. La pobreza e indigencia, el hambre, la desnutrición infantil y otros males consiguientes alcanzan niveles inéditos para la Argentina.

Se agravó de modo notable la penetración del capital extranjero, con la presencia directa de consorcios transnacionales y su monopolización de casi todas las palancas decisivas de la economía argentina en desmedro de la independencia económica del país y de su soberanía política. Consorcios de diversos orígenes, particularmente europeos y norteamericanos, directamente o en asociación con intermediarios locales, han sido los principales beneficiarios de las privatizaciones de las empresas estatales de transporte aéreo y ferroviario, telecomunicaciones, correos, servicios de electricidad, gas, aguas corrientes, etc., incluyendo la mayor empresa de la Argentina, Yacimientos Petrolíferos Fiscales, hoy en manos de la española Repsol. En la mayoría de los casos las concesiones se llevaron a cabo bajo condiciones de privilegio – monopolio de mercado, subsidios estatales, precios y plazos de pagos y contratos, exenciones impositivas –. Pese a las privatizaciones y a las reducciones acordadas por el Plan Brady, la deuda externa pública se incrementó en forma exponencial al compás del sostenimiento de la convertibilidad y la extracción de ganancias de la Argentina alimentada por el endeudamiento, hasta estallar en la crisis de 2001 que culminó con el fin del régimen de convertibilidad y la devaluación. Durante los años '90 y hasta la actualidad, los gobiernos han subordinado casi sin mediaciones sus políticas a las recomendaciones y exigencias del Fondo Monetario Internacional, el Banco Mundial, y otras instituciones financieras bajo el control de las grandes potencias.

El efecto de este proceso ha sido una agudización de las deformaciones estructurales de la economía argentina. En los primeros

años el crecimiento del producto bruto tuvo como contrapartida una ingente destrucción de fuerzas productivas, la asfixia de economías regionales y transformaciones profundamente regresivas en el tejido social. Con el estallido de la crisis económica, potenciada por la crisis mundial que ha impactado de lleno, particularmente desde 1998, sobre una estructura económica más vulnerable y dependiente que nunca, se abrió paso una prolongada recesión que está en la base de la crisis social y política argentina, la más profunda de la historia nacional.

A su vez, la concentración económica ha conllevado una paralela concentración del poder político que – pese a la vigencia de las instituciones formales de la democracia – se fue manifestando por un lado en la enajenación de esas instituciones respecto de la capacidad de decisión y participación de vastísimos sectores de la población y por el otro en los crecientes fenómenos de corrupción económica y política que han moldeado el aparato estatal y el funcionamiento global de la economía.

En los primeros años de la década del 1990, el “modelo neoliberal” y sus consecuencias pudieron imponerse apoyándose en el temor de grandes mayoría populares al retorno de la hiperinflación y a una inestabilidad institucional que abriera las puertas a nuevos golpes de estado, y en el contexto de la gigantesca oleada ideológica internacional, que a escala nacional se apoyaba en el nuevo “consenso” entre los sectores dirigentes, que presentaba ese “modelo” económico y de inserción en la “globalización” y el “nuevo orden mundial”, así como al pensamiento que lo legitimaba, como el único posible. Sin embargo, y a partir de fines de 1993, con el estallido de una rebelión popular en la ciudad de Santiago del Estero, emergió un gran descontento social que, en un proceso zigzagante y en espiral, mediado por la reelección de Menem en 1995, potenció el desarrollo de agudos conflictos sociales y amplios movimientos populares de protesta y oposición a las políticas vigentes.⁴⁴

⁴⁴ Ver Laufer, R. y Spiguel, C., Las puebladas argentinas a partir del Santiagueño de 1993. Tradición histórica y nuevas formas de lucha. In: López Maya, M. (comp.), *Lucha popular, democracia, neoliberalismo: protesta popular en América Latina en los años de ajuste*, CEAP y CENDES, Caracas: Universidad Central de Venezuela, 1999.

Se profundizó así la “crisis de credibilidad” de las autoridades y representantes electos. Sucede que el desarrollo de los movimientos sociales de oposición no se tradujo en cambios en el sistema político. Se fue revelando y ahondando una escisión profunda entre las necesidades, demandas y la actividad de los movimientos populares y la esfera electoral, parlamentaria y del sistema de partidos del régimen constitucional argentino instituido desde 1983.

Tal escisión remite a dos factores: Por un lado la subordinación absoluta de las instituciones republicanas respecto de un poder económico y político extremadamente concentrado que impone márgenes programáticos y mecanismos de acción política cada vez más contradictorios con las demandas populares. Sobre el trasfondo socioeconómico arriba descripto se produce una fractura entre representante y representado. Pero no se trata sólo de la impotencia de las instituciones y funcionarios electos frente al poder económico y político real, que determina que las decisiones se toman entre bastidores en otras áreas del aparato estatal (Ministerio de Economía y Banco Central, el aparato judicial) en acuerdos con diversos intereses del “establishment” e incluso embajadas extranjeras. También implica la cooptación manifiesta de corrientes políticas y representantes electivos, desde las propias candidaturas y campañas electorales hasta la gestión legislativa y de gobierno, fenómeno al que es funcional la descomunal corrupción de los funcionarios.⁴⁵

Así, el resultado fue que el modelo económico y de inserción internacional, en los marcos del “consenso” antes señalado en el seno de los sectores dirigentes, fue defendido a rajatabla por los gobiernos y no fue cuestionado en sus fundamentos por la Alianza radical y del centro izquierdista Frepaso en su oposición al menemismo, (prometiendo enfrentar la corrupción y procurar mayor equidad social, pero también conservar los “logros” del modelo) ni por la oposición

⁴⁵ Los individuos sólo son ciudadanos una vez cada cuatro, cinco o seis años, pero no tienen ningún control sobre sus representantes políticos, que están sujetos, sin embargo, a los intereses dominantes, internos y externos, a quienes rinden cuentas y con quienes cogobiernan. La corrupción se ha transformado así en un rasgo estructural. Rapoport, M., *La tensa alquimia entre capitalismo y democracia*. In: *Tiempos de crisis*, op. cit., p. 265-266.

de las corrientes peronistas no menemistas al gobierno aliancista de De la Rúa. Tales fenómenos determinaron la contradicción cada vez más aguda entre demandas sociales y régimen político y conformaron el terreno para la creciente desconfianza en los mecanismos electorales y en las instituciones representativas para satisfacerlas. Ello se reflejó, sobre todo luego de la reelección de Menem en 1995, en los crecientes niveles de abstencionismo electoral, anulación del voto y el voto en blanco, niveles que llegaron a un pico de más del 50% del padrón en las elecciones de octubre de 2001, tiñendo el escenario político de los sucesos de diciembre.

Desde fines de 1999, ya en plena crisis mundial y nacional, el gobierno de la Alianza, pese a expresar a otras fracciones de los sectores dirigentes y pivotear sobre otros vínculos internacionales, continuó con la misma política económica, subordinándola a la conservación de la convertibilidad y a las negociaciones con el FMI y la banca acreedora, en el marco de la manifestación de la crisis norteamericana desde fines de 2000 y de las nuevas políticas “duras” de la administración republicana. En consecuencia se profundizó la crisis económica, se potenció y generalizó la crisis y la protesta social, entrelazándose con la crisis política abierta en la coalición gubernamental a partir de la renuncia del vicepresidente Chacho Alvarez.

Así, en el año 2001, pese a las sucesivas renegociaciones con los organismos financieros internacionales y la banca, a costa de nuevos saltos en el endeudamiento externo e interno del Estado, al hacerse evidente el naufragio del esquema de convertibilidad, la Argentina experimentó un masivo retiro de capitales del país, mientras el gobierno de De la Rúa y su nuevo ministro Cavallo (ex-ministro de Menem y factotum de la convertibilidad y del “modelo”) tomaban crecientes medidas antipopulares y de asfixia del mercado interno, con quitas salariales a estatales y jubilados, culminando en diciembre con la bancarización forzosa y el congelamiento de depósitos. Eclosionó el hambre generalizada y la indigencia. A lo largo del año y pese a intentos represivos del gobierno, las organizaciones y movimientos de desocupados (los llamados “piqueteros”) se constituyeron en centros convocantes y potenciaron un amplísimo movimiento de protesta,

que abarcó a obreros activos, trabajadores estatales y docentes, productores agropecuarios, comerciantes y pequeños industriales, etc.

En diciembre, las medidas del gobierno, en su defensa a ultranza del “modelo”, afectaron a más del 90% de la población. Al mismo tiempo las fisuras en el seno del bloque económico dominante se convirtieron en fractura abierta: un sector, en el que predominaban bancos extranjeros, empresas de servicios públicos e intereses financieros, exigía la represión de las protestas y la conservación a ultranza de la convertibilidad. El ex-presidente Menem pedía incluso desde hacía tiempo la dolarización (completa) de la economía. Otro sector de oligopolios, en lo esencial exportadores, con peso en la Unión Industrial, se orientaba a la devaluación, llamaba a un gobierno de “unidad nacional” y preparaba un recambio ordenado del gobierno, motorizado por corrientes del radicalismo y del peronismo no menemista con predominio en el Congreso.⁴⁶

En ese contexto, eclosionó la rebelión popular de diciembre. El 19 de ese mes el gobierno, sobre la base de saqueos a supermercados que habían empezado a producirse en diversos puntos del país y el conurbano bonaerense y montando un operativo mediático, represivo y de manipulación política dirigido a legitimar la represión, decretó el Estado de Sitio. El discurso presidencial por TV detonó, como un boomerang, una gigantesca manifestación popular en la Capital, con alta participación de asalariados y capas medias urbanas de histórica tradición democrática. Centenares de miles de personas, simultánea y espontáneamente, salieron a las calles haciendo sonar cacerolas y marcharon a la Plaza de Mayo, exigiendo la derogación de la medida y el fin del gobierno de De La Rúa y Cavallo. La respuesta represiva, que produjo a esa manifestación pacífica generalizó los enfrentamientos callejeros en el centro de la ciudad del día 20 y la protesta nacional, culminando con la renuncia del presidente.

Por primera vez en la historia argentina, un gobierno civil, electo constitucionalmente, era derribado no por un golpe de estado militar sino por la población en las calles, desbordando la represión y los planes

⁴⁶ Ver Bonasso, M., *El palacio y la calle*, Buenos Aires, 2002.

de recambio ordenado de un sector de la dirigencia, (que mantuvo la continuidad institucional a través de la Asamblea legislativa y culminó, tras agudas disputas y cuatro presidentes, en el nuevo gobierno provisorio en el contexto de una aguda “crisis de hegemonía”). Las elecciones democráticas de abril y mayo de 2003, con fuerte participación popular y que significaron un castigo a los propulsores menemistas y radicales del modelo “rentístico-financiero” neoliberal, vuelven a hacer renacer la esperanza de una salida de la crisis.

De todos modos, vivimos un “fin de régimen”: lo viejo, en descomposición, aún no muere; lo nuevo aún no logra imponerse. Frente al requerimiento social de cambios profundos, en la economía, la sociedad y en el poder, se cierne la losa de una deuda externa impagable y horizontes de extranjerización de tierras (previa privatización de la banca pública, depositaria de hipotecas por 24 millones de hectáreas), conjugados con planes represivos, en los que resuenan las recomendaciones para América del Sur de diversos “think tanks” imperiales, propuestas de gobiernos “offshore” con intervención de organismos financieros internacionales y resignación de la soberanía estatal, noticias propagadas en medios de difusión internacionales sobre una posible segregación territorial de la Patagonia, cesión de bases militares, etc.

Ante a esas sombrías perspectivas, la democratización de la sociedad y del poder se encuentra entrelazada a la necesidad de afirmar una política exterior independiente. A contracorriente de las recetas “globalizadoras” y la retórica que acompaña las aventuras imperiales del presente, toda la historia de la Argentina, y particularmente su historia reciente, revelan que la independencia y soberanía de las naciones periféricas, con base en su autonomía económica, es una condición fundamental para garantizar la democracia.

Todo ello requiere en la Argentina un nuevo Estado que haga posible el cumplimiento de esos objetivos en sus relaciones con todos los pueblos y naciones del mundo. Sin duda, aunque emerge en contradicción con los vientos de la guerra, la agresión imperial y las perspectivas catastróficas de un orden internacional injusto y despótico, el reclamo histórico que surgió de los movimientos sociales argentinos,

tiene su espejo, caja de resonancia y punto de apoyo en los refrescantes vientos de cambio en las sociedades de los países hermanos de América del Sur. Por eso requiere de la confluencia, la unidad y la integración, particularmente entre los países que hoy se encuentran articulados en el Mercosur, y en modo particular Brasil (con el cual debe cimentarse la alianza estratégica en el continente), en tanto enfrentan los mismo desafíos y obstáculos. También será a partir de afirmar esos cambios, ese reclamo de democracia y soberanía nacional, como se podrá afirmar esa unidad e integración regional en un espacio común, frente a la crisis económica mundial, las amenazas de la ofensiva mundial y hemisférica de los Estados Unidos y la agudizada rivalidad estratégica internacional que han condicionado el desarrollo del Mercosur.⁴⁷

VIII. ALGUNAS REFLEXIONES A MODO DE CONCLUSIÓN

El análisis histórico revela que la inserción internacional de la Argentina y las relaciones de sus clases dirigentes con diversos centros financieros y grandes potencias, pese al predominio en diversos períodos de la conexión con una potencia hegemónica, ha operado como un elemento determinante y permanente en las pugnas en el seno de las elites tradicionales y del poder económico local, en torno a las políticas económicas, a la orientación de la inserción internacional del país y al control del aparato estatal. Ha sido también un elemento determinante de las luchas en torno a la política exterior del país. Estas pugnas han contribuido, sobre todo en ciertas coyunturas, como las guerras, en que se agudiza la competencia y rivalidad estratégica internacional, al fraccionamiento de las clases dominantes y han debilitado su cohesión y la del aparato estatal frente al resto de la sociedad. Ello hizo posible a fuerzas sociales y corrientes políticas reformistas pugnar por acceder al gobierno y promover cambios políticos y económicos. También se manifiesta que ello fue posible sobre la base del apoyo y el protagonismo

⁴⁷ Un enfoque que coincide mayormente con el nuestro es el de Moniz Bandeira L. A. *Conflito e Integração na América do Sul. Brasil, Argentina e Estados Unidos. Da Tríplice Aliança ao Mercosul 1870-2003*, Rio de Janeiro, 2003.

popular y en el marco de objetivos propios, de mayor autonomía económica y política del país. Por el contrario, en la medida que el escenario político y social quedó determinado por esas pugnas entre distintas fracciones de las clases dirigentes como expresión de la “diversificación de la dependencia”, ello contribuyó a un ahondamiento de la misma, a la subordinación de la nación como objeto de la disputa por esferas de influencia y a la consolidación de regímenes autoritarios funcionales a la afirmación de una u otra hegemonía en el seno del Estado dependiente, en desmedro de la democracia y de los intereses populares.

La búsqueda de mayores grados de independencia económica y las políticas exteriores autonómicas ha remitido recíprocamente a la existencia de condiciones para el ejercicio real de la democracia y la expresión de la voluntad popular. Así, en la vida política argentina ambas problemáticas, la de la democracia y la de la independencia nacional, se han entrelazado y resultan en última instancia indisociables, aún cuando en ocasiones se expresaron en corrientes políticas e ideológicas que privilegiaban una u otra cuestión y pese a que frecuentemente las clases dirigentes y la operatoria de potencias e intereses extranjeros en el campo político y del pensamiento las hayan presentado y las sigan presentando incluso como contrapuestas.

A su vez, el caso paradigmático de la guerra de Malvinas demuestra que la defensa consecuente de los intereses nacionales y de la soberanía resulta imposible sin la efectivización de una democratización plena de la sociedad y del poder, en el sentido elemental de la participación de las mayorías populares en la toma de decisiones. También demuestra, con la génesis de los golpes de Estado o el periplo del régimen constitucional argentino desde 1983 hasta el presente, que no puede haber democracia profunda, real y asegurada sin la afirmación de la soberanía de la nación sobre sus recursos y decisiones.

POLÍTICA EXTERIOR DE ARGENTINA, CHILE Y BRASIL: PERSPECTIVA COMPARADA

Raúl Bernal-Meza

INTRODUCCIÓN

Los tres países aquí analizados, así como el conjunto de estados del sistema latinoamericano vivieron el período bajo el impacto de los profundos cambios ocurridos en la economía y la política mundiales, sintetizados en los procesos de globalización/mundialización¹ y el cambio de orden internacional: fin de la guerra fría y su sustitución por un orden unipolar de hegemonía.

Estos cambios introdujeron sustanciales modificaciones en las estrategias internas e internacionales sobre el desarrollo, preocupación que durante los años ochenta estuvo asociada a “nuevos temas”, como la *democratización*.

La recuperación de la democracia y los procesos de transición hacia este régimen político había sido, desde entonces, cuestión clave de un modelo de diplomacia: la concertación entre gobiernos para la búsqueda de soluciones pacíficas a los conflictos limítrofes y la

¹ Como otros autores, entre ellos Immanuel Wallerstein y Aldo Ferrer, consideramos la *globalización* como el proceso histórico de expansión capitalista, que se inicia entre fines del siglo XV y comienzos del XVI. Desde mi perspectiva, identificamos la “*mundialización*” como el eslabón más actual de la misma. Nuestra diferencia respecto de otros autores es que designamos el concepto de “mundialización” para identificar el proceso que da cuenta de las nuevas formas que ha asumido la acumulación capitalista en la fase contemporánea y comprendemos el concepto de “globalización” como aquel que incorpora tanto al proceso histórico completo (siglos XVI al XXI) como al complejo de ideas y la concepción del mundo que ahora acompañan su más reciente etapa; es decir, sus componentes tanto económicos (proceso histórico), como su ideología. Cfr. Raúl Bernal-Meza, *Sistema Mundial y Mercosur*; Buenos Aires, Universidad Nacional del Centro de la Provincia de Buenos Aires y Nuevohacer/Grupo Editor Latinoamericano, 2000; primera parte, caps. I y II.

formulación de nuevas estrategias de cooperación e integración. Con ello, la agenda latinoamericana se había transformado en un mix de temas políticos y económicos.

La “diplomacia presidencial” y la de “cumbres”, marcaron un hito en las formas de vinculación tradicional entre los países latinoamericanos. Así, a partir de mediados de los años ‘80s. la diplomacia presidencial – una práctica que en la política internacional se remonta al Congreso de Viena y que acercó a los mandatarios de América Latina al ejercicio político de los estadistas mundiales – se constituyó en un mecanismo clave para un permanente diálogo político entre gobiernos democráticos.

Se advertiría entonces un rasgo predominante en las políticas exteriores de la región, que se fue perfilando poco a poco hasta convertirse en una característica de la mayoría de las políticas exteriores: la derivación hacia el “bajo perfil” y el “pragmatismo” y la presencia cada vez más significativa de una agenda de baja política.

Como ocurrió con otros países de América Latina, la Argentina y Brasil abandonaron el paradigma de relaciones internacionales del Estado-desarrollista, adoptando el paradigma neoliberal, cuyas reformas implícitas fueron rápidas y radicales (Bernal-Meza, 2000; Cervo, 2000). El modelo de apertura había sido iniciado por Chile a mediados de los años setenta, bajo el régimen militar, y se constituiría en el paradigma de la nueva inserción internacional. Obviamente, el cambio de modelo implicaba una reformulación de las anteriores concepciones sobre la integración económica y, bajo el impulso del neoliberalismo, el *regionalismo abierto* se transformó en el marco teórico dominante de la apertura y de los nuevos acuerdos de complementación económica.

La apertura, la predominancia del pensamiento neoliberal en la política pública y el regionalismo abierto estaban en relación directa con el abandono de las concepciones keynesianas y neo-keynesianas del desarrollo económico y establecían nuevas formas de inserción externa.

El eje de la “nueva agenda” de la política exterior de los noventa lo constituyó la adopción integral de los “valores hegemónicos

universalmente aceptados”,² porque de ellos resultaba el prestigio, la credibilidad y la confiabilidad externas. Estos valores, impuestos por el orden imperial configurado por la post-guerra fría, significaban una confluencia de democracia (formal) y libre mercado, bajo una extraordinaria hegemonía ideológica del neoliberalismo, que se reflejaría en múltiples segmentos del sistema internacional. Así, el “Consenso de Washington” (1989), la “Iniciativa para las Américas” (1990) – de la que derivaría el proyecto Alca – y la constitución de la OMC, junto a las nuevas disciplinas, que establecieron las normativas a las cuales debían ajustarse las políticas públicas, incluyendo el comercio internacional y las regulaciones financieras, pasaron a constituir los marcos según los cuales los gobiernos que los hicieron suyos, reformularon sus orientaciones y praxis de política exterior.

1. POLÍTICA EXTERIOR ARGENTINA

Después de una política exterior signada por el aislamiento, la ruptura y las contradicciones, que caracterizó el período del gobierno militar (1976-1983), el siguiente gobierno, constitucional y democrático, presidido por Raúl Alfonsín, introdujo tres cambios importantes respecto de los criterios ordenadores de la política exterior del régimen militar: 1) el desplazamiento del modelo Este-Oeste y la resignificación de la “occidentalidad de Argentina” (diferenciar entre los intereses del bloque y los intereses de Argentina³); 2) reformulación de la participación en No Alineados, cuestión que se fundamentaba en

² Hemos definido éstos como aquellos que constituyen la esencia de la agenda post-guerra fría, bajo el orden imperial, que sustituyeron los temas relevantes de la agenda internacional de los años 70 y 80. Estos valores, que sustentan ahora la nueva configuración del sistema internacional, como el liberalismo económico, los derechos humanos, la protección ambiental, los derechos sociales, junto a los temas militar-estratégicos – bajo nuevas formas, vinculadas a los nuevos conceptos de la seguridad – excluyen el tema del “desarrollo”. Cfr. Raúl Bernal-Meza (2000:91-92). Asimismo, constituyen el fundamento de los instrumentos para mejorar – supuestamente – la inserción internacional de los países en desarrollo, bajo el nuevo orden político y económico de la globalización. Bernal-Meza, 2000:155. Algunos autores los han definido como “valores hegemónicos internacionalmente reconocidos”. Vigevani, et. al, 1999.

³ En forma llamativamente similar a la que se formuló en Brasil con el “pragmatismo ecuménico responsable”; cfr. Raúl Bernal-Meza, 2000.

la percepción del gobierno sobre la existencia de una confrontación de carácter “realista” entre dos grandes poderes y no de una “guerra santa”, en la cual se involucraba todo occidente, lo que daba espacio a la continuidad de la permanencia del país en dicho foro; 3) revalorización del eje Norte-Sur (Russell,1989), siendo este último segmento considerado el espacio natural y apropiado para la búsqueda de convergencias entre determinados intereses políticos y económicos del país y los de otras naciones del Tercer Mundo, aún cuando estas relaciones fueran pasadas por el tamiz de las “alianzas selectivas”.

El marco determinante de la política exterior y su relación con la política interna fue una concepción predominantemente “desarrollista”.⁴ Esta interpretación sería abandonada al comenzar los ‘90s., bajo la nueva visión del mundo que traía consigo la comunidad epistémica⁵ del menemismo (Bernal-Meza, 2000).

En este contexto, “el país (en realidad debería decir el gobierno) modifica su concepción del mundo, realiza un profundo viraje en su orientación internacional y define una nueva política exterior” (De la Balze;1997:107). Esto llevaba implícita una adhesión a la alianza occidental y sus principios de democracia y libre mercado y la búsqueda de una alianza estratégica y de largo plazo con la potencia hegemónica.

⁴ El sentido que damos aquí al desarrollismo deriva de las interpretaciones sobre el proceso de transformaciones del sistema mundial y de las políticas nacionales necesarias para enfrentar sus desafíos. Esta visión mantenía continuidades como el neo-keynesianismo, respecto del papel del Estado como conductor del desarrollo y actor esencial de la asignación de recursos y del realismo, en la percepción de las características de un sistema internacional dominado por los imperativos del poder.

⁵ Desarrollado por Peter Haas, bajo la denominación de “comunidades epistémicas”, cfr. P. Haas, “Introduction: epistemic Communities and International Policy Coordination”, International Organization, 46, winter 1992, el concepto ha sido tomado por Amado Luiz Cervo, para aplicarlo al conjunto de intelectuales, académicos y diplomáticos argentinos que con sus aportes ayudaron a formular la base de sustentación ideológica de la política exterior de Menem, que fuera implementada por lo cancilleres Cavallo y Di Tella, Bernal-Meza, 2000:353.

Todos ellos, según Cervo, tenían en común una visión revisionista de la historia argentina. Estaba integrada, entre otros, por Tulio Halperin Donghi, Carlos Escudé, Felipe de la Balze, Jorge Castro y Andrés Cisneros. Cfr. Amado Luiz Cervo, A política Exterior da Argentina 1945-2000, *Anuário de Política Internacional*, Brasília, IPRI, mimeo, 1999; también, Cervo, 2000.

En términos de seguridad, la adopción de los nuevos marcos de seguridad “cooperativa”, impulsada por los Estados Unidos, implicaba la renuncia a la construcción de misiles y, en general, al armamento químico, atómico y bacteriológico.

Pero estos cambios en la política exterior eran consecuencia de la adopción del nuevo modelo de Estado. Bajo la adscripción al neoliberalismo se reformularon las concepciones y las políticas gubernamentales dominantes en el pasado: 1) se abandonaron, definitivamente, las estrategias de sustitución de importaciones, que ya venían en crisis desde mediados de los setenta;⁶ 2) se reformuló el papel del Estado y de las relaciones económicas y comerciales internacionales del país; 3) se adoptó la interpretación según la cual los problemas argentinos eran de naturaleza puramente económica. Por lo tanto, en términos de la política interna, se supuso agotado el modelo económico desarrollista/estatista y, en términos del contexto externo para la política exterior, la *globalización* había disminuido las opciones y alternativas posibles. Esta interpretación era una visión ideológica y fundamentalista de la globalización.⁷

La adopción de esta nueva alternativa, como estrategia de desarrollo, implicaba – en términos de política exterior – tres posiciones básicas: 1) una alianza con las potencias vencedoras de la guerra fría y un alineamiento con el hegemon, lo que conducía, naturalmente, al retiro del movimiento de los No Alineados; 2) aceptación de las nuevas reglas de juego de la economía y la política mundiales en la construcción del “nuevo orden”, que sería el determinado por las grandes potencias capitalistas. Este cambio implicaba adscripción a la agenda de “valores hegemónicos universalmente aceptados”, especialmente en lo que se refería a las políticas de seguridad y los alineamientos en los distintos regímenes internacionales; 3) profundización de los vínculos transnacionales de Argentina, ante la evidencia de encontrarnos frente

⁶ Si bien bajo la gestión de Alfonsín se había comenzado a reformular el rol del Estado, sobre todo desde el ministerio conducido por Terragno, con Menem el proceso de reforma y privatizaciones del Estado se acelera, bajo el paradigma neoliberal.

⁷ Para la interpretación “fundamentalista” o “ideológica” de la globalización, ver Ferrer (1998) y Bernal-Meza (1996; 2000), respectivamente.

a un mundo “global”, lo que implicaba adhesión a las estrategias mundiales del capitalismo transnacional (Bernal-Meza, 2000).

La Argentina, viéndose a sí misma como un país pequeño en el escenario internacional (según la visión de la comunidad epistémica), dio prioridad a la inserción en el mercado internacional de capitales, a partir de la evidencia de que esos flujos eran determinantes en su ciclo económico (Baumann, 2001:61), adoptando entonces políticas adecuadas a esa estrategia de inserción externa. El plan de “Convertibilidad” sería un elemento clave de ésta, que, como se verá, De la Rúa mantendría bajo su gestión. Como describió un economista argentino, “el propósito de la convertibilidad fue corporizar el mito neoliberal de la economía de mercado globalizada (...); se trataba de recomponer un modelo de acumulación basado en la renta financiera, la extranjerización y el aplastamiento de cualquier resistencia social e intelectual a los designios del capital más concentrado” (Sevares, 2002:59).

En términos de “variables” de la política exterior, de las externas fueron representativas: el carácter e ideología de la nueva alianza gobernante; su visión del mundo y el papel relevante de los actores y la comunidad epistémica que formulaban la política exterior; la posición respecto de las estrategias posibles de desarrollo; la cultura política dominante (nacionalismo territorial, vocación hegemónica o de liderazgo subregional y regional y los marcos institucionales: centralismo, presidencialismo y personalismo).⁸ De las variables externas: la nueva configuración del orden mundial y la agenda política internacional, con la predominancia de los temas económicos, que excluían todas las variables exógenas del desarrollo (dependencia científico-tecnológica y apartheid tecnológico; hegemonía ideológico-cultural y su visión liberal-conservadora – en los términos “modernidad” versus “tradicionalismo” – sobre la naturaleza del desarrollo y el progreso).

⁸ Ver, a este respecto, Raúl Bernal-Meza, *América Latina en la Economía Política Mundial* (1994); segunda parte, cap. 1.

La continuidad del modelo económico y del paradigma de política exterior resultaron un fracaso, a la luz de los resultados y de la situación por la que atraviesa la Argentina.

La especificidad de la crisis del caso argentino se caracteriza, básicamente, por tres elementos: 1) el fracaso de sus tres modelos de inserción internacional a través de su historia (Bernal-Meza, 2001; 2001^a); 2) la crisis del modelo neoliberal (1976-2002): la nueva inserción, abandonando el modelo industrialista, “desindustrializó” el país, a través de la apertura, la desregulación, la transferencia del capital nacional (público y privado) al capital transnacional; por vía de las privatizaciones y la venta de activos y la aplicación de un sistema monetario de retorno al “patrón oro”, denominado la “Convertibilidad”; 3) el cambio de paradigma en política exterior, con la imposición del “realismo periférico”.

Tal como ha ocurrido en otros ejemplos regionales, se ha evidenciado un conflicto entre la calidad de la decisión previa en política exterior y su viabilidad en la práctica. En el caso argentino, el fundamento de esta dicotomía se basa en el sustento macropolítico de la gestión internacional; es decir, en la continuidad del paradigma de política exterior. Con diversas argumentaciones, los tres gobiernos del período (Menem, De la Rúa y Duhalde), buscaron hacer de Estados Unidos el principal socio externo. Pero, en la medida que las agendas externas de Washington y de Brasilia no coincidían, sería complejo el relacionamiento con Brasil y, por ende, difícil los progresos también en el contexto del Mercosur.

De las que fueron definidas en los ‘90s. como “políticas de Estado” – Brasil, Mercosur, Chile – sólo en este último caso puede hablarse de “continuidad”. Ha habido, así, una línea permanente de política exterior; bajo gobiernos democráticos que siguieron a la transición presidida por Alfonsín, que – positivamente en este caso – también se mantuvo en las relaciones bilaterales con Chile.

La política exterior de continuidad (1989-2003), sustentada en el paradigma del realismo periférico, a la luz de la situación de crisis por la que atraviesa la Argentina, presenta escasos logros. Sin embargo, la continuidad del paradigma de política exterior y del alineamiento

con Estados Unidos no han sido resultado de la preeminencia del pensamiento de la comunidad epistémica, sino, esencialmente, de la continuidad del modelo económico al cual él ha sido funcional; modelo que ha sido mantenido por las mismas alianzas de poder, que siguen sosteniendo una inserción externa que privilegia los lazos con el sector financiero.

2. POLÍTICA EXTERIOR BRASILEÑA

Después de un período de marcado dinamismo en política exterior, caracterizado por el “pragmatismo ecuménico responsable” (apertura a África; participación activa en las agendas del mundo en desarrollo, etc.), que acompañaba la gran expansión del modelo de industrialización y exportación de manufacturas de los años 70’s., con un fuerte crecimiento económico, cambios internos y externos llevaron a una sensación de estancamiento y decadencia de estas estrategias. Brasil comenzó a vivir una etapa crítica, donde ambas estrategias evidenciaron su agotamiento. En efecto, el modelo de política exterior de la década de 1980, de las presidencias Figueiredo y Sarney, asociado al “desarrollo nacional” había evolucionado hacia una fase de crisis y contradicciones (Cervo & Bueno, 1992; Cervo, 1994).

Durante los años 70’s y 80’s la diplomacia brasileña tuvo poco margen de iniciativa en la mayoría de cuestiones relevantes internacionalmente y fue condenada a reaccionar a embestidas del exterior, las cuales no podía prever ni controlar, haciendo que en el período la política externa fuera básicamente reactiva y defensiva (Guilhon Albuquerque, 2000; 2001). A pesar de esas limitaciones, el gobierno de Sarney sería el último del siglo en identificar la política externa con el “tercermundismo”.

A partir de los años 90, Brasil imprimió orientaciones confusas, incluso contradictorias en materia de política exterior (Cervo, 2002). La razón de ello se encontraba en la falta de decisión acerca de un modelo definido de desarrollo nacional al cual sirviera la política internacional. La indefinición respecto del modelo de Estado, la agonía del modelo *desenvolvimentista* y la emergencia del Estado

normal,⁹ llevarían a una política exterior falta de coherencia y de iniciativas, con predominio de la “baja política”.

De la transición democrática iniciada durante la década anterior surgiría – como ejemplo de gran renovación – un cambio fundamental en las relaciones bilaterales con Argentina y, en general, hacia América del Sur: Brasil encontraba su perfil latinoamericano, sustituyendo las políticas y percepciones de conflicto y rivalidad por las de cooperación y concertación (Bernal-Meza, 1989; 2000). Esta política sería continuada por Collor, impulsando un modelo liberal de integración – el Mercosur – y que Itamar Franco buscaría reformular bajo perspectivas más amplias, en términos regionales.

Los ámbitos privilegiados de acción serían dos; cada uno reflejado en la propuesta de nuevos objetivos políticos. El primero fue Naciones Unidas, escenario hacia el cual Brasil se acercaba desde su nuevo (asumido) rol de “potencia media”, proponiendo su propia candidatura a miembro permanente del Consejo de Seguridad de la ONU; el segundo, América del Sur, donde se avanzaría desde dos líneas: la propuesta de creación de ALCSA (Acuerdo de Libre Comercio Sud Americano) y el relanzamiento de la cooperación económica y de integración en infraestructura con Venezuela, Colombia, Uruguay y Bolivia.

La propuesta de creación de ALCSA (realizada en Santiago de Chile en 1994 por el propio Franco) – en la práctica una extensión del Mercosur – tenía necesaria e inmediatamente una lectura en relación a los Estados Unidos: fue una propuesta alternativa a la creación de Alca. Sin embargo, además, ella reflejaba la sensación de que las relaciones con Estados Unidos se profundizaban negativamente, en torno a temas claves de la agenda bilateral: propiedad intelectual, medio ambiente, derechos humanos, papel de los militares en la conducción política de la agenda de la seguridad, etc. Este es el escenario de propuestas, iniciativas y percepciones que encuentra Cardoso a su llegada al gobierno, si bien él había conducido – en su calidad de canciller – la política exterior de Itamar Franco y, por tanto, la transición de la misma desde

⁹ Según la definición de Amado Luiz Cervo, para identificar el tipo de Estado que impulsó, como mayor ejemplo latinoamericano, el neoliberalismo argentino, bajo las dos presidencias de Carlos Menem. Cfr. Cervo (1994; 2000; 2001; 2002).

el “tercermundismo” al “pro-occidentalismo” y, en particular, a un acercamiento político con Estados Unidos.

Desde comienzos de los 90’s la apertura, la flexibilidad frente a las demandas de las grandes potencias capitalistas – en particular las provenientes de Estados Unidos – comenzaron a identificar el cambio de posición frente al multilateralismo. Brasil se disocia de la posición del conjunto de países en desarrollo, en particular respecto del cuestionamiento global del orden económico internacional, aún cuando se critican algunas políticas de los países industrializados (proteccionismo comercial y restricción a la difusión de tecnologías de punta).

Demonstrações de boa vontade na relação com os Estados Unidos estavam sendo feitas nos inícios dos anos 90, quando a lei de patentes já tramitava no Senado Federal desde 1993 havendo ainda dois projetos de lei sobre direitos autorais, enquanto a nova lei brasileira de propriedade industrial (nº 824/91) tinha sido aprovada pela Câmara dos Deputados em junho do mesmo ano (Miyamoto, 2000:128).

Estos cambios se asociaban a la idea de cambio, eje ordenador del “Estado normal”.

Como señala un autor,

a emergência do Estado normal – subserviente, destrutivo e regressivo – nas estratégias de relações internacionais do Brasil teve como impulso conceitual a idéia de mudança. Não se trata de uma leviandade mental, mas de uma convicção profundamente arraigada na mentalidade de dirigentes brasileiros, capaz de provocar: a) o revisionismo histórico e a condenação das estratégias internacionais do passado; b) a adoção acrítica de uma ideologia imposta pelos centros hegemônicos de poder; c) a eliminação das idéias de projeto e interesse nacionais; d) a correção do movimento da diplomacia. Sob este paradigma, a política exterior do Brasil orientou-se por um equívoco de substância, que Fernando Henrique Cardoso expressou em artigo para a *Revista Brasileira de Política Internacional* em 2001: uma tríplece mudança interna – democracia, estabilidade monetária e abertura econômica – eram seus novos

comandos. Como não se conhecem experiências em que estes comandos tenham servido a Estados maduros como vetores de política exterior, a idéia de mudança introduziu naturalmente o paradigma do estado normal, como invenção da inteligência periférica (Cervo, 2002:8).

Gracias al cambio del rumbo económico y la adopción de las recetas neoliberales, desde el punto de vista de la inversión extranjera directa, Brasil se vio beneficiado con un flujo altamente significativo. A partir de la reformulación de la política cambiaria (enero de 1999), la devaluación de la moneda y la apertura de la economía, el país pasó a ser uno de los principales receptores de IED, recibiendo cerca de 30 mil millones de dólares ese año y una cifra cercana a 25 mil millones de esa moneda en el año 2000.

Según Guilhon Albuquerque, desde el punto de vista comercial, la actitud del país se tornó más positiva y propositiva. El Gatt y, por extensión la OMC, dejó de ser evaluado como un instrumento de apertura forzada de mercados en beneficio de los países industrializados, pasando a ser visto como un instrumento de convergencia entre los intereses distintos de países exportadores e importadores de las más diversas dimensiones y capacidades económicas dispares (Guilhon Albuquerque, 2000). Brasil aceptó las limitaciones que le impuso la Ronda Uruguay y participó activamente de la OMC, a cambio de la garantía que un sistema judicial de solución de controversias fuera implementado. Los mecanismos de solución de controversias y la agricultura fueron las prioridades de la diplomacia económica brasileña en las negociaciones de la OMC.¹⁰ No obstante, parece también factible que la posición más “flexible” del Brasil frente a las exigencias de mayor liberalización provenientes de las economías más desarrolladas fuera coincidente con el giro hacia políticas neoliberales que caracterizarían la agenda gubernamental de los años 90’s. Desde finales de la década anterior el país se había embarcado en la liberalización unilateral (Abreu,

¹⁰ Intervención del ministro Lamprea, en el seminario “O Brasil e o comércio internacional pós-Cingapura” (marzo de 1997), citado por Kjeld Aagaard Jakobsen, O Que Esperar da Política Externa Brasileira?, *Carta Internacional*, n° 94/95, dezembro 2000/janeiro 2001; p. 10-12.

2001). De allí que, desde Montreal, Brasil comenzara a converger con la tendencia dominante, especialmente en lo que se refería a “los nuevos temas” (TRIPS) y con la posición norteamericana en la liberalización agrícola.

Fiel a su opción predominante por la dimensión comercial de la política externa en su inserción internacional (Bernal-Meza, 2000), el Brasil continuó promoviendo iniciativas en este campo, asumiendo una posición intermediaria. Con todo, ese mayor activismo y “compromiso” internacional del Brasil, expresado en su multilateralismo económico, no trajo los resultados esperados y este aspecto se constituyó en uno de los puntos clave sobre los cuales se sustentaría la crítica a la política externa de Cardoso.

La diplomacia brasileña había sido muy activa para evitar la defección de Argentina y Chile, cuyos gobiernos se inclinaban hacia Nafta y estuvieron predispuestos a anticipar la implantación de Alca del 2005 para 2003.

Sin embargo, dos grandes fracasos deberían señalarse, respecto de la “política latinoamericana”, en su relación a Estados Unidos, que se vinculan al proyecto ALCSA: el acercamiento de México a la potencia hemisférica – que le quitaba a Brasil el sostén de la otra “potencia media” regional – y, posteriormente, el acuerdo de libre comercio firmado por Chile con Estados Unidos. Como hemos señalado al abordar las relaciones entre Chile y México – teniendo en vista la posición respectiva del Brasil – a comienzos de los años de 1990 México reformuló su patrón de relacionamiento externo con las grandes potencias y, en especial con Estados Unidos.

El cambio respecto de Estados Unidos se relacionaba con la nueva política económica de apertura (neoliberalismo), en sintonía con las prescripciones del “Consenso de Washington”. La más importante discrepancia entre México y Brasil ocurrió como consecuencia de la adhesión de aquel país al North American Free Trade Agreement. En la visión de la diplomacia brasileña este hecho rompía con la tradición que, en tanto “potencias medias”, ambos países latinoamericanos habían mantenido históricamente (en forma predominante), en el sentido de mantener en el más bajo nivel posible la influencia de las grandes

potencias dentro del propio país y en la región, lo que hasta entonces había sido una constante en los respectivos comportamientos externos.

Asimismo, la apertura formal de negociaciones bilaterales entre Chile y Estados Unidos, a fines del 2000, revirtió abruptamente el éxito que la diplomacia brasileña había tenido hasta entonces, en el contexto del Cono Sur, de impedir negociaciones comerciales unilaterales sobre Alca, por parte de alguno de los miembros (o asociados) del Mercosur con Washington. La firma del Acuerdo de Libre Comercio entre Chile y Estados Unidos, a inicios de diciembre de 2002, selló el fracaso de la diplomacia brasileña en ese sentido. Estos mismos elementos contribuían para hacer más evidente algunas incoherencias y contradicciones de la política exterior de la administración de Cardoso. Estos elementos explican que, revisando análisis recientes,¹¹ se advierte que, como nunca antes, no hubo consenso interno sobre la política exterior seguida por las dos gestiones de Cardoso (Bernal-Meza, 2002^a).

Brasil enfrenta los primeros años del siglo XXI con un nuevo gobierno. La plataforma de propuestas en materia de política exterior anunciaba pocos pero importantes cambios, los cuales pueden llevar a una modificación sustancial de la agenda internacional, los objetivos externos y, por cierto al estilo diplomático del país.

Lo original y el liderazgo en la “nueva política exterior brasileña” muestra que hay una renovada visión de la política exterior del iniciado gobierno de Lula. Su disposición al liderazgo sudamericano tiene propuestas innovadoras, progresistas y solidarias de cooperación con los países del continente. Las mismas, de concretarse, provocarían un vuelco fundamental en las relaciones intra y extra regionales.

¹¹ Ver, por ejemplo, Amado Luiz Cervo. Dice este autor que bajo la presidencia de Cardoso el pensamiento brasileño sería conducido al más avanzado estadio de adaptación a las tendencias del orden internacional de los años noventa, abandonando los requisitos de desarrollo interno mantenidos por la política exterior desde los años 30; aplicando una apertura del mercado interno sin negociación, privatizaciones sin cuidar el reforzamiento de la economía nacional, un sistema financiero puesto al servicio de la estabilización monetaria, con lo cual el Brasil seguiría una senda de debilitamiento y fragilidad económico-financiera igual que otros países que han aplicado la receta norteamericana. Cfr. Política de comércio exterior e desenvolvimento: a experiência brasileira. *Revista Brasileira de Política Internacional*, Brasília, ano 40, n° 2, 1997, p. 5-26.

Entre estas propuestas están:

la apertura del mercado brasileño a las exportaciones de productos efectivamente producidos en los países vecinos, sin exigir reciprocidad; la concesión de derechos políticos y sociales integrales a los ciudadanos sudamericanos que residan en el Brasil, sin exigir reciprocidad. Derivado de esta política, una cooperación económica, política y militar entre los Estados de América del Sur fluiría con facilidad y naturalidad (Pinheiro Guimarães, 2002:13).

Estas formulaciones, de llegar a efectivizarse, marcarían una clara disposición a asumir un liderazgo con compromisos y que corresponden a un país con aspiración a “potencia media”; pues, fue justamente esa ausencia la que evidenció la gran contradicción de la política exterior brasileña del período Cardoso. No se podía aspirar a una posición de liderazgo – como “potencia regional” – sin pagar algunos costos (Bernal-Meza, 1998).

Esta agenda, de “alta política” debería llevar, obligatoriamente, a un cambio de sustancia en la inserción internacional del Brasil, explorando ahora la dimensión política como la predominante de la misma.

Aún con todo, planteamos que existen límites para el disenso internacional. En efecto, es evidente que los principales límites para el “cambio de estilo de la diplomacia”, según lo definiera Celso Amorim (lo que equivalía en realidad a una reformulación de la agenda de la política exterior) están en la política interna y la vinculación con un programa de gobierno que cumpla la política prometida. Como señaló un comentario de prensa argentino,

Es ocioso decir que Lula enfrenta un horizonte idéntico: antes de poder acometer los trabajos para los que fue elegido, debe aferrar los diferenciados timones del Estado y de la sociedad, tarea no sencilla y de inciertos resultados. Después – si es que hay un después – sabremos de quién se trata; hasta entonces no será sino un ‘administrador’, un ‘referente’, un ‘político carismático’, términos actuales con que se alude pudorosamente a ese desnivel que los años setenta se solazaban en descubrir entre gobierno y poder (...). No cabe aquí la futurología. Lula hará lo que pueda y una de las

alternativas es que no haga nada de lo que ha propuesto – o que sus seguidores presumen que ha propuesto –, o, peor todavía, que haga más bien lo contrario, lo que en todo caso le valdrá, a su turno, unos cuantos elogios por su condición de ‘pragmático’, formulados con un dejo untuoso y perdonavidas (...). Brasil, que desde la época de Getulio Vargas ha sido controlado por elites invariablemente conservadoras y nacionalistas, adheridas a principios de gobierno notablemente coherentes para los parámetros regionales.¹²

3. POLÍTICA EXTERIOR CHILENA

Durante muchos años fue posible imaginar la política exterior chilena como siguiendo parámetros históricamente establecidos, sostenidos por el consenso político de los grupos de poder y de gobierno. En realidad, existió una vinculación entre el carácter de la inserción internacional del país y su política exterior. Históricamente, Chile ha sido una economía “extrovertida” (Bernal-Meza, 1996). El país dedicó en el pasado mucha atención a su política exterior tradicional, específicamente la alta política de relaciones internacionales. Esta política, que se basaba en el respeto al sistema jurídico internacional y en la importancia de la unidad y cooperación política entre los países en desarrollo como sus componentes fundamentales, promocionaba un lugar dentro del sistema internacional que aseguraba a un país pequeño los recursos “ideales” de política y una defensa contra el “realismo” del poder. El buen desempeño de esta política por parte de la diplomacia chilena, cuyas raíces se fundamentan en el pensamiento de Diego Portales y Andrés Bello, consagró una imagen diferenciada dentro del mundo diplomático, mientras que la búsqueda de la universalización de estos vínculos reportaba beneficios para el país.

Después del fracaso del “Estado conservador” y del “Estado liberal” en el siglo XIX, en cuanto a la construcción de un país desarrollado; de la dilapidación de los recursos y beneficios obtenidos en la Guerra del Pacífico, el Estado chileno llegó a su crisis, expresada en la guerra civil de 1911, en la “crisis del salitre” (1916-1928) y en la

¹² Fernando Sánchez Zinny, “*El destino latinoamericano*”, La Nación Line, 9 de febrero de 2003.

“crisis del 30”. A partir de entonces, la sociedad chilena optó por un nuevo modelo de Estado y sociedad, el que fue instalado en 1938 y que se mantuvo hasta 1973. Este modelo, similar a aquellos de la misma época en Argentina y Brasil, se caracterizaría por el importante papel del Estado en el desarrollo económico y social, con un fuerte rol interventor y regulador y subsidiario de la economía de mercado; es decir, un Estado empresario y desarrollista. Es también en ese período que se fortalece la democracia y ésta se transforma en el sustento y la imagen de una activa política exterior.

Con la llegada del régimen militar presidido por Augusto Pinochet, en septiembre de 1973, la política exterior tradicional desaparece rápidamente:

En forma paralela al golpe de Estado, en el ámbito de la política internacional, no sólo se rompió el vínculo entre democracia y política exterior, sino que en forma simultánea también se rompió el principio de universalización de las relaciones diplomáticas.¹³

Se produjo, entonces, el abandono de la alta política como eje central de su diplomacia, que marcó un cambio muy significativo en el rumbo de la política exterior chilena, aún cuando se incorporarían dinámicas propias de la alta ideologización del régimen.

Es en este cambio donde se ve el origen del nuevo pragmatismo en la política exterior chilena, que tiene su fundamento en la teoría neo-liberal económica, que implica reformas estatales y oportunidades económicas indefinidas. Por lo tanto, el nuevo enfoque de la diplomacia chilena es la baja política, o dicho de otra forma, un énfasis más profundo sobre los asuntos económicos y la apertura hacia los mercados internacionales.

El grupo de poder constituido en torno de las Fuerzas Armadas impuso la concepción de que la dinámica del crecimiento económico chileno debía provenir del sector externo y esta concepción del desarrollo se proyectó a los gobiernos democráticos que le siguieron. Esta visión

¹³ Francisco Rojas Aravena, Chile: cambio político e inserción internacional. 1964-1997, *Estudios Internacionales*, (julio-diciembre 1997), n° 119-120: 388.

transformaría a la cancillería en una institución más diversificada, que no solamente se preocupa por asuntos políticos, sino que asume un rol fundamental en la expansión del comercio internacional. Este es el sentido de la baja política, que jugó un rol central en el gobierno de Pinochet y en los gobiernos democráticos que le han sucedido, con respecto a la construcción de sus políticas exteriores. Sin embargo, este pragmatismo no se confina sólo al cambio de su política exterior, sino que también se encuentra en su desempeño, en parte diferenciado por su performance económica, de otros modelos, dentro del esquema neo-liberal. A pesar de su apertura unilateral y la insistencia en la destrucción de barreras comerciales, Chile no liberalizó totalmente los flujos de capitales, manteniendo primero una legislación que resguardaba de los riesgos del capital financiero volátil, buscando que la inversión extranjera directa permaneciera en el país y luego dejando en manos del Banco Central herramientas de intervención. Tampoco privatizó los dos sectores estratégicos más importantes para su desarrollo económico (cobre y petróleo), que son, al mismo tiempo aquellos que contribuyen con gran parte de las rentas del Estado.

Chile fue así el primer país latinoamericano que comenzó a aplicar, a partir de 1974, el modelo de liberalización de mercados y de apertura a la economía internacional (Muñoz, 1996), modelo cuya continuidad sostiene su actual inserción internacional.

Los antecedentes y evolución contemporánea de la política exterior revelan que hasta 1973 la política exterior chilena se caracterizó por un considerable componente de “tradición”, cuya base de sustentación lo constituyó el régimen político-constitucional democrático. Estado de derecho y legalidad interna permitieron sostener una política exterior con consenso interno y proyección histórica, cuyos principios, respeto a los tratados, al derecho internacional y cumplimiento de los compromisos asumidos, recibieron también la incorporación de concepciones, valores e ideas provenientes de las plataformas político-ideológicas de los partidos políticos y coaliciones de gobierno. Cada una de sus etapas, desde el abandono progresivo del alineamiento con Estados Unidos, característico del periodo 1946-1960, hasta la llegada al gobierno de la Unidad Popular, bajo la presidencia de Salvador Allende

– que tiñó la política exterior con algunos principios importantes como el “pluralismo ideológico” – significaron sucesivos progresos en la actuación internacional. Durante esa extensa etapa, la política exterior se caracterizaría por una firme vocación multilateralista, comprometida con la integración y la solidaridad latinoamericanas y una creciente tendencia hacia la universalización de las relaciones diplomáticas. A partir de los años ochenta, cuatro rasgos podrían caracterizar el desempeño de la economía chilena, fuente sustentadora de la política exterior: un considerable grado de apertura; un marcado dinamismo en la búsqueda de acuerdos de liberalización comercial; un continuo crecimiento en estabilidad macroeconómica y una impactante performance (en términos de una economía periférica, por cierto) en la captación de inversión extranjera directa (Bernal-Meza, 1996; 1997). Estos rasgos predominan hasta el presente.

De este modo, la agenda internacional de la democracia se propuso: 1) recomponer las relaciones internacionales y la imagen externa del país; 2) aplicar un modelo de política exterior fundado en el pragmatismo y la flexibilidad; 3) un especial énfasis hemisférico, incluyendo en particular a los Estados Unidos; 4) continuidad de la internacionalización de la economía chilena, a través de la profundización de los flujos internacionales de comercio, inversiones y transferencia de tecnología; 5) promover el interés por la integración en los nuevos esquemas económicos entonces en tratativas (Nafta y Mercosur), con una reorientación del enfoque integracionista en lo económico y lo político, promoviendo fórmulas más pragmáticas de integración regional, subregional y bilateral; 6) promover coincidencias con las políticas de apertura de las economías nacionales de la región y, 7) a partir de una percepción crítica sobre los modelos de desarrollo nacional y de integración ensayados en el pasado por los países de América Latina,¹⁴ mantener la visión acerca de que el motor de la economía chilena era la demanda mundial, lo que conducía a una visión más pragmática de la política internacional.

¹⁴ Lo que en la interpretación de Amado L. Cervo hizo coincidir el modelo desarrollista de Estado con un tipo particular de política exterior, en los principales países de la región. Cfr. Cervo (1994; 2000; 2001; 2002).

La preocupación central de la planificación de política exterior y de la diplomacia chilenas con el retorno de la democracia (condicionada por la institucionalidad heredada) fue recomponer las relaciones y la imagen internacionales del país, seriamente afectadas por la política interna (de violación sistemática de los derechos humanos) y externa (cruzada ideológica) del régimen militar.¹⁵ Así, el retorno de la democracia implicó nuevos retos a la política exterior. No se trataba sólo de recuperar el papel y la imagen del pasado democrático, sino adaptar ésta a las nuevas realidades del nuevo orden internacional y a los condicionamientos de una estrategia económica de apertura al mercado mundial, heredada del modelo económico impuesto por el régimen militar, pero ahora en el marco de una nueva institucionalidad (Bernal-Meza, 1996).

Las características de la actual política exterior (1990-2003) están dadas por la combinación de cuatro factores: 1) los determinantes del modelo económico heredado y que los gobiernos de la Concertación aceptaron mantener; 2) el pragmatismo político, para hacer externamente lo que el nuevo sistema internacional de post-guerra fría y el nuevo orden mundial de la economía política permiten; 3) las condicionalidades del proceso político interno, la “transición democrática” y la vigencia de la Constitución autoritaria de 1980; 4) los valores que han tratado de incorporar los partidos políticos que integran la alianza que ha gobernado este período de transición, sostenidos por la propia tradición de política exterior previa al golpe de Estado, la exaltación de la democracia como sistema político, la participación y otros principios doctrinarios vinculados con el pensamiento de los propios partidos que integran la Concertación.¹⁶

Los resultados de la política exterior, por su parte, muestran que uno de los debates centrales que se plantearon con el retorno de la democracia, en un contexto que coincidió con el fin de la guerra fría y el proceso de transición hacia un nuevo orden mundial, se relacionó

¹⁵ Para una profundización de la política exterior chilena bajo el gobierno militar, cfr. Muñoz, Herald (1986) y Bernal-Meza, Raúl (1989; 1989*).

¹⁶ Coalición que gobierna Chile desde el retorno a la democracia, integrada por los partidos Demócrata Cristiano, Radical, Socialista y PPD (también de tendencia socialista).

con la vigencia que ahora podían tener algunas categorías históricas que habían sido muy importantes en la política exterior chilena. Algunas de las continuidades históricas – que la política exterior siguió reivindicando como “políticas de Estado” en términos un poco retóricos – ahora parecían tener poca aplicación real en el fondo, porque el contexto global había modificado profundamente, según sus formuladores, la vigencia de esas “verdades históricas”.

El problema del cambio se planteó entonces como un desafío: mientras más cambiaba el mundo ¿la política exterior debía mantenerse, con el mismo estilo diplomático y las mismas posiciones internacionales del pasado? La respuesta fue el pragmatismo: una capacidad de prever escenarios globales, regionales, subregionales y nacionales. Sin embargo, la política exterior chilena es una política conservadora, que se mueve y evoluciona lenta, medida y reservadamente. Nuevamente, los valores democráticos cimentan la diplomacia chilena, orientándola hacia un orden institucional amparado en el apego a la ley y la autoridad impersonal,¹⁷ en lo interno, y el respeto al derecho internacional en sus relaciones con América Latina y el mundo.

Como política pública cuyo objetivo primordial es colaborar en el desarrollo nacional, el destino de la política exterior fue definido en los términos de servir instrumentalmente a la resolución del problema del subdesarrollo y limitar la dependencia externa, cuestiones que le ha impuesto, históricamente, la propia heterogeneidad estructural de la sociedad y su economía. La solución fue vista entonces en la continuidad del modelo de inserción internacional basado en la apertura: una economía pequeña, cuyo comercio exterior le aporta hoy más del 50% de su PIB. Tal como describió un analista y diplomático chileno, hay un modelo económico-social que sostiene la política exterior: “la política exterior proyecta valores y es, en buena medida, un reflejo de la política interna” (van Klaveren, 2000:130).

El éxito de este tipo de inserción, sobre la base de un “estado logístico” que pone al servicio de los negocios las herramientas y

¹⁷ Uno de los principios fundamentales impuestos por el estadista Diego Portales en el inicio de la organización nacional e inscrito en la Constitución de 1833.

condiciones para un buen desempeño, se advierten en el posicionamiento del país en el Ranking del Foro Económico Mundial (ranking de competitividad de coyuntura y de largo plazo). Chile lidera la posición de los países latinoamericanos, ocupando el puesto 31°, a corto plazo, y el 20°, a largo plazo, poniéndose adelante, incluso, de otros países europeos; mientras que, en el ranking de productividad a nivel macroeconómico, el país se encuentra muy delante de Brasil (que ocupa el lugar 33) y de Argentina (lugar 65). En tanto, en el ranking mundial de libertad económica – aspecto esencial si hablamos de un modelo de libre mercado abierto al mundo – también lidera la posición de América Latina, ubicándose en el puesto n° 16 del conjunto.¹⁸

Considerando el objetivo de apertura, inserción comercial en los escenarios más dinámicos de la economía mundial y la búsqueda de acuerdos de libre comercio, debería identificarse la política exterior como significativamente exitosa. Los recientes acuerdos comerciales firmados con la Unión Europea, Corea del Sur y Estados Unidos, que se agregan a la amplia lista de la agenda comercial latinoamericana, señalan una excelente performance y, en este sentido pareciera ser el más exitoso ejemplo en la región. De hecho, en lo que se refiere a la política sudamericana, el haber conseguido incorporarse al Mercosur en calidad de “asociado”, sin tener que adoptar el arancel externo común, debe ser considerado un éxito de negociación diplomática.

Sin embargo, políticamente, la agenda sudamericana y del Mercosur marcan un llamativo desequilibrio, negativo, respecto de la búsqueda de profundización del universalismo de la política exterior. Brasil, el principal actor sudamericano y del bloque del cono sur, es casi irrelevante en la agenda internacional chilena. La aplicación exitosa de un ALC con Argentina, acuerdo que lleva más de diez años, no conduce necesariamente a una extensión de los vínculos económicos y comerciales con el resto de los países miembros del Mercosur. A pesar que los presidentes chilenos del período aquí analizado han manifestado permanentemente la “vocación latinoamericanista” de la política exterior chilena y han participado activamente de todos los encuentros regionales

¹⁸ Fuente: *Diario La Nación*, Buenos Aires, 13 de noviembre de 2002; sección Económica, p. 13.

y subregionales (Grupo de Río; cumbres del Mercosur), así como de los interregionales (“Cumbres Iberoamericanas” y encuentros Unión-Europea-América Latina), en la mayoría de los países – y, en particular en Brasil – existe la percepción de que Chile no muestra mayor interés en profundizar sus vínculos con el resto de naciones del Cono Sur. La reciente elección del país como miembro del Consejo de Seguridad de las Naciones Unidas por los próximos dos años, dio la oportunidad al presidente Lagos para proponer ese sillón como “voz del Mercosur”, propuesta que no tuvo ningún eco en las cancillerías del bloque, cuestión que pone en evidencia ese distanciamiento. Paralelamente, no puede dejar de señalarse el hecho que, al mismo tiempo que Chile se acercó a México, este país y Brasil tienen entre sí escasos intereses comunes.¹⁹ Las diferencias entre estas dos “potencias medias” comenzaron a profundizarse a partir del momento en que México reformuló su patrón de relacionamiento externo con las grandes potencias, a partir de los años noventa, en especial con Estados Unidos. La gran discrepancia ocurrió cuando México propuso y luego se adhirió al North American Free Trade Agreement, hecho que en la visión de la diplomacia brasileña rompía con la tradición de ambas potencias medias de mantener en el más bajo nivel posible la influencia de las grandes potencias dentro del propio país y en la región, lo que hasta entonces había sido una constante en los respectivos comportamientos externos (Sennes, 1998). La posición de Chile y sus relaciones con Brasil, por tanto, deben ser puestas contra este telón de fondo, a partir de la firma del TLC entre Santiago y Washington.

¹⁹ Peter Hakim (Presidente del “*Inter-American Dialogue*”), por ejemplo, ha señalado que México y Brasil han querido alcanzar importantes roles internacionales de formas totalmente distintas, el primero *atrelou o seu futuro aos Estados Unidos e abriu a economia quase que totalmente ao comércio e investimento estrangeiros*; el segundo *sendo uma economia relativamente fechada, almeja um papel de liderança independente na América do Sul e é visto pelos Estados Unidos como oponente em determinados assuntos (...)*. La principal prioridad de la política exterior mexicana *continua a ser uma sólida parceria com os Estados Unidos (...)*. O Brasil, ao contrário, *conduz uma política externa muito mais autônoma e diversificada*; cfr. Peter Hakim, Brasil e México: duas maneiras de ser global, *Política Externa*, São Paulo, Paz e Terra/USP, v. 10, n° 4, março, abril-maio 2002, p. 94-107.

Debe señalarse así que el anuncio de la apertura formal de negociaciones bilaterales entre Chile y Estados Unidos, a fines del 2000, revirtió abruptamente el éxito que la diplomacia brasileña había tenido hasta entonces, de impedir negociaciones unilaterales por parte de alguno de los miembros (o asociados) del Mercosur con Washington. En este contexto, teniendo en cuenta las escasas coincidencias políticas entre México y Brasil, la posición de Chile para con éste no podría dejar de ser percibida, al menos, como de “rival”.

Más tarde, iniciado el año 2003, Chile y México sorprenderían adoptando una posición común y haciendo una propuesta conjunta en el seno del Consejo de Seguridad de la ONU, dirigida a las “grandes potencias con derecho a veto” para que revisaran sus posiciones y asumieran sus responsabilidades, asignadas por la calidad de miembros permanentes que la Carta de la ONU les asignaba.

Este era un nuevo elemento de la “política latinoamericana” de Chile, la cual ponía en evidencia ese acercamiento en el eje “norte-sur” de la región, lo cual dejaba la relación Chile-Brasil en las características que mantuvo durante gran parte de los noventa, pero donde las innovaciones discurrían por otras agendas bilaterales. En definitiva, la política “sudamericana” de Chile, en particular con algunos de sus principales actores nacionales, evidencia un déficit y, al mismo tiempo, marca un desafío para la futura orientación de la política exterior.

En síntesis, la política exterior del período ha sido más bien conservadora y pragmática; más expresión de un Estado comercialista que ejemplo de su anterior tradición de activismo. Obviamente en este cambio influyeron tanto las condiciones heredadas del modelo económico que sigue sosteniendo la política exterior y la necesaria revisión de algunas categorías históricas que fueron muy importantes en el pasado, pero que a la luz del pragmatismo económico, ante el proceso de transición y cambio de la economía y la política mundiales habrían perdido cierta vigencia. El realismo pragmático frente a Estados Unidos, traducido en el pasado en extensos períodos de “alineamiento” (1946-1962) ha coincidido ahora con la aceptación interna de un modelo de desarrollo asociado, que se expresa en la firma del Tratado de Libre Comercio.

Sin embargo, en la medida que se reformulen algunas políticas públicas vinculadas con el desarrollo, con el fin de mejorar los índices altamente negativos en términos de distribución de la riqueza, la erradicación de la pobreza, el crecimiento del empleo y otras, la política exterior deberá readecuarse. Los documentos de la OECD referidos al comportamiento económico de algunos países en desarrollo, resaltaron la alta competitividad chilena, pero, al mismo tiempo, llamaron la atención sobre el atraso científico y tecnológico del país.²⁰ Esta cuestión, de persistir, se transformará en un futuro cercano en el límite estructural del modelo de apertura en los términos actualmente planteados, lo que debería llevar a la política exterior al retorno de una agenda más política, vinculada con los problemas y reclamos del resto del mundo en desarrollo. Para ello, la revisión del regionalismo, las alianzas en términos de la agenda internacional con el fin de impulsar acuerdos internacionales en beneficio de las economías atrasadas y la búsqueda de acuerdos de cooperación científica y tecnológica, con estrategias de asociación entre pares, deberían llevar también a una reformulación de la agenda internacional de la política exterior chilena.

El rumbo futuro de la política exterior fue señalado en términos precisos por el presidente Ricardo Lagos: “Mi deber como presidente es trabajar para que Chile entre al mundo global aprovechando al máximo las oportunidades que se nos ofrecen, disminuir los riesgos y cuidar que los beneficios de esa globalización se distribuyan equitativamente entre todas las familias. Chile es un país pequeño y lejano. Siempre lo ha sido. Pero ni la lejanía nos debe empujar al aislamiento, ni lo pequeño de nuestro mercado hacia el proteccionismo. Mi gobierno no está disponible para políticas aislacionistas ni proteccionistas, no importa las presiones que debamos enfrentar”.²¹

De estas definiciones se derivarán las relaciones exteriores bilaterales, regionales y multilaterales de Chile en los próximos años.

²⁰ Discurso de la Ministro de Relaciones Exteriores de Chile en la inauguración del año académico de la Academia Diplomática de Chile; Santiago, 4 de abril de 2002.

²¹ Discurso del presidente de la República de Chile, Don Ricardo Lagos Escobar, en su Mensaje Anual a la Nación; Santiago, 21 de mayo de 2002.

4. ASPECTOS COMPARATIVOS DE LAS POLITICAS EXTERIORES

En la aplicación de los enfoques teórico-metodológicos para el estudio de la política exterior, durante los años 80 y 90 se advirtió que había determinantes internos y externos de las políticas exteriores que condicionaban no sólo los objetivos internacionales de las políticas, sino también la materialización de las mismas una vez decidido el curso de acción.

Respecto de las *perspectivas centradas en factores internos*, van Klaveren sostuvo que resultaba difícil clasificar las perspectivas que se centraban en estos factores, por la sencilla razón de que tendían a confundirse entre sí; a pesar de lo cual él identificó cuatro; una de ellas era la perspectiva centrada en la *orientación del régimen*. En ella se intentaba identificar las características estructurales y orientaciones básicas de una sociedad, tanto en lo político como en lo económico, para evaluar su relevancia en el proceso de toma de decisiones. Esta perspectiva ha dado lugar a tres variables generales de interés. La primera se concentra en la forma de organización política y su impacto sobre la política exterior; estableciendo diferencias entre regímenes democráticos y regímenes autoritarios, al comparar al mismo país bajo diferentes regímenes políticos (ejemplo, Chile). La segunda variable que señaló, en relación con la orientación del régimen, se refería a la estrategia de desarrollo adoptada por un país, variable que, según van Klaveren, ha tenido – tradicionalmente una directa incidencia en el campo de la política exterior.

De acuerdo con esta visión, la política externa no sólo es evaluada en términos de su contribución a la obtención de metas económicas tradicionales tales como la promoción del comercio, la búsqueda de asistencia financiera en condiciones más positivas, etc., sino también como un medio para modificar variables internacionales en un sentido más favorable a los objetivos de la estrategia de desarrollo (van Klaveren, 1984:37).

Brasil y México serían un buen ejemplo. En tanto, la tercera variable de orientación del régimen “se refiere a la existencia de un

estilo, e incluso, de un enfoque característico de política exterior en un país, que proviene de una cierta tradición histórica que ha permeado todo el comportamiento externo” (van Klaveren, 1984:38).

No obstante, agregaba el autor, las alusiones a políticas “tradicionales” que hacen ciertos países latinoamericanos eran más bien retóricas, puesto que en esos “sagrados principios” de sus diplomacias ha habido muchas rupturas con el pasado y las innovaciones parecen mucho más frecuentes.

Este es, entonces, el primer enfoque que utilizaremos para comparar las tres políticas exterior. Se explica porque los tres países pasaron de modelos autoritarios, con regímenes militares de derecha, coincidentes en los 70s. y 80s., a regímenes democráticos de transición (Argentina a fines de 1983; Brasil a mediados de 1985 y Chile a fines de 1989).

Lo sorprendente al aplicar el enfoque es que la variable “tipo de régimen” no permite explicar los grandes cambios producidos en las respectivas políticas exteriores, en los períodos analizados.

En el caso de la Argentina, los grandes paradigmas que fundaron modelos de política exterior, como la “Tercera Posición” (1946-1955 y su *aggiornamento*, la “Autonomía Heterodoxa”, 1973-1975) y el “Realismo Periférico” (1989-2003), constituyeron diseños y hojas de ruta para la política exterior en tiempos de democracia. Pero, entre ellos, hubo tan grandes diferencias como entre la política exterior seguida por el régimen autoritario militar (1976-1983) y la política exterior seguida por el gobierno constitucional siguiente, de Raúl Alfonsín.

Desde el punto de vista de las estrategias nacionales de desarrollo,²² los tres países rompieron con sus respectivos pasados *desarrollistas-autonómicos* de inserción internacional y adoptaron el modelo *neoliberal*, aún cuando en el caso chileno este cambio se produjo con anterioridad al período histórico aquí analizado (es decir, bajo el régimen militar 1973-1989). Tanto Brasil como Argentina vivieron profundos cambios en las características de su inserción internacional,

²² Es decir, el modelo de desarrollo del que se derivan las características de la inserción en la División Internacional del Trabajo.

durante el período analizado, modificando sustancialmente sus respectivas políticas exteriores, si bien en el segundo caso los cambios fueron mucho más drásticos y permanentes. Las respectivas políticas exteriores vieron modificadas sus agendas, objetivos y estilos diplomáticos; cambios que ocurrieron en un período de regímenes políticos democráticos. En el caso chileno, el período democrático, luego del régimen dictatorial de Pinochet, se ha caracterizado por la continuidad.

Como se podrá apreciar, en este punto no habría coincidencias entre coincidencias, rupturas y régimen político. En el caso de Argentina, la ruptura había comenzado antes, bajo el régimen militar (1976-1983), pero se profundizó radicalmente bajo los gobiernos democráticos de Menem y los que le sucedieron,²³ mientras que en Brasil fue un régimen democrático el que inició la ruptura (Collor) y otro similar la profundizó (Cardoso). En tanto, en el caso de Chile, la ruptura llevada a cabo bajo el régimen militar fue mantenida – en tanto modelo de inserción internacional – por los gobiernos democráticos de la Concertación (1990-2003).

Los tres países representan modelos distintos de política exterior, pero todos han respondido más a cuestiones de índole interna – coaliciones, alianzas de gobierno; concepciones sobre las estrategias posibles de desarrollo nacional; antecedentes históricos y estructura del patrón de inserción económico internacional – que a factores externos, vinculados éstos a acontecimientos que se produjeran fuera de la región. Sin embargo, no puede desatenderse la importancia que los cambios mundiales tuvieron sobre la formulación y praxis de las respectivas políticas exteriores.

Nuestra conclusión al analizar comparativamente las políticas exteriores de Brasil y Argentina, refleja que durante las administraciones de Cardoso y Menem, respectivamente, se evidenció en la política exterior un conflicto entre la calidad de la decisión y su viabilidad (Bernal-Meza, 2000:417), cuestión que se repetiría en el caso argentino, durante la actual gestión del presidente Duhalde.

²³ Cfr. Raúl Bernal-Meza (2001; 2002^a).

Comparativamente, la política exterior chilena resultó, en este sentido, mucho más coherente, en la medida que las decisiones y la operacionalidad de los temas incorporados a la agenda (o previamente existentes) resultaron de efectiva aplicabilidad y de resultados adecuados a sus objetivos.

El “giro a la derecha” que implicó el abandono del modelo *desarrollista-autonómico* implicó en la argentina un cambio en las alianzas externas, el inicio de un nuevo período de alineamiento con los Estados Unidos y su integración como “Aliado Preferencial extra-Otan”; mientras, en Brasil el mismo se reflejó en la adscripción y participación activa en organismos y regímenes internacionales antes vistos críticamente (Consejo de Seguridad de la ONU; Gatt-OMC), que sólo unos años se habían considerado “contrarios a los intereses y objetivos de la política de *país intermediario*, grupo en el cual se autoinscribía Brasil, bajo la aspiración de un reconocimiento internacional como potencia regional.

Los tres países buscaron durante el período (en el caso del Brasil con la excepción del gobierno de Itamar Franco) transformarse en un socio preferencial de Estados Unidos. Con todo, puede señalarse que Brasil fue el único país sudamericano que, de alguna forma, resistió a todas las iniciativas de los Estados Unidos en la región.

Por su parte Chile, durante el mismo período, bajo un régimen político democrático, vivió una significativa continuidad en la formulación y praxis de la política exterior. Hubo gran continuidad de la agenda, de los objetivos y del estilo de la misma. En este caso, las rupturas, cambios y modificaciones que pueden advertirse, desde el punto de vista histórico (incluyendo también continuidades) lo son respecto del período bajo un régimen político autoritario.

Estas constataciones permiten afirmar que no ha habido relación entre el régimen político y los cambios de política exterior; un hecho de la realidad, que señala la inexistencia de una vinculación entre régimen político y política exterior para la comprensión de cambios tan radicales y contrapuestos en sus fundamentos y praxis.

En el caso argentino, paradójicamente, los gobiernos constitucionales del pasado anterior a Menem, moderaron su vocación “independentista”,

mientras los gobiernos *de facto* morigeraron su vocación por el “alineamiento”, tradición que se rompería gracias al impacto del paradigma construido por la *comunidad epistémica* del menemismo, constituyendo éste así la gran excepción.

Creo que el eje que explica continuidades, cambios y rupturas en las respectivas políticas exteriores y permite evaluar comparativamente los tres ejemplos está, más que en la relación entre régimen político y política exterior, en la relación entre ésta y el modelo de desarrollo, la opción por una determinada estrategia económica y su respectiva inserción internacional.

En el caso argentino, se advierte que la imposición del modelo neoliberal, de apertura y desregulación, no asociado a una estrategia coincidente en términos del fortalecimiento de áreas y sectores que apoyaran dicha inserción externa, fue coincidente con lo que Cervo denominó como “Estado normal” y su política exterior fue entonces acorde con ella.

En el caso brasileño, las inconsistencias y debilidades de la política exterior durante el período, están en relación con la propia indefinición de un modelo nacional de desarrollo del cual derivara la formulación de agendas y objetivos de la política exterior. Mientras, en el caso de Chile, la continuidad de su política exterior está en relación con la permanencia en el tiempo de un modelo económico de apertura al mundo, en el cual la política externa y su diplomacia juegan la carta correspondiente a la función de un “Estado logístico”.

Aún cuando el grado de internacionalización e integración al mercado mundial es muy distinto en cada uno de estos tres países y la participación del comercio exterior en la composición del PIB es significativamente distinto en cada uno de ellos (9% en el caso brasileño; cerca del 11% actualmente para la Argentina y más cerca del 60% para el caso chileno), existe una lógica que mueve el accionar de las políticas exteriores y que está relacionado estrechamente con las características del modelo nacional de desarrollo y sus respectivas políticas económico-comerciales.

En términos bilaterales, luego de la destitución del presidente Collor comenzaron a evidenciarse las diferencias en política exterior

entre Argentina y Brasil, ambos bajo gobiernos democráticos que se centraron en cinco grandes núcleos: 1- las interpretaciones sobre el “orden mundial emergente o en transición” y sobre la “globalización”; 2- el papel que cada uno de estos países aspiraba a jugar en esos contextos; 3- los paradigmas dominantes sobre política externa; 4- las relaciones con Estados Unidos; 5- las políticas de seguridad.

A partir de la implementación del Plan de Convertibilidad de la moneda argentina (1992) y del estrechamiento de las relaciones de este país con Estados Unidos (alianza extra-Otan), Argentina y Brasil profundizaron sus desencuentros, los que terminarían concentrándose en estos dos temas, que serían considerados sistemáticamente por Brasilia como los factores que impedirían profundizar la integración económica en el Mercosur y la cooperación política.

En el caso de las relaciones entre Brasil y Chile, tal como señalamos al analizar la política exterior chilena, el anuncio de la apertura formal de negociaciones bilaterales entre Chile y Estados Unidos, a fines del 2000, revirtió abruptamente el éxito que la diplomacia brasileña había tenido hasta entonces, de impedir negociaciones unilaterales por parte de alguno de los miembros (o asociados) del Mercosur con Washington. En este contexto, teniendo en cuenta las escasas coincidencias políticas entre México y Brasil, la posición de Chile para con éste no podría dejar de ser percibida, al menos, como de “rival”. Como señaló Peter Hakim, las políticas exteriores de México y Brasil fueron bastante diferentes en su forma de inserción internacional, en su relación *vis-à-vis* los Estados Unidos y en la forma de ser percibidos por éste (Hakim, 2002).

Si bien se podría demostrar la existencia de un conjunto más amplio de diferencias²⁴ que de sintonías, señalaremos las que nos parecen las cuestiones más relevantes. En primer lugar, se advierte que ha habido una reformulación o actualización de los marcos conceptuales de las políticas exteriores más evidente en el caso argentino que en el

²⁴ Un primer abordaje de estas cuestiones puede verse en R. Bernal-Meza (1998^a). Para una visión más actual y de la cual hemos extraído elementos comparativos sobre los que nos apoyamos, ver, José Augusto Guilhon Albuquerque, “A nova geometria de poder mundial nas visões argentina e brasileira”, São Paulo, USP-NUPRI, paper, 1999.

brasileño y el chileno. Si bien en los dos primeros países se percibió la necesidad de adoptar un nuevo patrón de desarrollo, la adecuación o el cambio de los marcos conceptuales de la política exterior, para que coincidieran con los esfuerzos de reinserción y las tendencias “globales”, ha sido más profundo en Argentina que en Brasil.

A) ASPECTOS COMPARATIVOS

Tanto Argentina como Brasil llevaron adelante, durante los años 90, una política interna similar: marcada por el neoliberalismo. Esto se reflejaría en la política exterior con la adscripción al paradigma *fundamentalista o ideológico* de la globalización.²⁵ Optaron por una inserción *periférica* al orden de la globalización post guerra fría y sufrieron un acelerado proceso de desnacionalización de sus respectivas industrias y servicios, una globalización de sus finanzas (gran exposición y fragilidad a los flujos externos volátiles de capital) y un gran endeudamiento. La política exterior se adaptó: en el caso de Argentina, conduciéndola a la búsqueda de una alianza subordinada y dependiente con Estados Unidos; en el caso brasileño, reduciendo sus aspiraciones “*globalistas*”. Esto se tradujo en que las percepciones y conflictos por espacios de inserción y liderazgo se trasladaran desde el ámbito del sistema internacional al subsistema del Cono Sur (y del Mercosur).

Varias de las decisiones y la operacionalidad de los temas incorporados por las respectivas agendas (o existentes con anterioridad, como el caso de la aspiración al reconocimiento internacional como “potencia media”, en el caso del Brasil), resultaron al final del período inviables. No así en el caso chileno.

Brasil cedió terreno en su objetivo de construir un bloque subregional o regional que lo tuviera como su centro o núcleo estratégico; tampoco alcanzó su objetivo de conseguir de Estados Unidos un perfil de relacionamiento de potencia y no logró su reconocimiento mundial (es decir, por los grandes poderes) como “potencia media”. Argentina, por su parte, fracasó en su política de “reinserción al primer mundo” y,

²⁵ En el sentido que ahora era ésta la que imponía los límites y condiciones de la inserción internacional.

a pesar de haber alcanzado su objetivo de mínima – aliado extra Otan –, puesto que el de máxima era su integración plena, en medio de su crisis estructural y en *default*, fue dejada caer por su principal aliado externo. En cambio, Chile alcanzó su objetivo de asociarse comercialmente a Estados Unidos, aún cuando debió ceder en algunas posiciones.

Desde el punto de vista de la existencia de articulaciones conceptuales específicas, en el eje o *continuum* autonomía-desarrollo, en el caso argentino hay una aceptación e incorporación de las ideas *pro-mercado* y *primer-mundistas* (orden mundial; globalización) y en el caso brasileño, un mayor *continuum* de ideas más desarrollistas y autonomistas.

En términos del *continuum* “continuidad-ruptura” en las orientaciones de la política externa, pocas veces se han visto cambios tan bruscos en un período tan corto de tiempo, como en el caso argentino (entre 1984-1989 y 1989-2003),²⁶ mientras que, en el caso brasileño se advierten más tendencias a un statu quo de las orientaciones básicas ya identificadas desde mediados de los años ‘70s. Por su parte, en el caso de Chile, las orientaciones de la política exterior han sido de una significativa continuidad.

Así, una primera cuestión surge con evidencia: la política exterior argentina de los años 90 ha sido más receptiva al discurso y los argumentos occidentalistas y liberales, mientras que la política externa brasileña ha mantenido una mayor permanencia en la tradición de sensibilidad a los conceptos y visiones *desarrollistas* y del paradigma *norte-sur*. En el caso chileno, allí se optó por el “*pragmatismo*” y el “*bajo perfil*”.

Ha habido una vinculación más estrecha entre reformas económicas y cambios conceptuales (ideas) en la política exterior en el caso argentino que en el caso brasileño. Desde el punto de vista del “estilo” con el que cada país ha buscado realizar los objetivos e intereses de su agenda internacional, las estrategias han sido muy distintas: En el caso argentino, la hipótesis es que la rápida adhesión a los regímenes

²⁶ Consideramos aquí el año 2003 al momento de finalizar este documento preliminar: febrero de ese año.

propuestos por el mundo desarrollado era la condición previa para obtener beneficios concretos, en términos de préstamos, inversiones, etc.) y, por lo tanto, ese camino era la condición básica para el crecimiento económico. En cambio, en el caso del Brasil, la hipótesis ha sido más bien la de la preservación de espacios de autonomía, es decir, la necesidad de negociar los términos de ingreso a esos regímenes internacionales, entendiendo que esa autonomía maximizaba, en el largo plazo, las posibilidades de obtener esos mismos beneficios.

Sin embargo, la paradoja es que mientras Brasil ha buscado (o aspirado, al menos) un reconocimiento internacional como *potencia media* – en tanto objetivo definido, de Franco a Cardoso – y declara aspirar al liderazgo en el cono sur, cuestiones todas de *alta política*, ha privilegiado permanentemente la dimensión comercial como la forma de inserción internacional; mientras que la Argentina, que declaró, bajo Menem, De la Rúa y Duhalde su opción por el paradigma “trading state”, formulando a su vez su propio paradigma ciudadano-céntrico,²⁷ cuestiones que remiten a una lectura más bien de *baja política*, ha privilegiado la “dimensión política” en la inserción internacional (alianza con Estados Unidos y la Otan; política de seguridad; conflicto con Brasil por el tema de la representación en el Consejo de Seguridad de la ONU, etc.).

B) AGENDAS

Los cambios en las agendas y los objetivos, de las políticas exteriores de los tres países están marcados esencialmente por las macrocosmovisiones de las alianzas gobernantes (que incluyen a los respectivos presidentes y sus *decision makers*). Para Argentina y Chile, entre 1989 y 2003, el actor externo más relevante de la política exterior ha sido Estados Unidos, lo que marca una profunda diferencia con la agenda y los objetivos de la política exterior brasileña, a pesar de las “incoherencias” y “ambivalencias” del período de Cardoso.

²⁷ Para la fundamentación de la construcción del paradigma, desde la perspectiva de su formulador argentino, ver, Carlos Escudé (1992; 1995). Para nuestra interpretación, Raúl Bernal-Meza (1994; 1999).

C) *SEGURIDAD INTERNACIONAL Y SEGURIDAD REGIONAL*

A pesar de algunas diferencias en las formas de acceder a los nuevos marcos regulatorios del orden mundial (por ejemplo, aceptando la hegemonía de la OTAN e integrándose a ella, como es el caso argentino), las políticas exterior de los tres países coincidieron sólidamente en el apoyo a los regímenes de no proliferación y de prohibición de armas de destrucción masiva; *avanzando también en el plano regional en medidas de confianza mutua con sus vecinos.*

DIPLOMACIA ECONÓMICA

Tanto Brasil como Chile se caracterizaron por un fuerte contenido de “diplomacia económica en la política exterior. La agenda económica fue sustancialmente más relevante que la agenda *política*. Sin embargo, las diferencias aparecen al evaluar el papel que a cada una de ellas se le asignaba en los objetivos de la política exterior.

CONSENSOS INTERNOS

El país que menos refleja divergencias internas (nos referimos a la sociedad “informada”: principalmente la academia; también la prensa y las dirigencias políticas), en materia de política exterior, es Chile. Sin embargo, habría que evaluar el impacto que tuvo sobre la “academia” el paso de muchos especialistas desde este sector a funciones diplomáticas y burocráticas. Los gobiernos de la “Concertación” hicieron de la política exterior chilena *la política de un Estado comercial*. Eso explica la ausencia de formulaciones novedosas y originales, puesto que la *academia*, predominantemente, acompañó esa gestión de gobierno.

De la lectura de la literatura sobre política exterior hecha por nacionales (autores brasileños)²⁸ se concluye que el Brasil no se caracterizó por una política exterior de grandes controversias internas, respecto de la relación del país con el mundo. Hay que adentrarse a fines del siglo XX, bajo el gobierno de Cardoso, para advertir, por

²⁸ Cfr. Cervo; Cervo y Bueno; Almeida; Guilhon Albuquerque;

primera vez, el surgimiento de una visión profundamente crítica sobre la política exterior. En parte, el cuestionamiento interno a la política externa se fue profundizando a medida que la negociación de acuerdos internacionales, con Estados Unidos (Alca) y la Unión Europea (vía Mercosur), se transformó en un debate interno de política, entre sectores – y *lobbies*- favorables a la apertura (importadores) y los contrarios (los *import-competing*). Desde categorías tradicionalmente realistas, algunos autores señalan que el gran problema fue que el debate sistemático y abarcativo sobre el “interés nacional brasileño” fue virtualmente olvidado en los últimos años, porque la sociedad fue absorbida por los temas prioritarios de la agenda doméstica, relegando a segundo plano las cuestiones cruciales del área externa (Magnoli, César & Yang, 2000:34).

Pero el síntoma más significativo de las profundas diferencias sobre la política exterior de Cardoso se dio en el seno mismo de Itamaraty, situación que culminó con la destitución del embajador Samuel Pinheiro Guimarães de su cargo de Director del Instituto Brasileiro de Relações Internacionais del Ministerio de Relações Exteriores, luego de la difusión de un extenso artículo de su autoría donde cuestionaba abiertamente la política seguida por la administración de Cardoso frente a Alca y a Estados Unidos.²⁹

Por último, en el caso argentino, la política exterior ha sido – casi históricamente – expresión de profundos debates y disensos internos, que también se advirtieron en los tres gobiernos de ese país analizados en el período.

Sin embargo, la presencia de esos disensos y controversias internas, identificables en los casos argentino y brasileño, no tuvieron el peso suficiente como para modificar el rumbo de la política exterior. Este hecho muestra que el “*presidencialismo*”, más que el sistema político en tanto régimen de gobierno, es el que tiene, en estos países, una mayor relación con la definición (formulación y praxis) de las respectivas políticas exteriores.

²⁹ Cfr. Raúl Bernal-Meza (2002), Os dez anos do Mercosul e a crise argentina. *Política Externa*.

A MODO DE REFLEXIÓN FINAL

Tradicionalmente los análisis sobre política exterior latinoamericana señalaron a los cambios drásticos de los sistemas políticos (democracia versus autoritarismo) como fuente sustentadora y explicativa de los profundos cambios en los contenidos, agendas y praxis, de las respectivas políticas exteriores. La paradoja que expresan los tres casos aquí analizados consiste en que los cambios y las continuidades advertidas no se relacionan esencialmente con las sustituciones o cambios del régimen político, sino que responden, esencialmente a las modificaciones sustanciales de los modelos nacionales de desarrollo e inserción internacional. Los paradigmas, modelos de política externa o ésta como expresión de un “modelo de Estado” fueron diseñados e impulsados por la conducción de las alianzas internas de poder que, en el período analizado, abrazaron – sin hesitar – la ideología del neoliberalismo. Así, las políticas exteriores estuvieron en la línea de las tendencias marcadas por las lógicas hegemónicas, que despojaron a éstas de sus anteriores contenidos y las alinearon con los contenidos de los denominados “consensos” – tal el de Washington–, bajo la dominación de los “valores hegemónicos universalmente aceptados”.

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FOREIGN POLICY AND POLITICAL REGIME: THE CASE OF SOUTH AFRICA

Wolfgang Döpcke

I. INTRODUCTION

The experience of South Africa seems to confirm, at first sight, the existence of a strong relationship between the political regime on the one hand and foreign policy on the other. Firstly, since the emergence of the South African apartheid regime as an international pariah, the issues of the character of the domestic order and international politics seem to be strongly intertwined, both from the perspective of the regime and the international environment. South African foreign policy turned into one of the principal instruments of regime survival, into a means to protect white racist minority rule. Academic analyses of South African foreign policy thinking and behavior, of its articulators and protagonists, its means and instruments have reached some sort of consensus about these objectives. "Throughout the post-war period", argue Mills and Baynham, "successive South African governments made the creation of a stable regional milieu favorable to South Africa's economic and security interests a priority goal of foreign policy. Indeed, the stability of South Africa's domestic political order was perceived as critically dependent upon the success of such policy".¹ Barber and Barratt argue similarly in their textbook on the history of South African Policy. According to them, the preservation of white rule was the overriding aim of government policy, i.e. an objective which shaped domestic and foreign policy "as Pretoria fought to ensure the

¹ Mills, G. & Baynham, S., *South African Foreign Policy, 1945-1990*. In: Mills, G. (ed), *From Pariah to Participant: South Africa's Evolving Foreign Relations, 1990-1994*, Johannesburg: (SAIIA) 1994, p.11.

security, status and legitimacy of the state within the international community".² According to these authors, South African foreign policy had to adapt to an increasingly hostile international environment, from where, in the perception of the white political elite, parted the threats to regime survival. The stringent orientation of foreign policy towards survival has produced, along the years, a variation of concrete policies which culminated in the 1980s in military aggressions against the neighboring countries.

Secondly, South Africa's domestic order turned into an important issue in post-World War II international politics, as the regime's racial segregation was considered incompatible with the values of the community of states. Post-War decolonization and the resulting independence of the Asian and African colonial territories contributed substantially to South Africa's international isolation and the resurgence of an active stance against the apartheid regime on a world scale. Rejection of racial discrimination, especially in its perverse form practiced by South Africa's whites, was one of the few non-controversial issues in the post-World War II international community.

As the South African regime reduced effectively "national interests", as expressed in foreign policy, to minority group interests and utilized the foreign policy apparatus to enhance the group's survival in power, the legitimacy of the regime, representing South Africa internationally, was contested not only on moral grounds, resulting in the effective isolation of the country from the international community, but also in practical terms by a "counter foreign policy" conducted by the liberation movements, chiefly by the African National Congress (ANC). The international representation of the country became a highly contested issue, and by the 1970s the "counter foreign policy" of the ANC had made significant inroads in substituting the regime as the legitimate representative of the people of South Africa *vis-a-vis* the international community. The ANC, according to Evans and others, "became a significant actor in world politics, [which] seriously

² Barber, J. & Barratt, J., *South Africa's Foreign Policy. The Search for Status and Security, 1945-1988*, Cambridge (CUP) 1990, p.1.

hampered South Africa's ability as a normal state".³ That was the origin of a distinct foreign policy tradition, which, in the early 1990s, came to influence South Africa's new foreign policy.

The South African regime, in turn, sought to build its international legitimacy within the ideological framework of the Cold War divisions, projecting itself as an arduous defender of Western political (and culturally Occidental) interests against the "communist menace". Although it did not achieve a formal alliance with Western powers and a formal admittance into Western global defense strategy, South Africa was rather successful – economically, ideologically and politically – in forging links with the West.⁴ Consequently, much more closely than other countries the regime's existence became linked to international politics, making the regime very susceptible to the international political conjuncture. Thus, one can argue that, at least partially, the regime was brought down by the international environment – the end of Communism, sanctions and disinvestments, and the massive Cuban and Soviet engagement in Angola.

Thirdly, the radical regime change in South Africa towards a democratic and non-racial state inspired, it seems, an equally radical reorientation in the country's foreign policy. Aggressive destabilization and non-declared wars against its neighbors gave way to a pacific, anti-hegemonic multilateralism, guided by values such as the peaceful resolution of conflicts, respect of its neighbors' sovereignty, rule-based interaction of the international community, multiparty democracy, human rights and freedoms, non-racialism and non-sexism, among others. Africa-centrism and the philosophy of "Third Worldism" and Non-alignment substituted the desperate obsession of white-ruled South Africa to project itself as part of a narrowly defined "Western" or "European civilization" and of global anti-communism. Thus, the change in foreign policy between the apartheid period and the new

³ Evans, G., South Africa in Remission. The Foreign Policy of an Altered State, *Journal of Modern African Studies*, 34, 1996.

⁴ Borstelmann, Th., *Apartheid's Reluctant Uncle. The United States and Southern Africa in the Early Cold War*, New York & Oxford: (OUP) 1993.

South Africa, i.e. between two distinct regimes, could not have been greater.

South Africa's international insertions changed profoundly when the apartheid regime was defeated: the former international pariah was not only readmitted into the international community, with the end of economic and other sanctions and its return to international organizations, but also transformed itself into an highly esteemed member of the international community, a fact which, combined with Nelson Mandela's moral standing and reputation, led to high, though unrealistic, expectations and hopes about South Africa's real international power. Most dramatic was the country's insertion into the regional context. South Africa, which during the apartheid years was perceived by its neighbors as the main – perhaps the only – security threat in the region, and as the prime obstacle for peace and economic and social development, was expected to change its regional role from a coercive *hegemon* into a cooperative leader.

The empirical evidence for a close relation between regime change – the transformation of apartheid South Africa into a democratic, non-racial and Black-ruled state – and foreign policy change seems overwhelming and in a certain way obvious. Nevertheless, a close examination of the conduct of South Africa's foreign policy in the critical period since the early 1990s, as well as in a broader historical context, casts some serious doubts on an intimate and mechanical nexus between the nature of the regime and foreign policy.

In the first place, there were some dramatic changes in the conduct of foreign policy, its perceptions, ideologies, instruments and, at least, short-term aims during the apartheid years. There surely exist fundamental differences between Verword's "outward movement" of the 1960s, the policy of *détente*, which lasted until the mid-1970s and the "Total Strategy" of Botha's government during the 1980s, although all these major foreign policy shifts represent variations of the principal theme of regime survival in different international and regional environments.

Secondly, some of the major changes in the conduct of foreign policy seem to have occurred well before a definite regime change.

The abandonment of coercive and military hegemony was initiated, and demonstrated its first concrete result in the settlement of the Namibia question even before the succession of Botha by F.W. de Klerk as State and National Party President in early 1989. Even before the strategic decisions to initiate a political dialog with the Black opposition had been put into practice (early 1990) – a step which ultimately led to the formulation of a new constitution and to free elections in 1994 – South Africa's foreign policy had already been realigned and Pretoria's "New Diplomacy" was to orient the country's international insertion. Within the structures of the "old" regime the new foreign policy objectives, later to be imprinted upon the State, were formulated and initially realized. Thus, observers point to a striking continuity in foreign policy praxis (though not in its rhetoric) between the final years of the apartheid regime and the succeeding ANC government.

Thirdly, there seems to exist more profound continuities in South Africa's foreign policy behavior and its objectives, transcending the two regimes. The most important of these continuities derive from South Africa's economic insertion into the region, its potential economic hegemony and the articulation of economic interests in South Africa's foreign policy behavior. It can be argued that South Africa's economic hegemonic potential was not always and exclusively instrumentalized for political aims, i.e. as a weapon to drive African states into submission, but it was also driven by genuine economic interests like the search for markets. Southall for example tries to show that South Africa's "outward policy" did have major political, diplomatic and military aims, but was also "unambiguously associated with ... South Africa's urgent search for new markets."⁵ Thus, one striking feature of South Africa's new, post-apartheid foreign policy, i.e. the imperative of serving the economic interests of the country, which led to a dramatic export offensive towards Black Africa in the 1990s, might have structural roots, showing a complex continuity with former regimes.

⁵ Southall, R., *South Africa in Africa: foreign policy making during the apartheid era*, www.igd.org.za/pub/op.html, 1999.

The above outlined questioning of a straight and mechanical relation between foreign policy and political regime in the South African case will be exemplified in the following historical appreciation of the country's foreign policy.

II. SOUTH AFRICAN FOREIGN POLICY UNTIL 1988

The region at the Southern end of the African continent came under European influence and control in the 17th century, initially as an unimportant *entrepôt* of the Dutch mercantilist trade empire. Already under Dutch control the few white residents developed a trend to settle permanently: an incipient settler colony came into being, very much against the will of the Dutch government. This process gained enormous momentum when, during the Napoleonic Wars, Great Britain took over control of the Cape Colony and incorporated it into its growing empire. The influx of white immigrants increased dramatically after diamonds and gold were discovered in the interior, which sparked off a process of conquest of these territories by British imperialism, although they were also claimed by Boer sub-imperialism. White immigrants never came close to outnumber the African native population (during the first half of the 20th century, white population reached a relative peak of ca. 20% of South African population), but South Africa transformed itself into the only real white settler colony in Africa and, along the years, developed a diversified industrial economy, unparalleled in the continent. After two wars (1880-81 and 1899-1902) between British imperialism and Boer opposition, the modern dimensions of the South African state took shape. In 1910 the establishment of the Union of South Africa, comprising the four provinces of Transvaal, Orange Free State, Natal and Cape, marks a significant reconciliation of Boer and British interests, at the cost of the Black majority: racial segregation inspired the new State and the exclusion of most Africans from political participation characterized its Constitution.

The colonial division of the Southern African region at the end of the 19th century reflects the above described competition between

British imperialism and the “sub-imperialism” of the Boers, but also British territorial offensives with the aim to contain German and Portuguese colonialisms. The incorporation of Central/Southern Africa (Zimbabwe, Zambia, Malawi) into the British sphere owed much to the alliance of Cape-based British imperialism, South African capital interests and the South African tradition of settler expansionism. In the long run British imperialism in South Africa lost much of its influence: it won the (Boer) War but lost the peace, as the literature often puts it. In the sub-regional political context, though, it was able to contain South African expansionism and render as failures (with the exception of the illegal occupation of Namibia) all of South Africa’s several attempts to incorporate parts of the subcontinent into its own territory (Smut’s grand designs of a “greater Union”, incorporating all Southern Africa up to a line running through northern Mozambique to northern Angola; the attempts to integrate Southern Rhodesia as a fifth province in 1923 and the vigorous attempts to incorporate the High Commissioner’s Territories).⁶

Despite Great Britain’s mild “containment” policy, until the end of the Second World War South Africa’s regional interactions occurred in a friendly colonial environment, which inherited much of South Africa’s tradition of settlers’ hegemony and their institutions. This changed drastically after the end of the Second World War, when the world came to attach more importance to human rights issues and entered into its decolonization cycle, whereas South Africa intensified its racial discrimination after the installation of the National Party Government in 1948. The coming to power of the National Party, by a very doubtful electoral margin, representing popular Boer interests, marked a rupture in the political history of the country. Although there are important continuities, especially in the treatment of “native affairs”, between the segregationist pre-apartheid period and the

⁶ As an introduction to South African regional expansionism, offering different interpretations, see: Hyam, R., *The Failure of South African Expansion, 1908-1948*, London: Macmillan, 1972. Chanock, M.: *Unconsummated Union: Britain, Rhodesia and South Africa, 1900-45*, Manchester: Manchester UP, 1977.

apartheid era, it is nevertheless justifiable to argue that in 1948 South Africa experienced the establishment of a new political regime.

If we consider the basic definition of a political regime as “the totality of institutions which regulate the struggle for power and the exercise of power, as well as the praxis of the values which orient and direct such institutions”,⁷ it becomes clear that the apartheid state, developed from 1948 onwards, represents a distinct regime, not only in relation to the prior political order and in relation to post-apartheid South Africa, but also *vis-à-vis* the other regime types prevalent during that period: liberal democracy, monarchy, Marxist-Leninist regimes, military regimes and other manifestations of autocratic rule. Its underlying philosophy of deep and full restructuring of society along racial lines is almost unique in human history. Only national-socialist Germany succeeded in transforming race into such an absolute category of human existence like the South Africans and only national-socialist Germany developed an all embracing legal underpinning for its racial obsession like white South Africa did. But the similarities between the two regimes cease at this point. Whereas the objectives of German racial policy were directed towards the “racial purification” of the German nation, dealing with numerical minorities, and later to similar objectives in a broader, European context, which effectively led to policies of physically resettling the “impure races” outside the boundaries of the “Reich” and, when this proved impossible, to murder them on a gigantic scale, the South African apartheid regime was faced with the task to reconcile and negotiate two rather contradictory objectives: the utilization of Black labor, on which the economy and the whole country depended, and the separation of the whites’ and black’s spheres in all imaginable layers of life, with the systematic exclusion of the African population from political and social participation and the benefits of the country’s resources. Nuremberg-style laws, like the Prohibition of Mixed Marriages Act of 1949, as well as complex and sophisticated measures of population movement control, regulating the admittance to “white areas”, like the Pass Laws,

⁷ Bobbio, N., et.al., *Dicionário de Política*, Brasília: Edunb, 1992, p. 1081, (transl. by author).

were the result of this intricate encounter of “idealist” philosophy and economic necessities.

Another difference between the two racial states is important for understanding the peculiar character of the South African regime. Whereas national-socialist Germany was a totalitarian, fascist regime, South Africa was neither fascist (lacking for example the demagogic mobilization of the “masses”) nor totalitarian. It was a liberal democracy, and, at least until the 1980s, a rather thriving one in the African context, which, similar to classic Greek urban democracy, excluded the majority of its population from political participation and power.

Apart from the philosophy and governmental practice, the social basis of political power shifted substantially as a consequence of the two regime changes which South Africa experienced since the end of World War II. The Nationalist victory brought to power Afrikaner middle and lower classes, which used the state to embark on an extensive program of “positive discrimination”, privileging Afrikanerdom both against the Black majority and certain interests of international capital.⁸ The more recent regime change towards a “colorblind” universal liberal democracy brought to power, in social terms, an emerging African middle class, forming a tacit alliance with international and national capital interests.

As we know, the impossibility to reconcile the contradictory strands of the apartheid era – racial “utopia”, racial privilege and economic rationality – produced, in the end, the internal causes of the regime’s downfall. But only a series of external events made possible the acceptance by the regime of the fundamental failure in reaching its objectives.

Between 1945 and 1960, South Africa certainly emerged as what has been called an “international pariah”.⁹ But this happened in a

⁸ This theme, especially the discussion of the relation between capital and apartheid policy, has produced a great volume of, often contradictory, literature. See, for example: Lipton, M.; *Capitalism and Apartheid. South Africa, 1910-1986*, Aldershot: Wildwood House, 1986. Lapping, B., *Apartheid: a History*, New York: George Braziller, 1989. Adam, H.; Giliomee, H., *Ethnic Power Mobilized. Can South Africa Change?* New Haven and London (Yale UP) 1979. O’Meara, D., *Volkskapitalisme. Class, Capital and Ideology in the Development of Afrikaner Nationalism 1934-1948*, Johannesburg: Ravan Press, 1983.

⁹ Mills, G. & Baynham, S., *South African Foreign Policy, 1945-1990*, *op.cit.*, p. 10.

differentiated manner and to a varying degree. In this period, the preservation of the white-ruled apartheid order arose as the prime objective of South Africa's foreign policy. On the international arena, South Africa tried to link its racial project to the Cold War divisions and projected itself as the defender of Western interests and civilization. In a certain way, and despite almost universal condemnations of the regime's racial policy, South Africa became firmly linked to Western interests in post-war international order. Western Governments, especially the "globalist" US administrations, did perceive the South African "problem" on the background of Cold War divisions, be it in ideological, military and strategic terms (Cape route) or in terms of supply of strategic raw materials.

Numerous studies confirm this assessment. For example: writing on the early post-War South African policy by the United States, Borstelmann argues that the globalist Cold War perspective of US foreign policy towards Africa transformed America into a strong supporter of the white minority and of colonial regimes:

In its pursuit of the preoccupying goals of containing communism [...] the Truman administration provided critical assistance to the reassertion of white authority in southern Africa after World War II. The United States acted, in sum, as a reluctant uncle – or god parent – at the baptism of apartheid.¹⁰

US policy towards South Africa, although having this broad Cold War thread as its basis, oscillated between more globalist and more regionalist perspectives. Jimmy Carter's administration, for example, started with a regionalist view on the conflicts in Southern Africa, i.e. not attributing them to the struggle between "world communism" and Western interests, emphasizing the question of human rights and condemning the racist suppression in South Africa. Carter's government voted thus in favor of the mandatory weapons' ban against South Africa in 1977. Towards the end of his term of

¹⁰ Borstelmann, Th., *op.cit.*, p. 197.

office, Carter had transformed himself into a stern globalist; he became convinced that the invasion of Zaire's Shaba province was an international communist conspiracy, and reacted accordingly.'

The globalist perspective in US policy reached a climax when, in 1981, R. Reagan came to power and brought, as a "wedding present" to South Africa's whites, his policy of "constructive engagement". This policy, being articulated especially by Reagan's *Assistant Secretary for African Affairs*, Chester Crocker, supported a non-confrontation approach towards South Africa's white rulers, considered allies in the global struggle against communism. Through an "associative and constructive" dialog with South Africa's whites, the United States, which came to substitute Great Britain and Portugal as the chief Western power in the region, meant to create incentives for opening and change in the South African system. Besides displaying in practice a passive attitude towards apartheid, *Constructive Engagement* offered a *carte blanche* to the regime's aggressive regional policy of destabilization of the 1980s.¹¹ Reagan's, and also Thatcher's ascension to power and the resulting renewed Cold War fundamentalism in international relations rendered the South African regime and its struggle for survival a short, but significant, *Indian summer*, during almost the whole decade of the 1980s.

Economically, South Africa was firmly entrenched in the Western world, having developed very significant trade and investment links with major Western countries, principally Great Britain. Thus, until the 1980s, all demands for economic boycott of the country, articulated

¹¹ Wenzel, Cl., *Die Südafrikapolitik der USA in der Ära Reagan. Konstruktives oder destruktives Engagement*, Hamburg: Institut für Afrikakunde, 1990. Marte, L. F.: *Political Cycles International Relations: the Cold War and Africa 1945-1990*, Amsterdam: VU UP, 1994. Läidi, Z., *The Superpowers and Africa. The Constraints of a Rivalry, 1960-1990*, Chicago & London: Chicago UP, 1990. Coker, C., *The United States and South Africa, 1968-1985: Constructive Engagement and its Critics*, Durham: Duke University Press, 1986. But see as well Martin, who argues that US policy towards Africa had been more tolerant and more differentiated than the idea of an anti-communist crusade would suggest. Martin, B., *American Policy Towards Southern Africa in the 1980s. Journal of Modern African Studies*, 27,1, p. 23-46, 1989. See as well: Crocker, Ch., *High noon in Southern Africa. Making Peace in a Rough Neighborhood*, New York & London: W.W. Norton & Co., 1992.

as “voluntary” by UN organs with democratic representation, like the General Assembly, were vetoed by Western economic interests. Mainly the US and Great Britain prevented these moves to become mandatory and firmly defended the South African regime, advocating a strict separation of political and economic issues and arguing that sanctions would hurt the African population. As a result, South Africa became politically isolated from the majority of Third World states (that broke off diplomatic relations) and banned from many, though not all, multilateral organizations. Non-economic boycotts, like the sports boycott, had widespread adherence, but, although they were symbolically important and provoked a great deal of resentment among South African whites, did not represent a significant threat to the regime’s survival.

Western attitudes began to change gradually in the second half of the 1970s. Reflecting a relative decrease in economic importance to the West (and the accompanying rise of Nigeria as the major trading nation of the continent) and reacting to the brutal suppression of the 1976 Soweto protests and the killing of Steven Biko in 1977, while in police detention, Western countries began to harden their attitude towards the apartheid state, although avoiding a mandatory economic boycott. In October of 1977, the UN Security Council for the first time abandoned its tradition of vetoing mandatory measures against South Africa, and decreed a arms ban against the country. This move occurred 14 years after the UN General Assembly had declared a voluntary ban in 1963. Although South Africa had developed certain local arms production, this arms sales ban really hurt, and presented South Africa with a major problem, especially in its conventional warfare in Angola.

This first coercive step by Western countries was accompanied by a slight and rather cosmetic move on the economic front, in no way decisive. In 1974, Great Britain and, in 1977, the European Community established codes of conduct for their firms operating in South Africa. In 1978, the US passed a similar code (Sullivan Principles) as guidelines for US companies in South Africa. On the other hand, the Soweto revolt and political instability led to a crisis of confidence and a certain restraint of foreign investments.

However, despite the weapons' sale ban and the dramatically increasing internal conflict, South Africa continued to enjoy relatively stable relations with its main trading partners in the West. These stable relations finally collapsed when after 1984 a new wave of protest and violent repression seized the country, which drove South Africa close to a state of nongovernability. The West, deeply disappointed with President Botha's "reforms" and increasingly pressurized by civil society, finally passed significant economic measures against the apartheid regime.

These coercive economic measures against the regime started in 1986 and were pioneered by the Commonwealth, except Great Britain and the United States. After a profound shift of US public opinion, the North American Congress passed that year the Comprehensive Anti Apartheid Act, which led to the abandonment of Reagan's approach of "constructive engagement" towards South Africa and the implementation of rather severe economic sanctions against the regime by the US administration. Apart from significantly hurting South African exports to the US, the sanctions caused some major US companies to cease operations in the country. At about the same time (September/October 1986), the European Community finally made its move and passed a package of measures which aimed at halting investments in the apartheid state and banning a range of South African products imported by EEC markets. Japan followed suit in 1986. These measures, although never reaching the scope of a comprehensive economic boycott, certainly contributed to the regime's downfall. They increased sufficiently the crisis of confidence, which the regime suffered due especially to widespread insurrections and the rapidly deteriorating internal security situation, leading to capital flight, disinvestments, chronic inflation, difficulties in serving the growing foreign debt and a dramatic devaluation of the country's currency.

Thus, to conclude this part of the present paper, South Africa's insertion into the West and its relations with western powers did experience until the mid-1980s a high degree of stability and continuity, despite the worldwide moral rejection of the apartheid regime. There was no major policy change in foreign policy during

the long period from 1945 to the early 1980s. Consequently, the contested arena of South Africa's international environment was not so much the global but the regional environment in the African continent. On this stage we can observe major foreign policy changes *within* the apartheid regime since the end of the Second World War, as well as surprising continuities between the last years of the apartheid regime and the foreign policy of the ANC government after 1994.

III. SOUTH AFRICA AND AFRICA, 1945-1988

South African foreign policy since the end of the Second World War, focusing on the African and regional contexts has been divided in various ways by the relevant literature. Although the creation of a non-threatening, favorable regional and continental environment was the dominant thread in South Africa's regional policy, there were significant shifts and changes in the policies to implement such objective. Barber and Barratt, for example, try to understand the oscillations in South African foreign policy as cycles of challenges and reactions. They identify four major periods: 1945 to the early 1960s (reaction to growing international hostility and to African Nationalism); early 1960s to 1974 (the challenge by decolonization and internal nationalism was neutralized by economic growth and the ring of white territories); 1974 to 1984 (breakdown of white security ring) and from 1984-5 onwards (uprising and economic deterioration).¹² Mills and Baynham distinguish five periods until the demise of the apartheid regime: 1945 to 1960 (emergence of South Africa as an international pariah); 1961 to 1974 (the outward movement); 1975 to 1980 (Total National Strategy); 1980 to 1984 (Regional repression and internal reform); 1985 to 1990 (from emergency to accord).¹³ Finally, Southall suggests three main periods: 1948 to 1961 (resistance and adjustment to Africa's decolonization; 1961 to 1976 (emergence as "sub-imperial" power); 1976 to 1980s (transition from *détente* to destabilization).¹⁴ What

¹² Barber, J. & Barratt, J., *South Africa's Foreign Policy*, *op. cit.*

¹³ Mills, G. & Baynham, S., *op. cit.*

¹⁴ Southall, R., *South Africa in Africa*, *op.cit.*

emerges from these, and other periodizations, and what is relevant for our argument, is that since 1945 the pursuit of the security interests of South Africa in the sub-regional contest has produced at least three very distinct sets of policies, each of them distinct in terms of immediate objectives, policies and instruments.

Since the early 1950s, South African regional policy was put in the defensive, despite sometimes spectacular temporary successes. It reacted to challenges, which were considered to become more and more threatening.¹⁵ The initial reaction to the increasingly hostile international environment and the emergence of Black Nationalism was the intensification of apartheid efforts. Regionally, the decade of the 1950s was characterized by determined, though unsuccessful, attempts to incorporate the HC Territories.

According to Southall, during the 1960s South Africa emerged as the economic giant on the continent, a “sub-imperial” power. “The most immediate manifestation of South Africa’s sub-imperial role was its ‘outward’ policy: the systematic expansion of its relations with white-controlled and any black-ruled states that were prepared to ignore their distaste for apartheid in return for perceived material or political advantage.”¹⁶ However, the “outward movement”, i.e. the attempt to establish regular political and diplomatic relations with the African community of states, was much more than a cynical strategy to lure moderate states closer to South Africa by economic and financial bribes. It had, as one underlying theme, clear economic interests and a broad perspective of South Africa’s economic insertion into the continent. One South African concern was the labour supply to its booming economy, maintained, to an important degree, by migrant labour flows from neighbouring countries. The maintenance of foreign migrant labour flows from the whole of Southern Africa (Swaziland, Botswana, Mozambique, Malawi and, to a minor degree, Angola) became an important objective of the policy of *rapprochement* with African states.

¹⁵ See Barber and Barratt’s comprehensive study, which interprets South African foreign policy as cycles of challenge and reaction. Barber, J. & Barratt, J. *op. cit.*

¹⁶ Southall, *op. cit.*, p. 10.

Energy supplies, according to Southall, were another central economic concern, to be solved by regional cooperation. Thirdly, and most importantly, was the search for (African) markets for South Africa's growing secondary industry, a necessity given the restrictions of the home-market and serious balance of payment problems. South Africa successfully launched an export drive and established trade and other economic relations with a couple of African countries, overcoming even this traditional bias with respect to Southern Africa, especially the SACU (Southern African Customs Union) countries. The political project of the *rapprochement* with Africa, seen as a dialogue which was successful with a couple of "moderate" states (for example Malawi, Ivory Coast and other francophone states, Kenya, Sierra Leone) and even led to some sort of softening, though very ambiguously, of the official African position towards South Africa in the "Lusaka Manifest" of 1969.

As argued by Mills and Baynham, the "outward movement" was lost with South Africa's engagement in the guerilla wars in Portuguese Africa and Southern Rhodesia. Despite the apparent acceptance of African decolonization and the independence of the HC territories, and despite of the attempt to establish normal and non-violent relations with African states, the *cordon sanitaire*, i.e. the security ring of white-ruled or colonial states around South Africa (Angola, Mozambique, Rhodesia) was considered a vital part of its regime security. Thus pro-colonial cooperation with Portugal and the white regime of Ian Smith became one dominant feature even at the height of the "outward movement".

The collapse of Portuguese colonialism in Africa, following the overthrow of the Salazarist regime in April 1974, had a dramatic impact on the balance of power in Southern Africa. The initial reaction of the Pretoria regime in face of the dismantling of its *cordon sanitaire* was "cooly statemanlike",¹⁷ at least as far as the independence of "Marxist" Mozambique was concerned. The exposure of South Africa's and Namibia's borders to potentially hostile, anti-apartheid states, and the

¹⁷ Legum, C., *Southern Africa. The Secret Diplomacy*, London: Rex Collings, 1975, p. 5.

encircling of its only remaining white ally – Southern Rhodesia/Zimbabwe –, led to the formulation of a new initiative, the so-called *détente* – which governed South African regional policies during the mid-1970s. The underlying philosophy of this approach was a specific reading of the new regional situation. It was based on the hope that economic dependence would prevent a radicalization of Mozambique against South Africa and that “moderate” regimes in Africa would respond positively to South African signals of *rapprochement*. The key challenge of *détente* would be a peaceful solution of the remaining decolonization conflicts in Southern Africa (Zimbabwe and Namibia) and the installation in these countries of moderate governments. Without a solution, these conflicts, according to South African thinking, would “contaminate” and radicalize the whole region and increase the determination of African states against South Africa. Consequently, the apartheid state developed an intense diplomacy aiming at resolving the constitutional deadlock on the Rhodesian question, involving as well other southern African states like Zambia. On a continental scale, some conservative regimes (for example Ivory Coast, Malawi, Liberia) responded positively to the South African *rapprochement*.

In the Rhodesian case, Pretoria exerted considerable pressure upon the white minority regime of Ian Smith to enforce the acceptance of an African government in this colony. But in relation to the Namibian question South Africa showed much less inclination for a change and an effective retreat from this territory, which, according to international legal opinion, it had occupied illegally. To advance a constitutional and negotiated solution of the Rhodesian rebellion, South Africa successfully played the “economic card” towards some of the Frontline States (FLS), in particular Zambia. This country, and to a minor degree Tanzania and Botswana, were instrumental in forcing the liberation movements to the negotiation table, in the same manner as South Africa successfully pressurized Ian Smith to accept the inevitable. The result was the so-called Lusaka Agreement of December 1974 and some sort of precarious ceasefire between the contestants. *Détente* reached a public climax when, in August 1975, fearing the derailment of its efforts, Pretoria succeeded in staging an encounter

between Ian Smith, Kenneth Kaunda, the leaders of the Zimbabwean liberation movements and President Vorster, on the Victoria Falls bridge. To realize such conference, Vorster, as well as the FLS, had to dramatically increase their pressure upon their allies, which led effectively to the recall of South African combat assistance to Rhodesia and the imprisonment of *détente* adversaries within the liberation movements by the FLS.

Détente failed in the end, or, as one could also argue, temporarily, as far as the Rhodesian question was concerned. It failed absolutely from the point of view of South African objectives. The reasons for the failure were connected with Ian Smith's refusal to consider African majority rule, the divisions among the Black Zimbabwean nationalists, South Africa's own inflexibility in the Namibian question and the restraint exercised by the West towards the South African initiative.

However, according to general opinion, it was the South African military intervention in the Angolan civil war, culminating in a massive invasion between September/October 1975 and January 1976, which dealt the deathblow to *détente*.¹⁸ Curiously, the invasion, which did provoke a u-turn in regional international relations, can be considered as an attempt to save the *détente* exercise (but also South African hegemony over Namibia). A radical, "Marxist" government in Luanda was considered, not only by South Africa but also by Zambia, Zaire and other conservative states, as a threat and as a fundamental obstacle to the policy of promoting dependent and moderate regimes in the region. On the other hand, although having *détente* as its motive, the South African military intervention founded a new strand of regional policy, which came to dominate during the first half of the 1980s: violent, military destabilization. Before the intervention, South Africa had secretly cooperated with Portugal in the combat of the guerrilla movements and frequently crossed the Namibian-Angolan border in pursuit of SWAPO fighters. On the Zimbabwean stage, it participated

¹⁸ Legum, C., *Southern Africa. The Secret Diplomacy*, London: Rex Collings, 1975. Legum, C.: *Southern Africa: How the Search for Peaceful Change Failed*. In: Legum, C. (org.), *Africa Contemporary Record 1975/1976*, London: Rex Collings, 1976.

in combat by sending a small paramilitary police force. Nevertheless, so far South Africa had never used seriously its military force to intervene into a neighboring country. Although the Angolan intervention could be characterized as a *détente* exercise with military means, it was the beginning of a radical shift in South Africa's regional policy, the beginning of a massive violent and repressive intervention against the independent states of the subcontinent.

The opportunity for intervention arose when the Angolan decolonization, after the breakdown of the Alvor Agreement in March 1975, rapidly deteriorated into a civil war between the MPLA, FNLA and Unita,¹⁹ involving regular troops from Zaire and also armed exile groups like the "Katanga Gendarmes". The South African decision to intervene was made, according to observers, on a rather *ad-hoc* basis and did not follow a clear and genuine political or military planning.²⁰ According to Grundy, the military involvement, which was very moderate considering South African armed potential, was the outcome of a power struggle over regional policy in the heart of South Africa's regime and reflected a "compromise character of the decision and the conduct of the intervention, by which the hawks [mainly the SADF] secured the decision to attack provided the doves [the 'politicians' and the DFA] were mollified by a less intensive and extensive SADF deployment."²¹

The South African military campaign was accompanied by some fundamental miscalculations. In first place, South Africa seriously misjudged the determination and military potential both of her enemies (MPLA) and her Angolan allies (FNLA, Unita). Secondly, apart from receiving tacit approval by some conservative states, South Africa did not foresee the devastating political impact the invasion would provoke

¹⁹ FNLA – Frente Nacional de Libertação de Angola. Unita – União Nacional para a Independência Total de Angola. MPLA – Movimento Popular de Libertação de Angola.

²⁰ Stultz, N.H., South Africa in Angola and Namibia. In: Blight, J. & Weiss, Th. G. (orgs.). *The suffering grass: superpowers and regional conflict in Southern Africa and the Caribbean*, Boulder: Lynne Rienner, 1992. Grundy, K. W., *The Militarization of South African Politics*, Oxford: Oxford Univ. Press, 1988.

²¹ Grundy, K. W., *The Militarization of South African Politics*, Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1988, p. 90. SADF – South Africa Defense Force.

on the continent and, in turn, the legitimacy it rendered to the MPLA government. Thirdly, especially after encountering almost no resistance on its way towards Luanda, South Africa did not expect the substantial assistance Luanda was receiving in arms supplies from the Soviet Union and even less the presence of Cuban troops on the side of the MPLA army. Fourthly, and perhaps most importantly, the formal US support, which South Africa was expecting, did not materialize. Although the then US Secretary of State, Henry Kissinger, always denied it, it seems clear that the US had prior knowledge of South African intentions, and were monitoring the advance of its troops on Angolan territory. Marte and others analysts argue convincingly that one of the main objects of the invasion would be “to forge a formal Cold War alliance with the US, which was to serve as a smoke screen for maintaining white dominance in southern Africa.”²² But, fearing a new Vietnam, the US declined any formal support and left the South Africans on their own, deeply disappointed by the “treason” of the West. Faced with the possibility of a prolonged conventional war against Cuban soldiers and Soviet arms, only with very weak allies on its side (FNLA, Unita), South Africa opted for a rapid retreat from the Angolan scene in January 1976, suffering the traumatic experience of fighting militarily for the first time an “African war” and not being able to reach any of its objectives.

Détente was revived in the Zimbabwean case in late 1970s, again based on a fundamental miscalculation of the relative strength of “enemies” and “allies”, this time not only made by South Africa, but also by conservative Western Governments, like Margaret Thatcher’s administration. The outcome, again, did not please South Africa and finally sealed the fate of the *détente* policy, paving the way for military aggressions as a strategy in regional policy.

The Zimbabwean question came to prominence again after the guerrilla campaign gained much impetus with the breakdown of the first *détente* exercise and the independence of Mozambique, which exposed suddenly the racist regime to infiltration by armed nationalist

²² Marte, L. F., *op. cit.*, p. 317.

forces along its more than 1000 kilometers of border with the Frelimo state. But also the coming into office of a new US administration under Jimmy Carter, initially with a stringent regionalist perspective towards the conflicts in Southern Africa, strained US-South African relations and made South Africa revive its attempts to achieve a negotiated solution in Zimbabwe which would install a moderate Black government. Reacting to these internal and external pressures, Smith and Vorster launched the so-called “internal settlement”, which, counting with the collaboration of one (or two) of the nationalist leaders – Bishop Abel Muzorewa (and N. Sithole) – introduced a new constitution, gave the country its first Black Prime Minister but left power effectively in the hands of the white minority. It failed to curb the violence and the guerilla campaign, which instead increased dramatically in 1979, and did not receive international recognition. When, in 1979, the new conservative British Government showed a certain inclination to recognition of the Muzorewa government, it was Nigeria’s firm posture and its economic power, as well as pressures from the Commonwealth, which made M. Thatcher think twice. Consequently, the revival of Anglo-American constitutional proposals led to the convening of the Lancaster House Conference in December 1979, this time including the two liberation movements, which in the end were forced by the Frontline States to accept a negotiated solution. Britain’s and South Africa’s approval of free elections in Zimbabwe were based on the conviction, that the moderate Bishop, instead of the “communist terrorists”, would win such elections, especially considering the massive assistance he was receiving from the Botha government. Another miscalculation! In the March 1980 elections, Mugabe’s Zanu won 51 out of 80 seats – Muzorewa won only 3 – and subsequently formed a coalition government with Nkomo’s Zapu, giving the nationalists an overwhelming majority in the country’s first majority-ruled parliament.

As a result, in 1980 the *cordon sanitaire* finally collapsed and South Africa saw itself surrounded by African states, very likely to assume a proactive, hostile policy *vis-à-vis* the apartheid regime and to support the South African liberation movements. This transformed

regional situation, the growing internal insecurity and the first signs of growing international effective hostility towards the regime (UN arms' embargo) brought to a final end the *détente* approach and led to a dramatic reformulation of South Africa's regional policy and the launching of the "Total National Strategy". This radical security policy was based on the classical "zero-sum" game philosophy of a communist threat, i.e. attributed all security threats to the regime (for example the encircling of South Africa by "radical" regimes, the political and military campaigns in favour of a non-racist and democratic state carried out by SWAPO and the ANC, as well as the internal resistance) to one single cause: the so-called "total onslaught" by Marxism, communism and the Soviet Union. This "total attack" had to be countered by a "total strategy" in order to secure South Africa's survival. Although "total strategy" had been "pre-thought" and conceptualized within the South African Ministry of Defense already in 1977, it only came to be applied after *détente* was in shatters with Mugabe's victory in Zimbabwe, and when the resurgence of a Cold War fundamentalism in US foreign policy created a permissive international environment.

South African "Total Strategy" combined, in its regional focus, the following elements:

- 1) Direct military destabilization by rather large-scale military interventions and conventional warfare, without a formal declaration of war (in Angola from 1981 onwards).

- 2) Open combat assistance to insurgency groups (to Angola's Unita from 1981 onwards).

- 3) Financial and logistical assistance, provision of training facilities, arms' supplies and offering of safe retreat zones for insurgency and terrorist groups in Southern Africa in the fight of these groups against the "radical" governments in the region: Unita in Angola, Renamo in Mozambique, the militias of Muzorewa and Sithole as well as Zapu dissidents in Zimbabwe, the so-called Lesotho Liberation Army in Lesotho. In most cases, these groups were real proxies of South Africa; the operations, and sometimes the very existence of these groups, depended entirely on the South African engagement.

4) Sabotage of economic and military objects in the Frontline States by South African commandos. The blowing up of the Beira oil depots, attacks against Zimbabwean military installations and the destruction of the major part of the air force of this country and attacks against American-owned oil installations in Cabinda, Angola were the most spectacular of many acts of sabotage.

5) Economic coercion against those Frontline State which were, in one way or another, economically or infra-structurally dependent on South Africa (Zimbabwe, Mozambique, Lesotho, among others).

6) Involvement in *coup d'états* in neighboring countries (Lesotho, Seychelles).

7) The so-called “forward defense”: military attacks and assassinations against ANC and SWAPO, their bases, offices, representatives and members, against refugee camps and also against the police in almost all Frontline States.²³

The chief objectives of the South African destabilization policy were the coercive “neutralization” of the FLS (in respect of their anti-apartheid attitude) and the elimination of the threat to white hegemony in South Africa deriving from the activities of the ANC, SWAPO, the Black Consciousness Movement and, to a minor degree, the PAC (Pan African Congress of South Africa). The implementation of this strategy transformed Southern Africa, during the 1980s, into a large zone of non-declared wars and brought extreme insecurity and hostility to the sub-regional relations. The human suffering and the material losses were immense and are calculated in about 1,5 million lives and US \$ 60 billion.

The South African military strategy was accompanied, once again, by a scheme of coercive association and cooperation, the so-called Constellation of Southern African States (Consas). This scheme represented another attempt to create a *cordon sanitaire* of moderate states around South Africa, this time trying to take advantage

²³ Hanlon, J, *Apartheid's Second Front: South Africa's War Against its Neighbours*, Middlesex: Penguin Books, 1986. Davies, R. und O'Meara, D.; *Total Strategy in Southern Africa – An Analysis of South African Regional Policy since 1978*, Chan, St. (org.); *exporting Apartheid. Foreign Policy in Southern Africa 1978-1988*, p. 179, London: Macmillan, 1990.

of economic dependency and of the “fear” by conservative governments of leftwing radicalism and communism, represented presumably by the anti-apartheid forces. But the explicit refusal of even the economically dependent states, like the BLS States,²⁴ to participate in such scheme and the foundation of the *Southern African Development Coordination Conference* (SADCC) in 1980, as a direct challenge to South African economic hegemony, rendered abortive all attempts of association and reduced “Total Strategy” effectively to its military and violent components.

From today’s perspective, South Africa’s “Total Strategy” appears very much a desperate, useless attempt to prevent the inevitable from happening. But during the revived Cold War antagonism and R. Reagan’s crusade against the “Empire of Evil”, the utilization of South Africa’s military (and economic) supremacy to openly coerce African States into subservience seemed, from the South African point of view, a viable strategy. Initially, this approach resulted in impressive gains. “South Africa’s position as the dominant power in all of southern Africa increased dramatically”, argued R. Rotberg by then.

By mid-decade, South Africa had no local or global rivals for preeminence in the region south of Zaire and Tanzania. Despite its own profoundly unstable core, the extent of its newly accomplished hegemony had exceeded even the expectations of South Africa’s most optimistic strategic planners.²⁵

As a result of destabilization, South Africa was able to dictate to its neighbors the acceptance of so-called “non-aggression treaties”, in which the African governments were obliged to deny bases and other infra-structural support to the liberation movements (ANC and SWAPO) in exchange for the South African promise, never fulfilled, to stop the destabilization aggressions (Treaty with Swaziland in 1982, Lusaka Treaty with Angola in 1984 and the Nkomati Treaty with Mozambique of the same year).

²⁴ BSL States – Botswana, Swaziland, Lesotho.

²⁵ Rotberg, R.I., Introduction: South Africa in the Region – Hegemony and Vulnerability. In: Rotberg, R.I. (et. al.): *South Africa and its Neighbors. Regional Security and Self-Interest*, Lexington: Mass. Lexington Books, 1985. p. 1.

The implementation of South Africa's "Total Strategy" as a coherent strategy represents a dramatic shift in foreign policy, i.e. is a foreign policy change *within* the same regime. But at the same time it was intimately linked to broader political shifts within this regime and its power base, especially the rise to prime office (office of Prime Minister reps. of President) of P.W. Botha and, with this, the centralization of the key political and strategic decisions in the hands of a small power elite, composed predominantly of police and military personnel. In 1977 P.W. Botha himself, a Minister of Defense, was instrumental in the formulation of the principles of "Total Strategy". After his taking office, South Africa saw the "militarization" of its power structure and policy, in response to the internal and external threats,²⁶ in which the South African Defense Force (SADF) rose from an instrument of implementation to an organ of formulation of South African policy. Linked to this was the rise of the so-called *security establishment*, in the form of the State Security Council (SSC), in the center of the South African decision making process, in which the military had a majority. Thus, a militarized executive gained supreme power at the expense of the traditional power *locus* of white South Africa (the National Party), the (white) Parliament and those Ministries which were not straightforwardly linked to the military option, especially the diplomatic bureaucracy of the Department of Foreign Affairs (DFA).²⁷ The rise of the military to political power was also accompanied by a division within the white bloc and the resurgence of a radical conservative opposition against the National Party.

IV. THE "NEW DIPLOMACY"

At the height of South African regional coercive hegemony during the mid-1980s the ground was prepared for the final collapse of the regime. This complete *dénouement* of the white state, which,

²⁶ Grundy, K. W., *The Militarization of South African Politics*, Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1988.

²⁷ *Ibid.*, p. 88.

from today's perspective, seemed inevitable following an inescapable, inherent logic, was unimaginable in the mid-1980s. Furthermore, even with secret meetings taking place between Mandela and members of the South African Government since 1986, and the process of transformation set in motion in early 1990s, its final outcome was, by then, still unpredictable. Thus, the next radical shift in foreign policy, which began to take shape in the second half of the 1980s and which led, consequently, to the abandonment of the military option and of destabilization, happened in a domestic environment characterized by much more uncertainty than it would appear from today's perspective.

The reasons for the regime's collapse, which can't be analyzed here, have been explained in the relevant literature.²⁸ What is important for our argument is the fact that the reorientation in foreign policy began well before the regime change, or even before the transition towards the new regime. The abandonment of destabilization policies and the setting of the direction towards a new foreign policy occurred still within the old apartheid regime. In regional politics, the beginning of the changes pre-date even the substitution of Botha by F.W. de Klerk as President in 1989, although it might be argued that the abandonment of destabilization as a main point might only have occurred with de Klerk coming to power. From this perspective, the internal turning point is represented by de Klerk's famous speech of 2 of February 1990, when he announced the lift of the ban and restrictions against the opposition groups and the release from prison of Nelson Mandela.²⁹

The change in regional policies became visible much earlier, exactly with the negotiations of the South African retreat from Namibia and the independence of this country. Since the formulation in 1982 of the *linkage* between the Namibian independence and the retreat of Cuban troops from Angola by Cold War inspired US policy,

²⁸ As an introduction see: Sparks, A., *Tomorrow is Another Country. The Inside Story of South Africa's Negotiated Revolution*, South Africa: Struik Book Distributors, 1994. Beinart, W., *Twentieth Century South Africa*, Oxford: OUP, 1994.

²⁹ Venter, D., *South Africa and the African comity of nations: from isolation to integration*, Africa Institute Research Paper, n° 56, Pretoria: Africa Institute of South Africa, 1993.

the Namibian and the Angolan conflicts became intertwined politically and diplomatically. During the major part of the 1980s, this *linkage* served for South Africa as a convenient pretext to sabotage the Namibian negotiations and to end its illegal occupation of the territory in fulfillment of UN Resolution 435. The breakthrough came when the Soviet Union and Cuba became prepared to negotiate the two conflicts on the basis of the *linkage*. On 5th of August of 1988 the so-called Geneva Protocol was signed, providing a ceasefire between South African and Cuban troops in Angola and announcing the retreat of South African troops from this territory. Finally, the New York Agreement of December 1988 resolved the pending issues and paved the way for the retreat of the two armies and free elections in Namibia of November 1989, which were won overwhelmingly by the Liberation Movement, SWAPO. Thus, from the South African perspective, in March 1990 the Namibian equivalent of the ANC took power in the former German colony, which was considered during several decades South Africa's fifth province.³⁰

What caused this dramatic transformation of South Africa's regional policy which found its major expression in the independence of Namibia and the end of destabilization policy? Analysts point to an *ensemble* of reasons, although they attribute different relative importance to individual factors.³¹ The explanations centers on the transformation of the international environment – the end of the Cold War – and, as a consequence, the collapse of the ideological construction

³⁰ For the Namibian conflict and its solution see: Pycroft, C., Angola – The Forgotten Tragedy. *Journal of Southern African Studies*, vol. 20, n° 2, 1994, p. 241. Wood, B., Preventing the Vacuum: Determinants of the Namibian Settlement. *Journal of Southern African Studies*, vol. 17, n° 2, 1991. Hofmeier, R. (ed.), *Afrika Jahrbuch (1987-1996). Politik, Wirtschaft und Gesellschaft in Afrika südlich der Sahara*, Opladen, Leske & Budrich, 1988-1997.

³¹ See among others: Wood, B., Preventing the Vacuum: Determinants of the Namibian Settlement. In: *Journal of Southern African Studies*, vol. 17, n° 2, 1991. Hofmeier, R. (ed.); *op. cit.*, Marte, L. E.; *op. cit.*, Tvedten, I., US policy toward Angola since 1975. *Journal of Modern African Studies*, 30, 1, p. 31-52, 1992. Somerville, Keith, *Foreign Military intervention in Africa*, London: Pinter, 1990. Wardrop, J., Continuity and change in South Africa and in South Africa's relations with its neighbors. In: Bruce, R. D. (org.), *Prospects for Peace: Changes in the Indian Ocean Region*, Perth, Indian Ocean Center for Peace Studies, 1992, p. 253-272.

(the communist threat) which justified South African aggressions. The Soviet “retreat” from Africa seems to have preceded very much even the definition of the domestic soviet situation. Even before Gorbachov’s advent to power, it was felt, according to analysts, that the involvement in Angola (as well as in Ethiopia) was no longer a “low risk and low cost” possibility to confront Western hegemony. From 1985 onwards, Moscow increasingly felt “the burdens of its empire” and concluded that its African presence was to be sacrificed for the achievement of higher priority goals. Already in spring of 1986, Gorbachov’s “new thinking” would have reached Moscow’s Africa policy and the SU is thought to have indicated to the ANC the end of the armed struggle and the favoring of a negotiated solution to the South African domestic conflict. In 1987, Gorbachov came to accept the Namibian/Angolan linkage and by 1991 the military (and political) presence in Africa of the Soviet Union was already negligible.³²

But regional factors (like the transposition of military power in the South of Angola, the impact of the growing number of deaths of white soldiers in this war, the public campaigns against conscription among South African whites and the increasing costs of the war at a time when South Africa submerged into an economic crisis, as well as the lack of acceptance of the South African occupation among Namibia’s population) contributed also to the change in South Africa’s outlook. Decisive, from a military regional perspective, seems to have been the impasse and the high South African losses during the battles at Cuito Cuanavale in 1987-1988 (“South Africa’s Stalingrad”) and the loss of aerial supremacy in southern Angola.³³ While earlier South

³² Lefebvre, J.A., Moscow’s Cold War and Post-Cold War Policies in Africa. In: Keller, Edmond J. & Rothchild, D. (eds); *Africa in the New International Order: Rethinking State Sovereignty and Regional Security*, Boulder, Col. & London: Lynne Rienner, 1996. Light, M., Moscow’s Retreat from Africa. In: Hughes, A. (ed.); *Marxism’s Retreat from Africa*, London: Frank Cass, 1992. Grey, R.D., The Soviet Presence in Africa: an Analysis of Goals. In: *Journal of Modern African Studies*, 1984, 22, 3.

³³ Blight and Weiss cite an interview with Jorge Risquet, member of the Cuban Politbureau and principal negotiator of the treaties with South Africa: “Cuito Cuanavale was decisive. The negotiations came later. The battle of Stalingrad took place three years before the fall of Berlin, but it was at Stalingrad that the outcome of World War II was decided. ... The

African excursions into Angola during the 1980s were of very low risk, the military engagements in 1987 and in the spring of 1988 show a changed war and the limits of South African military power. Faced with the weakening of the military option, with *détente* among the superpowers and the threat of more severe sanctions, South Africa opted for exchanging Namibia's independence for the retreat of Cuban troops, a move in which neither South Africa nor Cuba would lose face.

The depreciation of the military option in Angola and Namibia had important repercussions for domestic politics and the internal decision-making process. Analysts observed a parallel realignment of power and influence at the heart of the government, already perceptible during the final phase of Botha's rule, which brought to the forefront again the "doves" and "diplomats" at the expense of the "securocrats". It seems that in terms of formulation of foreign policy the DFA, advocating a more political and diplomatic approach, regained preeminence. Parallel to the solution of the Namibian question, President Botha started a new diplomatic initiative, visiting several European and African countries. When, finally, F.W. de Klerk assumed power in the National Party and in the State, he rapidly completed this power shift and diminished drastically the influence of the State Security Council and the security establishment on the government decision-making process.³⁴

However, the solution of the Namibian conflict should not be seen as an isolated incident, but rather as one element in a broad

South Africans realized that putting up a frontal battle in Southern Angola and Northern Namibia would amount to the swan song of apartheid. So they decided to concede Namibia." Blight, J. & Weiss, Th. G. (eds.), *The Suffering Grass: Superpowers and Regional Conflict in Southern Africa and the Caribbean*, Boulder (Lynne Rienner) 1992: Conclusions: Must the Grass Suffer? p. 161. See as well: O'Neill, K. & Munslow, B., *Angola: Ending the Cold War in Southern Africa*. In: Furley, O. (org.), *Conflict in Africa*, London: Tauris, 1995, p. 183. Ohlson, Th., *The Cuito Cuanavale Syndrome: Revealing SADF Vulnerabilities*, in: Moss, G. & Obery, I. (orgs.): *South African Review* 5, p. 181, Johannesburg (Ravan) 1989. Gleijeses, P., *Conflicting Missions. Havana, Washington and Africa, 1959-1976*. Chapel Hill, North Carolina University Press, 2002.

³⁴ Wardrop, J., *Continuity and change in South Africa and in South Africa's relations with its neighbours*. In: Bruce, R. D. (org.); *op. cit.*

paradigmatic reversal of South African foreign policy, denominated, in the relevant literature as the rise of the “New Diplomacy”. This “New Diplomacy”, which was born during the final year of Botha’s rule, gained much impetus during the transition period of de Klerk’s government between 1990 and 1994 and which finally mutated into the main foreign policy orientation of the *Government of Unity* under the ANC, turned out to be one stringent link in foreign policy between the apartheid and post-apartheid eras.³⁵ “New Diplomacy” represents a dramatic foreign policy change still within the old regime, a change which symbolizes continuity between the two regimes. The main points of “New Diplomacy” were publicly formulated in 1989 by Neil van Herden, as General Director of the DFA, then the most senior South African career Diplomat:

- South Africa is part of the African community of nations;
- African problems must be solved by Africans;
- The use or support of violence for the promotion of political objects is unacceptable;
- Joint interest and responsibility in respect of the economic, sociological and ecological welfare of southern Africa must be the basis for co-operation and neighbourliness;
- Southern African states are interdependent and their future peace and stability are indivisible;
- A regional conference for the promotion of joint interests in southern Africa should be convened.³⁶

Evans argues that this “New Diplomacy” was not new at all and that it represented more a change in style than in substance. The central notion of South Africa as a hegemonic power in the regional context

³⁵ This argument is based principally on: Evans, G., South Africa in Remission: the Foreign Policy of an Altered State. *Journal of Modern African Studies*, 34, 2, p. 249-269, 1996. Vale, P., South Africa’s New Diplomacy. In: Moss, G. & Obery, I. (orgs.), *South African Review 6. From “Red Friday” to Codesa*, Johannesburg: Ravan, 1992, p. 424.

³⁶ Van Heerden, N.P., South Africa and Africa: The New Diplomacy. In: *ISSUP Bulletin*, n° 4, p. 1-11, 1989, cited in: Venter, D., *South Africa and the African comity of nations: from isolation to integration*, Africa Institute Research Paper, n° 56, Pretoria: Africa Institute of South Africa, 1993.

remained intact. Only the definition of hegemony shifted from “geo-political” to “geo-economic”.³⁷ Venter stresses also the “geo-economic” design of the new neo-realist diplomacy and argues that this policy saw the region mainly as an object for South African economic expansion. But “New Diplomacy” did put an end to the destabilization policy of the “Total Strategy”, at least as far as the government was concerned.³⁸ From 1989 onwards, the South African state rapidly dismissed violent coercive instruments in its regional policy.

The “New Diplomacy” gained force with the lifting of the ban against the anti-apartheid organizations, the freeing of Nelson Mandela and the end of the State of Emergency in 1990. President de Klerk and his Minister of Foreign Relations, “Pik” Botha, initiated a diplomatic offensive with the declared objective to reintegrate South Africa into the community of nations and to bring to an end the economic sanctions against the country. By February 1991, the (still white) South African diplomacy gained the initiative in respect to sanctions. The “counter foreign policy” of the ANC, the Organization of African Unity and the FLS, despite impressive public appearances by Nelson Mandela, lost control over the sanction process.³⁹ Also, on the African stage, the duo de Klerk/Botha obtained a series of diplomatic successes, despite Nelson Mandela’s determination to allow the normalization of South Africa’s foreign relations only after the conclusion of the constitutional conference and free elections. In the regional environment it was the severe drought of 1992 which, forcing many states to accept South African food aid, helped de Klerk to break the isolation.

Faced with the loss of control over the diplomatic process of South Africa’s international insertion, an issue which the ANC had

³⁷ Evans, G. *op. cit.*

³⁸ The continuation of support given to Unita and Renamo by sections of the security establishment during the early 1990s suggests questions similar to those concerning the internal situation: whether the state had a second, hidden agenda or whether the “dissident” part of the military tried to realize their own objectives.

³⁹ See: Hofmeier, R. (ed.), *op. cit.*, *The Financial Times*, 7.5.1991: “On the road to normalization”. *Die Welt* (Hamburg), 17.4.1991: “Geteiltes Echo am Kap auf EG-Entscheidung”.

very successfully conquered during the 1970s and which allowed the ANC to project itself as a “government-in-waiting”,⁴⁰ the liberation movement embarked on a major revision of its foreign policy, “bowed to the inevitable [...] and began the process of policy convergence with the New Diplomacy”.⁴¹ In a series of policy documents, the ANC recognized the dramatic changes in the international society, the collapse of its longtime ally, the Soviet Union, and the rise of a new multi- (or uni-)polar international order under capitalist socio-economic hegemony and dominated politically by the United States. The ANC and government foreign policy declarations converged, and, finally, in a key political document, in fact in its program of government (“Ready to govern”) of 1992, the ANC adopted the language and central concepts of “New Diplomacy”.⁴² Evans characterizes this as an “elite pacting” between the DFA of the white government and the ANC Department of Foreign Affairs and argues that “by the time of the elections in April 1994, in foreign policy terms at least, South Africa had become more or less a unitary state actor.”⁴³

V. POST-APARTHEID FOREIGN POLICY

But this “elite pacting” and the continuities between de Klerk’s and Mandela’s foreign policy, in the same way as the “neo-realist” u-turn in domestic policy orientation, made by the ANC and the South African Communist Party, did not remain uncontested. In terms

⁴⁰ Evans, G., *op. cit.*, Thomas, S., *The Diplomacy of Liberation: the International Relations of the African National Congress of South Africa, 1960-1985*, London: 1995. Johnstone, A. und Shezi, S.; The ANC’s foreign policy. In: Johnstone, et. al. (orgs.); *Constitution-Making in the new South Africa*, London: Leicester UP, 1993.

⁴¹ Evans, G., *op. cit.*, p. 258.

⁴² African National Congress: *Ready to Govern. ANC policy guidelines for a democratic South Africa adopted at the National Conference (28-31.5.1992)*, 1992. African National Congress: *Foreign Policy in a New Democratic South Africa. A Discussion Paper* (oct. 1993), 1993. African National Congress: *Discussion Paper: Foreign Policy Perspective in a Democratic South Africa* (dec. 1994), 1994. Department of Foreign Affairs (DFA), *South African Foreign Policy*, Discussion Document, July 1996. DFA, *Parliamentary Briefing*, sept. 1997. DFA, Statement on Nzo’s Budget Speech, 7.5.1998.

⁴³ Evans, G., *op. cit.*, p. 259, 266.

of public debate, the transition in foreign policy was far from a calm one. For the first time in South Africa's post Second World War history, foreign policy orientation turned into a publicly widely debated issue, involving academics, civil society, the press, members of Parliament and the very ANC and its political allies, in a free and inspired domestic discussion context. In this lively debate, the DFA was criticized for neither representing nor realizing a break with the past, neither in terms of the Department's composition, nor in relation to the foreign policy formulation ("elitist", "without public control"). The foreign policy of the new South Africa would simply accept the rules of the international game, would not show moral leadership and would not confront "global apartheid" and "international capitalism".⁴⁴ In this debate, distinct foreign policy traditions entered into confrontation, within the ANC (for example between cadres who had acquired political sensitivity within the country and those with an exile career) or between the ANC and the traditional *foreign policy establishment*.⁴⁵ In ideological terms, the dispute occurred between visions of an opportunistic insertion into the international system, being guided by pure economic advantages, accepting the rules and hierarchies of the international order and those which were prepared to question these rules and which proposed a foreign policy based on firm moral and political principles.⁴⁶

The meeting of these distinct foreign policy traditions led, in the long run, to the emergence of a new South African foreign policy "identity",⁴⁷ which attempts to combine rather contradictory ideological strands: a strong and sometimes even radical pan-africanist

⁴⁴ *Mail and Guardian*, 9.6.1995: "Foreign Affairs Department under Fire". *Mail and Guardian*, 8.9.1995: "The Realists in a Tussle with Radicals".

⁴⁵ Hofmeier, R. (org.), *op. cit.*, 1995.

⁴⁶ Hofmeier, R. (org.), *op. cit.*, 1995. Evans, G.; *op. cit.*, Shubin, Vladimir; *Flinging the Doors Open: Foreign Policy of the New South Africa*, CASA, Uni of Western Cape, Working Paper, Bellville (CSAS) 1995. Calland, R. e Weld, D., *Multilateralism, southern Africa and the postmodern world: an exploratory essay*, Bellville (University of the Western Cape, Centre for Southern African Studies) 1994.

⁴⁷ See: Cilliers, J., *An Emerging South African Foreign Policy Identity?* IGD, *Occasional Paper* n° 39, april 1999.

and “third-worldist” discourse and rhetoric, a middle power multilateralism, an explicit acceptance of the “new international agenda” and an economic “neo-realism”, which searches, without any ideological restraint, economic opportunities on a world and regional scale.

In the short run, this merging of distinct foreign policy philosophies created much confusion and caused the international prestige of the young state to suffer. Although, in general, the foreign policy praxis was clearly dominated by the realist, pragmatic and instrumentalist approach of the *de facto* Foreign Minister and Vice-President Thabo Mbeki, the tensions between a normative idealism on the one hand and the *Realpolitik* of the “New Diplomacy”, on the other, created the lack of a single profile during the first few years of South Africa’s foreign policy. On the one hand, the search for economic opportunities on the African continent, central element of the “New Diplomacy”, led to resurgence of South African economic hegemony in the sub-region, which provoked much consternation and rejection. On the other hand, politically and in terms of firm commitments, the ANC government’s policy of “low profile” caused much criticism on the part of those countries, which had hoped that South Africa would assume immediately a leadership role on the continent. The OAU and the Tanzanian ex-President, J. Nyerere, uttered their preoccupation that “(...) if South Africa continues to hide behind the rhetoric of not wanting to play a leadership role, Africa would indeed suspect a hidden agenda.”⁴⁸ The DFA tried to explain this regional political discretion as a reaction against military hegemony in the past: “Perhaps, initially, because of our past experience and fear of being accused of maintaining a Big Brother syndrome, we did not see ourselves as playing a leading role in the region. ... Our perceived reluctance to have a ‘hands on’ approach to our region and to be proactive in our continent has to some extent been viewed by our neighbors and friends with some suspicion and a great deal of cautions.”⁴⁹

⁴⁸ *The Star*, Johannesburg, 1996, 25.9., “African renaissance can’t remain romantic concept”.

⁴⁹ DFA: Background Document delivered by the MFA at the Parliamentary Media Briefing Week, 11.2.1997

But the striking contrast between a purposeful, aggressive economic realism and the lack of political commitments remained. President Mandela's own foreign policy initiatives only augmented the perplexity of the observers. Without the country having developed a well-founded policy *vis-à-vis* international conflicts, Mandela surprised the world with a series of sudden and spontaneous mediation attempts (in the conflicts in Zaire, Sudan, East Timor and Nigeria), which all failed, and a human rights initiative in the Nigerian case. Especially the handling of human rights abuses by the Nigerian military regime, oscillating between a high moral, non-realist radicalism and a abrupt policy reversal caused some irritation in the international community.⁵⁰ On the world stage, Mandela tried to balance his policy between excellent relations with the US and commitments to "old friends" from the era of the armed and diplomatic struggle (Cuba, Iran and Libya).⁵¹ But "neo-realist" opportunism did transcend also these relations. Observers were perplexed by the apparent contrast between a high moral rigor, expressed mainly by Mandela, and the sometimes straightforward economic opportunism, demonstrated, for example, in the case of arms exports or the question of diplomatic recognition of the non-democratic, but economically attractive China (PRC) and the dumping of democratic Taiwan, which had contributed substantially to the ANC's election campaign.

However, it was in South Africa's regional policy, as like in no other field of foreign policy, that the gap between declared principles and political praxis was most pronounced. In respect to regional policies, the ANC declarations were very straightforward and did not suffer from an adaptation to the changing world order. They attributed highest priorities to the sub-regional environment, whose societies, according to the ANC, had suffered much in solidarity with the struggle in South Africa: "The region [had] sustained us during the struggle

⁵⁰ *The East African* (Nairobi), 4.8.97: "Big Shift as Mandela Warms up to Abacha". *Frankfurter Rundschau*, 14.4.1996: "Ein Neuling, der in viele Fettnäpfchen tritt."

⁵¹ *Financial Times* (London), 3.10.1996: "Tricky balancing act. Policy makers are having to contend with the legacy of apartheid and old friendships". *Frankfurter Rundschau*, 22.10.1997: "Die USA suchten Mandela zu besänftigen".

and our destiny is intertwined with the region; [...]. Southern Africa is therefore a pillar upon which South Africa's foreign policy rests."⁵² Openly, the ANC and Nelson Mandela rejected hegemonic pretensions. Being aware of the economic inequalities and asymmetries in the region, the ANC declarations did not leave any doubt that the new government intended a radical break with the "geo-economics" of the de Klerk era: "A democratic South Africa should therefore explicitly renounce all hegemonic ambitions in the region. It should resist all pressure to become the 'regional power' at the expense of the rest of the subcontinent; instead, it should seek to become part of a movement to create a new form of economic interaction in Southern Africa based on the principles of mutual benefit and interdependence."⁵³

After the end of apartheid Nelson Mandela made a great effort to calm fears of a South African regional hegemony: "[A] democratic South Africa will ... resist any pressure or temptation to pursue its own interests at the expense of the subcontinent. (...) ... any move towards a common market or economic community must ensure that industrial development in the entire region is not prejudiced. It is essential therefore that a program to restructure regional economic relations after apartheid be carefully calibrated to avoid exacerbating inequalities."⁵⁴

But the praxis of South Africa's economic relations with its neighbors turned out to be very different and did not mark a break with the past. In fact, the new South Africa completed the "geo-economics" of the "New Diplomacy" of the de Klerk era without very much taking into consideration the legitimate interests of its neighboring countries.

Since the early 1990s, before the reintegration of South Africa into the international and sub-regional community, trade between the South Africa and the sub-region increased substantially, as a result of

⁵² ANC, *Foreign Policy in a New Democratic South Africa. A Discussion Paper*, out. 1993.

⁵³ *Ibid.*

⁵⁴ Nelson Mandela, South Africa's Future Foreign Policy. In: *Foreign Affairs* 72, nov.-dec. 1993, p. 91-2.

general trade liberalization (enforced by pressures from Gatt/WTO and the IMF) and of a systematic South African trade offensive, taking advantage of the opening of these economies. During the years of political and military confrontation, South African presence on the sub-regional, non-SACU markets had been reduced substantially. Since 1981, South Africa's export to non-SACU countries in the region declined in volume and value.⁵⁵ Zimbabwe for example, South Africa's "natural market" to the north, reduced its imports from South Africa from 27% of all imports in 1981 to 19% in 1990 and its exports to this country from 21% to 9%.⁵⁶

Africa began to open its markets again for South African products well before its democratic elections in 1994. The South African economy, amidst a severe domestic economic crisis, long-term decline of growth rates and official unemployment figures at around 35%, responded with unprecedented vigour.⁵⁷ Between 1987 and 1992 South African exports to Africa jumped from a 4% of all exports to 9,1%.⁵⁸ Between 1992 and 1994 trade with Africa rose by another 50%, reaching \$2.5 billion.⁵⁹ In 1995, 8% of all South African exports (outside the SACU) went to SADC countries, growing at rates of 20% annually.⁶⁰ Prime destination of South African exports is Zimbabwe, which assumes today for South Africa the same importance of the West German market. South African imports to Zimbabwe jumped from 19% of all imports of this country in 1990 to a staggering

⁵⁵ Maasdorp, G.G., Squaring up to Economic Dominance: Regional Patterns. In: Rotberg, R.I., et. al., *South Africa and its Neighbors*, p. 91, 1985.

⁵⁶ Engel, U., *The Foreign Policy of Zimbabwe*, Hamburg: Institut für Afrikakunde, 1994, p. 291.

⁵⁷ For statistical evidence of the decline of South African growth rates in the period 1960-1987, more marked after 1980, and its explanation, see: Kaplinsky, R., *The Manufacturing Sector*. In: Maasdorp, G. and Whiteside, A., *Towards a Post-Apartheid Future. Political and Economic Relations in Southern Africa*, London/Basingstoke: MacMillan, 1992, p. 83. Unemployment: *The Star*, Johannesburg, 1996, 19.6.: "Unemployment resists feeble assaults".

⁵⁸ Financial Mail, Johannesburg, 1992, 28.8.: "Trade. New directions".

⁵⁹ The East African, Nairobi, 1995, 24.7.: "S. African firms fill void as West turns elsewhere".

⁶⁰ Piazzolo, M., Südafrika, Wachstumsmotor der südlichen Afrika? In: *Afrika Spektrum*, 31, Jg., 96/3, Hamburg, 1996."

38% in 1996, only counting official trade.⁶¹ South Africa entered as well very successfully the Mozambican market. Between 1992 and 1993 South African exports to Mozambique surged by 42%, turning that country into South Africa's second largest African trading partner (after Zimbabwe) outside the SACU.⁶² But also outside the traditional scope of activities in Southern Africa, South African business is rapidly gaining ground. South African exports to African countries consist mainly in manufactured products, important for the South African economy due to their domestic linkages: thus a typical "colonial" exchange relation is becoming visible between South African and the rest of the continent.

The South African export upsurge is not accompanied by reciprocity: South Africa continues to import very little from its African trading partners. Until the end of the decade of the 1990s, South Africa's conquest of African markets was so successful that the country had a huge positive trade balance with every one of its African trading partners, with the exception of oil-producing Nigeria, Gabon and Egypt.⁶³ These huge trade deficits between South Africa and the region are not exclusively the result of "pure economy" and South African comparative advantage, but also the consequence of South African economic policies, which combined export promotion up to the point of subsidies (principally under the General Export Incentive Scheme) with elements of market protection.⁶⁴ Southern African countries like Zimbabwe saw their markets being "swamped" with South African products whereas their own products are being excluded from the huge

⁶¹ Mail & Guardian, 1997, 23. – 29.5., "South Africa accused of bully-boy tactics in trade with Zimbabwe."

⁶² The Business Herald, Harare, 1993, 3.6., "Pretoria seeks to boost trade with Mozambique". The Star, Johannesburg, 1994, 24.11.: "Trade boom for SA goods". South African firms as well gained a substantial portion of the aid funds entering Mozambique to assist the reconstruction efforts. South African firms have won major contracts for road and bridge construction, airport renovation and the elimination of land mines. It is not without a certain irony that South Africa is profiting from the destruction that it had helped to cause in Mozambique during the years of destabilization policy.

⁶³ SCMB International Business Centers, 31.5.2000, website: mbeni.co.za.

⁶⁴ See, for example: Muller, M., Some observations on South Africa's economic diplomacy and the role of the Department of Foreign Affairs, *IGD Occasional Paper*, n° 27, oct. 2000.

South African market. These conflicts culminated in what has been styled as a “trade war” between South Africa and especially Zimbabwe, which made some Zimbabweans proclaim that “President Nelson Mandela is doing more to hurt them now than apartheid ever did”.⁶⁵ South Africa’s rather ruthless trade offensive and its tactics of market protection, up to the point of delaying the implementation of the SADC Trade Agreement, provoked much criticism. Zambia and Zimbabwe raised the issue at the 12th SADC summit in 1996, where South Africa came “under fire” as well from other SADC countries.⁶⁶ At this point, the European Community also voiced criticism of South African policies, albeit light.⁶⁷

On the one hand, this economic neo-realism continues to characterize today South African regional policies and represents a striking continuity between the apartheid and post-apartheid eras. The determined search for economic opportunities in a globalized world economy represents now one dominant thread of South Africa’s international insertion. Globally, this finds its principal manifestation in the conclusion of free trade agreements with the leading economies (1999-2000 with the European Union, discussions with the United States and even with China are under way), again without taking into serious consideration the potential repercussions of these treaties for the SACU and SADC countries.⁶⁸

On the other hand, towards the end of the 1990s South African foreign policy seems to have overcome many of the deficiencies and lack of definition which governed the first years of the ANC government. The elements of this “emerging South African foreign policy identity”,⁶⁹ which cannot be discussed here in detail, are:

1. Acceptance of the globalized, hierarchical international economic order as a given reality and the search for a proactive, interest-guided

⁶⁵ Mail & Guardian, *Zim attacks SA on Trade policies*, Johannesburg, 1996, 7.6.

⁶⁶ The Sunday Mail, *SA under fire at SADC conference*, Harare, 1996, 4.2.

⁶⁷ The Herald, Harare, *View SADC with a soft heart, SA told*, 1996, 5.6.

⁶⁸ Weighing Pros and Cons of SA Free-Trade Strategy, *Business Day*, Johannesburg, 22.11.2002.

⁶⁹ Cilliers, J., *An Emerging South African Foreign Policy Identity? IGD Occasional Paper* n° 39, april 1999.

insertion into this order, exploring existing opportunities. This strand finds its expression in regional and global trade policies as well as in South Africa's policies towards NEPAD, and in the economic aspects of the African Renaissance philosophy.

2. A pan-africanist, "third-worldist" and even, sometimes, anti-globalist discourse (and sometimes even a corresponding praxis), serving South Africa's insertion in the African continent and the neutralizing of domestic criticism. This posture finds some clear expressions, even on the part of T. Mbeki, in the paradigmatic evolution of African Renaissance and NEPAD.

3. A stringent middle-power multilateralism (similar to Brazil's foreign policy posture), which insists on a rules-based international system, national sovereignty, anti-hegemonic, emphasizing national sovereignty and formal equality between states. South Africa's success in the field of multilateral relations is impressive, and much more convincing on a global scale than in the African context.

4. The plain acceptance of the "new international agenda" and its values like democracy, human rights, good governance, environmental protection etc.

5. But the South African discourse and praxis for promoting these values goes very much beyond an opportunistic appropriation of hegemonic ideas. In contrast to the superpowers' selective instrumentalization of these values in order to cover up their imperial interests and power politics, the South African commitment is much more serious and profound and is linked to South Africa's domestic environment and to the "lessons" that form the "struggle". South Africa's "obligations", arising from the anti-apartheid struggle, were formulated by President Mbeki in the following way: "As much as the rest of the world stood with us as we fought to end the system of apartheid, [...] so we do have an obligation ourselves to contribute to the construction of a better world for all humanity."⁷⁰ The call that

⁷⁰ President Thabo Mbeki in his State of the Nation Address before the National Assembly, 4 February 2000. In: Muller, M., *Some observations on South Africa's economic diplomacy and the role of the Department of Foreign Affairs, IGD Occasional Paper*, n° 27, Oct. 2000.

“domestic policy had to be translated into foreign policy”⁷¹ found its condensation in the basic paradigmatic assumptions of *African Renaissance*, which came to influence South African foreign policy thinking from the second half of the 1990s onwards. Thus, the values embodied in the “New South Africa” (human rights and freedoms, multi-party system and free elections, democratic and accountable government, non-racialism and non-sexism, rule of law etc.) deeply orient foreign policy thinking and praxis.⁷²

6. In relation to its “commitments” towards the African continent, South Africa finally came to assume a more proactive posture of leadership, much more in tune with its political and economic potential than the discretion shown during the first years of democratic rule. Under the name of NEPAD South Africa launched a continent-wide, neo-liberal variant of African Renaissance, assumed a decisive leadership in this scheme, constructed a power axis with Nigeria around the issues of democracy and human rights, reached finally a consensus of actively participating in peace missions on the continent and displayed, accordingly, a very active role in the Congo and Burundi peace processes; it assumed, after an initial hesitation, a decisive active role in the process of the transformation of the OAU into the African Union from 2000 onwards. It seems that South Africa finally found a stringent and genuine way of relating to the African continent with all its problems; a political and moral approach which supplements the economic realism of its foreign policy.

CONCLUSIONS

What conclusions can be drawn from this essay on the South African foreign policy since the end of the Second World War? Does the South African example show a stringent link between the character of the regime and the pursuit of foreign policy? Did the regime change,

⁷¹ Jackie Selebi, Director General of the DFA, during 1999 conference on foreign policy orientation, cited in: Muller, M.; *op. cit.*

⁷² Cilliers, J., *op. cit.*

from the apartheid era to a new, democratic and non-racial South Africa provoke a fundamental paradigmatic reorientation in the country's foreign policy? Many scholars and observers would unconditionally affirm such assumption, as it is argued by Olivier and Geldenhuys:

For symbolic and political reasons, the South African foreign policy continuum, which existed since autonomy from British rule, had to come to an end with the accession of the new ANC – dominated Government of National Unity (GNU) in 1994. The old regime's foreign policy and culture had to make way for political legitimacy defined by the ANC's vastly different political philosophy, external experience, constituency, and priorities.⁷³

Our own answer, though, is a little more complex. On the one hand, there really was a clear break in foreign policy after 1994, and especially since the second half of the 1990s, after the ANC-led government was able to overcome a certain lack of orientation and paradigmatic inconsistency in its foreign policy. Since the major function of the apartheid regime's foreign policy was its own defense, and “national interests” were defined in terms of white minority's interests, it is in a certain way obvious that the new democratic and non-racial regime defines very differently its foreign policy objectives and instruments. To this we can add the impact of the changed international and regional environment, which interacted with the South African state.

On the other hand, there were significant policy changes *during* the regime's existence, as well as the transcendence of the regime change by continuities in foreign policy. The pursuit of “national interests” (i.e. white sectional interests) did not lead to an uniform foreign policy praxis, as far as regional policy is concerned. Rather, the regime was faced with foreign policy options which varied from *rapprochement*

⁷³ Gerrit Olivier & Deon Geldenhuys, South Africa's Foreign Policy: From Idealism to Pragmatism. In: *Business & the Contemporary World*, vol. IX, n° 2, 1997, p. 365-6. In: Muller, M.; *op. cit.*

and *détente* to military aggression. The choice of specific policies depended on the regime's reading of the global and regional environments, their threats and opportunities, and the domestic situation. The outcome was some significant policy shifts within the same regime during the 50-old years of its existence. The second challenge to an intimate and mechanical nexus between the nature of the regime and foreign policy is posed by the existing continuities between the apartheid and post-apartheid eras. This paper argues that Pretoria's "New Diplomacy" of the late 1980s and early 1990s already embodied central elements of what would be New South Africa's foreign policy. "New Diplomacy" conditioned the new regime's international insertion by pioneering a "neo-realist" economic thread, which was only extended when the ANC took office. Did "New Diplomacy" simply anticipate the regime change and did it design a foreign policy which, under the old regime, did not have a chance of being realized? Yes and No. In a certain way, the positive response to the South African rapprochement by the African environment can only be understood on the background of the more serious regime change, which since 1990 became visible and credible. On the other hand, the "neo-realist" economic vector of "New Diplomacy" is deeply rooted in the South African historical experience and represents a continuity of economic hegemony in the region, which predates even the apartheid regime. This continuity shows that significant strands of South Africa's foreign policy transcend the regime changes and form a profound legacy, which no regime can ignore.

BRAZILIAN FOREIGN POLICY UNDER VARGAS, 1930-1945: A CASE OF REGIME TYPE IRRELEVANCE¹

Thomas E. Skidmore

The overarching goal of the project of which this paper is a part is a reexamination of the idea that democratic political regimes are more successful than their autocratic counterparts in responding to “the opportunities and challenges of the international environment.” My paper contributes to this reexamination by reviewing the links, or lack of them, between regime type and foreign policy in Brazil between 1930 and 1945. This period in Brazil offers an interesting case study because it covers several regime types – a provisional government (1930-33), a constitutional republic (1934-37) and a personal dictatorship (1937-45). The latter includes an opening of the system starting in 1943. This is also the period in which Brazil was positioning itself in a world that was heading toward and then engaging in the Second World War.

My conclusion, in a nutshell, is that the type of regime was not a significant factor in the development or conduct of foreign policy in Brazil during this period. The reason, in my view, is that most Brazilians – as may not be surprising in an enormous, sparsely populated country where most citizens lived far from its borders – did not consider foreign policy issues important to their daily lives or well-being. They preferred to think of Brazil as a world unto itself.

They were content, by and large, to delegate responsibility whether consciously or otherwise, for foreign policy making to their head of state and a few men gathered around him, bolstered by representation from key ministries and the higher military. Nor did these men abuse the trust placed in them, at least by the standards of the day. The major

¹ I am indebted to Karina Saltman, Amanda Andersen, Alda Amaral and Nicole Bush for research assistance and to Felicity Skidmore for her help, as always.

thread throughout my story is their consistent use of foreign policy to maximize Brazil's economic advantage, irrespective of the degree of democracy in Brazil or the geopolitical specifics of the world stage.²

BEFORE VARGAS: THE ESTABLISHMENT OF AN ENDURING FOREIGN POLICY CONSENSUS

Brazil became a Republic in 1889, when a loose coalition of Republican politicians, Positivist intellectuals, and disgruntled Army officers overthrew a monarchy that had ruled for almost seven decades. The overthrow was not motivated primarily by foreign policy considerations, but by an impatience, *inter alia*, with the country's slow pace of modernization.³

However, foreign policy objectives played at least a minor role in the following sense.⁴ Among the components of the Republicans'

² A note on sources is appropriate here. From 1930 to at least 1935, the press was relatively free. It was during these years that key professional associations were formed in Brazil – The Ordem dos Advogados do Brasil in 1930, The Academia de Medicina in 1931 and the Ordem de Engenheiros e Arquitetos in 1933. See Randal Johnson, *Literature, Culture and Authoritarianism in Brazil, 1930-1945*. In: *Working Papers of the Latin American Program at the Wilson Center, 1989*. There is no evidence in any of the publications of these associations of disagreement with Brazil's foreign policy. During the *Estado Novo*, there was certainly censorship – and repression – of dissenting groups, but little evidence that groups sympathetic to the Axis formed any significant part of the Brazilian public. Censorship collapsed by late 1943 and here again no significant foreign policy dissent emerged. It should be added that this paper does not cover the South American border conflicts and wars in which Brazil was normally only tangentially involved. For further detail see Amado Cervo and José Calvet de Magalhães, *Depois das Caravelas*. Brasília: Editora Universidade de Brasília, 2000. The Brazilian foreign policy's elite's principal concern within South America was Argentina, which was consistently regarded as a serious rival, if not a potential enemy.

³ One of the clearest formulations of this impatience may be seen in Serzedelo Correia, *O Problema Econômico no Brasil*. Brasília: Fundação Casa de Rui Barbosa, 1980. This book was originally published in 1903. For an introduction to the "Old Republic (1889-1930)," see Thomas E. Skidmore, *Brazil: Five Centuries of Change*. New York: Oxford UP, 1999.

⁴ An essential reference work on the history of Brazilian foreign policy is Amado Luiz Cervo and Clodoaldo Bueno, *História da Política Exterior do Brasil*. São Paulo: Ática, 1992. Also of value is the overview by Monica Hirst, *History of Brazilian Diplomacy* ([http://www.mre.gov.br/acs/diplomacia/ingles/h_diplom.](http://www.mre.gov.br/acs/diplomacia/ingles/h_diplom)) 27 Feb 2003. Readers should note my paper neglects Brazil's relation with her South American neighbors. I have not found any evidence in this literature on this subject that contradicts the thesis of my paper.

ideology for change was the view that Brazil would never achieve a position of economic power in the hemisphere as long as it retained what they considered the medieval trappings of monarchy.

That this regime change occurred without a shot being fired and was greeted largely with public indifference testifies to the decline in the popularity of the monarch –now an ailing and largely invisible old man. It was followed, however, by a decade of political instability that threatened the very existence of Brazil as a single country and postponed effectively any foreign policy initiatives.

The decade witnessed two major challenges to the new government: one by monarchist interests, the other by regional separatists. The former had some slight international flavor. A cabal of monarchist rebels, including large elements of the navy, staged a military rebellion against the vulnerable Republican regime. They created enough disorder to alarm the U.S. investors in Brazil –not the first or the last time U.S. investors have helped Latin American governments in order to protect U.S. assets. These investors dispatched a privately financed armada to Rio harbor, which was used to help defeat the rebels.⁵

With the Republican regime safely in place by the end of the century, the Foreign Ministry set about consolidating its international boundaries, several of which (for example, with Bolivia and Peru) had been contested. The conspicuous success of this initiative strongly suggests that dropping the trappings of monarchy, if not actually helping Brazil's image abroad, certainly did not hurt it. Baron Rio Branco (Foreign Minister from 1902-1912) who virtually dominated all foreign policy, was able, through extensive diplomatic efforts with countries likely to be involved in the adjudication process, to achieve boundary settlements that were in all cases decided in Brazil's favor.⁶ He also pioneered the close U.S. – Brazilian alliance, which

⁵ Steven C. Topik. *Trade and Gunboats, The United States and Brazil in the Age of Empire*. Stanford: Stanford University Press, 1996.

⁶ E. Bradford Burns. *The Unwritten Alliance, Rio-Branco and Brazilian –American Relations*. New York: Columbia University Press, 1966.

was to be the touchstone of Brazilian foreign policy for the rest of the century.⁷

The rest of the pre-World War I period saw Brazil working to assume the assertive international role the Republicans had envisioned when they seized power in 1889. The first sign was military—a build-up that included ultra-modern battleships. With the purchase of two of these behemoths in 1904, Brazil had suddenly burst on the world scene as a major naval power.⁸ The Army, by contrast, was far weaker. It was small, its equipment rudimentary, and its ammunition supply unreliable. In 1922 the Brazilian army chief of staff, General Tasso Fragoso, warned that his country's military weakness was encouraging Argentina to enclose Brazil in a "circle of iron." As a precaution Brazil stationed one third of its entire army in the border state of Rio Grande do Sul.⁹ Meanwhile the generals continued their plea for increased budgets.

The second sign of Brazilian confidence was economic—coming in the form of a monopolistic marketing scheme (1906) to maintain the international price of coffee, Brazil's prime export. Although in the very long run the scheme was self-defeating (the high prices encouraged competing producers to enter the world market), for the next half century it enabled Brazil to boost its coffee earnings well beyond what a free market would have yielded.¹⁰ As we shall see, in the 1930-45 era coffee market manipulation was once again an important instrument of foreign economic policy.

⁷ A recent evaluation of Rio Branco's influence is given in Fernando de Mello Barreto, *Os Sucessores do Barão 1912-1964*. São Paulo: Paz e Terra, 2001. This book also provides a useful schematic history of Brazilian foreign policy.

⁸ Zach Morgan, *Legacy of the Lash: Blacks and Corporal Punishment in the Brazilian Navy, 1860-1910*. Ph.D. Dissertation, Brown University, 2001.

⁹ Stanley E. Hilton, Brazil and the Post-Versailles World: Elite Images and Foreign Policy Strategy, 1919-1929, *Journal of Latin American Studies*, Volume 12, Issue 2, november 1980, p. 341-364.

¹⁰ Thomas H. Holloway, *The Brazilian Coffee Valorization of 1906*. Madison: The State Historical Society of Wisconsin for The Department of History, University of Wisconsin, 1975.

There is no denying, however, that Brazil was facing an uphill struggle in achieving its economic ambitions.¹¹ In the words of one modern analyst, the country faced “a very rapid increase in population, bad social indicators, perverse income distribution, balance of payments constraints, widespread government intervention, chronic inflation and fiscal imbalances.” After 1900 the Brazilian government’s main weapon to promote growth was an “extremely high protection of domestic industry against import competition.” It also intervened often in the foreign exchange market to manipulate the value of Brazil’s currency. Thus, the development of Brazil’s strategy to exploit the world economy for its advantage had its origins in these decades before Vargas achieved power.

The Great War brought Brazil’s first direct involvement in the European great power arena.¹² As befitted a minor power, Brazil remained on the sidelines of the European conflict as long as possible, a strategy later repeated when confronted with the rise of Nazism in the 1930’s. The end came in August 1917, when German submarines began sinking Brazilian merchant ships along the Brazilian coast as part of Germany’s “unrestricted submarine warfare.” After the loss of a string of ships the Brazilian government, encouraged by outraged public opinion (previously quiescent), declared war.¹³ Eager to promote its international visibility, now that the chips were down, Rio made a

¹¹ Marcelo Abreu and Dorte Verner, *Long-Term Brazilian Economic Growth, 1930-94*, Paris: Organisation for Economic Cooperation and Development, 1997, p. 21, 59. The external context of Brazil’s economic struggle in this era is analyzed in Winston Fritsch, *External Constraints on Economic Policy in Brazil, 1889-1930*. Pittsburgh: The University of Pittsburgh Press, 1988. For analysis of Brazilian economic history, especially industrialization, see Werner Baer, *The Brazilian Economy, Growth and Development*. (5th ed.) Westport: Praeger, 2001, Warren Dean, *The Industrialization of São Paulo, 1880-1945*. Austin: The University of Texas Press, 1969 and the chapters in Paulo Neuhaus (ed.) *Economia Brasileira: Uma Visão Histórica*. Rio de Janeiro: Editora Campus Ltda., 1980. The overwhelming need to integrate the national economy is stressed in Wilson Cano, *Desequilíbrios Regionais e Concentração Industrial no Brasil, 1930-1970*. São Paulo: Editora Unicamp, 1985.

¹² For an overall view, see Bill Albert, *South America and the First World War*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1988.

¹³ Even the German speakers in the three Southern states of Brazil, who were widely assumed to favor the Kaiser, joined the voices advocating support of the Allies.

token military commitment (a field hospital that, though modest, was universally regarded as an effective contribution to the war effort) in the war's last year.¹⁴

There was nothing token about Brazil's bid for a major role at the Versailles peace conference, however.¹⁵ Brazil's President, Artur Bernardes, had great expectations for his country's role in the nascent League of Nations. Earlier Bernardes had been outspoken in telling Brazil's Congress of its two-front international obligation – to maintain “great harmony of action in both America and Europe, where our entry into war gave us a position of real distinction.”¹⁶ Confident of Brazil's increased prestige, he instructed the Brazilian delegation in the strongest possible terms to fight for one of the few permanent seats in the League. Although in retrospect Bernardes was accused of poor judgment, he had not misread the desire of many of his fellow countrymen. São Paulo's liberal press, for example, was also projecting a heroic role for Brazil in the postwar world. The editors saw that there was in progress the “construction of a great power,” as “Brazil becomes the equal of the most developed nations.”¹⁷

It was not to be. Brazil's quixotic bid for a permanent seat went down to defeat, primarily because of lack of support from Spanish America. Bernardes' embarrassed delegation quit the League for good in 1926. Brazil's rejection by the diplomatic world would remain a lesson in geopolitical overreaching for years to come. Brazil's desire for enhanced international status remained a goal for the 1930s and 1940s, however, and would be reasserted strongly at war's end in 1945,

¹⁴ For a treatment of this subject, see Francisco Luiz Teixeira Vinhos, *O Brasil na Primeira Guerra Mundial*. (Rio de Janeiro: Instituto Histórico e Geográfico Brasileiro, 1990).

¹⁵ Stanley E. Hilton, Brazil and the Post-Versailles World: Elite Images and Foreign Policy Strategy, 1919-1929. *Journal of Latin American Studies*, vol. 12, issue 2, november 1980.

¹⁶ Stanley E. Hilton, Brazil and the Post-Versailles World: Elite Images and Foreign Policy Strategy, 1919-1929, *Journal of Latin American Studies*, vol. 12, issue 2, november 1980, p. 352.

¹⁷ Cited in Maria Helena Capelato, *Os Arazos do Liberalismo*. São Paulo: Brasiliense, 1989, p. 24.

when it took a lead in the founding of the United Nations at San Francisco.¹⁸

The 1920's, a decade fraught with political and ideological turmoil, brought major structural change to Brazil. On the level of ideology, liberalism – the dominant political and economic doctrine of the Empire and the early Republic – was now challenged by the new ideologies of communism, corporatism and fascism, each of which were to gain the spotlight in the 1930's.

As important as ideology was politics – a deepening split within the national political elite. Since the late 1890's presidential elections had been decided by consensus among the bosses of the major state political machines. In the early 1900's that consensus broke down amidst bitter inter-state rivalries. The climax came with the claimed electoral victory of the “official” candidate in the presidential election of 1930, which was immediately contested by an armed opposition accusing the incumbent government of electoral fraud. The higher military, fearing civil war, staged a “preemptive” coup in Rio. After some hesitation, the governing military junta handed power to Getúlio Vargas, the leader of the electoral coalition that had been declared the loser. The “Revolution of 1930” had carried the day.

THE LANDSCAPE OF THE NEW VARGAS GOVERNMENT

For the next decade and a half Brazilian public life was dominated by Getúlio Vargas.¹⁹ Although in 1930 he had already been federal Minister of Finance and Governor of Rio Grande do Sul, he was relatively little known on the national or international scene. His detractors then and thereafter called him “machiavellian,” “a chameleon,”

¹⁸ Once again, as had happened with the League of Nations, the Brazilians were hoping their wartime participation would carry them to victory in their quest for a permanent seat on the key policy making body of the new international organization, the Security Council of the U.N. Mario Gibson Barboza, *Na diplomacia o traço todo da vida*. Rio de Janeiro: Francisco Alves, 2002, p. 30-31. Once again they were disappointed.

¹⁹ For a succinct and highly insightful overview of this period, see Edgard Carone, *Brasil: Anos de Crise 1930-1945*. São Paulo: Editora Ática, 1991.

and “a sphinx.” All observers were struck by his deceptive passivity and avoidance of commitment. His favorite motto was said to be “Let’s let matters lie and see how they turn out.” But behind the façade of passivity lay a shrewd sense of timing, an uncanny ability to judge people, and a fierce devotion to staying in power.²⁰ One should not forget that soon after 1930 he centralized all significant police functions and made them all directly report to him.²¹

Upon reaching the presidential palace in November 1930, Vargas’ first task was to consolidate the revolutionaries’ hold on power. Most essential was confirming Rio’s (i.e. the national government’s) control of all the state political machines, several of which had opposed the Vargas candidacy and his subsequent revolutionary movement. Using his power as Provisional President, Vargas replaced every incumbent state Governor except one (Minas Gerais) with an “Interventor.” This strategy succeeded without struggle everywhere except in São Paulo, the home state of the recently deposed president, Washington Luiz. Opposition there to Vargas and the Rio government simmered and finally exploded into a full-fledged military revolt in July 1932, the minimum objective of which was to transform the state of São Paulo into an independent entity. It should also be noted that the rebels favored another losing cause: a return to the more decentralized liberal economic policy that had prevailed before 1930. Most of the federal army remained loyal to Rio, no other state intervened, the Rio government emerged victorious in six weeks and had no trouble in maintaining widespread diplomatic recognition as the legitimate Brazilian regime.²²

²⁰ There is no satisfactory biography of Vargas. An early, and therefore dated, attempt is available in John W.F. Dulles, *Vargas of Brazil*. Austin: The University of Texas Press, 1967. Vargas’s personal diaries have proved a distinct disappointment as a source on his behavior: Leda Soares (Ed.). *Getúlio Vargas Diário: 1930-1936*. Vol. 1, Rio de Janeiro: Fundação Getúlio Vargas, 1995 and *Getúlio Vargas Diário: 1937-1942*. Vol. 2, Rio de Janeiro: Fundação Getúlio Vargas, 1995. These volumes are not really diaries, but appointment books.

²¹ Vargas’s growing control over the police is described in Elizabeth Cancelli, *O Mundo da Violência: A Polícia da Era Vargas*. Brasília: Ed. UnB, 1994. Interestingly enough, Cancelli got much of her information from the reports of U.S. diplomatic personnel back to Washington.

²² Stanley Hilton, *1932 A Guerra Civil Brasileira*. Rio de Janeiro: Editora Nova Fronteira, 1982.

In the early 1930's Brazil was struggling to rise above marginal status on the world scene. It was an overwhelmingly rural society with a largely illiterate population. The relatively small urban populace was scattered among a string of largely coastal cities. Communication with the interior was tenuous, hardly surprising since the entire country had fewer than a thousand miles of paved highway. A single agricultural export, coffee, furnished 70 percent of Brazil's foreign exchange earnings, rendering the country vulnerable to price fluctuations in an unstable world market. Its army, even in the opinion of its own officers, was little better than third rate. The guiding challenges to foreign policy making for this fragile nation were economic, and remained so for the entire 1930-1945 period. Two were primary in 1930.

The first was to deal with the disastrous fall in foreign exchange earnings that was hitting all trading nations, whether rich or poor. The world price of coffee, like that of other primary goods, had been hit hard. Brazil's export prices had fallen by almost 40% by 1930. This had brought a punishing fall in the capacity to import finished goods, whose prices had fallen much less sharply. This worsening of Brazil's terms of trade further depressed the Brazilian economy, where industrialization required imported capital goods.²³ The most obvious way to gain the financing to industrialize its way out of the depression was to expand the market for Brazilian exports. Since this was a crisis faced by virtually every other economically ambitious developing nation, it is fair to say that the crash of the world economy had produced a much more internationally competitive economic environment.²⁴

The second economic challenge was a consequence of the first. Given her declining export earnings, Brazil could not afford to make the scheduled payments on her considerable foreign debt without virtually liquidating her foreign exchange reserves.

²³ Nathaniel H. Leff, *The Brazilian Capital Goods Industry: 1929-1964*. Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1968.

²⁴ The economic context for Vargas's entire career is analyzed in John D. Wirth, *The Politics of Brazilian Development: 1930-1954*. Stanford: Stanford University Press, 1970. An indispensable analysis on this topic is Marcelo Abreu and Dorte Verner, *Long-Term Brazilian Economic Growth: 1930-94*. Paris: The Development Center of the Organisation for Economic Co-Operation and Development, 1997.

BRAZIL AND THE COLLAPSE OF THE INTERNATIONAL ECONOMY: 1930-1935

In fact, Brazil survived the early Depression years remarkably well. Although her capacity to import averaged 30% below pre-1929 levels for the entire decade of the 1930's, industrial output declined less than 10% from 1928 levels and had even risen 5% above that level by 1933. Growth continued thereafter, with annual industrial output up 7.9% and annual GDP up by 5.7%.²⁵ Part of this success was attributable to Brazil's ability to sustain a high import level of capital goods which by 1940 was only 15% less in quantity terms than it had been at the end of the 1920s.²⁶

Brazil's impressive (in contemporary terms) growth record through the Depression was partly facilitated by the Vargas government's shrewd handling of the foreign debt. Given the decline in export earnings, having to pay off the foreign debt was a major constraint on Brazilian economic growth because it meant forgoing additional imports. In its first year the Vargas regime had already run through its gold and foreign exchange reserves and incurred an additional 6.5 million sterling pounds debt to the house of Rothschilds. Continuing to service the debt on the existing schedule was clearly impossible. Default was most unattractive since it would put Brazil on the black list for future credit. With great skill Brazil played the game of procrastination under the guise of negotiation.

First, it bought time in 1931 by negotiating a partial three-year funding loan. Three years later it negotiated a complicated new agreement that included reduced interest payments and postponement of capital payments. This agreement (called the Aranha agreement after Osvaldo Aranha, Finance Minister at the time) reduced the four-year obligation (the longer term obligation remained on the books) to 33.6

²⁵ Marcelo de Paiva Abreu, *Argentina and Brazil during the 1930's: The Impact of British and American International Policies*. In: *Latin America in the 1930's: The Role of the Periphery in World Crisis*, Oxford: St. Antony's College, 1984, p. 148-149.

²⁶ *Ibid*, p. 151.

million pounds sterling instead of 90.7 million.²⁷ Consistent with Brazil's developing relationship with the U.S., American creditors were singled out for some concessions –to the fury of the British.

Exploiting trade relationships also helped Brazil's economic fortunes.²⁸ The most important was Brazil's exploitation of the trade rivalry between Germany and the United States. As already noted, Brazil's principal trading relationship had shifted from Britain to the United States before 1930. The latter was freely preaching to Latin America the advantages of free trade. Brazil was less interested in lofty principles (which usually benefited the Americans) than in maximizing its foreign exchange earnings, and Germany offered that opportunity.

Starting in 1933 the new Nazi regime began its war-oriented economic build up. For its trading partners, Germany offered a barter system, whereby payment was made in "compensation marks" (Aski marks). This was a device for tying trade and thereby gaining economic advantage for Germany. But it was also attractive to its trading partners because the Germans set the Aski exchange rate lower than its exchange rate for the mark on a cash basis.²⁹

Brazil was attractive to Germany for its supply of raw materials, especially cotton, for which Germany now became a principal customer. Brazil also supplied coffee (which was in oversupply in Brazil), leather and tobacco. In return, Germany shipped the finished intermediate goods Brazil needed for industrialization and the armament needed

²⁷ Osvaldo Aranha was a loyal compatriot of Vargas throughout the 1930-1945 period. They both came from Brazil's southern most state, Rio Grande do Sul. After serving as Finance Minister, Aranha was subsequently Brazil's ambassador to the U.S. (1934-1937) and Foreign Minister (1937-1944). There is a well documented biography in Stanley Hilton, *Oswaldo Aranha*. Rio de Janeiro: Editora Objetiva, 1994.

²⁸ Brazilian civilian industrialists, who were obviously a minority voice among the public in the Vargas era, were often critical of what they saw as the Vargas government's excessive attention to agrarian interests in its trade policy. A good example is Roberto Simonsen's displeasure with Brazil's 1935 trade treaty with the United States. Marisa Saenz Leme, *A Ideologia dos Industriais Brasileiros, 1919-1945*. Petrópolis: Vozes, 1978, p. 174-176.

²⁹ There is a detailed analysis of the system in Stanley E. Hilton, *Brazil and the Great Powers, 1930-1939*. Austin: University of Texas Press, 1975. See also Ricardo Antonio Silva Seitenfus, *O Brasil De Getúlio Vargas: Formação Dos Blocos: 1930-1942*. São Paulo: Companhia Editora Nacional, 1985.

for defending Brazil's borders. The latter was a longstanding goal of the Brazilian generals, who remained intensely frustrated over their lack of modern equipment, and were having no luck getting it from the Americans. The particular beauty of the scheme from the Brazilian vantage point was the alarm it generated in the United States, with results to be described later on in my story.

ASSAULTS ON VARGAS FROM THE LEFT AND THE RIGHT, 1935-1937

In 1933, the members of Brazil's Constituent Assembly, which had been duly elected by a free and fair democratic process, voted in Vargas as President. They also drew up and ratified the Constitution of 1934, which formalized Brazil as a democratic state. In less than two years, Vargas' government was to face a revolt from the Communist left, and two years later a revolt from the fascist Right.³⁰

At first sight it might appear that these revolts were intended to change Brazil's foreign policy – the first in the direction of the Soviet Union, the second in the direction of Nazi Germany or Fascist Italy. In fact, however, both were motivated primarily by the desire to change the social and economic structure of Brazil itself.

The revolt from the left had its seeds in a Brazilian popular movement that included labor union members and had formed a coalition, known as the Aliança Nacional Libertadora (ANL), which gained moderate success in the 1934 Congressional elections.

As 1935 began, this coalition, now dominated by Communists, picked up momentum and visibility with rallies, marches and demonstrations. The Vargas regime, the higher military and the major establishment newspapers all became alarmed at the prospect that this leftist mobilization could destabilize the constitutional regime. In mid 1935 the Vargas regime, with wide popular support, pushed through Congress a tough Law of National Security. This gave the government emergency powers to muzzle, arrest and imprison the opposition. The

³⁰ Marcelo de Paiva Abreu, p. 151.

ANL was liquidated. But the world Communist movement, headquartered in Moscow, had not given up. It had been monitoring the developing nations for years for clues as to where the next Bolshevik-directed revolution might be feasible, and several Comintern leaders had already decided on Brazil as the leading prospect. A detailed plan of action scheduled for late July 1935 was formulated in Moscow. Money and forged documents were forthcoming, and non-Brazilian agents were selected, briefed and infiltrated into Brazil. Although Brazilian Communists, especially Luiz Carlos Prestes, the popular hero of the "Prestes Column," were incorporated into the planning, details about the overall initiative, including the exact timing of the revolt, were carefully held in Moscow.³¹

The Comintern strategists based their optimistic analysis on the supposedly deep penetration the Brazilian Communists had made in their national army, especially among the lower ranks. Once in control of the army, the Comintern reasoned, they could readily topple the Vargas government.

Reality proved otherwise. In November 1935 the rebels launched a series of ill-coordinated barracks revolts in Natal, Recife and Rio. They were rapidly outnumbered and crushed. Apparently the army commanders had been forewarned, perhaps through the offices of British intelligence (although that was never confirmed). In any case, the subsequent government crackdown liquidated what remained of the left. The military were thoroughly purged, the foreign Comintern agents arrested, and the Communist Party ranks hunted down, incarcerated and in many cases tortured. Vargas could now further consolidate his support among the higher army officers, who had reacted strongly against the attempted subversion of their ranks.³²

³¹ For an early account, see Robert M. Levine, *The Vargas Regime: The Critical Years 1934-1938*, New York and London: Columbia University Press, 1970.

³² The Communist revolt of 1935 has generated a large and growing historiography. This is hardly surprising since the interpretation of these events, along with the history of the Brazilian Communist Party, has great implications for our understanding of the left in twentieth-century Brazil. For an overview of the revolt, see Stanley Hilton, *A Rebelião*

Although Brazilian politics were changed as a result, in the sense that every subsequent government seeking authoritarian control, even after 1945, would point to the “Communist threat” as justification, this particular revolt did not lead to the end of democracy in Brazil.

That honor was reserved for the emerging threat from the Brazilian right. The movement in question was the Integralists. They were the declared enemies of the liberals, the Socialists and the Communists. Owing their origin in large part to a post World War I Catholic intellectual revival, their message was spiritual and Christian, as well as nationalist, and exalted such values as family, tradition and hierarchy.³³

In the mid-1930s the Integralists emerged as a major counterweight to the left, especially to the ANL. They were a paramilitary organization with uniforms, military-style drills and a strict hierarchical structure, and proved more than willing to confront the left in street demonstrations and rallies. With their green shirts and their all-out attack on traditional democracy, the Integralists were quickly dubbed, especially by foreign observers, the “Fascists” of Brazil. Their pronouncements teamed with praise for Mussolini and his authoritarian state. There was even a direct subsidy from the Italian government to the Integralists. But here again, there can be little doubt that this dynamic

Vermelha. Rio de Janeiro: Editora Record, 1986 and Nelson Werneck Sodré, *A Intentona Comunista de 1935*. Rio Grande do Sul: Mercado Aberto, 1986. The latter is by a long-time Communist officer in the Brazilian army. Marly de A.G. Vianna, *Revolucionários de 35*. São Paulo: Companhia das Letras, 1992, is an account highly favorable to Luiz Carlos Prestes. For an account based on the Moscow archives, see William Waack, *Camaradas*. São Paulo: Companhia das Letras, 1993. A useful collection of documents is included in Sodré, 1986. The treatment that most effectively puts the revolt within the larger context of Brazilian-Soviet relations is Stanley E. Hilton, *Brazil and the Soviet Challenge, 1917-1947*. Austin: The University of Texas Press, 1991. The most balanced account of the domestic scene is Paulo Sérgio Pinheiro, *Estratégias da Ilusão*. São Paulo: Companhia Das Letras, 1991, which considers the entire ideological context of the left.

³³ The best documented study remains Helgio Trindade, *Integralismo, o Fascismo Brasileiro na Década de 30*. São Paulo: Difusão Européia do Livro, 1974. For monographic studies, see René Gertz, *O Fascismo, No Sul do Brasil*. São Paulo: Editora Mercado Aberto Ltda., 1987 and Rosa Maria Feteiro Cavalari, *Integralismo: Ideologia e Organização de um Partido de Massa no Brasil (1932-1937)*. São Paulo: Editora da Universidade do Sagrado Coração, 1999. For one of the most comprehensive interpretations, see Stanley E. Hilton, *O Brasil e a Crise Internacional, 1930-1945*. Rio de Janeiro: Civilização Brasileira, 1977, p. 23-57.

right wing movement, with its strong following among military officers and the elite in general, was committed primarily to economic and social change within Brazil.

By 1936 the Integralists appeared very well situated, even appealing to middle and upper class Brazilians. Vargas needed these groups to support his anti-Communist regime and gave the Integralists the impression at least that he was sympathetic to their aims. Their leader, Plinio Salgado, fully expected to be named to a high governmental position.³⁴ But the higher military were suspicious of the ultimate impact of Integralism on Brazil and the political center was divided. Working closely with the military, Vargas staged his own preemptive coup. On November 10, 1937 he closed the Congress, discarded the Constitution of 1934 and unilaterally promulgated a new authoritarian Constitution. The *Estado Novo* was the result and the Integralists were to be given no part in it.³⁵

Some of their party faithful lost patience and in early 1938 tried their own coup with an unsuccessful armed attack on the presidential palace. The attackers were arrested, the Integralists outlawed, and their organization forcibly disbanded.

The story of Vargas and the Integralists is particularly interesting as an example of how domestic and foreign policy did (or did not) interact in Vargas's Brazil. At the same time Vargas was outmaneuvering the fascist element on the domestic scene, he was actually growing

³⁴ Since he had a solid Paulista electoral following, he could well have assumed that Vargas would welcome his presence in a governing coalition.

³⁵ The leading overviews of the *Estado Novo*, such as Jens R. Hentschke *Estado Novo: Genesis und Konsolidierung der brasilianischen Diktatur von 1937*. Saarbrücken: Verlag für Entwicklungspolitik, 1996 and Karl Loewenstein, *Brazil Under Vargas*. New York: Macmillan, 1942, devote virtually no coverage to the international relations of Brazil in this era. The same is true of the following treatments: Aspasia Camargo, Dulce Chaves Pandolfi, Eduardo Rodrigues Gomes, Maria Celina Soares D'Araujo and Mario Grynspan, *O Golpe Silencioso*. Rio de Janeiro: Rio Fundo, 1989. Lucia Lippi Oliveira, Monica Pimenta Velloso and Angela Maria Castro Gomes, *Estado Novo*. Rio de Janeiro: Zahar Editores, 1982, Dulce Pandolfi, *Repensando o Estado Novo*. Rio de Janeiro: Editora FGV, 1999 and Simon Schwartzman, Helena Maria Bousquet Bohemy and Vanda Maria Ribeiro Costa, *Tempos de Capanema*. São Paulo: Paz e Terra, 1984. The Pandolfi book is a collection of individually authored chapters. Boris Fausto's chapter on the international context is afforded only four pages in this 345-page book.

closer to Germany for economic reasons. The Aski mark system mentioned earlier reached its height over the 1936-38 period, exactly the period when Integralist terror reached its maximum operation with Brazil. Yet this economic link with Germany had no impact on how Vargas dealt with the Integralists.³⁶

It did alarm the United States, however. The economic reasons for this alarm were straightforward. First, Brazil's action directly repudiated the free trade principle that the American Secretary of State, Cordell Hull, was avidly advocating and on which the Americans were basing their own trade policy.³⁷ Second, it meant loss of an important part of the Brazilian market for American exporters. But there was probably an element of geopolitical concern as well, given the rising tensions between Nazi Germany and the rest of Europe and Vargas's bland dismissal of the motives behind the coup that established his *Estado Novo* (that history had rendered democracy "obsolete").³⁸

Vargas reacted to Washington's concern in his usual pragmatic way, which was spectacularly successful in this instance. He dispatched his passionately pro-American Foreign Secretary, Osvaldo Aranha, on a diplomatic mission of reassurance. He was to sell the *Estado Novo* as merely a local response to political realities.³⁹

³⁶ There has been considerable controversy over the degree of official anti-semitism in the Vargas era. Aside from Gustavo Barroso, the Integralist movement seemed relatively free of systematic anti-semitism. The federal government, especially in its immigration policy, was another matter, as Maria Luiza Tucci Carneiro argues (and documents). In: *O Anti-semitismo na Era Vargas: fantasmas de uma geração*. São Paulo: Brasiliense, 1988. For follow-up research by the same author see Ronaldo Franca, *Preconceito Oficial*. *Veja*. 22 March 2000. Jeffrey Lesser, based on a different interpretation of the documents, has contested Tucci Carneiro's argument. Lesser, *O Brasil e a Questão Judaica: Imigração, Diplomacia e Preconceito*. Rio de Janeiro: Imago, 1995.

³⁷ This was also the era of the Good Neighbor Policy which was, as one scholar aptly noted, "nothing more than an expression of the traditional, legal rights of states to respect for their sovereignty and national borders – something the United States had glorified in principle and violated in practice since its founding as a republic." Elizabeth A. Cobbs, *The Rich Neighbor Policy: Rockefeller and Kaiser in Brazil*. New Haven: Yale University Press, 1992, p. 35.

³⁸ This is well treated in Ricardo Antonio Silva Seitenfus, *O Brasil de Getúlio Vargas e a Formação dos Blocos: 1930-1942*. São Paulo: Companhia Editora Nacional, 1985.

³⁹ Aranha had to do a quick remake of his previously pro-democracy rhetoric. The change can be seen in his collected speeches. *Oswaldo Aranha, 1894-1960: Discursos e Conferências*. Brasília: Fundação Alexandre Gusmão, 1994.

The U.S. was in a weak position to retaliate economically, since Brazil was their sole supplier of coffee. So it chose to use the carrot rather than the stick in its efforts to weaken Brazil's links with Germany. Washington volunteered help with current Brazilian financial priorities, such as creation of a central bank, and did not voice any geopolitical concerns that it might have had. The Aski mark trade link continued, albeit at a reduced level, until the European war stopped all Germany's transatlantic commerce in 1940.

Brazil was also able to exploit the political tensions that culminated in the *Estado Novo* to wiggle out of the 1933 debt renegotiation agreement, which had committed Brazil to a four-year debt repayment schedule of its foreign debt. In November 1937, at the same time as the coup, Vargas simply announced a three-year unilateral default. His excuse was that Brazil could not both pay on the debt and finance the imports it needed for modernizing the railway system and rearming its military needed to protect its borders. In 1943, with wartime exports swelling the coffers, Brazil finally agreed on the repayment of its American and British debts. By this point the Vargas government had gained great economic advantage by successfully postponing payment for what amounted to a decade and being able, in the end, to discount part of the value of the remaining debt obligations. This all helped conserve foreign exchange, which, once again, could be used to finance imports for Brazilian development. It was diplomacy in the service of economic nationalism.⁴⁰

NEGOTIATING FOR ADVANTAGE IN THE GATHERING STORM, 1939-1945

As the decade of the 1930s drew to a close, the territorial expansion goals of both Hitler's Germany and Mussolini's Italy became

⁴⁰ Marcelo de Paiva Abreu, Brazilian Public Foreign Debt Policy, 1931-1943, *Brazilian Economic Studies* 4, Rio de Janeiro: IDEA, INDES, 1978, p. 105-140. For detailed evidence on Vargas's and the higher military's commitment to industrialization, see Stanely E. Hilton, Vargas and Brazilian Economic Development, 1930-1945: A Reappraisal of his Attitude Toward Industrialization and Planning, *Journal of Economic History*, vol. 35, issue 4, december 1975, p. 754-778 and "Military Influence on Brazilian Economic Policy, 1930-1945: a Different View," *The Hispanic American Historical Review*, vol. 53, issue 1, february 1973, p. 71-94.

even clearer and began explicitly to include increasing their influence in Brazil. This aim was certainly plausible, given the large Brazilian communities of immigrants from the two countries. Vargas showed no hesitation in using surveillance, and repression when necessary, to keep the foreign-language speaking Brazilian communities under control. At the same time, however, he continued trading with Germany while still cultivating the United States.⁴¹

Strongly isolationist sentiment in the U.S. had given Brazil cover to maintain a stance of neutrality, even as Hitler's war spilled over into North Africa, the Middle East, and east toward the Soviet Union.⁴²

What finally made the difference was Japan's surprise attack on Pearl Harbor in December 1941 and Hitler's reaction to it. United States public opinion turned around in a matter of hours, as America immediately declared war on Japan. Perhaps Brazil would have maintained its neutrality a while longer, if Hitler had not, in a precipitous and ultimately disastrous gesture, declared war on America.⁴³ Even Vargas could see the time for ambiguity was past. In late January 1942 Brazil broke off relations with Germany and in August declared war, joining the Allied side.

Thus began a three-year period of close wartime collaboration between Brazil and the United States.⁴⁴ With the Brazilian Air Ministry barely a year old, the U.S. immediately moved in to take over the

⁴¹ This process is thoroughly documented in Stanley E. Hilton, *Hitler's Secret War in South America, 1939-1945*. Baton Rouge and London: Louisiana State University Press, 1981 and his *Suastica Sobre o Brasil*. Rio de Janeiro: Editora Civilização Brasileira, 1977.

⁴² The finest overall interpretation of this period is R.A. Humphreys, *Latin America and the Second World War: 1939-1942*. London: The Athlone Press, 1981 and his *Latin America and the Second World War: 1942-1945*. London: The Athlone Press, 1982.

⁴³ There was a probability that Germany was going to declare war on the United States. But the timing was crucial. Ian Kershaw, *Hitler 1936-1945: Nemesis*. New York: Norton, 2000, p. 444-46.

⁴⁴ The premier source remains Frank D. McCann Jr., *The Brazilian-American Alliance 1937-1945*. Princeton: The Princeton University Press, 1973. For an interpretation of U.S.-Brazilian relations which is more critical of the U.S. see Moniz Bandeira, *Presença dos Estados Unidos no Brasil*. Rio de Janeiro: Civilização Brasileira, 1973. The American political scientist Lars Schoultz has given a blistering critique of U.S. Latin American policy, *Beneath the United States, A History of US Policy Toward Latin America*. Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1998.

training of Brazilian pilots and soon began furnishing hundreds of planes under the lend lease act. There followed a flood of other military equipment from the U.S. The U.S. also furnished financing for a national steel plant which was later constructed at Volta Redonda.

By 1943 the tide in Europe had begun to turn strongly in favor of the allies. In 1944, determined to be identified clearly with the winners, Brazil sent a combat division (upwards of 20,000 men) to fight alongside the American 5th Army in Northern Italy.⁴⁵ What was the shape of Brazil's international profile in 1945 compared with pre-1930. Above all, it was a shift of focus from Europe to the U.S. Britain had definitively lost its role as Brazil's leading trade partner. France had lost its dominance in Brazilian culture. Germany had lost its role as a key supplier of capital goods. In 1945 the overwhelming foreign presence in Brazil belonged to Uncle Sam.

And the winds of political change in Brazil were consistent with this reality. Vargas's authoritarian stance had been rendered obsolete by the Axis reversals on the battlefields of Europe and Vargas recognized that. As rumblings of opposition began to leak out, for example in the Minas Gerais Manifesto as early as 1943, Vargas was himself encouraging dialogue with political leaders he saw emerging.⁴⁶ The model that particularly impressed Vargas was the British Labor Party, because it had successfully combined trade union support with a commitment to democratic socialism.

⁴⁵ McCann has provided several accounts: Frank D. McCann Jr. *The Brazilian-American Alliance 1937-1945*. Princeton: The Princeton University Press, 1973 and his "The Força Expedicionária Brasileira in the Italian Campaign, 1944-1945". Paper for Conference of Army Historians sponsored by the US Army Center for Military History. Washington D.C.: University of New Hampshire, Department of History. June 9, 1992. For a Brazilian account, see William Waack, *As Duas Faces da Glória*. Rio de Janeiro: Editora Nova Fronteira, 1985. Vargas's view of this adventure of sending troops to Europe paralleled the earlier hopes that participation in WWI would greatly enhance Brazil's international image. In 1943 he predicted that "Brazilians would be the most numerous representatives of Latin culture among the victorious nations." Humphreys, *Latin America and the Second World War, 1942-1945*. p. 79.

⁴⁶ Here Vargas was revealing a flexibility and pragmatism that differentiated him from the "typical" Latin American dictator and led to his successful campaign to become Brazil's democratically-elected President in 1951.

So did the Liberals, who had lost in 1930 and who now saw their chance to return to power. One of their leaders, Virgílio de Melo Franco, gave a press interview in February 1945 in which he said on the foreign policy to come: “Penso que devemos seguir nos rumos invariáveis das tradições do Itamaraty (the Brazilian Foreign Ministry) máxime pelas diretrizes confirmadas nos últimos tempos...” Vargas’s problem was that the military did not trust him when he expressed his commitment to holding open elections and abiding by the result. They had their own plans for a return to democratic Brazil.⁴⁷ The same generals who had been key to the success of Vargas’s coup in 1937 ousted him from power in 1945 and presided over the election of a new Constituent Assembly in 1946, which reconstructed the basis of a liberal democracy. In this, the generals voted with the public, and the objectives, as always with regime change in Brazil, were primarily domestic.⁴⁸

⁴⁷ Virgílio de Melo Franco, *A Campanha da U.D.N. (1944-1945)*. Rio de Janeiro: Livraria Editora Zélio Valverde S.A., 1946, p. 135. The assumption of continuity from the Estado Novo is striking. In one authoritative account of the politics surrounding the fall of Vargas the description of the political debates on Brazil’s future includes virtually no discussion of foreign policy. John D. French, *The Populist Gamble of Getúlio Vargas in 1945*. In: David Rock (Ed.), *Latin American in the 1940’s*. Berkeley: University of CA Press, 1994, p. 141-165.

⁴⁸ For a close study of the U.S. Ambassador’s role in the fall of Vargas, see Stanley Hilton, *O Ditador & o Embaixador*. Rio de Janeiro: Editora Record, 1987.

POLITICAL REGIMES AND BRAZIL'S FOREIGN POLICY

Amado Luiz Cervo

INTRODUCTION

This study examines the relation between political regimes and foreign policy as part of the Brazilian historical experience. Furthermore, it focuses on connections between the nature of the regime and foreign policy. The hypothesis which guides the interpretation of the Brazilian historical experience can be formulated as follows: the change of foreign policy and of the “model” of international insertion occurs under the influence of specific factors, which may be related, or not, to the change of regimes or to the succession of governments within the same regime.

Two initial observations allow for a better comprehension of this hypothesis.

Firstly, in the Brazilian historical experience political transformations sometimes did not lead immediately to changes in foreign policy. This lack of change characterizes the Revolution of 1930, the implementation of the *Estado Novo* in 1937 and the re-democratization in 1985. An abrupt attempt to adapt the foreign policy to the new regime provoked sometimes a rapid return to former parameters. This occurred in the case of the “republicanization” of the foreign policy in 1889, during the recovery of the tendencies of the imperial diplomacy by Barão do Rio Branco in 1902, as result of the “occidentalization” or “americanization”, attempted by Eurico Gaspar Dutra in 1945. Other examples are the return to the nationalist parameters of the Vargas’ era (1930-1945) since 1947, the liberal pro-Occident “correction of routes” of Castelo Branco in 1964 and the recovery of the principles of the Independent Foreign Policy (1961-1964) by the military regime since 1967.

Secondly, Brazil's international insertion experienced changes of orientation within the same political regime. During the so-called Old Republic (1889-1930) there was an inflection of the foreign policy related to the perception of Brazilian interests. Such interests became more universal during the administration of Barão do Rio Branco, between 1902 and 1912, than they had been under the aegis of the Jacobin Republic implemented in 1889. The military government (between 1964 and 1985) gave a strong demonstration of change within the regime, when it recovered, between 1967 and 1985, the tendencies of national development of former presidents Vargas, Kubitschek, Quadros and Goulart (1951-1964). José Sarney's ascension to power in 1985 and the continuity of the democratic regime until the present day did not prevent a radical rupture in the concepts and orientations of Brazil's international insertion during the government of Fernando Henrique Cardoso (1994-2002).

Do these two observations allow the conclusion that medium and long-term tendencies prevail in the link between political regime and foreign policy? Is it possible to argue that there are factors, which have more influence over the foreign policy and the international insertion of Brazil than the succession and the nature of regimes, governments or political parties in power?

When regimes change, men in command are being replaced to greater degree than in the case of government changes within the same regime. However, there are variables which are independent of these factors and influence in depth the model of international insertion. Some of these variables, to be considered in this study, are: national identity, cultural identity, capacity of establishing internal consensus, degree of rationality in the management of the State's policy, existence, or not, of a national project, conflictive or cooperative relations of groups and social forces, autonomy of decision or subservience of the statesmen, resignation to external conditioning or national will.

The theme of this paper will be approached by two methods of analysis. We adopt, firstly, the multiple causes analysis of international relations, proposed by Jean-Baptiste Duroselle in his historically based

theory of international relations.¹ To interpret the Brazilian experience we work with the concept of national identity, recently elaborated by Celso Lafer with the aim of explaining continuity and change in Brazil's foreign policy.² After concluding this first part of the study, we apply the method of paradigmatic analysis, developed in our works on foreign policies and international relations of Brazil and other South America countries.³ Furthermore, the Brazilian case will be compared to Argentine's historical experience.

The paradigm of multiple causes in international relations is a well-known method of analysis, and it does not require here a conceptual elaboration.⁴ Paradigmatic analysis, which we have applied to the interpretation of the international relations in the South American region, will be explained in the second part of this paper.

A) THE MULTIPLE CAUSES ANALYSIS APPLIED TO BRAZIL'S FOREIGN POLICY

The French school of international relations seems to propose a “detachment” of contemporary international relations from political regimes, suggesting to the analyst the identification and the pondering of four great variables of international life: profound forces, the aims of politics, the components and the movement both of the forces and of diplomacy. This model of interpretation situates the regime on the side of foreign policy, conceived by the statesmen. To this effect, leaders

¹ Duroselle, Jean-Baptiste. *Tout empire périra. Théorie des relations internationales*. Paris: Armand Colin, 1992. Translated into Portuguese: *Todo império perecerá. Teoria das relações internacionais*. Brasília: EdUnB, 2000.

² Lafer, Celso. *A identidade internacional do Brasil e a política externa brasileira: passado, presente e futuro*. São Paulo: Perspectiva, 2001.

³ Cervo, Amado Luiz. *Relações internacionais da América Latina: velhos e novos paradigmas*. Brasília: IBRI, 2001. Cervo, Amado Luiz & Bueno, Clodoaldo. *História da Política Exterior do Brasil*. Brasília: EdUnB, 2002. Cervo Amado Luiz. Sob o signo neoliberal: as relações internacionais da América Latina. *Revista Brasileira de Política Internacional*, n° 43 v. 2, p. 5-27, 2000. Ibidem, *Relações internacionais do Brasil: um balanço da era Cardoso*, n° 45, v. 1, p. 5-35, 2002.

⁴ Cervo, Amado Luiz. *History of International Relations*. International Encyclopedia of the Social & Behavioral Sciences, Oxford, 2002, p. 7824-7829.

interpret forces according to their perception of interests, and take external decisions, engendering a policy. The regime is related to the qualities of the statesman in charge as well as to the institutional and operational dimension – instruments or mechanisms of action – that are available to implement such policy.

For the study of the Brazilian case, the literature suggests the concept of national identity as an instrumental category of analysis appropriate to unveil historically the multiple causes game. According to Celso Lafer, the Brazilian identity, as an explaining category of tendencies and changes in foreign policy, consists of five components: the historical legacy, the context of neighborhood, the asymmetrical insertion of a medium power, the development vector in the objectives of foreign policy and the process of external opening since 1990.

These components certainly are not object of this study, but we must take them into consideration, because, at first sight, they minimize the role of the political regime in the Brazilian foreign policy. But in which way?

There has already been established a direct relation between the Brazilian national identity – determined by the multi-ethnic and multi-cultural character of the society, as well as by her social-economic inequalities and heterogeneity – and the *historical legacy* of the Brazilian diplomacy, characterized as universalistic and contrary to any kind of segregation, as cooperative and opposed to confrontation, as pacifistic and oriented to the coexistence of differences, and as directed to juridical solutions, recognizing the rule of international law. These parameters of behavior suffered few changes with the succession of different regimes and governments. They create the perception of a contented country, rendering credits of sympathy and benevolence in international relations.⁵

⁵ See a collective work we have organized: *O desafio internacional, a política exterior do Brasil de 1930 a nossos dias*, Brasília: EdUnB, 1994, p. 25-31. See furthermore Amado Luiz Cervo and José Flávio Sombra Saraiva studies in Savard, Pierre e Vigezzi, Brunello (ed.), *Multiculturalism and the history of international relations from the 18th Century up to the present*, Milano: Edizioni Unicopli, 1999, p. 291 and 337.

The regional environment was important in the genesis of the Brazilian national identity and in the conduct of its foreign policy. However, the Brazilian case differs from many others as far as the impact of the *entourage* of the national identity is concerned. During the Regency period (1831-1840), when the Brazilian national state was consolidated, as well as and during the Second Reign (1840-1889), the Brazilian monarchy made great efforts to shape and secure the state's territory – removing threats to its integrity and delimitating its boundaries through agreements with the neighboring countries. Until about 1860, the image of a neighborhood of badly managed States contributed to generate a self-image of Brazil as a country equipped with civilized institutions. Argentina only got a positive image after the ascension to power of Bartolomeo Mitre, in the 1860s. These images of oneself and the other were transferred from the monarchic to the republican diplomacy and were deepened during the term of office of Barão do Rio Branco, between 1902 and 1912. Thus, the idea of superiority of force and civilization in relation to Brazil's neighbors was strengthened. These neighbors, it was concluded, should be well treated, especially because they were of little significance to Brazil's national life. This is the so-called *official cordiality*, which has been cultivated until the present day as a parameter of the Brazilian diplomatic behavior towards its neighbors.

Monarchists and republicans, democratic and military presidents, nationalistic and liberals: all of them emphasized, with notable continuity, the discourse and practice of official cordiality. Of course, there were moments in which Statesmen were inclined to break with this standard of behavior in the relations with Argentina. This occurred for a brief period at the end of the 1970s – during the office of Ernesto Geisel and his Chancellor, Azeredo da Silveira – because of the litigation concerning the utilization of the rivers of the River Plate Basin. Or still during the *diplomacy of obstruction*, practiced by the Brazilian chancellors between 1945 and 1956, particularly by João Neves da Fontoura, who saw the *rapprochement*

with the Peronist regime as a threat to Brazil's special relations with the United States.⁶

The Brazilian foreign policy is one of the reasons for asymmetrical insertion of the country in the capitalist world economy. It contributed to engender and maintain this type of insertion until the Revolution of 1930. Since then, the foreign policy inverted its historical function, transforming itself in an instrument devoted to eliminate these asymmetries and to pull the nation out of the conditions of a dependent and backward country.

Being a medium power imprinted ambiguous features on Brazil's external behavior. It created subservience during the expansion of the European international society under the aegis of capitalism in the first half of the 19th century. During the second half of the 19th century, the conservative elites who ruled the country formulated external policy objectives and attained them with notable coherence and rationality of conduct. Thus, the country solved its problem of labor supply putting an end to the slave trade and attracting free immigration; established a regional hegemony in the context of the River Plate Basin, while the national States there were being consolidated; settled its boundaries according to the *uti possidetis* doctrine and assured the autonomy of the foreign trade policy that had been sacrificed by the unequal treaties concluded with the advanced capitalist countries at the time of Independence. During the second half of the 20th century, the Brazilian medium power diplomacy – while seeking to attract external factors of development like capital, foreign investment and technology – tried to lead the Third World in reforming the international economic order, thus confronting concrete interests of the advanced powers.

Since the first government of Getúlio Vargas (1930-1945), development became the *vector* of the foreign policy, as it was

⁶ Spektor, Matias. O Brasil e a Argentina entre a cordialidade oficial e o projeto de integração: a política externa do governo de Ernesto Geisel (1974-1979). *Revista Brasileira de Política Internacional*, n° 45, v. 1, p. 117-145, 2002. Rapoport, Mario e Cervo, A. L. *El Cono Sur: una historia común*. Buenos Aires: Fondo de Cultura Económica, 2001.

formulated by Chancellor Ramiro Saraiva Guerreiro⁷. After securing territorial sovereignty and the delimitation of its boundaries, the development of the territory became the third successive historical function of the Brazilian diplomacy, according to the interpretation of Luiz Felipe de Seixas Corrêa⁸. Development, as a goal, became an element of the national identity.

In the Brazilian perception, the nation suffered from a certain inertia and did not respond to the economic challenges in the same way as this happened in the development process of the majority of the capitalist countries. Thus, it became the State's task to place the nation on the route to a capitalist modernization. This process was initiated by the Brazilian political leaders in the 1930s and maintained during the following decades in three distinct stages. The first one, from the 1930s to the 1950s, turned towards the setting-up of a modern industrial park. The second, from the 1960s to the 1970s, was aimed at the endowment of the economy with basic elements that would guarantee its greatest possible autonomy. The third, from the 1970s onwards, was dedicated to the acquisition and domination of advanced technology. These phases intersperse with actions and results and, obviously, did not correspond with periods of a closed or dissociated economy. What can be perceived, however, is the continuity and the rationality of a process, inaugurated in the 1930s, which was marked by the strong presence of the State, and which lasted until the advent of the neo-liberal governments of Fernando Collor de Mello and Fernando Henrique Cardoso in the 1990s. The failure of these two administrations – which were dominated by the objective of external opening, in contrast to the development policy demanded by public opinion – explains the election, for the first time in the history of Brazil, of a leftist government in 2002, a government prepared to

⁷ Guerreiro, Ramiro Saraiva. *Lembranças de um empregado do Itamaraty*. São Paulo: Siciliano, 1992. Vizentini, Paulo G. F. *Relações internacionais e desenvolvimento*. Petrópolis: Vozes, 1995. Albuquerque, José. A. G. (ed.). *Sessenta anos de política externa brasileira*. São Paulo: EdUSP, 1996, 4 v.

⁸ Corrêa. Luiz Felipe de Seixas. Política externa e identidade nacional brasileira, *Política Externa*, v. 9, n° 1, 2000, p. 29.

review the current development model which had substituted with market forces the State's prime role.

B) THE PARADIGMATIC ANALYSIS APPLIED TO BRAZIL'S FOREIGN POLICY

During the Great Depression of the 1930s Latin America broke with a model of international insertion, which had been followed since the time of its Independence, in the beginning of the 19th century. During more than one century the apparatus of the State, maintained the project of an open economy, exporting primary products and importing industrial goods – a model convenient to them. The State was used to serve the interests of these socio-economic hegemonic groups.

Although a constitutional monarchy, Brazil did not differ from the Latin American republics, as far as the liberal model of international insertion was concerned. This model of insertion prevailed in the whole period from the beginning of the 19th century until the 1930s. However, in the Brazilian case the long period of the liberal-conservative paradigm suffered some inflections. Between the transfer of the Portuguese Court to Rio de Janeiro in 1808 and the expiration of the Commercial Treaty with England in 1844, the country's foreign policy was subordinated to the paradigm of *open doors*, with which the European capitalist countries imposed their interests and the rules of their international society on the periphery.⁹ At this time, the Brazilian government signed about twenty unequal treaties, which conditioned the decision-making process and the structures of its international insertion to the capitalistic order, engendering the situation of subordination in its international insertion. An outcry against this subordination of national interests and of the decision-making process occurred in the 1840s, when a national project with certain degree of autonomy was formulated. This project continued to guide the conduction of the country's international relations until the end of

⁹ Almeida, Paulo Roberto de. *Formação da diplomacia econômica no Brasil. As relações econômicas internacionais no Império*. São Paulo: Senac, Funag, 2001.

the monarchic regime, but did not affect the essence of the liberal-conservative paradigm of that period, consistent with the so-called international division of labor.

The Republic, between 1889 and 1930, implemented another variable of the liberal-conservative paradigm, denominated diplomacy of agro-exportation by Clodoaldo Bueno.¹⁰ This occurred because the ruling elite, composed of farmers and a stratum of newly enriched people, had taken the place of the old imperial aristocracy in the control of the State, using its power to achieve its own aims. The Republic corresponds, therefore, to a political regime that reduced even more the definition of national interests, tying it to the objectives of the hegemonic socio-economic group.

Since 1929, the crisis of capitalism, which affected deeply the exports of primary goods, combined with social transformations – i.e. growth of the urban masses, birth of an incipient national bourgeoisie and of embryonic trade union organizations, demand for employment and industrial products, military and intellectual dissatisfaction with the century-old backwardness and dependence – explains the slow but steady rupture in the political sphere in the larger Latin American countries. The liberal-conservative paradigm of foreign policy did not correspond to this new external and internal conjuncture. The unilateral regime of *open doors*, imposed by the capitalist center and accepted by the Latin American governments, gave way to the formulation of national projects which imprinted a new direction on the foreign policies of the region. This new phase had as its archetype Brazil since 1930 during the Vargas' period. It became generalized with the ascension to power of Juan Domingo Perón in Argentina, the nationalization of petroleum in Mexico and the willingness of almost all great and small States in the region to support the expansion of secondary industries. Paradoxically, the worldwide crisis of capitalism immersed Latin America in a process of fast modernization, eagerly welcomed by the new political leaders. The origins of this dramatic

¹⁰ Bueno, Clodoaldo. *A República e sua política exterior, 1889 a 1902*. São Paulo: UNESP/Funag, 1995.

change towards national development can be found less in the rupture of political regimes in different Latin American countries and much more in the succession of the leading social groups. The old elites of the primary economy had lost power to a new urban leadership with a modern vision of their interests and of international relations.¹¹

The division of the world in antagonistic blocks facilitated the work of these new elites. They negotiated their adhesion to the war of the others in exchange for assistance to industry, export credit, private investments, etc. Until the eruption of World War II, Latin America opened its economies to international competition. This provoked initiatives by rival powers – especially Germany, Italy, France, Great-Britain, United States, Japan, Soviet Union –, which now became preoccupied with their presence not exclusively in the consumer markets, but chiefly in the local productive system, that was expanding and diversifying.

Since 1935 Brazil's foreign trade policy represents a concrete example of this change. It was guided by three principles: firstly, to take advantage of the rivalry between the antagonistic blocks that divided the world, with the intent to increase internal competition and external bargaining power; secondly, to maintain liberal trade with the United States, forcing this country to take decisions that were required by Brazil's new bargaining power; thirdly, to carry out barter trade with Germany and Italy, which was considered more adequate to the expansion of national industry.

The war created another favorable condition for Latin America's development policy. The continental solidarity became a preponderant factor in the strategic calculations of Roosevelt's government, which was willing to strengthen the economic base of the Southern neighbors, especially because this represented an important factor in the war efforts. In the Vargas' period Brazil knew how to manipulate with great ability

¹¹ The paradigmatic change in the regional dimension is described in my book *Relações internacionais da América Latina: velhos e novos paradigmas*, cited. See furthermore: Seitenfus, Ricardo A. S. *O Brasil de Getúlio Vargas e a formação dos blocos, 1930-1942*. São Paulo: Ed. Nacional, 1985. Moura, Gerson. *Sucessos e ilusões. Relações internacionais do Brasil durante a após a Segunda Guerra Mundial*. Rio de Janeiro: Fundação Getúlio Vargas, 1991.

this bilateral cooperation, while Argentina insisted on its neutrality, which was seen with reluctance by the United States' Department of State.

Therefore between 1930 and 1945 Latin America embarked on a new path with their States starting to orient foreign policy by a new paradigm. This was a convergent movement, although with different intensities among the governments. This conceptual change was little perceptible in the diplomatic language, with some exceptions; for instance, the messages of Vargas to the National Congress, in which he interpreted the diplomatic game as an egoistic economic game of the greater powers, related to the accomplishment of unilateral national interests. The change was more perceptible in the decision-making process. The governments of the region attempted to imitate the greater powers stressing unilateral action in the accomplishment of external objectives, which became directly tied to internal gains, identified as development gains. Those, in turn, became identical with the expansion of secondary industry.

Industrialization became, thus, the object of foreign policy, because it was expected from industry the increase of wealth, the provision of security, the opening of business for the national bourgeoisie, the expansion of employment for the urban masses and the modernization of the society as a whole – according to the judgment of the enlightened elite.¹²

The analysis made so far of the Latin American experience of that period places in the background the weight of political regimes in the explanation of the for the origin of the new paradigm of international insertion. The States of the region were governed by new leaders, who alienated the old oligarchies of the liberal-conservative age. These new elites adapted the understanding of national interest to the demands of a society in transformation. Thus, we can identify as components of the new paradigm of foreign policy some conceptual elements, such as: the idea that the decision-making process must be

¹² From my book, cited in the last note, p. 53-54.

nourished by adequate perceptions of the national interests; the notion that reciprocal gains must be attained in international relations, via negotiation; the objective of overcoming inequalities among nations; and, finally, a cooperative vision of world, permitting accomplishment of mutual interests among the peoples.

The genesis of the paradigm, which we will call *Developmental State*, occurred in Latin America between 1930 and 1945, under the impulse of social transformations which required a new pattern of conduct by the State. In its origin, the paradigm added to Brazil's foreign policy, specifically, three parameters: a) the perception that foreign policy should realize interests distinct from those of the previous phase; b) the perception that foreign policy should supplement the internal effort of development, displaying a new historical functionality; c) the perception that the efficiency of the diplomacy in achieving development-related results depended on the autonomy of the decision-making process; on the cooperative or non-conflictive character of the external relations; on a flexible and pragmatic foreign trade policy; on the prevalence of the economic objective over geopolitical alliance; on security; on the strategic partnership and international politics and, at last, on a balance in the negotiation with the great powers and the neighboring countries.

In Brazil, the *ratio* of the *Developmental State* prevailed over governments and political regimes during sixty years, between 1930 and 1989. However, as it had occurred with the liberal-conservative paradigm, the new paradigm of Brazil's international relations also suffered inflections.

The elements which composed the paradigm between 1930 and 1945, identified above, are not sufficient to explain continuity and change during sixty years. The paradigm was invented by the statesmen. Since the 1950s, economists of the Economic Commission for Latin America (ECLA/Cepal) had not only adopted the new paradigm but strengthened it in its economic dimension, improving the concepts of economic planning, center-periphery, industrialization, internal market, employment, national income, declining terms of trade etc. Two moments were important in the consolidation of the *Developmental*

State paradigm of foreign policy in Brazil: the conceptual definition elaborated in the 1960s and the operational viability demonstrated in the 1970s.

The Brazilian political and diplomatic thought applied to the country's international relations has not been homogeneous, as far as the implicit development model for the foreign policy was concerned. There was agreement between statesmen, intellectuals, diplomats, the military, politicians and leaders of social movements over one point: foreign policy should support the national development project. However, the Brazilian political thought was divided over the model of development to be implemented. This split deepened in the 1960s, when the different tendencies of the Brazilian public opinion radicalized. The movement provoked, finally, a clearer definition of the paradigmatic concept of *Developmental State*.

On one side there were the defenders of development associated with the forces of international capitalism; on the other, the protagonists of the independent national development. Although both lines of thought overlapped in a wide zone of convergence, they were sufficiently distinct and coherent to suggest two strategies of international insertion.

The tendency of associated development – whose representatives were, in the 1950s, João Neves da Fontoura, and, in the following decade, Castello Branco's group of the military, which had taken power in 1964, as well as the pro-Western chancellors Vasco Leitão da Cunha and Juracy Magalhães – involved extensive and cohesive parameters of foreign policy. Its protagonists advocated a development supported from outside by the forces of the international capitalism. The special relations with the United States – the matrix of the system – would be placed above any other variable of conduct. Important factors of development, such as capital, enterprises and technology, as well as political and ideological influence, would come mainly from the United States. For this model the required internal conditions would be a regulatory system favorable to the penetration by these elements, on one hand, and, on the other, an alliance in terms of international politics, geopolitics and security. The sphere of international economic relations merged, therefore, with the political and ideological sphere. This meant

adhesion to the doctrine of collective security, under North American hegemony, during the Cold War.¹³

The independent development – conceived by thinkers like Araújo Castro, San Tiago Dantas, Hélio Jaguaribe and the nationalistic military who took power in 1967 – involved different parameters of external behavior. Its protagonists desired a development sustained by internal forces, i.e. development which would be less dependent on capital, enterprises and technology from external sources. The relations with the United States, as well as the Cold War divisions, would lose importance in the view of the decision-makers. Security would be dislodged from the collective ideology of the west and would be associated with the effort aimed at economic and technological development. Solidarity with the Third World would be a natural result of this strategy and the foreign policy would raise the flag of a new international economic order. The regional environment would be seen as an area of convergence and expansion of interests of an even more robust national economy.¹⁴

The decade of 1960 saw the radicalization of these two tendencies of political thought. Between 1961 and 1964, the so-called Independent Foreign Policy was formulated. In 1964 occurred the military coup, and in 1967, a coup inside the coup, which led to a political reversion of the military regime. It can be argued that it was a decade of conceptual advance. In the 1970s, when the maturity of the development process allowed it, the penetration of the executive sphere by the idea of independent development became more perceptible from an operational point of view.¹⁵

¹³ Dreifuss, René Armand. *A internacional capitalista: estratégia e táticas do empresariado transnacional*, 1918-1986. Rio de Janeiro: Espaço e Tempo, 1987. Idem, *1964: a conquista do Estado*. Petrópolis: Vozes, 1981.

¹⁴ Jaguaribe, Hélio. *O nacionalismo na atualidade brasileira*. Rio de Janeiro: Instituto Superior de Estudos Brasileiros, 1958. Dantas, San Tiago. *Política Externa Independente*. Rio de Janeiro: Civilização Brasileira, 1962. Storrs, Keith Larry. *Brazil's Independent Foreign Policy, 1961-1964*. Cornell University, 1973, PhD Dissertation. Manzur, Tânia M. P. G. *Opinião pública e política exterior nos governos de Jânio Quadros e João Goulart (1961 a 1964)*. Universidade de Brasília, 2000, Tese de Doutorado.

¹⁵ Ligiéro, Luiz Fernando. *Políticas semelhantes em momentos diferentes: exame e comparação entre Política Externa Independente (1961-1964) e Pragmatismo Responsável (1974-1979)*.

As a whole, during the sixty years of development policy, i.e. between 1930 and 1989, the parameters of thought of the protagonists of independent development prevailed. There was, however, a permanent dialogue between the two lines of thought. During the period of the development paradigm, the genius of Brazilian political intelligence succeeded in balancing the two external strategies. The result was continuity and coherence in the decision-making process. Moreover, the progress made by Brazil between 1930 and 1989 owes much to a foreign policy based on an old balance between distinct conceptions derived from a complex society. The continuity of the development paradigm was not threatened by institutional ruptures of the political regime. This continuity is responsible for the maintenance of the decision-making autonomy in the political sphere, as well as for the creation of a strong national economic nucleus that pulled the country out of the economic and social infancy in which the liberal-conservative paradigm had kept it for more than a century. Being composed of a hybrid political thought, the Brazilian development became open to the forces of international capitalism. Still, it was sustained by an internally autonomous decision-making process. Diplomacy was thus able to exhibit a proper nationalism, which was universalistic, cooperative and ideology-free. The Brazilian experience was very different from the Argentinean one, where the institutional ruptures, much more numerous, were accompanied by a destructive will towards previous concepts and objectives. In Argentina there was an alternation of paradigms; in Brazil, a continuity.¹⁶

The transition from the military regime to civilian rule in 1985 apparently did not affect foreign policy, especially because this transition had been prepared since 1974 by the so-called “political opening”. Two facts may illustrate this assertion. Bilateral cooperation – that

Universidade de Brasília, 2000, Tese de Doutorado. Pinheiro, Letícia. *Foreign policy decision-making under the Geisel government. The President, the military and the foreign ministry*. London School of Economics and Political Sciences, 1994, PhD Dissertation

¹⁶ Guimarães, Samuel Pinheiro (ed.). *Argentina: visões brasileiras*. Brasília: Ipri-Funag, 2000. See, particularly, my text in this collective work, “A política exterior da Argentina, 1945-2000”, p. 11-88.

was to lead to regional integration with the creation of an axis between the Brazil of Sarney and Argentina of Alfonsín – had started to gain strength under the military regimes, with of agreements on the development of the rivers of the River Plate Basin and cooperation in the nuclear sector. On the other hand, the *Brazilian thesis* concerning the solution of conflicts in Central America has also survived the change produced by the succession of regimes.¹⁷

The paradigmatic change of the Brazilian foreign policy that led to the abandonment of the development strategy did not result from a regime change, because from 1990 onwards it occurred within the democratic regime. The neo-liberal governments which rose to power in the principal Latin America States in 1989-1990 – Pères in Venezuela, Fugimori in Peru, Gortari in Mexico, Menem in Argentine and Collor de Mello in Brazil – had displayed a notable convergence of thought and intentions with relation to the international insertion of their countries. Therefore the introduction of a new paradigm of foreign policy in Brazil was not an invention of the Brazilian political intelligence, it was, above all, an adhesion to a regional consensus.

In our studies on Latin America's international relations, particularly in comparing foreign policies of Brazil and Argentine, we have elaborated the concept of the *normal State* (*Estado normal*) substituting the *Developmental State* (*Estado desenvolvimentista*), in order to comprehend the new paradigm which became disseminated over the region. Although an early experience of the new paradigm had been launched by the military regime of Augusto Pinochet in Chile, it was adopted with enthusiasm chiefly by the democratic governments of the 1990's.¹⁸

¹⁷ Avila, Carlos F. D. *Opondo-se ao intervencionismo: o Brasil frente ao conflito regional na América Central (1979-1996)*. Universidade de Brasília, Tese de Doutorado, 2003.

¹⁸ The paradigmatic concepts of *development-aimed State*, *normal State* and *logistic State* were defined in the last chapter of the books *Relações Internacionais da América Latina, velhos e novos paradigmas* and *História da Política Exterior de Brasil*, as well as in two articles of the *Revista Brasileira de Política Internacional*, cited in note 3. See furthermore: Bandeira, Moniz. *Estado nacional e política internacional na América Latina (1930-1992)*. São Paulo: Ensaio, 1992. Bernal-Meza, Raúl. *Sistema mundial y Mercosur: globalización, regionalismo y políticas exteriores comparadas*. Buenos Aires: Grupo Editor Latinoamericano, 2000.

The introduction of the development paradigm in the 1930s was caused by two strands of determination. Externally, the capitalistic crisis affected the primary economy of the Latin American countries, turning obvious the disadvantages of the international division of labor established between center and periphery in the previous century. Internally, the social transformations required a diversification of economic activities, particularly the expansion of secondary industries.

The introduction of the paradigm of the *normal State* in the 1990s was also a response to external and internal impulses. Externally, the collapse of socialism, the triumph of the market economy and the mirage of globalization had taken the Latin American elites to consider that it was also convenient to put an end to the experience of the *Developmental State*. Internally, the crisis caused the crisis of the external debt of the 1980s, followed by economic recession and was interpreted as a consequence of the paradigm in force.

The neo-liberal governments considered the supremacy of the market and the withdrawal of the State as logical consequences of democracy. For these politicians, therefore, there was a nexus between the democratic system and the political paradigm, a link that, during the 1980s, had been ignored by the presidents of Brazil and Argentina, Sarney and Alfonsín. The *normal State*, this typical invention of Latin American political intelligence in the 1990s, represented, however, in historical perspective, a retrogression. Its more complete model is Carlos Saúl Menem's government (1989-1999) in Argentina, a government which became responsible for the bankruptcy of the nation.¹⁹

The *normal State* – initiated in Brazil in 1990 during the government of Collor de Mello and consolidated under Fernando Henrique Cardoso during his two mandates (1994-2002) – did not mean an adoption of the parameters of globalization or interdependence, as it occurred, for example, with the international relations of Spain and Portugal in the same period. The change in the Brazilian foreign policy in the 1990s, due to the indiscriminate opening of the economy,

¹⁹ Rapoport, Mario. *Historia económica, política y social de la Argentina (1880-2000)*. Buenos Aires: Macchi, 2000. Sebares, Julio. *Por qué cayó la Argentina: imposición, crisis y reciclaje del orden neoliberal*. Buenos Aires: Norma, 2002.

has deepened the country's structural dependencies in relation to the exterior. The logic of the historical evolution was interrupted by blocking a development process which had been under way since the 1930s. The experience of the 1930s – when the paradigmatic change provoked a dramatic advance in terms of national development – was not repeated in the 1990s under the sign of neo-liberalism. During the first period, the government led internal and external forces to a qualitative advance, reaching a new level of development. During the neo-liberal reign, the government introduced a strategy of destruction of the national forces, permitting its appropriation and control by the interests of transnational capitalism.

In effect, from a political perspective, the *normal State* has revealed itself *subservient* by sacrificing the autonomy of foreign policy and accepting the so-called Washington Consensus – that is, orders coming from the center of capitalism – as an inspiration for the decision-making process. The notion of national interest became sterile, since those orders dictated the interests of the advanced countries. From an economic perspective, the *normal State* has showed itself *destructive* firstly, by dissolving the robust nucleus of the national economy, alienating to the exterior the assets of privatized companies; secondly, by transferring national income to the exterior in an alarming volume, either via shares or financial speculation. From a historical perspective, the *normal State* has shown itself *regressive*, pushing the national economy towards the primary sector, reestablishing thus, in certain way, the liberal-conservative paradigm of the 19th century.

Fernando Henrique Cardoso – who dominated the political thought and foreign policy, and made possible the emergence of the paradigm of the *normal State* – fought with destructive will the concepts and intentions of the *Developmental State*. Nevertheless, due to his intelligence, he was not as consistent as his Argentinean colleague in the implementation of the three parameters of the *normal State*. On a small scale Cardoso preserved the influence of certain principles and intentions of the previous phase and has sown the seeds of another paradigm of external behavior, that we call *logistic State*, reproducing

timidly the mature behavior of advanced countries, which continue to defend their national interests in the age of globalization.

During the election campaign which resulted in the victory of Luiz Inácio Lula da Silva, the central argument, which convinced public opinion, consisted of criticism of Cardoso's model.²⁰ This model would have deepened the social exclusion in Brazil as well as the structural dependencies of the exterior. In other words, it had not created a mature insertion into the world of global interdependence and it had not promoted the economic growth necessary for the inclusion of the poor into a welfare society. The public opinion endorsed the will of the candidate of the Labor Party's (*Partido dos Trabalhadores*) to put an end to the experience of *normal State* – subservient, destructive and regressive as it is.

CONCLUSIONS

The movement diplomacy is submitted to an agenda determined in great measure by factors independent of the will of the government an individual country. This is true both to the multilateral and bilateral spheres, since the object of negotiations must be agreed collectively or, at least, bilaterally. Foreign policy gives content to diplomacy. It is associated directly with the objectives which a specific government, or a group of States, wants to realize with its external action. International relations are determined by the game of forces inherent in diplomacy, foreign policies and societies.

Foreign policy presupposes the existence of a national project, that has distinct names in different historical experiences, as the American *manifest destiny*, the French *grand dessein* of De Gaulle, the national project of development in Brazil since the 1930s.

The political regime is related to these three dimensions of the international life. However, its influence can be attenuated to the point

²⁰ Guimarães, Samuel Pinheiro; Ferreira, Oliveiros, Cervo, A. Brasil no Mundo. In: Morhy, Lauro. *Brasil em questão: a Universidade e a eleição presidencial*. Brasília: EdUnB, 2002, v. 1 p. 53-84.

of its submergence under the influences of the national project and the components of society, such as culture, demography, ideology and economy.

The multiple causes analysis of Brazil's international relations and the paradigmatic analysis of its foreign policy allow us to isolate variables that explain both the prevalence of the foreign policy's continuity over the change of regimes and the change of the foreign policy in a situation of continuity of the regime. In other words, there is not necessary causal linkage between political regime and foreign policy.

The nexus of influence is established when the new ruling elite in power conceives the national project in distinct manner, or, at least, intends to modify it or to elevate it to a new level. However, the regime's nature – democratic or authoritarian – can be considered irrelevant in these cases.

Brazil's re-democratization in 1945 and the military coup of 1964 had almost identical impacts on the direction of the foreign policy. In both cases, the intentions of the leaders coincided. In the economic sphere, both regimes advocated the deepening of the association with the forces of international capitalism and, in the political and ideological sphere, the alignment with liberal Western values, principles and standards of behavior proposed by the United States.

The two re-democratization processes of 1945 and 1985 did not coincide in their influence on foreign policy. In the first case, the foreign policy accepted the influence of the West, breaking with the paradigm of Vargas' first government. In the second case, re-democratization gave continuity to the nationalism present in the paradigm followed before, during the military regime.

The two phases of the Brazilian military regime, 1964-67 and 1967-85, did not coincide in their foreign policy formulations. The first phase, short and ephemeral, tended to follow the intentions of the re-democratization of 1945. The second recovered the national project engendered operationally by the political intelligence of the 1930s and defined conceptually by the democrats in the years 1960.

The Brazilian adhesion to the Cold War harvested enthusiasm of some democratic and of some military governments, as it harvested indifference and disdain of other military or democratic governments.

Finally, Brazilian adhesion to neo-liberalism in the Post Cold War era was not tied to the political regime. Fernando Henrique Cardoso (1994-2002) adopted a fundamentalist neo-liberalism. His successor, Luiz Inácio Lula da Silva, in a magnificent demonstration of the democratic game, was elected on the basis of the argument that the neo-liberal model was bankrupt.

Brazil's foreign policy was closed inside a cocoon, where a diplomatic body has resided since the 1960s, professionally qualified by the mechanisms of formation and functional ascension. This professional body has detained a political legacy – the development paradigm – and has made to prevail the continuity of the foreign policy over changes deriving from the alternation of governments and political regimes. The cocoon blew up suddenly during Cardoso's era, but for reasons detached from this alternation. In the case of Argentina, the cocoon of the Peronist *Tercera Posición* blew up early, making foreign policy much more sensitive to the institutional ruptures suffered by the country. The comparison of the two experiences reveals, therefore, that it is the very existence of a national project - capable to induce a paradigm – which conditions the causal link between political regime, foreign policy and international relations.

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